

Soft Skills and Personality Development

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Donald Preston



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Preface

Personality Development and Soft Skills aims to serve as a guide to equip readers with all the necessary skills required to be an effective communicator in the increasingly competitive professional space. With the help of numerous case studies, classroom-based exercises, and self-assessment tests, the book provides crucial insights on all the core areas associated with communication and personality development.

Soft skill, sometimes known as “people skills” are personal attributes that enhance an individual’s interaction with others, job performance and career prospects. Unlike hard skills or technical or occupational skills, which tend to be specific to a certain type or task or activity, soft skills are broadly applicable.

Soft skills is a sociological term relating to a person’s “EQ” (Emotional Intelligence Quotient), the cluster of personality traits, social graces, communication, language, personal habits, friendliness, and optimism that characterize relationships with other people. Soft skills complement hard skills (part of a person’s IQ), which are the occupational requirements of a job and many other activities.

A person’s soft skill EQ is an important part of their individual contribution to the success of an organization. Particularly those organizations dealing with customers face-to-face are generally more successful, if they train their staff to use these skills. Screening or training for personal habits or traits such as dependability and conscientiousness can yield significant return on investment for an organization. For this reason, soft skills are increasingly sought out by employers in addition to standard qualifications.

Emotional intelligence (EI) is the ability, capacity, skill; or, in the case of the trait EI model, a self-perceived ability to identify, assesses, and controls the emotions of oneself, of others, and of groups. Different models have been proposed for the definition of EI

and there is disagreement about how the term should be used. Despite these disagreements, which are often highly technical, the ability-EI and trait-EI models (but not the mixed models) enjoy support in the literature and have successful applications in various domains.

Training of soft skills in our country becomes all the more relevant where the education system does not always delve into coordinated personality development. There is a lot of contradiction and argument in the industry as to whether it is possible to enhance soft skills through different modes of training and workshops especially when we already know that the person has lived with those traits all their lives. The answer to this question seems harsh although real. A student who wants to do well in his career and does not really have a choice, a reorientation of lifestyle and personal priorities becomes essential.

Personality is all about the most essential psychological aspects of a person's life our thoughts, feelings, motives, skills and behaviours. Personality development is essential because of a host of reasons. The main reason being is that it is exceedingly important for one to have a sharpened image and personality to be able to have an efficient socially viable, multi-faceted and impressive personality.

Personality development plays a crucial role in enhancing one's personality. It helps an individual to develop a positive attitude and look at the brighter sides of life. Personality development plays an imperative role at workplace as it decides the way an individual interacts with his fellow workers and responds to various situations. How an individual behaves at the workplace depends on his/her personality. Personality development helps in polishing and grooming individuals and makes them better and efficient resources for the organization.

The aims of this book is a basic awareness about the significance of soft skills in professional and inter-personal communications and facilitate an all-round development of personality.

– *Author*

Development of Soft Skills

INTRODUCTION

The analytical report assignment described in this chapter develops and integrates the following skills: oral communicating, interviewing, writing, presenting, listening, interpersonal communicating, and working in teams. Through the professional development topics chosen for the report, students research specific professional skills graduates need when beginning their careers and gain knowledge of the soft skills through content.

Additionally, the project requires technical skills to incorporate software applications including word processing, spreadsheets for graphics, presentation design, and Internet usage for gathering secondary data and information about the companies where executives who will be interviewed work.

Specifically, through the analytical report, students will complete the following tasks:

- Identify and articulate the problem statement.
- Use the report-writing process to collect, analyse, interpret, and report data.
- Function effectively as a team member.
- Appraise the performance of a peer.
- Construct an effective questionnaire.
- Write a cover letter for a questionnaire.
- Schedule an on-site interview with a business executive.
- Interview a business executive.

- Follow up an interview.
- Share, compile, edit, and tabulate data.
- Use analytical thinking to discuss and present conclusions and recommendations.
- Prepare an effective oral presentation.
- Critically evaluate the oral presentations of peers.
- Present an effective team presentation to a business executive.
- Use computer technology (Power Point) to incorporate visuals in the oral presentation.
- Write a formal report.

IMPLEMENTING THE ASSIGNMENT

The analytical report assignment was created six years ago for Managerial Report Writing, a junior/senior level writing course required for all business majors enrolled at Eastern Kentucky University. The intent of the report was to integrate and develop the skills mentioned above and to introduce students to professional skills they will need in the workplace. To date, approximately 1,400 students have completed the assignment.

Careful planning and instruction are necessary to implement this comprehensive project so that students, professors, and business executives are aware of the participants' expectations. Perhaps one of the most important phases of the project is the actual assignment of the project. A memorandum authorizing the assignment is an effective way to include specific instructions for the report in a realistic format. The memo helps students understand the assignment and remain focused as the assignment progresses.

Assignment Topics

Students must select one of several approved topics addressing a professional skill needed by college graduates beginning their careers. These professional-skills topics should apply to all disciplines.

Suggestions for topics might include:

- Team Building.
- Ethics.
- Conflict Resolution.
- Time Management.
- Impact of Diversity.
- Leadership Skills.
- Conducting Meetings.
- Goal Setting.
- Managing Change.
- Global Communication.
- Checklists for implementation.

To integrate the multiple skills students need to display throughout a semester-long project, we provide many checklists:

- *Assignment Checklist:* The checklist provides written documentation of assignment details for both students and instructors. The assignment checklist also underlies the project-evaluation checklist.
- *Specific Tasks Checklists:* As part of the assignment, students compose a questionnaire, interview two executives each using their questionnaire as the research instrument, and follow up the interview with a thank-you letter.
- *Evaluation Checklists:* When the data have been collected and analysed, students write a long, formal report including an executive summary and give an oral presentation to visiting corporate executives. Checklists are used to evaluate each part of the final project. Visiting executives complete an openended form for each student and collectively for the team's oral presentation.

Project Outcomes

Throughout the past six-year period, the analytical report assignment has been an effective way to integrate and develop communication, professional development, and technical skills in the report-writing classroom. Specifically, faculty's assessment and students' self evaluations indicate that the project provides the following benefits:

- Knowledge is gained regarding professional skills and the expectations of the workplace that goes beyond the traditional coverage of these topics in a reportwriting classroom.
- Content, knowledge of professional skills is strengthened through listening to and evaluating other students' oral presentations.
- Team skills are developed.
- Time management skills and self-discipline are practiced through the length and complexity of the project.
- Students experience a sense of accomplishment through completing a challenging, multi-task project.
- Students gain confidence through their experiences of scheduling interviews and talking with executives.
- Students begin professional networking for their future careers.

Although the project is revised as new ideas emerge, the basic design has survived the test of time and has added a new dimension to students' professional development and career preparation. Executives who visit the classroom are favourably impressed with the content of the oral presentations through primary research and the delivery of the presentations using Powerpoint slides.

Through the interviews with executives, students have gained valuable information and resources for potential employment opportunities. While a considerable amount of time must be spent to develop, implement, and evaluate this project, the results merit the expenditures.

More recently, the last two decades have marked a period in which a series of reports from government, industry, and academia has called into question the state of engineering education and paved the way for including the professional skills as learning outcomes. In 1985, the National Research Council's Engineering Education and Practice in the United States: Foundation of our Techno-Economic Future called on universities to make faculty careers more attractive in order to fill vacancies. This was followed by the NSF-supported Belmont Conference. Smerdon credits this conference with leading to the creation of the National Science Foundation's (NSF) undergraduate engineering education coalitions initiative, probably the one NSF programme that has had the greatest impact on engineering education to date. Starting in the early 1990s, a series of reports emerged that recognized serious deficiencies in engineering education and called for major reforms. The ASEE's Engineering Education for A Changing World proclaimed that "engineering education programmes must not only teach the fundamentals of engineering theory, experimentation, and practice, but be relevant, attractive, and connected," preparing students for a broad range of careers and lifelong learning.

It stated that engineering education must provide the "technical knowledge and capabilities, flexibility, and an understanding of the societal context of engineering". The NSF's complementary report, Restructuring Engineering Education: A Focus on Change, stressed similar themes. Among its recommendations is that engineering education should become flexible enough to support diverse career aspirations and engineering courses that would include a broad range of concerns: environmental, political and social issues; international, and historical contexts; and legal and ethical ramifications.

The National Research Council's Board of Engineering Education also recommended a number of actions for curriculum reform "including early exposure to 'real' engineering and more extensive exposure to interdisciplinary, hands-on, industrial practice aspects, team work, systems thinking, and creative design". Three leading educators, Bordogna, Fromm, and Ernst, called for educators to "create an intellectual environment where students can develop an awareness of the impact of emerging technologies, an appreciation of engineering as an integral process of societal change, and an acceptance of responsibility for civilization's progress".

At the 1992 Engineering Foundation Conference on "Engineering Education: Curriculum Innovation and Integration," Pister proposed reformulating the goals of engineering education as developing technical competence, understanding the practice of engineering as a social enterprise, acquiring clinical experience in practice, preparing for management and leadership roles in society, and building a foundation for lifelong learning. To Pister, examining the trade-offs among these objectives and selecting the appropriate weighting in a particular curriculum would present one of the more difficult challenges for faculty. As noted, the Belmont Conference's call to revitalize engineering education led the NSF to create its Engineering Education Coalitions programme, a bold initiative aimed at "revolutionizing" education.

In all, eight coalitions involving more than sixty schools were funded. Collectively, they produced (and are still producing) a large quantity of curricula innovations, a substantial number of which are archived in the proceedings of both the annual ASEE national meetings and the annual Frontiers in Education Conferences. In addition, the NSF's Division of Undergraduate Education has funded a series of "Course, Curriculum, and Laboratory Improvement" (CCLI) projects, many of which are directed at improving engineering education. The NSF also funded a series of "Action Agenda" projects aimed at implementing and expanding many of the coalitions' innovations.

Concomitantly, a group of leading engineering deans and educators, realizing that the current ABET engineering criteria were stifling innovation, began the process with strong input from industry that in 1996 led to EC2000. Of note was the Accreditation Process Review Committee, chaired by John Prados (1991-92 ABET president), which condensed a large number of issues into a four-page report that stated "the current criteria are too long and by their very nature, encourage a rigid, bean-counting approach that stifles innovation, even though the Engineering Accreditation Committee sincerely tries to avoid this".

In commenting on the newly adopted criteria, Prados noted that the major drivers had included a shift from defence to commercial competition with a resultant impact on engineering employment, the exploding information technology growth, corporate downsizing, outsourcing of engineering services, and the globalization of both manufacturing and service delivery. Employers were now emphasizing that success as an engineer required more than simply strong technical capabilities; also needed were skills in communication and persuasion, the ability to lead and work effectively as a team member, and an understanding of the non-technical forces that affected engineering decisions. To do this would require a new engineering education paradigm built around active, project-based learning, horizontal and vertical integration of subject matter, the introduction of mathematical and scientific concepts in the context of application, close interaction with industry, broad use of information technology, and a faculty devoted to developing emerging professionals as mentors and coaches rather than all-knowing dispensers of information. Not surprisingly, these new criteria were consistent with the collective recommendations of the reports that preceded it.

Learning Soft Skills

Technology education teachers assist students in becoming technologically literate through teaching hands-on applications of technology and designing curriculum and learning activities that follow Standards for Technological Literacy: Content for the Study of Technology (STL).

These standards define the content for the study of technology education in Grades K-12; however, after graduating from high school and leaving the technology education classroom, some students continue to pursue further study in technology, engineering, and related fields at the post secondary level.

There is more to preparing a student to enter into a college-level programme in technology or engineering than is covered by national standards. Students must also possess "soft skills" in order to be successful at the post secondary level. Soft skills have been defined by various authors as personal characteristics such as: work ethics, positive attitude, social grace, facility with language, friendliness, integrity, and the willingness to learn.

Soft skills typically complement a student's hard or technical skills. Soft skills are an integral part of careers in technology and engineering. Therefore, there is a need to include these skills in career and technical education programme areas.

Bancino and Zevalkink noted that: The more soft skills training can be integrated directly into technical training programmes, the more successful the graduates will be in the increasingly demanding global economy. While some people consider soft skills the intangibles, these skills are quickly becoming a requirement that drives tangible and measurable increases in personal productivity and directly translates to sustainable competitive advantage in a global marketplace. Infusing these soft skills into education should begin at an early age. However, which soft skills do secondary technology education teachers need to infuse to help prepare their students for their college careers in technology or engineering? Are some soft skills considered to be more valuable at the post secondary level than others?

Coil and Zegwaard and Lorenz have indicated that a positive work ethic, a willingness to learn, a positive attitude, language proficiency, flexibility, self-discipline, and teamwork are soft skills that employers desire in college graduates. However, are these the same soft skills that university faculty desire for their incoming freshmen engineering and technology majors? The study described here was designed to help answer that question. Research Questions

The following research questions were addressed in this study:

- Which non-technical competencies or soft skills related to technology education do university engineering faculty indicate should be developed by high school students?
- Are these identified technology-education-related competencies/attributes already included in existing national K-12 technology education standards?

This study used a three-round modified Delphi technique as noted by Paige, Dugger, and Wolansky and Wicklein. Farmer indicated that the selected Delphi technique is "the most appropriate method for attaining consensus" from a large sample group related to student competencies.

The Delphi panel for this study consisted of engineering and engineering technology professors from South Carolina State University, Clemson University, and Purdue University, as well as Project Lead The Way (PLTW) affiliate professors. Faculty from Clemson University and Purdue University were selected because of the strong engineering and engineering technology programmes at those land-grant institutions. South Carolina State University was selected to insure that faculty from under represented

groups were included. Scott, Washer, and Wright indicated that the section of panelists should insure "individuals actively engaged in the field". Therefore PLTW affiliate professors were selected based on their demonstrated commitment to infuse engineering and technology into secondary education.

From this population of professors, a group of 16 agreed to participate as the panel in this Delphi study. The panel covered a range of engineering fields, including civil engineering (18.75%), electrical or computer engineering (18.75%), and mechanical or industrial engineering (25.0%), plus professors of engineering technology (37.5%).

Professors from research-intensive or land-grant universities comprised 43.75% ($n = 7$) of the panel, while professors from smaller state colleges, technical institutes, or community colleges comprised 56.25% ($n = 9$) of the panel. The demographic description of the panelists can be viewed. The same 16 panel members were used throughout the study's three rounds.

In the study's first round, the participants were instructed to identify the basic competencies that they foresee a secondary student needing in order to be successful in their college-level engineering or engineering technology programme. Round one findings were then grouped into like competencies and attributes.

Round two of the Delphi survey consisted of asking participants whether the competencies and attributes that emerged from round one should be included as a component of high school technology education. A four-point Likert-type scale was used for this rating, with 4 = strongly agree, 3 = agree, 2 = disagree, and 1 = strongly disagree. Using the Likert-type scale was suggested for the second round of this type of study by Farmer, Zargari, and McCall.

Round three of the Delphi study consisted of a validation of the second round findings that received a mean score of 3.00 or higher. Items that received a mean rating below $M = 3.00$ were not considered to be a requisite soft skill of high school technology education students. From the study's third round, 16 non-technical competencies and affective domain attributes emerged.

Eleven of these competencies were rated at a mean of 3.50 or higher. The highest rated of these soft skills was the students' ability to communicate effectively through writing. Next on the ratings were students possessing a high level of reading comprehension, demonstration of honesty, a willingness to learn, being open minded to new ideas, problem-solving skills, and the ability to follow directions. A student's ability to communicate effectively through speech and their demonstration of a strong work ethic were both rated at 3.67 ($SD = 0.50$).

It should be noted that all affective domain attributes or soft skills that participants indicated were desirable in engineering and technology students at the post secondary level are currently being included at the secondary level by either STL (ITEA, 2000/2002/2007) or the Secretary's Commission of Achieving Necessary Skills (SCANS): A SCANS report for America 2000. This SCANS report divided the foundation skills in to three skill sets: basic skills, thinking skills, and personal skills.

In addition, some attributes are being addressed by both SCANS and STL; for instance, that students should demonstrate problem-solving skills, and students should be able to perform basic research.

PROFESSIONAL SKILLS ARE PARTICULARLY IMPORTANT

After ten years, these same drivers—rapidly changing technology, particularly information technology, corporate downsizing, outsourcing, and globalization—that provided the impetus for the professional skills are, if anything, even more critical today. This is especially true as industry views an increasingly larger portion of the science and engineering labour pool more like a commodity than a profession.

Consequently, a growing number of less developed countries, with lower wage rates and an abundance of young, intellectual capital are competing for work that less than four years ago was performed by highly paid U.S. professionals, many of whom were then in short supply. While we do not know the extent of this shift in work from the United States (and other G-8 nations) to offshore locations, we do feel that the trend is, for the most part, permanent and irreversible.

Hence, a new issue confronting engineering educators today is how to best ensure that our graduates will continue to bring value to a marketplace in which their salary demands are three to five times greater than their international competitors. Oberst and Jones put the question succinctly: “It is no longer just whether engineers are being treated as commodities, but how engineers and other highly educated technical people shape and are shaped by the emerging realities of a truly global workforce.

Engineers as a professional group are thus the canaries in the minshaft of the new world economy.

Whether engineers manage the transition from local to international workplace environments will determine if the profession remains attractive”.

They cite four major mega trends that affect the practice of engineering and necessitate the acquisition of more than technical skills:

- Changes forced by the fragile world economy;
- Student and professional mobility;
- Use of communications and instructional technology; and
- Increasingly loud voice of the social imperative.

To them, the so-called “soft skills” are much more than public speaking, management skills, and the ability to work well in teams. What is also needed is an understanding of how the growing social consciousness around the world is making it imperative that engineering students understand the implications of their work. We propose that the mastery of these professional skills combined with an ability to innovate will add sufficient value to U.S. engineering graduates so that price does not become the primary determinant of who is hired in the global marketplace. From

continuing skill development through lifelong learning that prevents technical obsolescence to the ability to do engineering within its global (and/or societal) context, the professional skills are critical.

Hence, globalization, which now includes the globalization of the engineering profession, is forcing us to reconsider the role of future engineering graduates and the education required to meet that role. In 1994, Morrow (then National Academy Engineering president) in a farsighted consideration of the issues facing undergraduate engineering education noted that it is not a given that the U.S. engineering education system will always be globally pre-eminent. There is clear evidence that many U.S. corporations now seek their engineering talent wherever they can find it throughout the world. Engineering design quality, low-cost engineering services, and responsive engineering production capabilities are determinants of where engineering jobs will be. U.S. construction companies use civil engineers in Korea; automobile companies use design talents in Europe; software companies use software engineers in India.

A decade later, it is now evident that countries like China and India, with large, well-educated work forces, have learned how to move large segments of their populations into the advanced industrial economy in a manner similar to Japan, Korea, and Taiwan before them.

Further, like Korea and Taiwan, they are continuing to build universities to produce larger numbers of engineering and science talent and hence attract additional foreign direct investment, acquire advanced technology, and pursue export-led growth strategies. Further, another trend from the early '90s will continue to impact engineering education—an increasing number of engineering graduates may never practice engineering; rather, they choose to use their engineering education to enter a wide range of fields from business, medicine, law, and management among others.

Hence, as some have predicted, an undergraduate engineering education may become the liberal arts education of the twenty-first century. Certainly, the increasing number of engineering schools introducing general or interdisciplinary degrees recognize this. Consistent with this trend, Purdue recently created the country's first Department of Engineering Education, followed a few months later by Virginia Tech's creation of the second department. Purdue's new department combines its existing freshman engineering and interdisciplinary engineering programmes.

In the future, it plans to offer graduate degrees for students studying the science of learning and other topics in engineering education. There also are plans to add an engineering teaching certification programme for high school teachers and to pursue accredited undergraduate degrees in engineering education and interdisciplinary engineering. Virginia Tech has similar plans for its programme. Further, six states—Massachusetts, Arkansas, New Hampshire, Florida, Texas, and Maryland—have mandated engineering course work in high schools, a trend that is likely to spread to other states in the coming years.

Kinds of Soft Skills

- The driving force behind every company is its employees. It is for this reason that almost every company is taking steps towards helping their staff to perform better. They realise that better performance is not just a matter of timely upgraded technical and domain-related knowledge, but also the other aspects that are overlooked, such as soft skills. According to Human Resource heads of various leading enterprises, regular training in soft skills, helps the company as a whole, as the result of such training is to motivate the staff members.
- In fact, soft skills training is at the very base of self management. Every employee has to be a qualified self-manager. There is no MBA college or such degree or diploma providing training institute that dwells into churning out self-managers. One has to learn self management through their years working-professionally for a company, or running their own venture.
- Thus, in a nut shell, the soft skills, are the essential skills required to make an individual and adept self-manager. Someone who can manage the self, and other selves in order to be able to perform above expectations, or at least at par; but definitely not below.
- The following are the varied soft skill training modules that are offered, in general by trainers.
- Courtesy
- Honesty and reliability; Personal integrity.
- Verbal Communication Skills.
- Flexibility–Adaptability.
- Team skills-Cooperation; Ability to follow regulations; Willingness to be accountable; Ability to relate to coworkers in a close environment.
- Non-verbal communication.
- Leadership skills-Self-directed, ability to direct and guide others, Self-supervising; Ability to relate to coworkers in a close environment;
- Positive attitude; Positive work ethic.
- Written Communication Skills-Basic spelling and grammar; Reading and comprehension.
- Personal hygiene and energy.
- Interpersonal skills-Communication skills with public, fellow employees, supervisors, and customers
- Motivation-Willingness to learn; Caring about seeing the company succeed;
- Understanding what the world is all about; Commitment to continued training and learning;
- Critical thinking skills.
- Grooming-good personal appearance.

Miscommunication is Normal

Something we are fond of quoting here. It's obvious as soon as you think about it that all communication is subject to a certain amount of misunderstanding. What we do here is help people reduce the chances of misunderstanding to a minimum.

Communication Skills Training (Basic and Advanced) can be tailored as an in-house management programme to address specific issues within your company.

Communication Skills Training Objectives

- Raising Awareness.
- Understanding Communication Dynamics.
- Working with Body Language.
- Dealing with Assumptions.
- Working with Differing Points of View.
- Understanding Patterns, Habits and Beliefs.
- Developing Listening and Responding Skills.
- Developing Individual Strengths and Qualities.
- Understanding Active vs Passive Choosing.
- Using Positive Reinforcement.
- Conflict Management.
- Being More In Charge.
- Gaining Confidence.

Communication Skills

All Businesses talk about needing better communication skills, but often don't know exactly what that means or they don't know how to go about making it happen. And without doubt, unless you are a company of one, at some point or another, communication will go awry through no one's fault or intention-it's just the way it happens. You might have pockets of 'them and us': marketing vs finance, IT vs admin, HR vs operations, and consultants' vs full time staff. You might have cross-functional or virtual teams whose ability to communicate efficiently is vital. If your business has groups of people who simply have to communicate more effectively then giving them communication training may be just what you need.

Good Communication Takes Real Skill

Communication skills have to be developed, honed and added to on an on-going basis. They are at the heart of interpersonal skills and the greater your awareness of how it all works, the more effective your communication will be. Most people in business think they communicate pretty well, and in our experience that's generally true. However, even the best communicators can have their communication skills undermined when

they get wrong-footed, face potential humiliation, feel misunderstood or get really surprised by someone else's behaviour. That's when it all seems to fall apart and people regress to all kinds of inappropriate and unhelpful behaviour.

Effective Communication Skills Training

We deal with communication skills training by unpicking what happens-if you know how the dynamics work, you can be in charge of them. Then you can choose from a whole range of tools and techniques that fit your personal style. We're big on personal style because when it comes to communication under pressure you can't be anyone other than yourself.

Being a good communicator is often about feeling confident in those situations where you don't always feel comfortable. In other words, you don't have to learn a whole bunch of radically new things. Being an effective communicator means that other people take you seriously, listen to what you have to say and engage in dialogue.

Work on *Communication Skills Training* includes influencing, negotiation, making an impact, dealing with conflict and difficult people-really, anything that has to do with people dealing with other people with far more confidence, assurance and authenticity.

Public Communication Skills Course

This one-day Public Communication Skills Course provides participants with the opportunity to understand how communication works and how to communicate with confidence and flair. Communication Skills courses are run by: You'll look at what works about the way you communicate, what gets in the way of you being a more effective communicator and then a raft of tools and techniques to help you be more adept and self-assured. This is a practical day filled with exercises, games and discussion which will give you skills to handle difficult and tricky situations and give you more choice in the way you communicate with others.

PROCESS AND AWARENESS SKILLS

It is against this setting that we consider how to best teach and assess these professional skills. We believe that mastering these skills will be a major determinant of the future competitiveness of U.S. engineering graduates, enabling them to become highly innovative global "problem solvers," which, in fact, we propose is what much of engineering is all about.

To best examine these skills we have divided them into two categories: process skills-communication, teamwork, and the ability to recognize and resolve ethical dilemmas (a more advanced formulation of criteria) and awareness skills-understanding the impact of global and social factors, knowledge of contemporary issues, and the ability to do lifelong learning.

We designate the first set as process skills because students learn a robust process to address each one. In contrast, the awareness skills are so designated because students learn how to be aware of the importance of each one and to include them in their problem-solving activities. In reviewing these skills, we cite examples of how some institutions are able to successfully teach them.

Process Skills

- *Communication:* We note that communication is the one skill that can certainly be taught and assessed. Indeed, most universities have departments of communications. The proceedings of both the Frontiers in Education conferences and the annual conferences of the American Society of Engineering Education are replete with examples of ways to integrate communication into the fabric of undergraduate engineering education. We are particularly impressed with those institutions now combining communication with global and social and ethical issues as part of design projects. Two noteworthy examples are Union College and the University of Utah.

At Union College, Spinelli has developed a course that examines the history of electrical engineering by combining the study of technological development within American and European civilizations with a concentration on writing, oral communication, and ethics. Certainly, placing technological developments within a social and human context is one way of approaching ABET's engineering criteria for ethics, communications, and broad education, in a course with significant technical content.

In a similar spirit, faculty at the University of Utah are using funding from the Hewlett Foundation to bring together communication, leadership (team building), and ethics into the College of Engineering's eight programmes over the entire four-year curriculum. They are building upon a successful model communication programme in mechanical engineering, where teaching assistants from the humanities have been brought into the engineering classes so that communication skills can be taught as "situational" learning. A similar ethics component is to be added.

- *Functioning on multidisciplinary teams:* More and more engineering courses are being designed to give students the opportunity to experience teamwork firsthand. These range from short, decision-making exercises to project management or business simulations lasting the length of the course.

This team-based course design trend reflects industry practice, where teamwork has become the prevalent mode. Companies use teams as an integral part of their product development, process improvement, and manufacturing activities. Such management techniques as concurrent engineering, total quality management, and business process reengineering are founded upon the concept of people working effectively in teams. Engineering educators, recognizing these trends, are designing more and more courses around teams. Such programmes as Columbia's Gateway design course, MIT's

undergraduate design course and its “New Products Programme”, and Rowan University’s Engineering Clinics Programme make extensive use of teams composed of students, faculty, and outside sponsors.

These project-driven classes provide students with the opportunity to experience team design work from idea conception to completion. When properly structured, such courses can teach students the skills necessary to work effectively in teams. However, too often educators incorporate student teams into their courses with little thought to their best use. Minimal guidance is provided to students on group development, soliciting member input, consensus building, resolving conflict, and team leadership. Evaluation oftentimes is subjective and little more than a piecemeal integration of individual and group-level performance. Consequently, instructors often fail to capitalize on much of the learning that can occur through group dynamics and behaviour.

However, there are several outstanding examples where engineering educators have integrated teamwork and team skill-building activities into the classroom. An increasing number of engineering educators now realise that students cannot be thrown into team projects without support.

One of the primary methods created to help integrate team learning into the engineering classroom is the development of formal curricular modules that can be used by various faculty planning to have students work on team projects. Of note is the Clark School of Engineering, University of Maryland modular team training programme-Building Engineering Student Team Effectiveness and Management Systems (BESTEAMS).

Supported by the National Science Foundation, the goal of this programme is to provide a team curriculum that can be easily adopted by engineering faculty from various schools and at different levels of the undergraduate curriculum. This well-structured programme allows faculty to select from various modules, depending on the nature of the course and the knowledge level of the students, its three modules-introductory, intermediate, and advanced-cut across three major team skill domains-personal, interpersonal, and project management.

The engineering schools at both the University of Tennessee and the University of San Diego have adopted this modular approach to provide engineering faculty with the tools necessary to develop students’ team skills. The underlying foundation of these training modules is based on learning style theory, enabling student problem solvers to apply newly acquired technical skills more effectively by improving interpersonal interactions.

All levels of undergraduates have used these modules, which can be customised based on developmental level and technical knowledge of the student. The modular nature of all three programmes makes them easily transportable in full or in parts, thus allowing faculty to customise based on class structure, project design, and course material. Another key component for teaching students team skills is the type of team project students will be exposed to in the classroom.

Recent literature is replete with examples from structured, simulated team experiences to authentic design projects, where students work on real problems for actual clients. As discussed later in this paper, there is now an emerging interest in using projects with global and/or humanitarian dimensions. Several experiential activities can help students better understand the behaviours and skills needed to be an effective team member.

At one end of the spectrum, there are literally hundreds of “off-the-shelf” group exercises designed to give participants hands-on experience. On the other end, there are many elaborate game simulations designed to provide realistic conditions that allow students to experience teamwork. The choice of team task depends on the educational objectives. For example, if the objective is to have students experience a specific aspect of teaming such as brainstorming, specific group exercises in which students practice common methods of group brainstorming to generate new ideas can be used. However, if the objective is for students to experience a broad range of team processes and behaviours, then more complex activities are suitable. Two guiding principles should be followed in choosing activities: fidelity and complexity.

Fidelity is defined as the similarity of the training situation to the students’ present and future working conditions. The higher the fidelity, the more superior the transfer of learning to the workplace. The fidelity of a particular activity can be increased by matching the conditions of the work environment as closely as possible.

This may be difficult, especially when it comes to physical conditions, but many of the environmental conditions can be simulated. An example is “temporal environment,” which involves such factors as time limits and deadlines the team may experience. Research has shown that time has a definite effect on team performance. Such conditions as actual time to complete the task or make decisions should be matched to real conditions where possible.

“Social context” is another environmental condition that can be manipulated. Few teams work in a vacuum; instead, they typically coexist with other teams that are working within a similar context. The more that inter-group activities can be designed into the team activity, the more a team can engage in real-world team behaviours such as inter-group communication, coordination, and conflict.

Complexity is defined by two subfactors: Task interdependence and cognitive effort. The more complex the activity, the more team skills are required by the participant. Activities also can range from high to low degrees of complexity. In general, the higher the fidelity and complexity of the activity, the better the transfer of team skills to the workplace.

For example, programmes like Purdue’s EPICS provides highly realistic teaming activities, with all the complexities experienced by a product design team. Some computer-generated simulations also can be both highly realistic and very complex. An example is the Centre for Creative Leadership’s COLAB simulation that places technology management students in cross-functional teams with a focus on making decisions on new polymer processes to be commercialized.

Each competing team's objective is to get the new process to the market in a timely manner. Students make decisions on the allocation of research and development resources, manufacturing processes, and marketing activities. There are both advantages and disadvantages to each type of activity. Experiential activities categorized as high fidelity/high complexity most resemble real workplace" conditions, but typically are more difficult for the instructor to manage, resource intensive, and time consuming for the student.

Activities that are lower in fidelity are typically more structured and easier to administer, but may be perceived as less relevant by the student, resulting in the experience having less of a learning impact. Finally, team activities that are lower in complexity may not challenge the team nor provide the environment necessary for intense interaction among team members.

- *Understanding professional and ethical responsibilities:* As part of their educational process, students should be sensitized to the potential ethical dilemmas they may confront in their professional life.

If an engineer is able to recognize a developing ethical dilemma, he or she should be better able to first clearly frame it and then begin the process of resolution. Stephan, in questioning whether or not engineering ethics can be taught, quotes philosopher Michael Davis in giving four good things that can result if successful: students can become more aware of the ethical implications of their work, they can learn ethical standards, they can become better judges of ethical conduct, and they can become more willing to put their ethical knowledge into action.

To Stephan, the true test of engineering ethics education is how graduates behave in the workplace during their careers, certainly a difficult outcome to measure a priori. Much attention has focused on how engineers perceive, articulate, and resolve ethical dilemmas that arise when complex, advanced technologies are developed, such as the explosion of the Challenger, the Three Mile Island Nuclear Power Plant accident, Chernobyl, the DC-10 cargo door, or the Ford Pinto. In fact, an entire field, disaster ethics, has emerged from studying such events.

While we believe that such lessons remain relevant to practicing engineers, of more importance may be how to recognize and then resolve those dilemmas that may arise in the routine practice of engineering. Engineers frequently work under cost and schedule pressures, situations that can lead to increased risk. At what point is that increased risk no longer acceptable? In addition, the multiple loyalties of the practicing engineer also contribute to ethical dilemmas.

Certainly, engineers have a loyalty to their employer, but engineering practice typically also involves a client or contractor, creating a second level of loyalty. Then there is the public, where the "safety of the public" as declared by Cicero has become accepted as the responsibility of the engineer. Every engineering code of ethics places the safety of the public in a prominent position. Finally, the engineer has a loyalty to the profession and to him or herself.

The need to incorporate some form of ethics instruction into the engineering curriculum is no longer debated, largely because of the new ABET engineering criteria. A number of educators have noted the important relationship between ethics and engineering design and the value of integrating the two within the curriculum.

However, this is only a recent happening. Over the past fifty years, engineering educators have focused on providing students with tools and technical skills, but providing the education and skills for social decision making was not a priority. Consequently, until recently, little had been done to make students aware of the social dimensions of engineering. Stephan found that only 27 per cent of ABET-accredited institutions listed an ethics-related course requirement, even though an increasing number of philosophers, engineers, and ethicists focus their research and teaching on engineering ethics. The interest of practitioners and professional engineering societies in engineering ethics has also increased. The Institute of Electrical and Electronics Engineers (IEEE) has been especially active. However, if the vision for understanding ethical and professional responsibilities as articulated in ABET is to become reality, educators must now answer a number of questions: What is the appropriate content?

What teaching methods and curriculum models are preferable? Which works best—required course, ethics across-the-curriculum, integration of ethics and science, technology and society, or integration of the liberal arts into the engineering curriculum? Which outcome assessment methods are most suitable? Pinkus has provided an overview of these issues with emphasis on biomedical engineering.

Pfatteicher proposes that a current engineering ethics educational ‘dilemma’ is how to provide meaningful ethics instruction to all students without overburdening faculty, increasing graduation requirements, or removing essential technical material from the curriculum. She notes that the ABET engineering criteria call for ensuring understanding rather than demonstrating that graduates are ethical. Hence, students should be evaluated on knowledge and skills, not values and beliefs.

Pfatteicher proposes providing students with an understanding of the nature of engineering ethics, the value of engineering ethics as opposed to the values of an ethical engineer, and the resolution of ethical dilemmas. At the University of Virginia, Richards and Gorman have effectively used case studies to teach not only design, but ethics.

They have developed (researched and written) a set of case studies for teaching engineering ethics, engineering design, and environmental issues. These cases have been used in a course on invention and design and in other courses offered by the Division of Science, Technology, and Society, which Gorman chaired. They emphasize that cases promote active learning, team-based activities, and the ability to deal with open-ended problems. With cases, students can be exposed to realistic situations involving unstructured problems with multiple possible answers, key decision points, and trade-offs. The case method, which also fosters the development of higher-level cognitive skills, enables students to address problems that require analysis, judgement, decisions, perspective taking, role playing, independent thought, and critical thinking.

Awareness Skills

Broad education to understand the impact of engineering solutions in a global and societal context and knowledge of contemporary issues: A growing number of engineering programmes recognize that these two areas can be combined with issues related to globalization, sustainability, and development, especially in lesser developed countries, and are designing highly innovative educational programmes to meet this need. By introducing design projects into the mix, often as part of a service learning experience, they are finding effective ways to teach the gamut of professional skills while reinforcing the “harder” technical skills.

We highlight some of these exemplary programmes in this section, with a particular emphasis on those with a global orientation. While traditionally few engineering students study abroad or coop/intern abroad-the most recent data indicate that only 4,670 students (2.9 per cent) participated in a study abroad programme in as noted here, this should change as innovative programmes are designed to provide engineering students with needed global and social experiences.

Lucena, one of the first academics to study globalization from an engineering perspective, notes that corporations, governments, and the engineers they hire face increasing challenges, such as mobility of capital and labour, organizational restructuring across national boundaries, and the development and implementation of more efficient production and manufacturing practices, among others.

Globalization depends on the availability of flexible workers to produce “just-in-time” products according to consumer demands and on the rapid dispersal of those products around the globe. This flexibility, demanded by globalization, presents special difficulties for engineering education and practice. Most engineers have no choice but to learn to cope with the practices changes that globalization is creating.

Lucena (who holds a B.S. and M.S. in engineering and a Ph.D. in anthropology) suggests that a more appropriate education to prepare engineers to deal with the challenges brought by globalization might be a liberal-arts-based education that teaches them first to recognize and deal with the political dimensions of their work and second to deal with the ambiguity that results from working, sharing, and even valuing perspectives other than their own.

Swearengen et al., concerned with outsourcing capturing an increasing percentage of engineering work, suggest that engineers will become “free agents” in a professional services market. To thrive, future engineers will have to be able to work productively with radically different cultures, educational backgrounds, technical standards, quality standards, professional registration requirements, and time zones. The manufacturing engineer must not only master the elements of global design, manufacture, marketing, and distribution, but also prepare to participate as a contractor in a “twenty-four-hour virtual enterprise”.

Engineers must understand that in a global context, engineering solutions, whether consumer products or unintended consequences such as resource exhaustion and

environmental pollution, increasingly cross or transcend international boundaries. Global sustainability, for example, may eventually outweigh technical and other aspects of manufacturing.

Engineering faculty are beginning to recognize that students who have participated in study abroad programmes are better problem solvers, have strong communication and cross-cultural communication skills, and are able to work well in groups of diverse populations and understand diverse perspectives. Living overseas creates graduates who are more adaptable to new environments and have a greater understanding of contemporary issues as well as engineering solutions in a global and social context. However, further research is required to fully support these findings.

Perhaps the prototype model for integrating international experience into an engineering education is the University of Rhode Island's (URI) International Engineering Programme. Founded in 1987 by John Grandin, professor of German, and Herman Viets, then dean of engineering, this innovative programme combines an undergraduate engineering degree with a degree in languages (initially German, but now expanded to French and Spanish).

In addition, students do an internship in a country where they must use their language skills, and many also do at least one term of study in that country. This five-year programme, which has been replicated by both the University of Connecticut and Rice University, has served to increase both the quality and quantity of URI engineering students; currently 20 per cent of incoming students participate.

Worcester Polytechnic Institute (WPI) is one of the leaders in enabling its students to study engineering within a global and social context. WPI's programme is centered on the Major Qualifying Project—the equivalent of a nine-credit capstone design experience—and provides a professional-level application of the students' knowledge in their major fields. It typically involves the design, synthesis, and realization of a solution to a real-world technical problem. WPI has established project centers, including ones in Ireland, Denmark, Hong Kong, Australia, Namibia, and Costa Rica. By 2002, 35 per cent of the electrical and computer engineering students were completing their senior design project in a project centre (10 weeks).

In total, more than half of the WPI students complete at least one degree requirement internationally. To make the programmes more affordable, WPI provides free passports and financial aid incentives. The University of Michigan has created a global concentration in engineering with an initial focus on China, the United Kingdom, and Mexico.

The flexible framework enables all disciplines to participate. It requires international experience, global engineering course content, and a required cross-cultural course for engineers on global understanding. A motivation to establish the programme was to better prepare engineers to deal with the global supply chain by training engineers who possess not only the appropriate technical skills but also the cross-cultural skills based on knowledge of "other" cultures and their own cultural biases.

Michigan faculty have also created an Engineering Global Leadership Honours Programme, where students select a regional focus and concentrate their humanities/social science electives in that area. Students also must complete two years of advanced language study. Teams of business and engineering students consult for a major corporation. Muzumdar and Bean feel that even though almost all business is conducted in English and students may not even work in a location where their second language is spoken, having a second language makes the student more likely to work well in any other culture.

Melsa, Holger, and Zachary have described Iowa State's Global Academic Industrial Network (GAIN), which provides U.S. students with international experiences in Germany to better prepare them for future job requirements. They note that the critical element in all international exchange programmes is the faculty; institutions must find ways to engage their faculty in international experiences, including extended stays at a foreign institution.

Programmes built around a single faculty member and his or her international connections are fragile and typically fail when that individual loses interest or moves. Further, funding cannot become the limiting factor with such programmes. Institutional support at the highest levels is essential. A promising, comprehensive programme is Purdue's Global Engineering Alliance for Research and Education (GEARE). This unique eighteen-month programme, developed in partnership with Karlsruhe (Germany) and Shanghai Jiao Tong (China) Universities, integrates language education, cultural orientation, three-month domestic and three-month international internships at the same partner firm, study abroad, and a two semester face-to-face multinational design team project, with one semester abroad and one at home. The bilateral programme involves equal numbers of students from each university participating in the paired exchanges.

Another model programme for providing international experience is Old Dominion University's cluster concept. Here, students take a three-course cluster with an international perspective, including two required courses- "Global Engineering and Project Management" and "Communications Across Cultures"-and select one other from among "World Resources," "International Business Operations," or "Sustainable Development".

The cluster concept attempts to provide students with a basic understanding of the integrative nature of successful engineering practices that involve not only technical but international, cultural, communication, and business factors. It also attempts to provide students with the knowledge to work productively in an environment that encompasses different cultures, business practices, resources, communication, and engineering practices.

The University of Kentucky has created an innovative combined B.S. Engineering-M.B.A. programme with a strong international component directed at producing manufacturing engineers and engineering managers. The engineering undergraduate degree, coupled with the M.B.A., allows students to explore immediate interests while building a solid, long-term career foundation.

This integration of business and economics courses with a traditional engineering programme over a five-year period results in students developing a broader, more holistic view of management principles and their application to an engineering environment. The students' senior year marks the beginning of the graduate M.B.A. courses and interaction with non-engineering M.B.A. students. During the summer prior to the fifth year, students participate in a study abroad programme designed expressly for the programme, thereby enhancing and broadening their cross-cultural experiences. For the summer of 2004, the Kentucky students participated in a second innovative initiative—the University of Pittsburgh's Manufacturing and the Global Supply Chain in the Pacific Rim as part of the Semester at Sea Programme.

That programme, a joint effort between the University of Pittsburgh's School of Engineering and the International Business Centre, offered three manufacturing courses with a global perspective as students visited China, Hong Kong, Japan, Korea, Russia, Taiwan, and Vietnam. Visits to in-country manufacturing sites complemented the class activities. Amadei at Colorado has become a leader among the engineering educators now looking at sustainability issues in the less developed world. He suggests that most past engineering achievements have been developed with little consideration of their social, economic, and environmental impact on natural systems. In many instances, engineering projects have contributed to the degradation of the Earth's natural systems. Amadei is concerned with the education of engineers interested in addressing the problems that are most specific to developing communities—water provision and purification, sanitation, power production, shelter, site planning, infrastructure, food production and distribution, and communication.

These problems are not usually addressed in U.S. engineering curricula, despite the fact that 20 per cent of the world's population lacks clean water, 40 per cent lacks adequate sanitation, 20 per cent lacks adequate housing, and 30 per cent live in conflict zones, transition, or situations of permanent instability.

As a result Amadei is helping to create a programme in Engineering for Developing Communities that will view the developing world as the classroom of the twenty-first century. This interdisciplinary effort will bring together engineering and non-engineering disciplines, thus supporting the learning of multiple professional skills. It will address a wide range of issues—water provision and purification, sanitation, health, power production, shelter, site planning, infrastructure, food production and distribution, communication, and jobs and capital for various developing communities. The first phase involves an undergraduate certificate programme that should be in place by the time this chapter is published.

As part of this initiative, Amadei and his colleagues have formed Engineers without Borders-USA (EWB) at Colorado, which is dedicated to helping disadvantaged communities improve their quality of life by implementing environmentally and economically sustainable engineering projects while developing internationally responsible engineering students.

Student projects that involve the design and construction of water, sanitation, and energy systems are ongoing in Belize, Mali, Mauritania, Nicaragua, Peru, Haiti, and Thailand. Rowan University faculty are incorporating EWB projects into their junior and senior clinics as a means of introducing open-ended problem solving in conjunction with developing synthesis, analysis, teamwork, communication, business, and entrepreneurial skills.

A somewhat similar programme is being developed at Colorado School of Mines (CSM), with a focus on “humanitarian engineering.” With support from the William and Flora Hewlett Foundation, the goal is to nurture a cadre of engineers that is sensitive to social contexts and committed and qualified to serve humanity by contributing to the solution of complex problems at regional, national, and international levels and locations around the world.

This goal is to be achieved through the development of a humanitarian component for the CSM engineering curriculum that will teach engineering students how to bring technical knowledge and skill, as well as cultural sensitivity, to bear on the real-world problems of the less materially advantaged. A complement of Engineers without Borders-U.S.A. is Engineers for a Sustainable World (ESW) (previously known as Engineers without Frontiers-USA).

ESW originated in the College of Engineering at Cornell University in 2001 as a result of the efforts of Dr. Krishna S. Athreya, director of Minority and Women’s Programmes in Engineering, and Regina R. L. Clewlow, a Cornell University graduate. ESW is based on the belief that engineers and community members can work together to identify and solve technology-based problems, employing solutions that can be locally sustained, leading to an improved quality of life. ESW believes that locally sustainable engineering solutions are fundamental to the needs of communities in which issues such as lack of clean water, poor housing, and limited energy are barriers to adequate living conditions.

By establishing a national network in the United States for engineers to be of service to developing communities, ESW contributes to a better world and enriches the lives of engineering professionals who seek to participate in socially responsible endeavors. ESW has almost twenty chapters, with another thirty in the formation stage. Iowa State University and the Universities of Dayton and Seattle have joined together to form Engineers in Technical, Humanitarian Opportunities of Service Learning (ETHOS).

Its purpose is to help students gain an awareness of the social and cultural fabric of the poorest of the world and perform design research focused on improving the ability of these individuals to meet their basic needs. Engineering activities are being implemented in a number of formats, ranging from classroom activities to multi-semester research studies. Both on-campus curricular and immersion service experiences are included in its mission. Initial projects have focused on two non-governmental organizations’ efforts to develop more efficient and more durable wood-burning stoves used for cooking by the world’s poor.

Another example of service learning incorporated as part of undergraduate engineering education is the building of low-cost, energy-efficient houses in South Africa by students from Tuskegee University and the University of Fort Hare (South Africa). The idea behind this project is to develop a way for some of the economic benefit to stay in the local community. A number of faith-based institutions, notably Calvin, Drodt, Grove City, and Messiah Colleges, have combined engineering, service learning, and globally based humanitarian projects, thus meeting both social and student needs. However, Riley and Miller (Smith College) have raised concerns about involvement with faith-based projects, feeling that certain projects may be inappropriate if the development aid is tied to religious conversion and destroying indigenous cultures without regard for the community's traditions.

Smith College has developed an interdisciplinary project-based course that seeks to initiate critical study of the technological, cultural, and policy aspects of international development. This course requires students from different majors to share sophisticated disciplinary knowledge. Students address the promises and limitations of technology for development; the meanings of capitalism, colonialism, and globalization; and the implications of engaging in development work from places of privilege.

In developing a service component for the course, they seek to avoid sending students for only a few weeks to a country with which they have had no prior cultural experience—a situation that would make it difficult for students to acquire an adequate knowledge or sense of the community in which they are working.

Since the mid-1990s, an increasing number of programmes have incorporated international design team experiences, involving students from a U.S. and one or more partner international institutions. The original concept involved using the Internet and e-mail for communication, with the team coming together at the end of the project for a final meeting and presentation. Now, with the introduction of virtual design and virtual teaming concepts, the potential exists to do these types of programmes without having students leave home. The need to train engineers to be well prepared to collaborate with their colleagues around the world and to work effectively in geographically distributed, multicultural teams was a motivation for Union College's creation of an International Virtual Design Studio (IVDS) in 1996. The IVDS initially brought together the mechanical engineering departments at Union College and Mideast Technical University (METU) in Ankara, Turkey, in response to the need to develop skills among students to better function in the emerging global environment in today's workplace.

In 1997, Queen's University (Kingston, Ontario) joined the partnership. Such projects provide international culture interaction, team building, communication, creative thinking, and project management experience. Each IVDS team has four to six members, two or three from each institution—METU and either Queens or Union. At Union, students select their project in spring term of the junior year.

Students must analyse, design, and build an autonomous robot for a given task and application. Since 1999, METU students have visited in November to compile and

finish design reports. Final reports are presented before they leave. In January, after a prototype has been built, they go to Turkey for a competition at METU.

Sheppard et al. propose that virtual reality (VR) has the potential to have a major impact on engineering education by permitting students to explore environments that would be otherwise inaccessible. Specifically, VR will better facilitate teaming on an international and therefore multicultural level. Hence, faculty now must address educational collaboration in the virtual environment, testing and refining it at the institutional level, between institutions and across national boundaries.

A pilot implementation at Stevens Institute of Technology involves undergraduate student teams from three universities in three countries: Stevens is providing overall design and project coordination, the University of the Philippines (Quezon City, Philippines) is the manufacturing lead, and the National Institute of Technology (Warangal, India) is the simulation lead.

The project, “MEMS across the Globe” forms part of a larger pilot in virtual student design undertaken by a consortium of schools in collaboration with PTC Inc., a producer of industry standard design and collaboration tools. At Northern Arizona, language and engineering faculty are combining to utilize virtual reality to develop a pilot “Global Engineering College.” When successfully implemented, it will inject international perspectives throughout the curriculum by leveraging technological developments to create a “virtual” engineering college.

A recognition of the need for and the ability to engage in lifelong learning: Although the new ABET engineering criteria have brought lifelong learning to the forefront of engineering education, as Litzinger and his colleagues have pointed out, lifelong learning in engineering has been recognized as critical for decades. They note that the Final Report of the Goals Committee on Engineering Education contained a discussion of the importance of lifelong learning, and the theme of the 1978 ASEE Annual Meeting was “Career Management-Lifelong Learning.” A number of earlier studies that investigated the types of activities involved in lifelong learning, their frequency of use, the support systems required, the barriers, and impact of lifelong learning for individual engineers are summarized in a 1985 report by a National Research Council panel. Litzinger and his colleagues, who are at the frontier of studying lifelong learning relative to engineering education, note that a major issue is how to assess the extent to which students are prepared to engage in it and also their willingness to do so. With funding from the National Science Foundation, they have been investigating how best to assess lifelong learning.

Various engineering education researchers have defined elements of lifelong learning, including Henry and Rogers, whose RIRI model consists of four components: receiving, enquiring, reflecting, and integrating. Miller, Olds, and Pavelich purport that their Cogito system for measuring intellectual development (based on assessing reflective judgement) will, when fully validated, also assess lifelong learning. When we specified the attributes of lifelong learning as part of our NSF-funded Action Agenda study, we proposed that these include the ability to:

- Demonstrate reading, writing, listening, and speaking skills;
- Demonstrate an awareness of what needs to be learned;
- Follow a learning plan;
- Identify, retrieve, and organize information;
- Understand and remember new information;
- Demonstrate critical thinking skills; and
- Reflect on one's own understanding.

We propose that as students acquire the other professional skills, especially the other two awareness skills, as well as the process skills, that they will, in fact, acquire the ability to do lifelong learning. Hence, one will become a proficient lifelong learner as one becomes proficient in the broad spectrum of professional skills.

ASSESSMENT OF THE PROFESSIONAL SKILLS

Recent assessment efforts directed at the professional skills could best be described as encouraging, but with much work left to do. There have been important strides in developing rigorous assessment tools and conducting effective outcome studies for three of the skills: an ability to function on multidisciplinary teams, an understanding of professional and ethical responsibility, and an ability to communicate effectively.

Yet, the literature remains sparse with respect to robust, effective measures for these outcomes. Further, we propose that three hurdles have impeded the development of viable tools to assess engineering students' attainment of the professional outcomes: a consensus about definitions, the scope by which the outcome is assessed, and the nature of the outcome itself.

For any evaluation activity, outcome definition (specification) and its engineering pedagogical context ultimately drive how it is assessed. It is clear that definitions of the "hard" outcomes have greater acceptance in the engineering education community than do those for the professional outcomes. Consequently, educators have a greater level of confidence (and certainty) in assessing these outcomes. For example, Olds, Streveler, and Miller are developing a thermal and transport sciences concept inventory that will provide engineering educators with reliable feedback about a student's understanding (or misunderstanding) of the principles of thermodynamics and hence better assurance that students are capable of solving similar problems in practice. Since thermodynamics is a fundamental engineering science, the definition associated with this body of knowledge is known and accepted among engineering educators.

To illustrate the problem with assessing the professional skills consider that Shuman et al. have developed and validated a scoring rubric to assess students' ability to evaluate and resolve ethical dilemmas. However, even if the student provides a creative solution to a posed ethical dilemma, there is no assurance that he or she could carry that solution to completion or behave in an ethical manner when confronted with a dilemma in practice.

As a result, one does not obtain the same level of confidence that a student will ascertain and handle ethical dilemmas in engineering practice as one does with respect to thermal dynamics. Further, different faculty have provided varying definitions for what “understanding ethical and professional responsibilities” means (consistent with ABET’s intent). Because engineering ethics is highly situationally dependent, the exact characterization for assessment purposes may be imprecise.

The second obstacle is the scope of the educational experience needed within the engineering programme to master the outcome. Traditionally, “hard” skills are taught and acquired through specific course work; hence, assessment of those outcomes can be largely limited to the course work the student has taken. However, acquiring the professional outcomes may not result simply from participation in a particular class or set of classes.

Rather, these outcomes are more often acquired or influenced through sources both in and outside the classroom, which is a further reason for the new emphasis on global and service learning. Thus, assessing a student’s “ability to function on multidisciplinary teams” may be the culmination of several courses in which students are first exposed to the process of teamwork and then actively engage in various forms of teamwork through projects and homework, as well as activities outside the classroom, including projects, study abroad opportunities, internships and coop assignments, and on- and off-campus extracurricular activities.

Hence, properly evaluating outcome may require assessing all such sources. As discussed below, teamwork is one area where promising assessment tools are beginning to appear, including the Professional Developer, which, when completed, will allow for a comprehensive assessment by obtaining input from multiple sources (*e.g.*, multiple student teams, employer(s), friends, instructor, etc.).

The engineering education literature provides several examples on how to assess team skill development and project effectiveness. These include multisource feedback, often incorporating peer evaluation methods, and project rubrics. Multisource assessment is a formal process that collects critical information on student competencies and specific behaviours and skills from several sources, including peers and instructors, as well as the student, and presents the collected information in a well-organized format so that he or she can better understand both his or her personal strengths and areas in need of development.

The typical process involves gathering evaluative information on a target student from two or more rating sources. The target student also provides self-ratings that are subsequently compared with those from the other sources. Once all ratings are complete, the student receives feedback on the behaviours, skills, and performance being assessed. The student then can interpret the results and make personal decisions on actions that should be taken based on the information received.

Current research indicates that these assessment processes not only provide valuable data on learning outcomes, but also have an impact on learning itself. For example,

introducing a formal assessment process helps reinforce the learning objectives established for a specific course. When students are actively involved in their own assessment, they are forced to think about their learning in profound ways. Further, if the process is repeated over the course of a semester or several semesters, important learning and self-improvement can occur.

Growing evidence shows that feedback processes have a positive impact on student development of team skills. Consequently, several engineering schools have introduced multisource feedback processes as part of the course work. Working in teams provides the opportunity to receive feedback from peers, teaching assistants, and faculty. Results presented in an earlier paper by McGourty consistently demonstrated that students improved according to the perceptions of peers and faculty.

Peer evaluations, sometimes considered a subset of multisource feedback, are being readily applied in many engineering classrooms. Using typical peer rating systems, student team members confidentially rate how well they and individual team members are doing in fulfilling their tasks or individual behaviours. Some researchers maintain that peer evaluations can support grade adjustments by faculty because student team members are in a good position to evaluate individual contributions to team projects.

Scoring rubrics are specific project-related attributes rated using checklists by a panel of experts, often consisting of faculty, alumni, and other industrial partners. A number of engineering faculty have developed rubrics to measure team effectiveness in terms of product or project performance. Team project performance has been rated in such areas as product or process design effectiveness, innovativeness of the overall design, and effective presentation by the team.

When EC2000 first emerged, an accompanying white paper called for the development of multiple assessment tools to assist in evaluating engineering programme quality. The white paper indicated that multiple methods should be used to measure each outcome and that such methods as portfolios and video presentations are better able to assess higher-level cognitive, affective, and behavioural abilities. Prus and Johnson have proposed six types of methods-tests and examinations, measures of attitudes and perceptions (self- and third party reports), portfolios, competency measures (performance appraisals and simulation), behavioural observation, and external examiner-that can be used to assess one or more of the professional skills.

However, as Prus and Johnson purport, there is a consistently inverse correlation between the quality of the measurement methods and their expediency. The best methods usually take longer and cost more in terms of faculty time, student effort, and money. Portfolios, along with performance appraisals and behavioural observations, offer the most comprehensive information for measuring many outcomes and are conducive to evaluating professional skills.

Together with behavioural observations, these three methods may yield the most comprehensive information when measuring the professional outcomes. As for outcome 3.g, an ability to communicate effectively, portfolio analysis coupled with rubrics

provides a consistent, feasible, and accurate approach for its assessment. Other effective methods also can be found in the literature. Performance appraisals are competency-based methods (also commonly referred to as authentic assessments) used to measure preoperationalized abilities in a real-world-like setting. Such an appraisal provides a systematic measurement, usually in the form of a rubric, for the demonstration of an acquired skill(s). In an educational setting, performance appraisals can be conducted on students in individual classes or for a particular cohort of students.

This is a valuable assessment methodology because it can provide a direct measure of what has been learned in a course or programme of study. Further, because it goes beyond the typical paper-and-pencil approach common to other assessment methods, a performance appraisal is suitable for measuring such behaviourally based skills as evaluating an ethical dilemma or working on teams. Engineering courses offer ample opportunities to include performance tasks as part of the course requirements. Such tasks might include client based design projects, open-ended laboratory assignments, or the design and construction of manufactured articles. As noted, the rubric for ethics developed by Shuman et al. offers promise for engineering assessments, and there has been substantial work in other fields of study. In brief, portfolios and performance appraisals are a highly valued form of student outcomes assessment. However, they are costly to administer.

The third hurdle-nature of the outcome-revolves primarily around the “awareness” outcomes-those that hope to capture students’ ability to know how to be aware of the importance of each one and to incorporate them into their problem-solving activities. These include the broad education necessary to understand the impact of engineering solutions in a global and social context, recognition of the need for and an ability to engage in lifelong learning, and knowledge of contemporary issues. These three outcomes focus on influencing engineering students’ aims, attitudes, and values as they practice their engineering “hard” skills. There is no question that the engineering education community has begun to embrace these outcomes as important to the growth of the field. Still, to properly assess these outcomes, educators both within individual programmes and across the engineering community must further grapple with the program’s scope. Once these obstacles have been overcome, the question that remains is this: if awareness skills are best acquired through various programme elements, can they be effectively assessed? For example, in 1985 the National Research Council Committee on the Education and Utilization of the Engineer described several activities associated with lifelong learning. Most of these activities are associated with continuing one’s education so that the engineer’s knowledge and skills do not become rusty.

Merely asking graduating seniors or alumni if they plan to continue their formal education provides only a naïve surrogate measure of the lifelong learning outcome, since this assessment measures only one of its aspects. It is our belief that ABETs intention with lifelong learning is to go deeper than traditional post baccalaureate education. From the engineering perspective, Flammer developed a model for successful

lifelong learning that centres on two critical aspects: motivation and ability. Similarly, Candy modeled lifelong learning from the perspective of self-directed learning focusing aspects into “will do” and “can do” skills.

Two potential instruments have been developed to measure self-directed learning: Guglielmino’s Self-directed Learning Readiness Scale and Oddi’s Continuing Learning Inventory. The former instrument has been in existence longer and thus has been widely validated. It is available directly from the author.

Because the awareness skills centre on students’ attitudes and values, another plausible methodology may be to use behavioural observation, an assessment technique for measuring the frequency, duration, topology, etc. of student actions, usually in a natural setting with non-invasive methods. Brereton et al. propose that behavioural observations often provide the best way to evaluate the degree to which attitudes, perceptions, and values have been achieved. However, as with portfolios and performance appraisals, behavioural observations are costly to administer and evaluate.

One promising method to combat the cost is to use work sampling methods that take advantage of probability theory to reduce the amount of time necessary to accurately behaviourally observe events or activities. To answer our original question: Can the ABET professional skills be taught? We answer with a qualified yes!

Although not necessarily taught in the traditional lecture format, these skills can certainly be mastered as part of a modern engineering education format that utilizes active and cooperative learning, recognizes differences in learning styles, and is cognizant of teaching engineering in its appropriate context. As we consider how to best teach the professional skills, or conversely, how students can most effectively learn these skills, we are positive about a new learning pedagogy that is emerging-service learning and its complementary component-global service learning.

This provides both an opportunity and a challenge to engineering educators-to determine how to incorporate real-world experiences into the engineering curriculum while providing a valuable service for either a non-profit organization, a disadvantaged community, or a rural village in a less developed country-and do it all without reducing academic content.

We propose that if this could be done, then engineering faculty will have found a way to effectively integrate the learning of multiple outcomes into one comprehensive, educational experience, especially if the curriculum is now reorganized to point to such an objective. Hence, course work at the first, second, and third years, including the integration of the humanities and social sciences in a well-thought out manner, would fully support a senior-year capstone design experience that would benefit both student and community.

As to our second question: Can these professional skills be assessed? Here, we again offer a qualified yes. Certainly elements of each are being assessed, but to varying degrees and with much work left to be done. The assessment challenges are greater, but we are encouraged by the number of investigators who are rising to this challenge.

Interpersonal Skills Training

INTRODUCTION

Interpersonal skills, in layman's terms, refer to the skills individuals need when they interact with other people. Also, the meaning of interpersonal skills has a number of synonyms, such as social skills, soft skills, people skills, or communication skills. The distinctions among the terms are not always clear, in many cases they are used interchangeably. Despite the significance of interpersonal skills in our life, research on interpersonal skills training is difficult to find. One explanation for this might be because interpersonal skills are used unconsciously as a part of daily life; people view the interpersonal domain as inborn skills or characteristics, not skills or knowledge to be acquired consciously. Another reason for this might be the overarching characteristics of interpersonal skills, which require the combination of cognitive, psychomotor and affective components simultaneously. Many researchers explain that interpersonal skills have complicated characteristics. Marlowe's social intelligence model shows multidimensional characteristics as consisting of: care for others, social self-efficacy, and the ability to understand others.

Interpersonal skills are the skills that a person uses to interact with other people. Interpersonal skills are sometimes also referred to as people skills or communication skills. Interpersonal skills involve using skills such as active listening and tone of voice, they include delegation and leadership. It is how well you communicate with someone and how well you behave or carry yourself. Also they help people further their careers.

Interpersonal skills refers to mental and communicative algorithms applied during social communications and interaction to reach certain effects or results. The term "interpersonal skills" is used often in business contexts to refer to the measure of a person's ability to operate within business organizations through social communication and interactions. Interpersonal skills are how people relate to one another.

As an illustration, it is generally understood that communicating respect for other people or professionals within will enable one to reduce conflict and increase participation or assistance in obtaining information or completing tasks. For instance, to interrupt someone who is currently preoccupied with the task of obtaining information needed immediately, it is recommended that a professional use a deferential approach with language such as, "Excuse me, are you busy? I have an urgent matter to discuss with you if you have the time at the moment." This allows the receiving professional to make their own judgement regarding the importance of their current task versus entering into a discussion with their colleague.

While it is generally understood that interrupting someone with an "urgent" request will often take priority, allowing the receiver of the message to judge independently the request and agree to further interaction will likely result in a higher quality interaction. Following these kinds of heuristics to achieve better professional results generally results in a professional being ranked as one with 'good interpersonal skills.' Often these evaluations occur in formal and informal settings. Having positive interpersonal skills increases the productivity in the organization since the number of conflicts is reduced. In informal situations, it allows communication to be easy and comfortable. People with good interpersonal skills can generally control the feelings that emerge in difficult situations and respond appropriately, instead of being overwhelmed by emotion. Given the vast amount of attention devoted to the analysis and evaluation of motor skill performance, it is rather surprising that it was some considerable time before psychologists began to investigate seriously the nature of social skill.

In one sense, this is a term that is widely employed and generally comprehended, since it has already been used in this chapter and presumably understood by the reader. Indeed, the terms 'communication skill', 'social skill', and 'interpersonal skill' have entered the lexicon of everyday use. For example, many job advertisements stipulate that applicants should have high levels of social, or communication, skill. In this global sense, social skills can be defined as the skills employed when communicating at an interpersonal level with other people. This definition is not very illuminating, however, since it describes what these skills are used for rather than what they are. It is rather like defining a bicycle as something that gets you from one place to another. As illustrated in the next section, attempts to provide a more technical, insightful definition of social skill are manifold. In reviewing this field, it is concluded that a person was socially skilled according to 'The extent to which he or she can communicate with others, in a manner that fulfils one's rights, requirements, satisfactions, or obligations to a reasonable degree without damaging the other person's similar rights, satisfactions or obligations,

and hopefully shares these rights, etc. with others in free and open exchange'. This definition emphasized the microelements' of social encounters, in terms of reciprocation between participants, and focused upon the outcome of behaviour rather than the skills per se (although Phillips also noted that knowing how to behave in a range of situations was part of social skill).

A similar approach was adopted by Combs and Slaby, who defined social skill as 'the ability to interact with others in a given social context in specific ways that are socially acceptable or valued and at the same time personally beneficial, mutually beneficial, or beneficial primarily to others'. 'To perform skillfully, the individual must be able to identify the emotions or intent expressed by the other person and make sophisticated judgements about the form and timing of the appropriate response.' Thus, the skilled individual needs to take cognisance of the others involved in the encounter. This involves perceptual acumen and perspective-taking ability, together with a capacity to mesh one's responses meaningfully, and at apposite moments, with those of others. An evaluation of these definitions reveals a remarkable similarity with the position relating to motor skill, in that there are common elements, but no uniform agreement about the exact nature of interpersonal skill.

One problem here is that any detailed study of higher-order skill will involve a long process. There is a well established '10-year rule' in relation to the learning of complex skill routines, in that the highest level of performance in any field is only attained after 10 years of concerted practice and training. Top chess players, Olympic athletes, international soccer players, celebrated musicians, etc., will all have engaged in at least a decade of intensive practice. It is very probable that the 10-year rule also applies to complex social skills (negotiating, teaching, counselling, etc.). This makes analysis and synthesis problematic. While there has been study of how various types of motor skill performance change over time, there is a paucity of such research in relation to interpersonal skill. In the interpersonal domain, Spitzberg and Dillard concluded that 'what constitutes skill, even in well-defined contexts, is difficult to specify'.

Trying to define social skills in a sentence is like trying to define some complex motor skill, such as being a good baseball player, in one sentence. There are many components to these skills. Skilled performance is not a unitary activity. There is a large variety of different types of skill, some of which involve basic activities that are simple to execute, while others incorporate a range of intricate subelements, making them much more complicated to master. It is hardly surprising therefore that differing definitions of what constitutes social skill have proliferated within the literature. Any definition must, of necessity, be a simplification of what is an intricate, multifarious, and multifaceted process. This is not to say that definitions are without value: at the very least, they set parameters as to what should be included in the study of social skill and, therefore, act as a template for legitimate investigation in this field. Moreover, while definitions vary in emphasis, the defining features of skill can be charted. Thus, the six main elements as being central to the concept of social skills; namely, that they:

- Are learned
- Are composed of specific verbal and non-verbal behaviours
- Entail appropriate initiations and responses
- Maximise available rewards from others
- Require appropriate timing and control of specific behaviours
- Are influenced by prevailing contextual factors.

Behaviour

While behaviour is a key aspect of skill, it is in turn shaped by a range of other features. As such, motoric behaviour represents the overt part of an overall process in which the individual pursues goals, devises implementation plans and strategies, continually monitors the environment, considers the position of others involved in the encounter, responds appropriately in that situation, estimates the likelihood of goal success, and adjusts future behaviour accordingly (the operationalisation of these process elements of skilled performance will be discussed).

In this way, interaction is a transactional process in which each person's response is guided and shaped by the responses of others. In fact, a common analogy is made between interacting and dancing. Both are carried out for a wide variety of reasons, some of which overlap. Thus, one may dance or interact to express oneself, to impress others, to help to develop a relationship, to pass the time, to seduce a partner, and so on. Interacting, like dancing a tango or waltz, depends on the coordinated intermeshing of learned repertoires between the two parties.

Both are forms of performance wherein certain 'moves' are expected and anticipated, and the people involved complement one another in a fluid pattern of corresponding. If one partner is unskilled, the encounter becomes much more difficult. One of the process dimensions to have attracted considerable attention within the interpersonal communication literature is the notion of competence. Indeed, Spitzberg and Cupach argued that 'Competence is an issue both perennial and fundamental to the study of communication.' Some theorists have conceptualised skill as being subsumed by competence.

For instance, Samter concluded that 'Social competence can thus be regarded as the manifestation of the various social skills a person possesses.' Likewise, Ridge defined competence as the ability 'to choose a strategy, then select among skills appropriate to that context and employ these skills', given that 'a strategy is a plan derived from a context that determines which skills to apply'. Here, competence is regarded as the ability to choose appropriate strategies and implement these in terms of skilled performance. Spitzberg argued, 'Competence can be viewed as an evaluative judgement of the quality of a skill.'

He also concluded that appropriateness (the extent to which behaviour meets standards of acceptability and legitimacy) and effectiveness (the degree to which desired outcomes are achieved) were the two main criteria used to guide such judgements.

In a comprehensive review of this area, there are three qualities associated with competence:

- 1 *Knowledge:* This relates to the information that is necessary for the person to be able to communicate in a way that is perceived to be competent (e.g. what one should say in this situation, how others might feel about this, what the alternative responses are).
- 2 *Motivation:* This concerns the desire of the person to behave in ways that will be judged as competent.
- 3 *Skill:* This refers to the individual's ability to act in such a way as to promote the perception of competence.

However, it is also possible to argue that skill subsumes competence. Thus, the Dictionary defines skill as 'aptitudes and competencies appropriate for a particular job'. In this way, skilled soccer players or skilled negotiators would be regarded as highly competent in many separate facets of the process in which they are engaged. Likewise, it makes sense to describe someone as 'competent but not highly skilled' at performing a particular action. Furthermore, the terms are often combined.

Thus, Daly asserted, 'Those who exhibit socially competent skills are preferred in interactions.' If all of this is confusing, it reflects the confusion that is rife in the deliberations of some theorists who grapple with this issue. For example, the distinction proffered by Sanders was that competence involves the acquisition of an apparently higher-order 'system of computation and reasoning' whereas skill is of a lower-order nature and concerned with having 'acquired a set of methods and techniques'.

But Sanders failed to explain how one could be skilled without being competent. Moreover, his definition of competence implies that it is an abstract ability. Thus, by Sanders' distinction, someone who could provide a fluent rationale (reasoning) as to how one should be, for example, a good soccer player or negotiator, yet who in practice is disastrous at playing soccer or negotiating, would be highly competent in these contexts, yet also highly unskilled.

Goal-Directed

Social interaction is now widely recognised as goal-directed activity. A defining feature of skilled performance is therefore intentionality. As expressed Communication skill refers to an individual's ability to achieve communicative goals. Skilled behaviours are selected by the individual to achieve a desired outcome, and as such are purposeful as opposed to chance or unintentional. The importance of goals has long been recognised.

An unskilled person may have ambitious goals, but without carefully related action plans nothing is likely to be achieved. It is illustrated that how, in turn, the execution of plans depends on a range of resources, such as money, access to relevant others, interpersonal skills, and cognitive ability.

Four main theories for explaining and predicting goal-directed intentions and behaviours have been proposed:

- 1 The theory of reasoned action purports that behaviour is determined directly by one's intentions to carry it out, and these are influenced by one's attitudes positive or negative towards the behaviour and by perceived social pressure to perform it.
- 2 The theory of planned behaviour extends this by adding the notion of perceived behavioural control as an important predictor of intention and action. Perceived behavioural control refers both to the presence of facilitating situational conditions and to feelings of self-efficacy (personal confidence in one's ability to execute the behaviour successfully).
- 3 The theory of self-regulation emphasises the centrality of motivational commitment, or desire, to act.
- 4 Finally the theory of trying interprets goal-directed behaviour within three domains – trying and succeeding, trying but failing, and the process of striving per se. This theory emphasises the importance of personal attitudes to success and failure as predictors of intentions and actions, as well as attitudes to the process involved en route to the goal. For example, one may decide not to try to lose weight because of a personal belief that one would fail anyway, or because the process of dieting and exercising is not viewed as desirable. The frequency and recency of past behaviour is also seen as important. Thus, one is likely to be less hesitant about asking a member of the opposite sex for a date if one has had lots of dates (frequency), the last of which was two days ago (recency), than if one has only ever dated three people and the last date was 10 years ago. Although the processes of goal setting, goal implementation, and goal abandonment are affected by a range of variables, in essence the decision to pursue particular goals seems to be determined by two overarching factors:
 - i. Desirability (the attractiveness of goal attainment)
 - ii. Feasibility (the strength of belief that the goal can be achieved).

Another distinction has been made between learning goals and performance goals. Those who see themselves as pursuing learning goals (*e.g.* to learn how to be a better salesperson) view setbacks as opportunities for learning and future development. On the other hand, those who are guided by performance goals (to sell 'x' number of products today) are more negatively affected by failure. Learning goals therefore lead to better achievements than performance goals. In their comprehensive analysis of the nature, role, and functions of goals as regulators of human action, Locke and Latham demonstrated how goals both give incentive for action and act as guides to provide direction for behaviour.

They reviewed studies to illustrate the following principles:

- People working towards a specific goal outperform those working with no explicit goal.

- Performance level increases with goal difficulty (providing the person is committed to the goal).
- Giving people specific goals produces better results than vague goals (such as 'do your best').

A distinction needs to be made between long-term and short-term goals. In order to achieve a long-term goal, a number of related short-term ones must be devised and executed. Our moment-by-moment behaviour is guided by the latter, since if these are not successfully implemented the long-term goal will not be achieved.

Sloboda used the term 'goal stacks' to refer to a hierarchy of goals through which one progresses until the top of the stack is reached. In this way, skilled behaviour is hierarchically organised with larger goal-related tasks comprising smaller component subunits. For example, a long-term goal may be to appoint an appropriate person for a job vacancy. In order to do so, there is a range of subgoals which must be achieved – advertising the position, drawing up a short-list of candidates, interviewing each one, and so on. These subgoals can be further subdivided. At the interview stage, the chief goal is to assess the suitability of the candidate, and this, in turn, involves subgoals such as welcoming the candidate, making introductions, and asking relevant questions.

In this way, the short-term, behavioural goals provide a route to the achievement of the long-term, strategic goal. Another aspect of skilled action is that goals are usually subconscious during performance. The skilled soccer player is not consciously aware of objectives when running with the ball, but these nevertheless govern behaviour.

Those involved in the process of successful learning of new skills progress through the following four sequential stages:

1. Unconscious incompetence. At this stage, we are blissfully unaware of the fact that we are acting in an unskilled way.
2. Conscious incompetence. Here we know how we should be performing but also know that we are not able to produce the level of performance required.
3. Conscious competence. At the early stage of skill acquisition, we are aware of behaving in a skilled manner as we act.
4. Unconscious competence. Once a skill has been fully assimilated, we successfully execute it without having to think about it.

Similarly, Hargie identifies the following six characteristics of interpersonal skills:

- Goal-directedness and intentionality.
- Interrelated situationally appropriate social behaviours.
- Qualitative differences in social behaviour.
- A series of related skills in sequence.
- The composition of the sub-skills.
- The influence of cognitive control.

Similarly, Bailey and Butcher emphasized that effective interpersonal skills training should focus on developing perceptual, cognitive, and behavioural skills components

together. That is, learners need to make reasonable judgements at the perceptual level to respond in a timely manner. At the cognitive level, the learners should understand the purpose of an interaction and have clear ideas of what appropriate behaviours are in specific situations.

Finally, the learners should demonstrate actual behaviours at the performance level to execute their individual interpersonal skills. These multidimensional characteristics of interpersonal skills require a different instructional approach from traditional approaches that focus on developing individuals' cognitive skills.

Given the complexity of interpersonal skills characteristics, combining two or more methods that have different strengths and weaknesses may promise better results. This implies the necessity of an integrated approach for interpersonal skills training.

Behaviour Modeling Training

Behaviour modeling has been recognized as the most appropriate instructional method for interpersonal skills training since 1970. It is primarily based on Bandura's social learning theory, which explains that people can learn by observing others. Noe defined behaviour modeling as "A training method in which trainees are presented with a model who demonstrates key behaviours to replicate and provides them with the opportunity to practice those key behaviours". The primary advantage of behaviour modeling is that it enables individuals to learn without a trial and error process.

Therefore, behaviour modeling serves as an efficient way to teach interpersonal skills by reducing the costs and time involved in a trial and error process. In addition to the efficiency of behaviour modeling, many research studies report its effectiveness. From the learning theory perspective, Simon and Werner explained that behaviour modeling is somewhere between direct instruction and exploration in the continuum of instructional methods because it provides learners with both cognitive instruction and the opportunities to explore learning content with practices. That is, behaviour modeling enhances learning effectiveness by combining bipolar approaches.

Decker and Nathan provided five components of behaviour modeling:

- Modeling.
- Retention process.
- Behavioural rehearsal.
- Feedback.
- Transfer of training.

The graphic representation of the behaviour modeling training process is as follows:

First, modeling is the most distinct feature of the behaviour modeling approach. The objective of modeling is to facilitate the learners' attention towards the key behaviours, which is a set of behaviours intended for the students to learn. Decker and Nathan indicated that when a model's behaviour is "distinctive, meaningful to the observer, not too complex, and observable," the effectiveness of modeling is increased.

Second, the retention process facilitates learners' memorization of what they learn from the models. As Bandura mentioned, if learners do not remember what they saw during the modeling, learning will not occur.

To facilitate the retention process, Decker and Nathan recommended using learning points, which are verbal instructions in words or phrases, to summarize or generalize key behaviours. Third, behavioural rehearsal provides the learners with opportunities to practice the modeled behaviours.

Acquiring cognitive concepts of skills does not guarantee actual behaviour reproduction, so it is necessary to provide learners with practice opportunities to enhance the likelihood of obtaining desirable performances. Dick and Carey indicated that practice and feedback are key to the success of psychomotor skills acquisition.

Finally, the learners are asked to apply the new knowledge gleaned from the models to their real life. The significance of transfer of training cannot be overemphasized because it is expected to eventually lead to positive performance results, which is the ultimate goal of providing learners with training.

Online Interpersonal Skills Training

Some researchers are skeptical about the effectiveness of interpersonal skills training delivered by technology because of the limited interaction and feedback in the online environment. Meanwhile, others are enthusiastic about conveying interpersonal skills training through technology because of the cost-effectiveness it achieves by reducing training costs and its delivery time. The former are more concerned about learning effectiveness of online interpersonal skills training whereas the latter have high expectations of online learning for the cost-effectiveness reasons. In terms of cost-effectiveness of interpersonal skills training programmes, Campbell, Lison, Brosook, Hoover, and Arnold compared training programmes conveyed by way of computer/video technology and instructor-led programmes and found that there is no significant difference in learning gains between the two programmes.

As a result, they claimed that computer/video technology can reduce costs and instructors' working hours to half that which would be spent on instructor-led programmes. Despite Campbell and his colleague's study, the effects of interpersonal skills training delivered by technology are still controversial because of insufficient empirical evidence. However, in spite of the technical and pedagogical limitations of online environments for interpersonal skills training, given the proliferation of online learning and the magnitude of interpersonal skills in daily life, it is imperative to explore the most effective method to deliver interpersonal skills training online.

Based on the proven effectiveness of behaviour modeling for interpersonal skills training in classrooms, this study applied it to online environments. For this, some changes should be made because of the discrepancies between online and classroom learning environments. One change is model presentation. Given that models convey learning content, key behaviours, it is necessary to design instructionally effective models

for learning outcomes. The model presentation formats can be live, video, audio, written scripts, or a combination of two or more of these methods. For enhancing the effectiveness of modeling, Decker and Nathan indicated that models' behaviours should be displayed in enough detail to convey the learning content. By contrast, from the cognitive load theory, some researchers insist that it is necessary to provide learners with the appropriate amount of information because of a learners' limited working memory.

Meanwhile, Bandura stated that the effectiveness of modeling is determined by the learners' cognitive development in interpreting key behaviours and the models' characteristics, such as its complicatedness. He also added that if the amount of information conveyed is identical, the presentation formats do not influence learning outcomes because the role of model presentations is to provide learners with information.

However, when the results of information processing are defined broadly by processed amount, speed, accuracy, and cost-effectiveness, the model presentation formats may influence the learning outcomes in certain ways.

Positive Features of Interpersonal Channels

We examined three defence mechanisms that enable receivers to stave off the persuasive effects of a message. People can avoid or ignore a message and not have to deal with it at all (selective exposure). They can distort the meaning of a message so that it conforms to preexisting beliefs; in other words, we can hear what we want to hear in a message (selective perception). Finally, people may recall only portions of a message, retaining what pleases them, discarding what annoys them (selective retention).

Through any one or a combination of these processes, receivers become less vulnerable to persuasive messages. These mechanisms are in operation in both mass media and interpersonal communication settings. Receivers are most likely to wield control, however, in a mass communication environment. They can control, interpret, and recall without challenge. Broadcast media can be shut off or ignored. Turn the page of a newspaper or magazine, and a message is out of sight and out of mind. Despite the bells and whistles advertisers use to attract and hold audiences, in the final analysis, the receiver is in charge. Although a receiver continues to direct his or her own response to a message in the interpersonal communication setting, a variety of factors stands to weaken this control.

We will discuss each of these in turn:

- Receiver involvement,
- Custom message design,
- Social features.

Receiver Involvement

In most interpersonal portions of special communication campaigns, receivers are self-selected. They participate in one-on-one encounters with company representatives

because they wish to, and they typically wish to because they recognize some ultimate benefit to themselves. They have chosen to become involved. As a result the receiver usually becomes an active participant in the communication event. He or she has sought information and is then brought into the process, serving not just as a spectator (as in mass media settings) but also as a player in the interchange of information.

Receivers find it difficult, under such conditions, to ignore information provided by the source. People are conditioned to listen to someone talking directly to them. They listen to be polite, but they listen, too, because they have sought out this information. They became involved when they took a step from the mass media to the interpersonal environment. They are part of the interaction so they are more likely to fulfill their listening role in the give-and-take of a conversation.

Seasoned salespeople know how important it is to get prospective customers to verbalize support for a product. This support reinforces people's commitment and helps solidify their decision to make a purchase. They become advocates of the product through their own words. When a receiver becomes involved in an interpersonal programme, it is more likely that he or she can be coaxed into such a position. The source can urge and cajole the receiver using techniques not possible in mass communication settings.

Involvement also implies effort justification. Earlier we said that when a person expends energy on a task, he or she imparts a significance to it. We justify our efforts. Energies spent on a project suggest the project is valuable. We often see this in operation among students who claim they deserve a higher grade on an exam than they were given. Surely twenty hours of hard study deserved more than a C. (What about performance?) We believe our efforts are worth a great deal; we see a value in them that is manifest in various ways. In the case of interpersonal programmes, we come to value our involvement more highly because it costs us something. Recognition of this belief can be used by the message source to improve the persuasive potential of an interpersonal programme.

Custom Message Design

In the interpersonal setting, a source has a chance to shape a different message for each receiver. Feedback cues on all available levels (depending on physical features of the setting, for instance, face to face or a telephone conversation) enable the source to read the needs and wants of a receiver and adapt a message accordingly. Through give-and-take, the source can progress through a line of reasoning using necessary tactics to make the point with each receiver.

Feedback issues have entered many discussions throughout this book. Indeed, how could one examine specialized communication campaigns without frequent reference to feedback information? Feedback enables the source of a message to better meet the needs of the receiver. For the present discussion, we will investigate the role of feedback in the preparation of messages designed to overcome the receiver's selectivity processes.

Feedback in the interpersonal setting provides a running account of a receiver's reception of a message. Obvious cues such as direct questions show how well a receiver is processing the information. But subtle indicators also may provide information. For instance, a receiver's yawn, silence when comments are expected, or expressions of boredom suggest that selective exposure gates may be in operation. Rather than listening to the message, the receiver is mentally drifting and ignoring what you are saying. In a mass media setting, the communicator can do nothing about such gating.

In the interpersonal environment, though, a skillful communicator can employ a variety of tactics to bring the receiver back into the discussion. When the "drift" settles in, he or she can change the pitch and pace of the presentation, use humour to break the monotony, or restate the point using a different appeal. One of the strongest techniques to interrupt message blocking is to involve the receiver actively in the interaction. Ask questions and introduce rhetorical techniques that require an acknowledgment from the receiver. In face-to-face settings, the communicator can stimulate eye contact, use gestures, or show models and drawings to attract receivers into the discussion. The use of such techniques depends on the reception of the message, and the communicator determines the level of reception by monitoring the ongoing flow of feedback information. A perceptive person can detect disengagement by the receiver and, through a variety of techniques, overcome the selective exposure gates.

We know the selective perception process enables receivers to put their own meaning on a message and thereby distort the communicator's intent. Although receivers may get away with this in the mass communication environment, a communicator can do much to ensure a correct interpretation in the interpersonal context. Feedback, again, is the key.

In the give-and-take of a conversation, we often reveal our understanding of a message by asking questions, restating points to determine the accuracy of our impressions, and expressing related thoughts. Through such feedback the communicator can monitor a receiver's perception of a message. As soon as it becomes apparent that the meaning and the interpretation of a message are no longer the same, the communicator can reshape the message to drive home the point.

Even if the setting is not conducive to spontaneous receiver feedback, the communicator can monitor the interpretation of his or her message by asking questions. This involves the receiver in the communication process and takes advantage of feedback potentials in the interpersonal setting. Teachers use this approach all the time. "What do you think about this issue?" "Do you see how this process works?" Such questions help keep the receiver involved and focused on the topic, and they help the communicator bear on the receiver's understanding of that topic.

Since selective exposure and perception occur in the context of a communication event, the communicator can affect them directly. Selective retention, on the other hand, occurs after the communication event, and so control is more difficult. However, features of the interpersonal setting can improve the chances a receiver will retain information.

At the outset, remember that when the communicator improves the level of exposure to and perception of a message, he or she has advanced the likelihood that the receiver will retain the information. Obviously, if someone never gets the information or misunderstands what is said, he or she carries little away from the communication event.

Note also that receivers express an initial level of interest in a topic when they choose to engage in the interpersonal communication event. We might expect that such an interest would result in a higher retention of related information. We will give this point to interpersonal communication, even though it is a function of selection rather than of any feature in the interpersonal setting itself. Specific features of the interpersonal communication environment improve the retention of information in several additional ways. First, when receivers become actively involved in the communication process, they are more likely to retain the information. Their active participation creates a stronger image and results in better recall. They are more likely to retain information from an event in which they have participated than one that they have just observed.

The communicator also can motivate a receiver to retain information. First, he or she can encourage the receiver to link information with everyday events, thereby creating an association between the new information and familiar experiences. One electric utility company used this technique with success when it encouraged customers to shift power consumption to less costly evening and early morning hours. In the interpersonal portion of the campaign, for example, company representatives suggested that every time the receiver took a shower or ran the dishwasher, he or she should think about what time it was. These behaviours then were linked to thoughts about “time-of-day (TOD) rates,” which was the company’s name for a new billing programme. In this example the receiver linked objectives of the programme with everyday behaviours, thus stimulating better retention of the information.

Another way of overcoming selective retention problems is to arrange with the receiver a specific time for a follow-up contact. Let the receiver know that the process is not over with the first meeting. In a designated number of days or weeks, the receiver can expect a phone call, letter, or visit to pursue items covered in the interpersonal setting. In this way, perceived need for the information is projected onto a future setting where the receiver can expect to draw on the information he or she has obtained during the initial meeting. Although we hardly expect people to prepare by studying the information, we can anticipate that they will retain at least an awareness of the issues discussed.

The final method of dealing with selective retention problems is an adaptation of the previous technique. In this case, we ask the receiver to accomplish some task within a specified time. We may ask him or her to complete a questionnaire, contact a representative, or inform us about a decision. We may encourage compliance by offering a premium or other inducement. Here, as in the previous approach, we provide the receiver with a reason to retain the information. He or she has engaged in an interpersonal

encounter with someone who has requested something. It need not be much—just to fill out a postcard or make a call yet this simple behaviour compels retention of the information from the conversation.

We can use a variety of techniques to develop messages that overcome the natural defences receivers use to avoid the full impact of a communication. In the interpersonal setting, a communicator can examine the ongoing feedback and so assess the reception of a message. He or she can then employ strategies to draw in the receiver, to promote an accurate understanding of the issues, and to project a need for the information in the future. Inasmuch as any form of communication can deal with selective exposure, perception, and retention, designs available in interpersonal settings have the strongest possibility.

Social Features

Earlier we proposed that the receiver's involvement in the give-and-take of interpersonal communication contributed to the success of information exchange because it helped overcome selective blocks. We believe the receiver's involvement in social relationships, also part of the interpersonal communication setting, advances the same purpose. The bond established between two people in an interpersonal environment offers a major advantage over mass communication programmes for reasons we will examine.

Two aspects of the social features in interpersonal designs concern this discussion: personal attraction and personal responsibility. In the first case, we are referring to the simple notion that people enjoy other people, particularly if the other person is friendly, knowledgeable, and interested in the well-being of others.

Whether the other person is on a telephone, drafts a personal letter, or meets with us in person, it is the person-to-person contact that makes a difference in our reception to a message. We can walk out on a television programme. We can even walk out on a televised presidential address without concern for hurting anyone's feelings or breaching any social rules. On the other hand, it is difficult for many people to break off communication with another person. In telephone surveys when people are called by total strangers, it is not uncommon for a respondent to stay with an interview for fifteen to twenty minutes. If someone does not wish to participate in the survey or has other pressing matters at hand, he or she will generally provide an explanation for discontinuing the interview. Sometimes people even apologize because they do not wish to hurt the caller's feelings. It would be simpler to hang up the phone; and while some do, most do not without first explaining their reasons. As a comparison, some polling firms have attempted to automate the telephone surveying process. They have machines place the call and pose questions to a receiver who has a specified time in which to provide a response. In these approaches the portion of uncompleted interviews, as compared with human-administered surveys, is vastly larger. People will talk to people but not to a machine.

Bem's observation that people are the greatest influence on people is valid for reasons that are helpful in specialized communication programmes. People will usually listen to another person, at least for a while, and so this human delivered message has a much better chance of avoiding the selective gates that so often block mass media messages. Granted, they may allow only a few moments for the person to make the point, but for that time they will probably listen to the message. If the topic is relevant and the pitch is well crafted, then perhaps the receiver will stay with the entire message. Where the receiver selects himself or herself into the communication event, there is a strong chance the communicator will have his or her message heard.

If we like this person talking to us, we will probably look favourably on the message. If what he or she says is interesting and a logical argument is provided, we will likely listen to the message. Moreover, the developing relationship will allow us to feel comfortable about expressing our doubts and reservations or raising questions about the message. This social environment promotes the feedback so important in interpersonal settings. Misperceptions of the message are less likely where feedback abounds, and feedback is most likely when a good social relationship is established. This interpersonal contact is not desirable just because it is pleasant, but because it is productive. The communicator can engage the receiver's attention, then shape the message to make his or her point.

The social context of interpersonal communications is beneficial in staving off problems of selective retention. The receiver departs the communication event not only with content or subject cues, but also with social cues. In other words, the message and the messenger become linked. If the social encounter is pleasant, we can expect thoughts about the topic also to be viewed positively. Consequently, the relationship between the communicator and the receiver has a direct bearing on retention of the message.

An indirect effect of the relationship also occurs beyond the confines of the communication event. We can expect a higher response rate to follow through portions of the programme. The communicator or the receiver initiates some action in the aftermath of the initial communication. People are more likely to complete and mail a questionnaire or to continue discussions when such action has been requested by a source with whom the receiver has established a social rapport. We do not want to let down someone we know and like, someone who may be disappointed if we ignore a simple request. Consequently, the selective retention matter—how long and how accurately someone keeps an active mental file on a communication—is enhanced by the social nature of interpersonal communication settings. We have described how social relationships are important in overcoming the barriers to successful communication. Consider yet another feature, known as the “focusing of responsibility.” In order to describe the meaning of this term, it is helpful to understand first what is meant by the “diffusion of responsibility.” Consider a situation in which a large number of people gathers in a single place—say, one thousand troops standing at attention on a drill field.

Suppose an officer addressing the troops asks for a volunteer to participate in some dangerous mission. We can expect a request of such a large group to yield a relatively low percentage of volunteers. As each soldier thinks about the appeal and weighs the advantages against the dangers of volunteering, he also is aware he is just one of a thousand being asked. Maybe someone else will raise his hand, and even if no one does, each soldier is just one of the many who hold back. There is safety in numbers. The responsibility to volunteer is diffused among all these soldiers and does not rest on the back of any one.

This diffusion of responsibility theory has been used to explain what appears to be apathy among people who view a crime committed in public. Latane and Darley explain that the costs of non-intervention are spread among all observers, so no one feels particularly responsible to aid the victim. Here, too, bystanders believe that perhaps someone else will lend a hand; and even if no one else does, the accountability is divided, so no one feels culpable. The responsibility and so ultimately the guilt for inaction are spread among many. While large numbers allow each person to find refuge in the crowd, small numbers or one-on-one encounters pinpoint the responsibility. If a sergeant asked each soldier individually to volunteer for the assignment, we would expect a much higher response rate. If only one passerby saw someone being assaulted, it is more likely that person would intervene. The same idea of responsibility focusing applies to interpersonal communication settings.

We are less likely to daydream or discard a message if we are the sole receiver. We sense a responsibility to maintain our attention to a message in these communication events. If the communicator asks a question, who else can respond? No one else can share the burden. In a mass media environment, it is easy to ignore requests. Tens of thousands, perhaps millions of other people may respond to pleas for assistance or support. No single viewer is on the spot, and no single viewer feels the weight of responsibility.

Interpersonal Relationships

Interactions involve a perceived or expected participant role for each interpersonal relationship. These perceptions and expectations include the components of power, status, and formality. Differences of power are communicated along a continuum in which more or less formality creates more or less social distance in interpersonal interactions.

This power/distance continuum is based on human equality or inequality. Across cultures, people may be assigned a level of social status based on such variables as age, education, economic wealth, physical strength, birth order, achievements, or occupation.

Triandis described a similar continuum for vertical and horizontal relationships. Persons from a vertical perspective expect unequal social status and believe that individuals with more power should receive more formal and polite treatment. In Hofstede's terms, this is a high power/distance relationship. Persons from a horizontal

or low power/distance perspective expect equal social status and treatment and consequently treat others as equals using a less formal communication style.

Low Power/Distance Interpersonal Relationships

Low power/distance, or horizontal, cultures view status inequalities negatively. Individuals value equality, demonstrated through more informal rules and roles, and believe others are equivalent to them regardless of others' resources or position in society. In the United States, for example, individuals tend to verbalize low power/distance values to show all are equal and have equal rights. Administrators are admired when they "roll up their shirt sleeves" and work alongside employees or when they allow subordinates to address them by their first names instead of using a more formal address, such as Mister or Sir. In many situations, however, high power/distance behaviours are expected even when low power/distance values are expressed. Some examples include seeking confirmation or approval from a superior before taking action. In most workplaces, following proper channels or the chain of command is expected even when lines of authority seem blurred.

Low power/distance communicative interactions involve direct, honest opinions and more verbal than gestural or tactile communication, but to communicate respect for autonomy and equal power, politeness rules dictate the use of indirect directions and questions. Persons at different levels of power strive to treat others equally by using familiar, informal communication styles to share opinions freely. Questions or suggestions are polite forms of indirect language used when communicating directions. Indirect directions communicate respect of individuals' autonomy and their right not to comply. When an individual with more power communicates an indirect suggestion, however, the hidden expectation is that the subordinate will comply. These variations between direct, honest, and open communication and polite, indirect, inexplicit communication are often confusing to persons from high power/distance cultures. Delpit gave an example of indirect communication from a tape by John Gumperez on cross-cultural interactions. An East Asian Indian individual was interviewing for a position with a committee made up of White members. Delpit wrote,

The interview was a complete failure, even though several of the interviewers appeared to really want to help the applicant. As the interview rolled steadily downhill, these "helpers" became more and more indirect in their questioning, which exacerbated the problems the applicant had in performing appropriately. Operating from a different cultural perspective, he got fewer and fewer clear clues as to what was expected of him, which ultimately resulted in his failure to secure the position.

This individual was not familiar with the members' autonomy-sensitive, indirect, informal communication style and was unable to interpret the underlying messages without the help of more direct, explicit communicative behaviours. Low power/distance communication is also evident in organizational communication. Kalyanpur and Harry gave examples of low power/distance indirect language use in special education literature

and communication, such as changing the word handicapped to challenged and the term special education placement to receiving special education services. They hypothesized that these changes were the result of a process intent on neutralizing the negative values generated by the previous terms. By making such linguistic changes, however, another result may be less explicit language. This can be confusing to an individual who is used to high power/distance interactions in which direct language is used.

High Power/Distance Interpersonal Relationships. In cases of high power/distance, or vertical, interpersonal relationships, persons follow rules of inequality. Individuals know their place and roles in different situations. If an individual views him or herself as having a role of less importance or power than that of another person, he or she has a high power/distance construct of relationships. In high-power/distance relationships, individuals with more power or resources are treated with—and expect—formal communication and specific behaviour when interacting with persons who have less power. High power/distance is often communicated as a way to show respect to elders. This value is often represented in forms of address in which elders have honorific titles or specific names and is demonstrated in cultures where respect is a goal of socialization.

For example, in Chinese, *jiejie* is a special name reserved for the eldest sister, whereas *meimei* is the name used for all younger sisters. High power/distance values are also evident in the socialization of polite behaviours.

For example, Vietnamese parents socialize their children to "talk sweet" (talk politely) to show respect to their elders and teachers. Another way of showing respect in high power/distance interactions is to use non-verbal behaviours or indirect, inexplicit statements of opinion or confirmation as a way to avoid conflict.

For example, positive head nodding has been documented in many Asian cultures as meaning that the speaker was heard but the listener may not necessarily agree. Roles and obligations are taught and expected, and communicative interactions reflect each person's role and obligation to the other through specific language and behaviours.

In some high power/distance cultures, such as Mexican and African American cultures, directions may involve eye contact to control or modify behaviour or direct verbal language, such as an example given by Delpit: "Boy, get your rusty behind in that bathtub."

Laosa found Chicano mothers tended to use more modeling, visual cues, and directions to teach children explicitly the expected way to behave, whereas Anglo mothers tended to ask questions to reinforce children's learning strategies. The Anglo parents used communicative behaviours that promoted independent and individualistic behaviours in their children; the Chicano mothers used communication strategies that emphasized children's dependence on an adult's model and knowledge. Delgado-Gaitan provided a clear example of a parent teaching her daughter the importance of respect: "Saluda a tu abuelita mi hija, ven aqui!" [Say hello to your grandmother, my daughter, come herd] Mrs. Baca escorted Rosa towards her grandmother as she tried to run away and join her cousins whom she saw in the backyard. Rosa stood on her toes as if to try and reach her grandmother's face to kiss her cheek.

Her grandmother bent down enough for Rosa to reach her and hug her tightly. Rosa temporarily forgot about her cousins and walked into the kitchen with her mother, grandmother, father, and older brother. Rosa sat at the kitchen table and watched her grandmother approach the stove. “Quiero de ese” [I want some of that]. “A donde apuntas, mi hija?” [What are you pointing at, my daughter?] asked the grandmother.

Rosa caught her mother glancing at her from the corner of her eye and lowered her voice and said quietly, “Quero deesa tortilla con queso” [I want some of that tortilla and cheese]. Mrs. Baca adds, “Se dice por favour, Rosa. Pedir asi no mas es falta de respeto” [“You say please. To ask like that is nothing more than a lack of respect”]. “Por favour” [Please], repeats Rosa. This mother used both non-verbal (eye contact) and direct, explicit verbal directions to teach her daughter the expected way to communicate to her grandmother. High power/distance communication often involves a mixture of non-verbal and verbal communication and tends to be judged by Europeans or Americans as authoritarian, involving explicit directives or physical gestures and tactile movements to show what is expected. The term authoritarian has been associated with hostile, rejecting, and restrictive parenting styles that do not offer the explanation, reflective listening, or emotional support that primarily characterize the communications of European or American parents.

The use of this term may be inappropriate when observing culturally diverse parenting styles. When Western families use an authoritarian (demanding and unresponsive) style, they are perceived as unloving and negative, and their children tend to be less successful in school than children from non-authoritarian (undemanding and responsive) homes. On the other hand, children from Asian families, who tend to be authoritarian (demanding and unresponsive), usually perform well in schools. Chao hypothesized that the difference in parenting styles for Asian parents were based on the concepts of chiao shun and guan. Chiao shun means “training,” and in the Chinese culture, parents are expected to train their children in socially desirable and appropriate behaviour.

Guan means “to govern” or “to care for,” and it is used in conjunction with parenting or teaching. Thus, the words guan and chiao shun, or parental care and concern, are equivalent to firm control, governance, and training. Because the demanding and unresponsive Chinese parenting styles are associated with parental care and concern and are grounded in social motivations and goals, their parenting styles are viewed positively, and the children perform well in school. ⁴ be viewed negatively if professionals judge these practices through an ethnocentric lens. When working with children from diverse cultural backgrounds, using culturally familiar and appropriate interaction styles with the children and family members will communicate respect and understanding and will build trusting relationships.

Risk Management

The continua of independence/interdependence and power/distance may also be influenced by how different cultural members view changes and risks. Cultures differ

in the ways they cope with uncertainty and ambiguity and how members take or avoid risks. Some cultures may view uncertainty and ambiguity as threats to their survival or success, whereas others may be able to tolerate, accept, or even encourage change and risk-taking. Hofstede designated this characteristic as an uncertainty/avoidance continuum from weak to strong. This continuum describes the need for certainty and explicit, formal rules and has implications for how individuals are taught to behave in new situations. Uncertainty/avoidance is reflected in the selection of words and in the ways messages are interpreted. Communication may vary along this continuum in terms of the implicitness or explicitness of the message and the expectation for rules, structure, or guidance for different types of interactions. In cultures where there is a construct of weak uncertainty/avoidance, children are socialized to question, take risks, explore, and be creative.

Instead of explicitly showing or telling children what to do, parents make more comments when jointly involved in an activity and phrase directives as questions or suggestions (Why don't we play...). Parents allow choices and ambiguity to encourage increased autonomy and creativity. In a strong uncertainty/avoidance situation, however, parents socialize their children to avoid taking risks, to listen to their parents, and to practice and imitate correct, modeled behaviours. These parents provide explicit descriptions, models, and directions instead of questions.

Weak Uncertainty/Avoidance Risk Management. Individuals with weak uncertainty/avoidance can accept dissension and take risks. They may feel free to argue or debate, and they feel uninhibited about being wrong or unpopular. They may be more adventurous and use more trial-and-error problem solving or guessing as a strategy for completing tests and tasks. Weak uncertainty/avoidance is often communicated in terms of fewer restrictions or rules for completing a task. How one achieves the end is not as important as the completion of the task. This cultural construct can be found in professional interactions with parents. An example of a weak uncertainty/avoidance risk-management communication style is the language used in early childhood education.

Best practices in early childhood education list the involvement of parents in their children's interactions as key to the children's eventual educational success. Yet, professionals often assume that parents know how and what the professionals expect them to do with their children and thus do not explicitly explain or model activities for the parents. Weak uncertainty/avoidance communication may be confusing for individuals on the other end of the continuum, where more explicit communication is expected. For example, Brorson found that early childhood staff expected parents to understand the idea of being equal partners and assumed the parents knew what to do to educate their children. Thus, the teachers would suggest several ideas or activities and communicated low expectations that the parents comply with specifics or that all activities be completed.

Although the parents knew the early interventionists wanted them to participate, they did not know which suggestions they were expected to implement or how to carry

out the activities. Because the early interventionists did not explicitly define and explain what the parents were expected to do, the parents could not be equal partners.

This same confusion was reported in Hwa-Froelich's study of Vietnamese families with children enrolled in a Head Start programme. The teachers professed the belief that parents were their children's first teachers. They expected parents to participate in parent meetings and field trips and to volunteer to help the children and the programme through fund-raising activities.

The staff, however, told the parents they were welcome to attend and encouraged them to come but did not tell the parents explicitly that they were expected or that they were needed. One mother said, "I don't understand what the school needs from me. Whenever the school needs me, then I will help within my efforts.

Right now I don't know what to do". Because the Head Start staff members were not explicit in what they expected from the Vietnamese parents, many of the parents did not attend parent meetings or family activities. The Head Start staff demonstrated a weak uncertainty/avoidance communication style, but the Vietnamese families required a strong uncertainty/avoidance style and expected explicit communication and structured rules of interaction.

Strong Uncertainty/Avoidance Risk Management. Individuals who display a strong uncertainty/avoidance cultural construct feel threatened in ambiguous or uncertain situations. They feel uncomfortable or avoid situations of conflict or risk. Thus, individuals who have a strong uncertainty/avoidance construct may be reluctant to share their opinions, appear to be less verbal, show fewer facial expressions, and avoid ambiguous situations. They may demonstrate more caution in making decisions, plan more carefully for excursions, and ask for opinions from others to avoid the embarrassing situation of doing something inappropriate.

In cultures where there is a construct of strong uncertainty/avoidance, children are socialized to obey without questioning, imitate a correct model, and avoid making mistakes. Children are expected to avoid risks and practice learning through an adult-modeled behaviour or activity. Parents may verbalize more directions or use non-verbal means to communicate their intentions. Strong uncertainty/avoidance behaviours are often communicated in demonstrations so individuals learn within a context and avoid making embarrassing mistakes. Tharp described how a Chilcotin Indian learned to prepare a salmon:

She was allowed to watch her mother and gradually take on portions of the task. She was also allowed to ask questions if they were important; once she told her mother that she did not understand how to do that backbone part. In response, her mother took another entire fish and repeated the process. Learning and teaching were tied to the context.

The message that was communicated was that preparing the backbone of a salmon could not be demonstrated outside the sequence for the entire process. Another example can be seen in Vietnamese parents' descriptions of how they teach their children. One

mother explained: “If I want them to get something for me but they don’t know what it is, then I will take them with me and show them what it is.”

A grandmother described how she directed her grandson to practice writing letters: “I write the letters down for him to practice writing. I write A, B, C letters and then I have him rewrite them”. Both the mother and grandmother expressed the need for and value of a visual model over verbal description. Instead of telling the child how to do something, both women physically demonstrated the task.

Although culturally different behaviours can be explained by these three continua, multiple constructs can be intertwined in a culture. In other words, responsibility, interpersonal relationship rules, and risk-management constructs are interrelated in every culture. For example, in both independent and interdependent high power/distance-oriented cultures, politeness requires a person with less power or education to treat a person with more power with increased deference, and the person with more power should expect increased deference and treat subordinates with polite benevolence.

In either the independent or interdependent framework, persons with less power are expected to communicate respect, although they may do so in different ways. Independent persons may use more formal language, direct eye contact, and frank communication. Interdependent persons may use a soft voice, downcast eyes, and indirect, inexplicit language to avoid saying anything that may offend the other person.

In contrast, in both independent and interdependent cultures that have low power/distance, individuals with more power can interact with others who have less power and treat them as equals. An individual can expect to be accepted in most social groups because membership is not based on power differences. Individuals from an independent, low power/distance culture expect direct, explicit communication, persisting until the other participant understands or acknowledges their point or view.

Implicit or indirect language is used as a polite way to communicate a direction and show respect for a person’s autonomy. In contrast, persons from an interdependent, low power/distance culture use inclusive, indirect communication to avoid communication of strong opinions that might cause conflict or disagreement and explicit, direct language to communicate in ambiguous or risk-laden contexts (performance of tasks) where loss of face is imminent.

Any individual may be different from the majority of persons in the mainstream culture, and variations of these cultural constructs may occur relevant to gender, situations, or relationships. For example, individuals from an independent, low power/distance culture, such as the United States, can also have high power/distance tendencies, such as acting as authoritarian parents at home. These individuals may be uncertain about how to interact with older, more economically stable adults and may avoid interactions with them, but they may demonstrate an independent communication style with their peers and express their opinions freely with them. These same individuals may demonstrate interdependent, weak uncertainty/avoidance characteristics with a neighbourhood group of young parents by sharing personal and intimate details of their

concerns and worries and by supporting and helping other families when in need. To effectively and successfully work with clients and families who are culturally and linguistically diverse, professionals must understand these cultural constructs and the impact they have on the communication styles of the persons with whom they interact. Cultural communication styles that are familiar to the families should be used to assess optimal performance and to bridge communication differences during intervention.

Cultural values guide communication goals and behaviours. Cultural perspectives also affect how individuals view themselves and how they want to be viewed by others. During the course of a conversation, individuals try to balance their presentations of themselves, their expectations of how they should communicate and how others should communicate to them, and the level of involvement they should have with the other participants in an interaction. Cultural perspective is communicated throughout an interaction involving the words, rules, and intentions of each participant. Cultural constructs guide each person in his or her decision making, plans for the future, and interactions with others. These constructs also guide individuals in judging the behaviours and communication of others. Knowledge of these differences will help professionals understand the motivations and perspectives of their clients.

Clinical Implications

The world in which we live is increasingly diverse, and cross-cultural interactions are becoming the norm. Unless all professionals are aware of, and ultimately have an understanding of, cultural differences in communication, all cross-cultural communicative interactions are at risk for causing misunderstanding and possible conflict. Professionals working with children and families from diverse backgrounds must have an understanding of the many ways culture influences communication development, responsibility relationships, interpersonal interactions, and risk management. This knowledge will assist professionals in more accurate and appropriate assessment and intervention and in understanding how these constructs affect the client's and the clinician's interpersonal communication interactions. If professionals do not have this knowledge and understanding, they run the risk of alienating themselves from their clients and families and failing to provide appropriate services.

Parents and clients may reject assessments or interventions that do not fit their value systems. For example, Turkish families removed their children from a preschool programme because the parents felt their children were becoming too independent. In addition, families or clients may modify interventions to fit their beliefs, or they may change doctors, professionals, or schools.

Consequently, interventions may not achieve the intended goals. Professionals who have received training from a European or American perspective may have intentions that reflect a mainstream perspective of independence, weak uncertainty/avoidance, and low power/distance. These values may conflict with families who have interdependent, strong uncertainty/avoidance, and high power/distance values.

Professionals must think about the hidden values that their interventions may promote and try to apply interventions that support the families' values.

Assessment

The professional is well advised to begin to research the particular culture and the hypothesized cultural construct before the assessment to plan for adaptations based on the accepted communicative interaction style of the client. The professional should interview each client and family prior to an assessment to determine the cultural constructs of this particular client and family regarding communication styles, parenting values and practices, education, child learning, and disability. The ethnographic interview style is highly recommended as a viable method for gathering cultural information.

The interview can include open-ended questions about each client's or family's goals and expectations, as well as routines and lifestyle. The professional can use this information to help determine a general idea of the client's and family's cultural communication style during different daily activities and to identify the cultural values and beliefs associated with communication. The professional then can plan accordingly for assessment contexts. For example, if the client exhibits interdependent, high power/distance, strong uncertainty/avoidance cultural values, the assessment might be planned around conversations with a same-age, same-gender peer.

During the assessment, care must be taken to conduct the assessment in culturally congruent ways and to interpret the client's performance within a cultural context. For example, vocabulary acquisition differences have been documented for individuals learning English as a second language.

Professionals should measure vocabulary comprehension in both English and the client's native language and add them together for a more accurate measure of semantic knowledge. Differences in word-learning experiences and test-taking strategies also influence performance on assessments. Process-based assessments, such as fast-mapping and dynamic assessment, measure the strategies and rate of learning that children demonstrate on novel tasks and stimuli.

Mediation may be provided in culturally appropriate ways, such as using explicit directives and explanation as to the importance and purpose of the tasks. This culturally adapted mediation may help bridge the gap for children who have different knowledge and experience bases.

Thus, process-based assessments may provide more accurate measures of language-learning ability than standardized assessments. Professionals need to be aware of these differences and use measures that do not penalize performance because of different knowledge and experience bases.

Pragmatic differences are often misinterpreted. Professionals must observe cultural interactions and ask questions of cultural members to learn appropriate politeness rules. Individuals may respond differently in different contexts based on expected communication patterns.

Before the assessment, the professional should observe the individual in multiple contexts with multiple communication partners, because children may display varying communication abilities in different contexts. For example, children from interdependent, high power/distance cultures value quiet, respectful behaviour when communicating with adults, which may be interpreted as being non-verbal. These children may avoid talking, asking questions, or stating their opinions in front of adults.

They may use more directives and few questions when imitating adult communication styles and roles while playing with peers. In addition, some children may be unfamiliar with the context of testing and may not be socialized to take risks by guessing.

Hwa-Froelich et al. found that some Asian children refused to respond when they were uncertain of the expected response. Care must be taken to observe these children in different contexts with different communication partners instead of falsely labeling these children as delayed or disordered.

Intervention

Intervention also needs to be adapted in culturally appropriate ways. Professionals must make considerations as to activities that would promote the highest involvement for the client, as well as methods to include the family in culturally appropriate ways. In high power/distance cultures, professionals need to know the proper form of address when talking to adult clients or parents. Always address an older or more educated person from a high power/distance culture with Mister, Madame, or Miss.

When their professional title is known, use Doctor, Professor, or another appropriate title. In Asian cultures, often the surname precedes the given name, as in Hurl You Qing. Thus the professional should address an individual with the proper title paired with the surname: Mr. Hurl. In one reported instance, a Chinese man discontinued therapy with a Caucasian clinician because she addressed him by his first name instead of using a more formal address.

For some clients from a strong uncertainty/avoidance culture, communication strategies and appropriate interpersonal relationships need to be considered. Using explicit directions and imitation of adult-modeled correct responses would reduce the client's uncertainty and increase the likelihood of responses.

At the same time, parents with a high power/distance construct may more easily accept the use of an older sibling to practice exercises with the client at home because the parents may believe it is inappropriate for them to work with the child or that they do not have the training or education to work with their child at home. For children who have a collective or interdependent construct, working together with their peers or older siblings may be the optimal context for intervention.

Specific interventions for culturally and linguistically diverse clients have not been researched extensively. Most of the recommended practices for working with these clients come from the literature on teaching English as a second language. For example, Roseberry-McKibben recommended strategies for teaching English vocabulary and

phonological awareness skills using a Thematic Redundance Approach, which uses repetition and multiple exposures of stimuli as a strategy for language learning.

Roseberry-McKibben also parallels her intervention process to follow the early stages of second-language acquisition. Some additional helpful resources include *Communication Disorders in Multicultural Populations* by Dolores E. Battle and *Developing Cross-Cultural Competence* by Eleanor W. Lynch and Marci J. Hanson. The authors of both books describe the historical influences of specific cultures and how cultural differences in beliefs and values may affect assessment and intervention for these populations.

Both books contain adaptations, strategies, and interaction suggestions. The reader should be aware that these resources are not recipes for assessment, intervention, or interaction practices. Neither book addresses all cultures or languages. Although some cultures may have a few similarities, such as the indirect eye gaze demonstrated by the Chinese, Japanese, and Vietnamese, similar behaviours do not mean all Asian members and their behaviours will be the same.

Cultural and individual variations due to gender, context, or social roles must be considered. More research is needed to provide evidence of effective intervention strategies for individuals who are culturally and linguistically diverse and have language-learning disorders. Vigil and Hwa-Froelich (this issue) discuss case examples of effective intervention strategies.

Model of Language-Based Communication Zones

In this section, we present our model for describing the different patterns of international business communication based on the languages the communicators speak and their levels of language competence. The logic of the current model centers on how the language competency matches of prospective communicators determine whether and which communication zones will be activated and on the channels, interaction patterns, and communicator adjustments in the activated zones. Beamer explained this process by stating, “transmission by itself is not international business communication, but the conscious perception of signals at the receiver’s end is essential for communication to have taken place”. So, when both sides of the dyad, in their roles as receivers, find a linking language where they can recognize the signals sent within their perceptual fields or schema, the conditions for establishing communication zones are satisfied. Communicators are confronted with different problems and challenges in eight language-based zones and consequently must adjust their communication strategies and tactics to fit the zone in which they are interacting. In creating these language-based zones, interactants identify prospective communication partners with whom they have the possibility of exchanging information. At the same time, and during the course of their interactions, these interactants determine and modify the nature and style of their discourse.

In our earlier article describing the communication patterns in multinational firms, we focused on "the expatriates who initiate the communication process and the response

of local personnel to these initiations". Consequently, this model was one sided in that it traced communication by and to the expatriates and ignored messages originated by their communication partners (local Chinese personnel). By specifying the interactive nature of the communication process, we now define a language-based communication zone as the possible communication channels available to prospective interactants given their language competence.

This redefinition makes our current model bi-directional and dynamic by explicitly acknowledging that all interactants in the communication transaction have the potential to send and receive messages in a continuing process. To make our model more comprehensive, we have not only reconstituted the zones of the earlier model but have also identified three additional Different-Language Zones as well as two Same-Language Zones where the interactants speak the same native language.

In our current framework, the ability to compose, perceive, and understand messages (language competency match) of prospective interactants establish enabling factors for formation of the different zones. According to their relative capabilities to exchange information in a specific language environment, we distinguish among full bilinguals, partial bilinguals, unilinguals, and first-language speakers in these environments. These designations are constrained by context; for example, a speaker could be a bilingual in an absolute sense (*e.g.*, know English and French), but only unilingual in certain contexts (*e.g.*, when communicating with a unilingual Chinese person). With any communication partner, full bilinguals have equivalent linguistic abilities in their first and second languages and can handle the requirements of both professional and personal conversations.

Partial bilinguals have sufficient control of the language structure and vocabulary of the second language to handle professional discussions in one or more specialized fields in addition to social conversations. Unilinguals are individuals who cannot speak or understand enough speech acts of the second language in use to fulfill the complete communication process in a communication environment even though some of these individuals might be able to use the second language to encode greetings, ordinary social expressions, and simple questions in their daily encounters. Finally, we are using the term first-language speakers to designate interactants who use the same native language when communicating.

Within the Different-Language Zones, we distinguish between parallel and non-parallel categories because differing communication dynamics are triggered in these zones. In parallel zones, interactants have equivalent language proficiencies, and thus they begin the interaction and the process of adjusting to their communication partner from equivalent (parallel) language proficiency positions. In the parallel zones, three patterns are identified: Zone One communication (interaction between unilinguals who cannot speak each other's language), Zone Two communication (interaction between partial bilinguals who can somewhat speak each other's language), and Zone Three communication (interaction between full bilinguals).

In non-parallel zones, the interactants begin from unequal (non-parallel) language proficiency positions, which sets off contrasting patterns of language adjustments as higher proficiency communicators may have to decide whether to accommodate towards their lower proficiency communication partners. Non-parallel zones are also classified into three patterns: Zone Three-One (interaction between full bilinguals and unilinguals), Zone Three-Two (interaction between full bilinguals and partial bilinguals), and Zone Two-One (interaction between partial bilinguals and unilinguals).

When interactants in Different-Language Zones cannot find a linking language or choose not to communicate directly, they will then need a language link-pin," or translator, in order to form a communication zone. Link-pin communication channels arise in the zones when prospective communicators do not possess the requisite language competencies to exchange information directly or when they choose to communicate through intermediaries for other reasons. Link-pin channels can be used either in immediate or non-simultaneous communication. In non-simultaneous communication, messages may pass through one or more intermediaries before being translated into a second language by a language link-pin at a language crossover point.

Unilinguals must communicate through link-pin channels for all but simple and symbolic messages. Partial bilinguals must utilize link-pin channels for complicated messages and interactive message exchange but can negotiate some direct channels that correspond to their language proficiency levels. Full bilinguals also may use link-pin channels for a variety of reasons that are independent of language proficiency constraints. For example, they may wish to monitor the conversations of intermediaries in immediate communication or maintain the position of outsiders in cultural environments. As we will show, the use of link-pins can have a significant effect on the communication process and results.

Within the Same-Language Zones we distinguish between intracultural communication (Zone A) and intercultural communication (Zone A-B). Interactions in English between Americans or Australians are examples of intracultural communication within the same country culture (Zone A) whereas interactions in English among Americans and Australians are examples of intercultural communication representing the cultures of two countries (Zone A-B).

We include Zone A, between first-language speakers in the same culture, to reflect that these conversations are part of the communication network in international business communication. For example, a discussion between two Americans in Taiwan on how to market a product in Taiwan is certainly part of international business communication. While we have included the Same-Language Zones to make our model complete, we concentrate on the Different-Language Zones in this chapter, as an extensive literature already describes communication patterns existing in Same-Language Zones.

Communication zones can form for one period of time in the same language environment or over time in different language environments. To illustrate the process of zone formation at one period of time (*i.e.*, who is included and who is left out), we

describe a three-sided communication episode. Two Chinese engineers and a French engineer were looking together at the drawing on a computer screen in Zhuhai, China, figuring out how to arrange the machine rows in a factory under construction.

In this episode three communication zones could be formed among these interactants. The Chinese engineers could speak to each other in Chinese (Zone A). One of the Chinese engineers was fully bilingual (English was his second language) so this individual was able to communicate in English with the fluent English-speaking French engineer (Zone Three). The second Chinese engineer (a unilingual Chinese speaker) and the French engineer (a unilingual English speaker in this language proficiency match) could only interact by passing messages through their bilingual Chinese colleague who served as their link-pin (Zone One).

The fact that the French engineer spoke French is not relevant in this language environment; he was not a bilingual according to our context-based definition. In this episode the bilingual Chinese can understand the total conversation, whereas the unilingual French engineer can comprehend only the English language part and unilingual Chinese the Chinese language part of the dialogues.

Different zones can form over time in different language environments as an individual encounters potential communication partners with varying language competencies. In these language environments, international business communicators experience different language proficiency matches, and these differences in turn activate differing communication dynamics and adjustment patterns.

For example, a unilingual English speaker can enter multiple zones with interactants of varying language competencies while travelling from an English-speaking country (*e.g.*, England) to non-native English-speaking countries where people possess varying English-language proficiency levels (*e.g.*, high in Holland, much lower in France). In Holland this native-English speaking traveller may be able to conduct all professional affairs in English and only be excluded from Dutch personal conversations (Zone Three-One). However, in France, this individual may have to communicate through link-pins in both professional and personal discussions (Zone One).

In both of these language environments, this English-only international traveller is potentially excluded from native-language conversations and may, to varying degrees, experience the sensation of isolation or exclusion. By choosing certain communication strategies and practices that are associated with Zone Three-One (Holland) and Zone One (France), this individual can make the communications in both countries more effective. It follows, therefore, that language competencies provide the primary background enabling conditions for zone formation and influence the interaction patterns within the communication zones.

In the communication environments where the data for this study were collected, Japanese and Chinese were the dominant modes of communication. In these language environments, English served as the major linking language. Chinese and Japanese personnel possessed varying second-language English proficiency, ranging from mid-

to upper-level managers who were fully bilingual to workers with limited English-speaking abilities. In general, of the four basic language skills; the majority of Chinese or Japanese personnel had much better receiving skills of listening and reading than the sending skills of speaking and writing. However, a sufficient number of the Chinese or Japanese respondents had adequate second-language proficiency in English to render the use of translators unnecessary. Given the language proficiency mix and the information requirements, the communicators formed and interacted in all eight communication zones.

Zone Communication Dynamics

In this section we concentrate on the communication dynamics and interaction processes in the Different-Language Zones. We recognize that individuals require both language and cultural competence to communicate effectively, and that these two are closely related. Language competencies place communicators in particular communication zones, but cultural awareness and competence are required for them to become effective communicators in these zones. In effect, language competencies allow communicators to enter and interact within zones, while cultural competence determines the effectiveness of communicating within the zones.

However, detailed explanation of cultural influences is beyond the scope of our analysis. Our goal is primarily to point out the different communication dynamics that are stimulated when multiple languages are introduced into the communication process, and only secondarily to show that cultural issues are raised as well.

To analyse these dynamics, we draw on the main premise from communication accommodation theory (CAT), a framework that has been successfully used for over a decade to describe and analyse the interaction patterns of interlocutors in interpersonal communication. CAT is based on the assumption that speakers and listeners mutually modify their linguistic and/or paralinguistic behaviours to become more similar to (convergence) or different from (divergence) their interactional partners. Convergence strategies signal the interactants' positive attitudes towards each other, such as increasing attractiveness and approval or showing solidarity, whereas divergence strategies accentuate differences between interactants.

Besides convergence and divergence, interactants may continue to use their own styles (maintenance) without reference to their communication partner's cues, perhaps as a deliberate reaction to partner's particular strategies. In our research we have found that the size and direction of accommodations in the different language-based zones can be heavily influenced by the initial language proficiency positions of the interlocutors and by the differing exposures (cultural, temporal, and spatial) available to the interactants while the zones remain activated. Besides assessing accommodation through CAT, our analysis of the different zones also takes into account likely communication risks, potential information loss and distortion, the channels used to carry information, and the power and interpersonal relationships of interactants.

We first examine parallel zones, as the interactions in these zones most clearly reflect how varying levels of language proficiency impact communication dynamics in the respective zones. In parallel zones, prospective interactants begin the adjustment process from equivalent language proficiency positions. We then look at the patterns in non-parallel zones where communicators carry over their fundamental communication behaviours, proficiencies and communication tendencies but in addition must adjust to speakers having either higher or lower language proficiency. We lastly look at group communication where communicators move among zones to achieve their communication objectives.

MULTIPLE ZONES IN GROUP COMMUNICATION

When prospective communicators meet in spontaneous and informal groups, group meetings, and conferences, multiple zones can be activated. The communication dynamics in these situations can be mutually influential and significantly different from those in an isolated person-to-person dyad interaction. Multiple and related communication zones may be formed as needed so that higher proficiency interactants do not have to engage in language simplification strategies when communicating with their interlocutors.

Higher proficiency speakers can serve as language link-pins in Zone One channels in order to convey complicated messages between lower proficiency interactants, while communicators in non-parallel zones can directly exchange less complicated messages that fit the language proficiencies of these interactants. Lower language proficient group members with subject expertise and decision-making authority can take an active part in the deliberation process by interacting through their link-pin colleagues. Consequently, in a group setting, effective communication is a function of matching the total language and communication competencies of communicators and their potential for sharing information with the information-processing and decision-making authority needs of the communication situation.

In group communication, in particular, interactants may have to switch among zones when interacting with individuals possessing varying language competency levels. Unilinguals, and to a lesser extent partial bilinguals, may experience isolation as they are excluded from the main conversation flow. In these situations, full bilinguals can exercise cultural sensitivity by stepping forward and initiating Zone Three-One or Zone Three-Two communication. In the process, bilinguals or partial bilinguals can join the general conversation and become integrated within the overall communication flow. If such initiations are resisted, sensitive full bilinguals can appoint themselves language link-pins and summarize and communicate the essence of the general conversation to the unilinguals or partial bilinguals in private or separate conversations.

To illustrate the dynamics and the adjustment patterns within and across related language zones and among interactants of varying language competence in group

communication, we present and analyse an hour-long business meeting that we observed in Tokyo, the headquarters of a Japanese multinational firm. The attendees were a Japanese divisional manager of the Japanese firm, a Taiwanese regional manager of a Taiwanese multinational, and a Taiwanese country manager of the Taiwanese multinational who was stationed in Japan.

The meeting participants met in the office of the Japanese divisional manager in Tokyo. The overall purpose of the meeting was to build on and cement the supplier (Taiwanese firm)-customer (Japanese firm) relationship of the two companies and to identify possibilities for incorporating the Taiwanese firm's products into the manufacturing process or as components in the consumer products of the Japanese firm. Focusing on the present and future product line at the Osaka plant, the interactants exchanged information that could guide the product and the technology development activities of both firms (intermediate and long-run consequence) and identified potential products and order quantities for the upcoming year (short-run consequence).

The Japanese divisional manager, only recently promoted from the Osaka plant, was thoroughly familiar with the product development and manufacturing processes and procedures at this plant. The Taiwanese regional manager, who was stationed in Taiwan but on a business trip to Japan, possessed up-to-date information on the Taiwanese firm's present and potential future products. The Taiwanese country manager (stationed in Japan) was knowledgeable of the current product line but not of the latest technological developments or research thrusts. He, however, could provide information on import procedures and logistics that would be required to plan delivery schedules. As such each meeting participant brought a different perspective and information base to the meeting.

The Japanese divisional manager and the Taiwanese regional manager initiated the meeting in the direct channels of Zone One (Japanese) and Zone Three-Two (English). Combining his token Japanese and intermediate English, the Taiwanese regional manager presented a gift and thanked the Japanese divisional manager for the Japanese sake that the Japanese divisional manager had previously given to him. In this social exchange discussing present and past gifts, the Taiwanese regional manager began the interaction with a Japanese greeting and injected a few token Japanese statements during the conversation, while the Japanese divisional manager made a language accommodation by simplifying and slowing his English language speech acts. In the successful communication exchange, the interactants engaged in a social ritual that further solidified their personal relationship without jeopardising the subject context.

The conversation next turned to the exchange of business and technical information. It was at this point that a link-pin channel emerged, as one of the interactants did not have adequate English language competency to handle the conversation requirements of this exchange. During this phase of the meeting, the interactants reverted to their different native languages (Zone One), using the Taiwanese country manager as a link-pin in order to explore possible short- and long-term uses for the Taiwanese firm's

present and future products at the Osaka plant. As a link-pin, the Taiwanese country manager accurately translated the messages initiated by the two primary communicators and added information relating to import procedures and logistics. (Within this link-pin channel, two sub-zones were activated: Zone Three-One, in which the link-pin conversed with the Japanese divisional manager in Japanese, and Zone A, in which the link-pin conversed with his superior, the Taiwanese regional manager, in Chinese.)

During this portion of the meeting, the participants chose their communication partners so that they did not have to accommodate or adjust to the language proficiency levels of the other interlocutors. They switched among the three languages (Chinese, Japanese, and English) and formed communication zones to meet the subject demands of the conversation flow. There were breaks in the overall conversation when the two Taiwanese held private conversations in Chinese (Zone A) and the Japanese divisional manager and the Taiwanese country manager conversed in Japanese (Zone Three-One).

Towards the close of the meeting, the discussion progressed to a decision-making phase. All the interactants became engaged in closely spaced direct and link-pin channels as they identified departments and managers at the Osaka plant who might be possible users of the Taiwanese firm's products. On the basis of these decisions, the Japanese divisional manager phoned the company's plant manager in Osaka (Zone A), setting up a follow-up visit to the plant. Following the meeting, the Taiwanese regional manager conveyed to us that the meeting had accomplished multiple purposes. In particular, it not only strengthened an important relationship but also provided background information for future product development (of long-term importance) and access to key personnel at the Osaka plant as well as background information to better prepare for the follow-up plant visit meetings (of immediate importance).

In this communication situation, the participants as a whole possessed sufficient language proficiency to meet all the communication requirements despite individual language deficiencies. Consequently, given the right language competency mix among group members and regardless of individual language competency, participants can contribute to group deliberations without changing their basic communication behaviour. However, for such a language pattern to emerge, bilinguals must effectively perform link-pin roles to engage lower proficiency speakers and the more proficient bilinguals need to be willing to accommodate somewhat to the less proficient.

Limitations

The research that led to our model had several limitations. First, the research methods we used (case study, objectifying interview technique, and observation) did not allow for quantitative measurements of the adjustments made by communicators in communication zones and the effectiveness of communication patterns. In effect, we only described and estimated the accommodations and adjustments within the parameters of CAT and did not quantitatively measure the movement among communicators.

We did not audio- or video-tape dialogs to serve as a basis for later transcription and observation and were therefore forced to rely on our notes to estimate the size and movement of communication accommodations. Second, we used non-representative and convenient samples in collecting data in only four countries or territories having similar cultures (Hong Kong, Japan, Taiwan, and southern coastal Mainland China).

Consequently, we present our data as illustrations that fit into our overall framework and do not assert that the examples prove the universality of this framework. Third, we concentrated on oral communication, largely ignored written communication, and did not specify the media used in the communication process. The impact of written communication and communication media are not fully integrated into our case study examples of communication patterns. Finally, we did not provide an extensive analysis of how cultural variables affect international business communication patterns. We only speculate on how cultural variables influence communication patterns and dynamics in some of our examples.

Implications

Recognizing the critical importance of language competency in international business, we offer our reconceived and expanded model of language-based communication zones as a mechanism and framework to distinguish among and organize international business communication into recognizable language-based categories (labelled zones).

The model can be useful in guiding both communication practice and research. International business communicators can apply the model to improve communication practice by first identifying the communication zones in which they will be communicating and then implementing communication strategies and practices that fit these zones. International business communication researchers can use the model to investigate and better describe the varying communication patterns evoked in language-based communication zones.

Against the background of the findings and the limitations of our research, we suggest that further study be conducted to better define and elaborate the language and cultural variables in the communication zones that are associated with efficient intercultural communication. These studies can compare the communication dynamics in the respective zones and how communicators form zones and develop effective communication strategies within the activated zones. We suggest identifying international communicators by their respective zones, the media they use to exchange messages, and the topics of communication covered in order to better analyse and explain the communication strategies and actions of such communicators. Further delineation of categories within the communication zones (*i.e.*, sub-categories), especially with reference to full bilinguals, could also serve as a basis for improved understanding of intercultural business communication in advanced and special topic communication behaviours.

Zone communication could be further examined within the framework of CAT to systematically measure and describe the accommodation movements. Special focus could be placed on language link-pins as they manage the dual adaptation process of translating messages across languages in Zone One channels. Other studies could focus on organizational communication and how language matches affect the communication and information flows. Comparative studies could be directed towards measuring the information-carrying capacities of different zones for various subject areas. In the process, sources of information loss and distortion could be identified and measured. Also, we recommend addressing whether there are personal costs associated with bilinguals' continually switching among languages and unilinguals' being isolated in communication systems.

By integrating our suggested framework into future models of international business communication, researchers can more accurately and thoroughly investigate the dynamic, bidirectional, multiply-influenced, and transformational properties of international business communication. In turn, international business communicators, who find themselves in an increasingly complex and diverse global environment, can use our framework and future research findings that fit our framework to guide their communication practice and improve communication effectiveness.

PARALLEL COMMUNICATION ZONES

In parallel zones, interactants begin the adjustment process from equivalent language proficiency levels, whether they are unilinguals (Zone One), partial bilinguals (Zone Two), or full bilinguals (Zone Three). From these parallel language competency positions, the interactants must first choose the language they are going to use in the communication zones they establish. This choice sets off differing patterns of communication dynamics including channels (whether direct or link-pin), duration of zones (how long the zones are active), and the nature of the interactions (the communication practices and adjustment movements of the participants). Zone One communication occurs when international business communicators possess limited linguistic competencies that do not match those of their communication partners. Because they do not share a linking language, only simple messages can be communicated directly, and complicated messages must be passed through language link-pin channels. In our earlier article, we explained how English-speaking expatriates used selective and generalized communication patterns in communicating with local Chinese-speaking staff.

In the selective communication pattern expatriates used simplified English to disseminate ideas and information in organized meetings. In generalized communication patterns, expatriates and the Chinese staff used ritualized English, token Chinese, and non-verbal communication to exchange symbolic messages. These direct Zone One information exchanges can support and clarify the substantive information exchanges that are carried through link-pin channels.

Zone One link-pin communication can emerge (a) in immediate and single-link communication situations where translator link-pins stand visibly between the primary communicators or (b) in non-simultaneous multiple-link situations where the link-pin function is less visible and the interaction is integrated over time in the scalar (vertical) and workflow (horizontal) processes of organizational and inter-organizational communication. Through interactions in their native languages, the primary communicators develop direct or indirect relationships with their language link-pins and indirect relationships with their communication partners. In multiple-link channels, primary communicators may send messages through several native-language channels before translation at language crossover points. Standing at the intersection of languages in Zone One communication channels, bilingual language link-pins are central to Zone One communication. They carry the responsibility of providing accurate translation of primary communicators' messages and therefore connecting the two language worlds to create a successful communication channel.

In our 1996 study, we gave an example of the organizational communication that took place as a U.S. consumer products company with a branch in Taiwan introduced a brand of ice cream to Taiwan. To provide an overview of the programme, an American expatriate at the vice president level invited key Chinese marketing and production personnel to a general meeting. By speaking in English, he was communicating not only directly to the meeting attendees but also through them in their roles as language link-pins to non-English speaking local Chinese personnel in the production and marketing departments. In framing his presentation, the expatriate developed his message for both these direct and indirect listeners/receivers. In this example, the language crossover point (from English to Chinese) was immediate in that the meeting attendees switched the message from English to Chinese and then conveyed the translated message to other local Chinese personnel in their follow-up conversations with those not present at the meeting.

In other Zone One communication, the language crossover point may be delayed as the message is passed through additional links in the original language before being translated in a subsequent link. For example, in a Zone One channel, the CEO of a Taiwanese multinational reviewed the performance of the company's Japanese unit with Chinese members of the executive committee (primary senders). These conversations were conducted in Mandarin. The essences of these discussions were then conveyed to the bilingual country manager of the firm's Japanese unit. In turn, the bilingual country manager translated the message into Japanese, added context, and communicated the headquarters messages to the Japanese staff (primary receivers).

In Zone One communication, therefore, primary communicators are either easily identifiable in immediate or single-link communication where both primary communicators and their link-pins are physically present or known, or less visible and potentially camouflaged in non-simultaneous workflow organizational communication and in inter-organizational communication.

In the latter case, the separated primary communicators are less obvious and can be falsely identified. In addition, multiple translation processes transpire as messages travel through the successive links in non-simultaneous Zone One communication channels. In each Zone One channel, the intermediary communicators move towards (convergence), away from (divergence), or maintain their positions with their receivers (maintenance). In cases where the cultural context levels of primary communicators differ, the link-pin intermediaries face the challenge of translating messages not only to suit acceptable context levels in each language but also to maintain the accuracy of the original messages. In workflow (horizontal) and scalar (vertical) organizational communication, the link-pin communicators are intermixing messages that are based on their job functions and responsibilities with the messages created by the primary communicators.

In this dual communication process of originating and passing on messages, the translated link-pin messages may become hidden as they are integrated into organizational and inter-organizational communication channels. We have found Mintzberg's framework helpful in conceptualizing link-pin organizational communication through scalar channels. In these vertical communication channels, managers in the strategic apex and personnel in the operating core are the primary communicators in a communication dyad, with technostructure and middle-line managers standing between them as their intermediaries and link-pin translators. In the twoway communication flow, the middle line managers merge the messages of the strategic apex and operating core with those they originate as they communicate upward and downward in the scalar communication channels. In translating and integrating messages, the middle-line managers may filter the initial message content. As senders, primary communicators may compose messages without realizing the possible consequences of distortions being introduced into the translation process. As receivers, primary communicators may not be able to separate those messages of their communication partners from those originated by link-pins. In the process, messages may be converted between languages and become translated to fit a different cultural context level (either higher or lower). In this situation, the possibility of translation error increases in the form of distortions, contradictory additions, and deletions.

Primary communicators can facilitate Zone One communication by learning about the potential target communication environment and context so as to better encode and decode messages. Skilled primary communicators develop the ability to distinguish their communication partners and to frame messages to them rather than to intermediaries. For general messages, Zone One communicators can send written messages directly to groups of primary receivers in either a translated, non-translated/ original language, or dual language format and, in the process, supplement and complement the scalar and vertical link-pin channels.

By communicating directly to groups of receivers, primary communicators face only one language translation, thereby reducing the possible translation errors as compared

to scalar and workflow channels. By avoiding multiple sequential translations whenever possible, senders can help ensure that their communication intent is maintained and separated from the ideas of others and also establish direct contact with their communication partners.

Primary communicators in Zone One should also recognize that linkpin choice and language crossover points can affect the translation process of Zone One communication channels. In our earlier article, we discussed primary, secretary, and secondary link-pin patterns and how to choose and effectively use them.

Linkpins who better understand the rationale underlying original messages can pass on more accurately translated messages and facilitate the communication process. Assigning culturally sensitive and proficient individuals at language crossover points consequently ensures a more accurate translation process.

We now provide two illustrations of how executives made use of linkpins to communicate successfully in Zone One, the first regarding link-pin competencies and the second illustrating the significance of the place or point in the link-pin channel where messages are translated across languages (crossover points). In the first case, the choice of two secretary link-pins influenced organizational effectiveness.

In a British-Taiwanese joint venture, the Taiwanese secretary to the English-speaking CEO was assigned on the basis of seniority and not on ability in English-language communication skills. Perhaps contrary to expectations, this policy not only positively affected the careers of two Taiwanese women and their CEO superiors but also resulted in better overall organizational communication. The first woman, an older secretary with seniority and organizational connections, was chosen over a younger candidate with superior language skills but who lacked the “*guanxi*” or relationships that are built up over time and fall within the context of a Confucian hierarchy. This senior secretary gave the CEO access to and provided understanding of the communication and decision-making process in Taiwan even though she exhibited less proficient English language skills as demonstrated in expatriate and home office correspondence.

In this situation, the first expatriate CEO accommodated to his Taiwanese secretary. This accommodation altered his previous working style developed in work assignments where he had interacted with full bilingual English-speaking secretaries. According to the interviewed expatriate, he had to make a special point in their interpersonal relations of respecting the personal face of the secretary by not pointing out grammatical errors and awkward English paragraph and sentence construction in English language reports.

He accommodated his language to her by making a consistent and constant effort to speak as precisely and simply as possible, to avoid slang and colloquial expressions, and to provide illustrations and examples. Because his extra care and diligence created the framework for the translation of his English language messages, the older Chinese secretary could make more accurate translations of his English messages into written Chinese and oral Mandarin. His personal style also became less direct and confrontational than in previous assignments; to quote the Taiwanese secretary, “he was the ideal Chinese

gentleman.” In turn, the expatriate was rewarded by being kept informed of day-to-day business operations in the joint venture and also of general developments in Taiwan.

The younger secretary waited her turn in the organization promotion cycle and was duly appointed as assistant to a new CEO as the older secretary retired. In this case, it was she who moved towards the direct style of her expatriate superior. Having obtained an advanced degree in the United States, she possessed excellent oral and written English communication skills. She was also comfortable working in an English-speaking environment and interacting with Westerners. Consequently, she interacted well with overseas personnel, and her patience allowed her to build up “guanxi” or relationship connections and establish her position in the informal Confucian hierarchy.

In this second case, the expatriate CEO had a positive adjustment period as the fully bilingual and culturally aware administrative link-pin served as a buffer and eased his entry into his new position. He did not have to make adjustments in his communication and managerial behaviour, as the full bilingual link-pin sensed his communication and managerial preferences and moved to accommodate her boss. In our judgement both link-pin choices reflected sound decision making that took into account the organization and cultural realities existing at different time periods, although the second situation created less stress for the CEO and better conditions for effective communication and managerial performance.

To illustrate the contrasting influence of differing language/culture crossover points on organizational communication, we present an example of headquarters-subsidaries communication in a Taiwanese multinational company. In this firm, Japanese and French locals originally headed their respective country’s branch organizations.

Communication problems arose between the headquarters staff and these country managers, with the most common resolution being that the headquarters deferred to the country managers. Being separated geographically and lacking country-specific knowledge, the headquarters staff did not have the confidence initially to challenge these country managers on a variety of issues. Over time, the Vice President spent a greater amount of time monitoring the affairs in these countries and came to distrust these managers.

In both Japan and France, these local managers were eventually replaced with Taiwanese citizens after evidence of inappropriate managerial behaviour (in the judgement of the Taiwanese) was discovered. In making these changes, the Taiwanese headquarters moved the language crossover point down one organizational level. The headquarters staff could now communicate in Chinese (Zone A) with the respective country managers in Japan and France. Also, the Vice President could devote his time and efforts to more strategic issues since trusted Taiwanese regional managers were placed in charge of these subsidiaries.

The language crossover points and new language competency matches altered the communication and organizational patterns of both the subsidiaries and the Taiwanese company overall. Appointed country managers possessed intermediate English and had

limited Japanese and French communication abilities; thus, English was introduced into the language environments, although Japanese and French continued as the major/dominant languages in these country organizations.

The language mix now dictated the establishment of Different-Language Zones in the Japanese and French country organizations. Because the newly appointed country managers could not assume language translation responsibilities, full bilingual link-pins (English and either Japanese or French) assumed the Chief-of-Staff role in both countries and reported directly to the Taiwanese nationals who now headed these country organizations.

These bilingual Japanese and French nationals who assumed Chief-of-Staff roles became the critical links in the vertical communication channels. An additional link was therefore introduced into the vertical (scalar) communication chain, but the message content traveling upward through the vertical channels became more trustworthy. As this example shows, primary communicators need to choose the most strategic location of link-pins, given the organization's particular structure and needs.

Zone Two communication involves partial bilinguals in a language environment where the interactants can handle some but not all of the communication requirements. Consequently, Zone Two consists of direct channels where the interactants have the requisite competency to exchange information directly and link-pin channels for those subject areas where they lack these language competencies.

In addition, either interactant, as in Zone Three, can choose to open link-pin channels for language-unrelated reasons. There are two contrasting Zone Two language proficiency matches that evoke differing communication dynamics and accommodation processes.

In one, the interactants share partial fluency in each other's native language but do not speak a common third language. In this case, interlocutors must choose to communicate in a language that represents the first language of one of the interactants. This language competency match creates a language superiority position in favour of the native language speaker. Direct communication among interactants is constrained and determined by the language proficiency of the second-language speaker.

To widen the direct channel in the zone, either the native-language speaker must accommodate by employing language simplification strategies or the other speaker must be aided by a link-pin. After the language to be used is chosen, the zone dynamics resemble those in Zone Three-Two where both interactants have access to both languages and can inject words and expressions from both languages in their exchanges, but the more proficient speaker at any point has the advantage.

The other pattern in Zone Two communication is where the interactants speak in a third language. In this situation partial bilinguals usually can master linguistic requirements within a routinized communication environment and in specialized topic areas even though they do not possess adequate vocabulary to communicate outside their specialized topic areas or handle the demands of spontaneous conversations. Partial bilinguals interactively engage in a process of defining their zone boundaries and finding

understandable communication practices. In the process, they establish shared vocabulary and an understandable communication style to compensate for their language deficiencies. These interactants can, therefore, communicate directly when it is desirable or possible and can supplement the directly exchanged messages through link-pin channels and written communication for more advanced topics.

To illustrate the nature and scope of Zone Two communication in a third language, we present contrasting examples of a partial bilingual Taiwanese product manager interacting in English with her partial bilingual German and French customers respectively. In both cases, the purpose of the discussions (conducted in English) was to finalize the overall electrical design of a cooking grill that the Taiwanese home-appliance supplier had contracted to manufacture for the German and French customers. As it turned out, the vocabulary required for the discussions with the French customer was far more complicated than for the conversations with the German customer.

In discussions with the German customer, the interlocutors were able to quickly exchange understandable information and reach agreement so that the Taiwanese supplier could proceed to build a prototype model of the grill. In contrast, the language requirements for the discussion with the French customer were more difficult as the prototype model had to conform with the French legal requirements for electrical circuits which are different from and more complex than those required by Germany and other northern European countries.

In France, the circuitry for grills requires specifications to carry higher and uneven electricity flows and falls under regulations different from those governing other small kitchen and cooking appliances. The Taiwanese product manager had negotiated previous sub-contracting agreements for small appliances with the same French engineers and designers, and the parties had developed an effective Zone Two channel. This time, the language proficiency required for specifying the grill prototype fell outside these Zone Two boundaries. Although the partial bilinguals were unable to finalize the prototype arrangements, they were able to communicate well enough to pinpoint the source of their communication difficulties and agree on the initial steps towards developing a workable prototype: namely, to purchase a competitor's product, take the product to Taiwan for disassembly and analysis, and thereby learn the required circuitry for French grills.

Armed with this knowledge and an expanded vocabulary from this interaction and related discussion, the partial bilingual Taiwanese product manager was then able to follow up and finalize the prototype design with the partial bilingual French engineers and designers. Ultimately, the Zone Two channel width was widened as the partial bilingual Taiwanese product manager acquired the necessary vocabulary and communication skills to discuss the required circuitry, and as the French accommodated by giving more detailed explanations, slowing down the conversations, and checking from time to time to see if the Taiwanese product manager understood them correctly.

In successful Zone Two third language communication, the adjustment process is typically mutually converging as the interlocutors move towards the establishment of a common vocabulary and an understandable communication style. In addition, under certain circumstances, Zone Two interactants seek to increase the proportion of messages exchanged directly and thereby expand the outer boundaries of the communication zone.

We found that this strategy occurs when dependable link-pins are unavailable or are too costly. In other situations, Zone Two communicators have link-pins and are reluctant to communicate in Zone Two without them. By using these link-pins, Zone Two communicators are engaging in uncertainty reduction behaviour and avoiding the possibility of introducing mistakes into the communication process.

For example, we found that upper-level partial-bilingual Taiwanese engineers made extensive use of mixing technical English into their Chinese deliberations and even preferred to speak English in some professional communication situations. In Zone Two communication channels, individuals representing authority and subject expertise are most likely to engage directly in the international business communication process.

In general, successful Zone Two communication is facilitated in situations where partial bilinguals face predictable and routinized language environments and can draw on shared contextual background and supporting written documents. Even though Zone Two dialogs may sound disjointed and fragmented, the exchanged messages are often still capable of meeting the information requirements of the communicators.

In addition, the language deficiencies of partial bilinguals in Zone Two communication can be advantageous under some conditions. In such circumstances, partial bilingual communicators may in fact be more effective as their encoded blunt or “rude” messages are more likely to be tolerated and attributed to their language deficiencies than would be the case for full bilinguals or native speakers. In addition, the language deficiencies of partial bilinguals may reduce superfluous conversations and the possibility of making offending comments. Silence and pauses in conversation are normal and accepted parts of Zone Two communication. Partial bilinguals in Zone Two can strategically use breaks in the conversation flow—even in situations where they could process information faster and send messages sooner. In essence, periods of silence provide the two-fold advantage of reducing the possibility of introducing unproductive and destructive comments into conversations and providing breaks for reflection, digestion of ideas, and planning of communication strategy and tactics. Consistent with the norms of Chinese and Japanese language patterns, partial bilinguals in our sample did not experience anxiety with the breaks in the conversations, but we suspect that Westerners might have discomfort in the same situations.

Zone Three Communication involves full bilinguals in a language environment where they can, theoretically, handle all communication directly without relying on link-pins or engaging in language simplification strategies and tactics. Although Zone Three interactants may possess fluent second-language proficiency, their language use can

still create communication errors and misunderstandings as words, expressions, and concepts in one culture may take on different meanings and emotional connotations in other cultures even though a dictionary definition is the same for both interlocutors. For instance, Berry described how abstract concepts that may carry ideological meanings, such as “liberty” or “freedom,” are interpreted differently in different European countries.

If both bilinguals choose to speak their native languages, link-pin channels also can emerge in Zone Three. These link-pin channels are frequently activated in ceremonial activities, international negotiations, and diplomatic relations. In immediate link-pin channels, bilinguals can use their listening skills to monitor the conversations of their link-pin or primary communication partners. In non-simultaneous communication, bilinguals have the ability to initiate direct communication with the intermediaries in which they can directly seek information and clarify translation errors.

There are two contrasting Zone Three language proficiency starting points that evoke differing communication dynamics and accommodation processes. In one, the communicators share full fluency in each other’s language but do not speak a common third language. In this case, interlocutors must choose to communicate in a language that represents the first language of one of the interactants.

During the interactive process, the interlocutors have access to and can draw on the vocabularies of both languages. Code-switching and -mixing may well become an integral part of the communication process as communicators can draw on the language that best expresses the concept. Reflecting this pattern, Hong Kong Chinese interjected English words and phrases into their Cantonese dialogs in social and business contexts and used English in business conversations with non-Cantonese bilinguals.

Du-Babcock and Babcock explored the consequences of language choice by bilingual expatriates (fluent in either English or Chinese) in Taiwan. By selecting English, these bilingual expatriates remained outsiders and so were less likely to be sanctioned for not following the country’s customs and social norms. By choosing Chinese, however, they became insiders and developed closer interpersonal relationships with Chinese colleagues and had more access to “soft” information. Consequently, language choice has implications for the nature of the relationships that Zone Three interactants develop with their communication partners and for being included or excluded in the grapevine communication channels.

The other starting point for Zone Three communication channels is where the interactants cannot speak each other’s first language and therefore exchange messages in a third or linking language. In these Zone Three communication channels, the bilinguals probably know they are each communicating in a second language, and this recognition establishes a basis for successful Zone Three communication.

Enlightened Zone Three interlocutors can therefore practise simultaneous and converging accommodation by establishing mutually acceptable communication norms and practices (a shared culture). Our findings indicate that bilinguals in a third language are less bound by cultural restrictions than native-language speakers and can thus

establish their own norms and practices as they interactively determine the basis of their interaction process.

To illustrate, we present contrasting examples of successful and unsuccessful Zone Three communication. Successful Zone Three communication emerged between bilingual American and Taiwanese engineers who worked on two projects together (one in the United States and the other in Taiwan) and who shared common or linking languages; namely, English and Mandarin. The language and cultural environment in which they interacted, together with the subject matter, mutually influenced their choice of language, interactive style, and message content.

In general, when in the United States, these bilinguals chose English, and when in Taiwan, they communicated in both Mandarin and English. The language choice in Taiwan depended on whether the conversations related to their professional work or to private and interpersonal matters. When discussing professional subjects, these bilinguals gravitated towards English, while for private and interpersonal topics, these same individuals communicated in Mandarin. Code-mixing of English and Chinese phrases and expressions was also a prominent feature of both professional and personal conversations.

These full bilinguals also uniformly accommodated towards low-context communication in objective professional topic areas and high-context communication in interpersonal and private topics, especially when conversations were related to face-threatening issues. During this accommodation, the American bilingual did not move as far towards high-context communication as that displayed by his Chinese communication partner.

In interpreting these tendencies, we argue that exposure to both:

- Low-context communication by both parties while pursuing advanced degrees in the United States
- High-context communication in the formative years for the Chinese and during his tenure in Taiwan for the American strongly impacted and laid the foundation for the accommodation strategies of these two bilinguals.

By combining communication in two languages and using both high- and low-context communication styles, these full bilinguals successfully defined and interacted in Zone Three. Unsuccessful Zone Three communication occurred between two full bilinguals, a Japanese country manager and his direct superior, a Taiwanese VP, who shared English as their linking language. In this example, these full bilinguals formed and maintained an interactive Zone Three communication in English over a three-year period.

Communication failures developed despite frequent interactions (both written and oral) and extremely high-level English-language competency by both individuals. In fact, we speculate that the English language competencies of both parties camouflaged a spiral of escalating communication conflicts and failed to disclose their differing approaches to developing marketing strategy in Japan. These interlocutors employed high-context communication styles, but different ones; the Japanese bilingual reflected

the cultural practices of large Japanese companies in that he desired to emulate the growth strategies practiced in these companies, while the Chinese bilingual reflected the “no frills-low cost” strategies of the Chinese family firm.

Thus, despite having high-context communication styles, their background contexts (Japanese and Chinese) were very different as revealed by their differing priorities on how to spend company funds. It was this difference, we feel, that contributed to unsuccessful Zone Three communication. Specifically, the Japanese interlocutor advocated buying the latest and most advanced model in office equipment, whereas the Taiwanese VP wanted to buy the most inexpensive products so long as they could perform the desired function. He saw the Japanese manager as needlessly wasting money on glamorous but unnecessarily expensive equipment, whereas the Japanese manager saw having the latest products as one way to establish his company’s reputation and a basis for future sales and profit growth.

To ensure successful communication, these bilinguals needed to lower the context of their interactions in order to explore and resolve their fundamental differences, but their high-context behavioural styles prevented them from constructively engaging in a context-lowering process. These two bilinguals did not explore and classify the factors in their differing content that lead to their misunderstandings.

This example of unsuccessful Zone Three communication highlights the difficulty of high-context to high-context communication in the absence of cultural competence to bring down the context-level in intercultural business communication. In this example we speculate that the vastly different Chinese and Japanese contextual frameworks provided different and conflicting behavioural assumptions and highlighted the fact that they did not share the same background context even though they shared high-context communication styles. Higher language competency, therefore, does not necessarily lead to improved communication in Zone Three, and in fact may contribute to communication conflict and error.

Non-Parallel Communication Zones

Non-parallel communication zones are communication channels where interactants do not share a first language and start the interaction process from unequal second-language proficiency positions. Differing communication dynamics are activated in Zone Three-One, Zone Three-Two, and Zone Two-One as interactants make varying adjustments in their communication behaviours in order to account for unequal language competency matches. Within their communication exchanges, the interactants also must negotiate the proportion of direct and link-pin channels in the zones they establish.

Zone Three-One communication involves fluent second-language speakers and their unilingual communication partners. Thus, the language proficiency match of Zone Three-One is such that the interactants can only communicate directly in the unilingual’s native language. In these situations, supplemental link-pin channels or language level adjustments are not necessary. In other situations full bilinguals may insist on

communicating in their native language, thereby requiring the creation of link-pin channels in Zone Three-One communication. They may do so in order to gain a strategic advantage, on account of social customs, or where special or technical language is required. By using this language choice strategy, full bilinguals assume a superior language position over their interactants in that they can understand the total conversation (now taking place in two languages), whereas unilingual interactants can understand only that portion spoken in their native language.

To illustrate Zone Three-One link-pin channels, we present the conversations of a Hong Kong-based consultant who represented global clients in forming joint ventures with Mainland China firms whose representatives spoke only Mandarin. Fluent in both Mandarin and his native Cantonese, he possessed the language competency to speak Mandarin in all conversations but chose to speak in his native Cantonese and let his associate act as his link-pin translator during the business negotiations. By employing this language strategy, the bilingual consultant could better maintain his energy and attention levels during the discussions, monitor the reactions of the Mainland Chinese negotiators, and integrate his linkpin associate into the communication strategy. In associated social conversations, he communicated in Mandarin and therefore developed a social bond with the Mainland Chinese negotiators. As with Zone Three communication, the native-like language competency of the full bilingual communicator may mask cultural differences among Zone Three-One interactants. In this case, communication effectiveness will be partly a function of the cultural awareness and competency of the interactants. If culturally aware and competent individuals form and occupy Zone Three-One channels, they can take into account possible cultural differences and engage in convergence strategies. Alternatively, if either or both interactants make false cultural attributions, their culturally based communication errors are introduced into the zone.

To guard against miscommunication, unilinguals need to take into consideration the fact that full bilinguals are communicating in a second language. Native-like second-language proficiency and knowledge of local affairs and customs by full bilinguals may mask and hide possible cultural differences with their unilingual interlocutors. With the unconscious expectation that bilinguals will automatically comprehend local and colloquial speech acts, unaware unilinguals may introduce unintelligible messages into Zone Three-One channels and thereby provide the basis for miscommunication if the bilinguals “guess” at the meanings incorrectly. This kind of miscommunication error is more likely in the early stages of interaction before bilinguals make language accommodations. Of greater consequence, ethnocentric unilinguals may compound communication errors by incorrectly attributing their cultural communication norms and habits to their bilingual partners who represent cultures with differing communication norms.

Unlike Zone Three communication, however, non-parallel Zone Three-One communication transactions often require more accommodation by one of the parties—the full bilingual. Because unilingual communicators may not have adequate intercultural

communication competency to participate in mutual accommodation, they may insist on one-way accommodation by their bilingual communication partners and place the entire burden of cultural understanding on the full bilinguals.

Additionally, Zone Three-One accommodation may require some minor language adjustments to the local language customs when a bilingual enters a new language environment, such as when a full bilingual expatriate takes on a new assignment. In this situation, perceptive bilinguals accommodate by introducing these speech acts into their speech repertoire as they become familiarized and learn the local dialect.

For their part, perceptive unilingual communicators may also modify their speech acts by reducing or eliminating slang, colloquial expressions, or local idioms that the full bilingual is unlikely to be familiar with, and by utilizing examples and frames of reference that are related to the backgrounds of their communication partners.

The general accommodation pattern of unilinguals in Zone Three-One who show initial movement and modify their speech acts is a gradual shift back towards their normal and original speech patterns if full bilinguals introduce local speech customs into their speech acts. Over time, the overall accommodation pattern tendency is that the full bilingual interactants converge towards their unilingual communication partners and in the process, Zone Three-One gradually comes to resemble the communication dynamics of Zone A. In this process, bilinguals are integrated into the local speech community and move from their initial position of outsiders to that of insiders.

However, there may not be complete closure in the accommodation process. Full bilinguals who retain distinct accents are more likely to be recognized as outsiders and to be engaged in distinctive zones. Accents automatically send signals that alert the unilingual communication partners to continue or maintain a less than fully accommodated pattern in the communication zone and to encode messages containing less local talk.

Full bilinguals, as part of their communication strategy, may actually make it a point to demonstrate they are communicating in a second language. By doing so, they may lower the expectations of their communication partners, reduce the use of local expressions, maintain an outsider position, and gain a subtle language superiority position. For example, in cases we observed, Chinese speakers apologized for their poor English and Dutch speakers asked for help in recalling English words as a way of reminding their communication partners that they were not first-language speakers.

Of the non-parallel zones, Zone Three-One requires the smallest language adjustment between the interactants, yet possibly has the greatest potential for culturally based miscommunication. Because the interactants in this zone possess the language capacity to interact directly, supplemental link-pin intermediaries usually do not exist to mediate cultural differences, potential conflicts, and face-threatening communication situations.

Successful communication is therefore largely a function of the interactants recognizing and accommodating differences arising from contrasting cultural communication styles. Zone Three-Two involves full bilingual and partial bilingual

interactants. There are two contrasting Zone Three-Two language proficiency matches that evoke differing communication dynamics and accommodation processes. One situation is where both bilingual interactants do not speak each other's native language, but communicate in a third or linking language (English in most cases). For example, bilingual Japanese and Chinese interactants who possess partial and full English-language competencies and do not speak each other's native language comprise this pattern. Another situation is where both bilinguals speak each other's native language and must choose between languages. The language used in these two alternative Zone Three-Two channels alters the language competency match of the interactants and thereby sets off different communication and adjustment patterns.

In Zone Three-Two situations where interactants use a third or linking language (always English in our sample), full bilinguals tend to accommodate towards their partial bilingual interactants by simplifying their language to establish the zone boundaries and understandable communication practices within the zone. Partial bilinguals can facilitate this adaptation process by engaging in clarification and question-asking behaviours.

In our sample of communicators representing face cultures, we found a general pattern of under-adaptation where communication errors were introduced because receivers did not acknowledge their lack of understanding of message content due to the fear of potential loss of face from admitting language proficiency deficiencies. Consequently, this under-adaptation pattern was a function of the communication behaviour of both the higher and lower proficiency interactants.

The higher proficient interactants assumed the sent messages were received, and the lower proficient speakers confirmed this impression. For important messages, partial bilinguals sought clarification from peers (Zone A) to complete the communication transaction rather than from their full bilingual communication partners. This communication behaviour provided faulty and incomplete feedback in Zone Three-Two as well as creating additional zones (Zone A) and possible new sources of miscommunication.

In Zone Three-Two channels where the interactants use the native language of one of the interactants, the communication and adjustment patterns are a function of their language choice. If the interactions take place in the native language of the partial bilingual, the language proficiency match gives the zone participants equivalent language proficiency positions. If the interactions take place in the first language of the full bilingual and the second language of the partial bilingual, the language proficiency match is such that the full bilingual takes the superior language proficiency position. Consequently, these language match differentials stimulate differing communication dynamics in these alternative Zone-Three situations.

The most likely scenario is for the interactants to choose the native language of the partial bilingual where information sharing possibilities are larger. Through this choice, all communication can theoretically take place directly without resorting to the creation

of a supporting link-pin channel. In this case, the communication dynamics activated resemble those of a Three-One Zone, with the exception that the interactants have access to the vocabularies and communication styles of both languages. Consequently, code-mixing and -switching becomes an available and integral part of this communication pattern. That is, both bilingual interactants will inject words and phrases from each other's native language during the course of discussion, especially in social contexts.

In our sample, we observed both Zone Three-Two patterns. In the situation where the communication took place in a linking language, the interactants had no option but to use this third language in both business-related and social conversations. In contrast, in the situation where both interactants speak each other's native language (but to different extents), business-related conversations concentrated in the native language of the partial bilingual while social conversations took place in both languages. By being able to join social conversations, partial bilinguals increased their exposure to their business colleagues and to business-related information included in social conversations.

Zone Two-One channels—that is, exchanges between partial bilinguals and unilinguals—have such information-processing limitations that link-pin channels are often the main carriers of detailed and vocabulary-rich information in this zone. When the interactants do attempt to communicate directly in this zone, they usually use the language of the unilingual interactants. In a position of language proficiency superiority, the unilinguals may have to use a language simplification strategy as they encode messages in order to communicate successfully in interactive conversations. Partial bilinguals, of course, tend towards language simplification as well, given their limited proficiency, though they can achieve greater complexity in those cases where they prepare in advance and send these prepared statements in one-way communication.

Direct and link-pin channels can become mutually supportive in the development of effective Zone Two-One communication. Immediate direct communication provides face-to-face contact between primary communicators and thereby provides the basis for the development and nurturing of personal relationships between these individuals. These direct channels also can carry linguistically less complex business and technical information, especially where unilinguals choose appropriate language simplification strategies and partial bilinguals deliver prepared statements and are not subjected to time pressure. Through direct interaction the primary communicators receive unfiltered information and can observe facial cues and body postures. In our 1996 (Du-Babcock and Babcock) article, we discussed how partial bilinguals (then called Zone Two expatriate) could develop effective communication strategies that combined direct and link-pin (indirect) channels.

In our sample, partial bilingual expatriate managers used both direct and immediate link-pin channels to better communicate with local staff. For example, a partial bilingual general manager of a hotel in China whose native language was English used her own

intermediate Chinese as well as her bilingual Chinese assistant when conducting meetings with her Chinese staff. By doing so, she established direct contact with the operatives in various departments and was able to communicate prepared statements in her own words without translation. In the meeting we observed, she emphasized the importance of providing world-class service in all operations of the hotel. She also had appropriate subordinate managers (language link-pins) present at these meetings to amplify her overall statements, provide implementation details, answer questions, and develop action plans. By listening to the subsequent conversations, she also gathered information to use for further improvement of the hotel's operations.

Interview Skills

INTRODUCTION

If you're confident when going on a job interview or asking for a raise or a promotion, you're one of the lucky ones. Most people have an anxious time before, during and after their interviews: anxiety about how they'll do; anxiety about how they're doing; anxiety about how they did. Interview skills training will help you get to grips with your anxiety so you can actually enjoy the interview process and present yourself in the best possible light. When you can present yourself with ease, you have a much higher chance of getting the job you want.

Once you understand the dynamics of an interview situation (that odd posturing and positioning that can happen in interviews) then you can actually be more 'in charge' of the interview arena despite the possible power dynamics. Whatever is said about having only one chance to make a good first impression at your interview, we believe you have any number of chances to make a good impression even if you fluff the first one. Learning how to present yourself at an interview, how to dress appropriately, how to tell a good story about yourself and give relevant examples instead of reciting your CV, will all make you a far more interesting and accessible interviewee. Always remember interviewing is hard on everyone: they want it to be you! They want their search to be over when you walk in the door. It's up to you to make sure that happens. Interview Skills is one area where a little training can go an awfully long way, and Interview Skills Training is the kind that can last a lifetime.

KINDS OF INTERVIEWS

- *Patterned Interviews*: Highly structured, systematic. Same questions asked to each candidate in order to compare. Often used for initial screening of applicants. Frequently used during on-campus interviews.
- *Non-Directive Interviews*: Interviewer asks open-ended questions to allow applicant to express himself/herself in a unique way. “Tell me something about yourself.”
- *Stress Interviews*: Used to analyse the candidate’s ability to handle stressful situations. Used to weed out people who react defensively or are easily injured.
- *Group or Panel Interviews*: Instead of one individual, a committee comprised of managers, coworkers or people from other departments examine a candidate.
- *Behavioural interviews*: An interviewer asks you to describe situations such as “Tell me about a situation where you had a conflict with your family member. How did you handle it?” The recruiter will use the rule- past performance predicts future behaviour. If you acted irrationally in the past, the recruiter will assume that you will elicit that behaviour in the future. The recruiter will not move to the next question until you have specifically described a situation.

In order to understand better, let us divide the total aspect of facing an interview into: before, during and after the interview.

Before the Interview

Prepare Yourself. Review your resume and be ready to describe skills, abilities and past work experience.

Be ready to describe critical skills that you have such as intellectual competence, leadership, team/personal skills, flexibility, communication, motivation, administrative and technical skills. Research the company regarding its size, its competition, and prospects for future and recent developments.

With knowledge of the company, you can demonstrate how you will be a good fit with the organization. Also, it will insure a more productive interview.

Get company literature—through web sites, library, company brochures, etc. Ask friends or family members to ask you potential interview questions. Dress for Success; remember that you can also be judged by your appearance. Make a good first impression. Dress neatly and conservatively. The suggested attire for an interview is as follows:

Women - suit, dress, saree, pantsuit; avoid flashy colours, avoid ill-fitting or tight clothing, wear conservative hemlines. Keep jewelry, makeup, and cologne to a minimum. Hair should be clean, neatly styled and away from the face.

Men — conservative suit, blazer/jacket and tie, dress slacks, etc. Keep jewelry, aftershave, and cologne to a minimum. Some employers prefer cleanly shaven face.

During the Interview

Make a good initial impression. Dress for success, have a firm handshake and make eye contact. Arrive about 15 minutes early. If necessary, drive to the actual interview site prior to the interview to determine the time you would take to reach the venue.

Busy recruiters have turned away tardy interviewees. Conduct yourself professionally. You may meet your interviewer in the hallway or on the elevator. Be courteous and pleasant to all whom you meet. Answer questions thoroughly with rich examples. Elaborate on questions and give specific details.

If an employer asks, “Did you like your subjects in college?” Don’t answer simply “yes”. Rather, state what subjects of the curriculum you enjoyed and why.

Examine your body language. Sit squarely and maintain good posture. At times, leaning forward will demonstrate enthusiasm and interest. Watch for crossed arms, or head in downward position. You do not want to lead others to think that you are closed, aloof or distant. Maintain good eye contact. Have questions prepared. Bring specific questions to ask the employer. Be sure not to ask those questions that the employer has already answered for you during the interview.

It will appear as if you were not listening. Asking questions demonstrates interest in the position as well as in the company. Demonstrate enthusiasm. An excellent way to demonstrate enthusiasm is by making a well-researched presentation. Make your questions reflect your knowledge of the employer. At the interview, let them know you are interested. Some employers state that after an interview, they don’t truly know if the candidate is interested.

Hopefully, you have demonstrated interest and enthusiasm throughout the interview, but do not be afraid to state in closing that you are very interested in the position. Before you leave, did you cover everything? Often, in closing, an employer might ask if there were skills, qualities or accomplishments that were not discussed. Take this time to tell the interviewer about relevant skills that were not covered. Seize this opportunity even if everything was covered. Emphasize a particular point again. Thank the interviewer. Always thank the interviewer for his/her time whether or not you want that particular position.

After the Interview

Send a thank you note. Send a short personal note to the interviewer. Be sure it is typed on conservative bond paper as if you were sending a business letter. Take time to thank the interviewer and emphasize a specific point about the interview, if desired.

You can further demonstrate your uniqueness and seriousness about the position with this simple act of courtesy. Evaluate your performance after the interview.

Take time to jot down the parts of the interview where you demonstrated competence such as “I described my past work experience well.” Also, jot down those parts that were of difficulty to you such as “I stumbled on the question what are your weaknesses.”

These strengths on your list will help build your confidence for future interviews and the difficulties demonstrate areas where you may need more practice.

Job Interviews

An interview for a job is usually to evaluate your personality. Questions are asked about yourself, your goals, your interests, and reasons for considering the job/professional etc and there could be questions on your professional background and awareness of the organization and its activities. Generally Interviewers focus on your introduction, why do you think you deserve the job, why do you wish to work here, what are the skills, strengths and weaknesses you bring to the job and your employability skills in addition to desirable attributes which are job specific. You may also have to take part in Group Discussion with topics that may be current but may also be in the form of case studies or role play.

You may also have to appear for a Psychometric Test that measures the mental skills, aptitudes and personality traits of people. The first and foremost thing to keep in mind while going for an interview is that: you should be on time, be formally dressed and well groomed.

Mistakes to Avoid

First Impression is the Last Impression:

Make the First Impression with following Tips:

- *Dress for the Job or Company:* It is important to look professional and well-groomed. It depends on the company culture and the position you are seeking. If possible, call to find out about the company dress code.
- *Practice Good Communication:* It is all about demonstrating confidence: standing straight, making eye contact and connecting with a good, firm handshake. That first impression can be a great beginning to your interview.
- *Be a Good Listener:* Your interviewer will be giving you information, either directly or indirectly. If you are not hearing it, you are missing a major opportunity. Good communication skills include listening and letting the person know you heard what was said. Observe your interviewer, and match that style and pace.
- *Don't Talk Too Much:* Telling the interviewer more than he needs to know could be a fatal mistake. Prepare for the interview by reading through the job posting, matching your skills with the position's requirements and relating only that information.
- *Don't Be Too Familiar:* Interview is not about making a new friend. Your level of familiarity should mimic the interviewer's demeanor. It is important to bring energy and enthusiasm to the interview and to ask questions, but do not overstep your place as a candidate looking for a job.

- *Use Appropriate Language:* You should use professional language during the interview. Be aware of any inappropriate slang words or references to age, race, religion, politics or sexual orientation.
- *Don't Be overconfident:* Attitude plays a key role in your interview success. There is a fine balance between confidence, professionalism and modesty. Even if you're putting on a performance to demonstrate your ability, overconfidence is bad.
- *Take Care while Answering the Questions:* When an interviewer asks for an example of a time when you did something, he is seeking a sample of your past behaviour. If you fail to relate a specific example, you not only don't answer the question, but you also miss an opportunity to prove your ability and talk about your skills.
- *Do not Hesitate to Ask Questions:* It is extremely important to ask questions to demonstrate an interest in what goes on in the company. Asking questions also gives you the opportunity to find out if this is the right place for you. The best questions come from listening to what is asked during the interview and asking for additional information.
- *Don't Appear Desperate:* Be: cool, calm and confident. You know you can do the job; make sure the interviewer believes you can, too.

Tough Interview Question- "Tell Me About Yourself"

Tough Interview Question- "Why Should We Hire You?"

What Salary Range Are You Seeking?

- Tell me something about yourself: Do not just repeat what you have showed in your resume. Be ready with your unique answer.
- Why have you selected to join us? OR Why do you want to work here?: Have a research done about the company/organization

Give just one or two reasons why you are interested. You can add these points:

1. Company's reputation.
2. Desire to join the specific field of interest.

E.g. I always longed to work with a company. I am familiar and whose products I have used and trusted.

- *Why are you leaving your current job?:* Try to give two or three reasons for leaving. Lack of challenge, focus on the limitations etc. Point out your ambition to prove your worth confidently.
- *What is your current salary?:* Be specific on the answer. Do not hesitate to say the benefits you enjoyed in the previous job. It may be verified so never mention the benefits you have not got.
- *What Salary do you expect?:* This is a tricky question to be answered carefully. If you mention a salary that is low it shows that you are not up to the mark. If you mention too high you have ruined a chance to get a job. So the best is to ask for the salary they offer and then show your capacity, how your experience and qualification rate with what is offered.

- *Why should we take you?:* This is often the concluding Question. Be prepared with your homework and research about the company and the job position.

Understand the Purpose of the Interview

The best job interviews are respectful encounters that allow mutual discovery. It may feel as if the employer has all the power—after all, it's the employer who will decide whether to offer you the job. Ultimately, however, it is you, who hold the power, because it will be you who decide whether to accept the job. So interviews are just as important for you in the selection process as they are for the interviewer. Keep that power balance in mind, and it will help you stay calm, dignified, and clear thinking when tricky questions are asked.

Put yourself in the interviewer's shoes, and assume that he or she is slightly uncomfortable with the process as well. Few people relish meeting someone new and peppering them with probing questions. So the interviewer may feel tired of the same old questions and the same pat rehearsed answers.

Remember also that the interviewer was once sitting in your seat, applying for his or her job within the company and worrying about the same surprise questions that you are. The resulting empathy will help break down the barriers of tension and perceived judgementalism. Prepare yourself in advance by identifying the topic areas that might be the trickiest for you. Then think carefully about how you might answer them.

Areas of Questioning that Could Pose a Challenge for you

- Your experience and management skills.
- Your opinion about industry or professional trends.
- The reasons why you are leaving your current job.
- Financial or other value of your past achievements.
- Your work habits.
- Your salary expectations.
- Your expectations for the future.
- Your personality and relationship skills or problems.

Expect and guess which of these areas might be discussed and formulate in advance the general thoughts and responses you want to express. But don't rehearse answers to anticipated questions word for word.

Never Lie

Many interviewers have number of years of experience in recruiting, so they are more experienced at hearing the answers that candidates think they want to hear than you are at delivering them. Be candid and clear, and use lengthy answers only when you see that demonstrating your strategic thought process in detail will add valuable information. When in doubt, try to understand the business reason behind the question.

Ask questions of your own, certain questions like: “What do you mean?” or “Could you rephrase that question?” are perfectly acceptable queries in any civilized conversation. Job interviews are no different.

The interview is usually the last step of the hiring process and probably the most important. It offers both you and the employer the opportunity to meet one another, exchange information and come to tentative ceases about working together. Depending on the organization, you may have to face one or several interviews. Write out a list of your requirements [salary, job tasks, hours, travel, etc]. Before appearing for the interview you should extensively research the company you have applied to. This creates a good impression and shows your eagerness to work with the organization. It is also important to research issues, trends, problems and buzz words of the industry. Such information can be obtained from people in the field, company literature, trade journals, newsletters, business magazines and directories.

Day of the Interview

The day of your interview, wake up and know you are getting a job today. While you're sitting in the waiting area, take in the office environment. Always greet the interviewer with a firm handshake. It conveys confidence and respect. While responding, be upfront and honest. Don't rush your responses. Take a moment to think about them first. Ensure that you know the name and designation of each individual you are to meet. Know exactly how to get to the organization and arrive at least ten minutes before the interview. Dress to project an image of confidence and success; your total appearance should be appropriate for the job.

Carry additional materials to the interview such as copies of your resume, a list of references, samples of your work, or your degree and certificates. Before you are actually asked to enter the room where the interview is being conducted, do not get impatient or restless; wait for your turn. When you are asked to proceed, knock on the door and wait to be called into the room. Greet all the people inside the room. Do not sit down unless you are asked to. Thank the interviewer/s after sitting down. Have an open attitude that is sensitive to the interviewer's style.

You should think positively. (If you don't think you are the best candidate for the job, how can you hope to convince the employer you are?) If you are not able to answer some question, admit it; do not try to fudge an answer. Listen to the question carefully; let the interviewer complete his question before you reply. If you have not heard the question clearly ask the interviewer to repeat the question. If you have any questions or clarifications, you can ask the interviewer after the interview is complete.

Body Language

Pay attention to your body language and non-verbal communication. Your body language should exude confidence, sincerity and high energy levels. Your words and

gestures must be in agreement. Maintain eye contact with the interviewer while answering or listening to the interviewer. Do not look at your shoes or the floor. Do not fidget in your seat or fiddle with your tie etc. Keep your hands relaxed and use them to animate or express interest. Maintain an erect posture; do not slouch in the chair. Keep your facial expression pleasant, it can add to or deduct sincerity from your words. Keep your voice tone firm, well modulated and relaxed. Be aware of the things you do when nervous and try to keep them under check.

Strengths and Weakness

Each individual has within him certain enviable characteristics, which if polished to the hilt can lead him to unknown heights. It is just that we are not aware of our own potential. These achievements have to be in according with the expectation of the organization. The strengths about which you are going to talk should be portrayed in a realistic kind of way. They should not sound far-fetched, as if they have been picked up from some book merely to sound impressive. Normally, the questions, which are floated, to enquire about the strengths of an individual are followed up with the weaknesses question. When a question on the candidate's weakness is asked one must remember that the interviewer is trying to find out whether you can really maintain your cool when asked to unearth skeletons from the cupboard.

Logical Thinking

A very positive thing about interviews is that the interviewer does not know anything about the candidate except for the information from the records that are available with him. So his queries are going to focus around whatever information is provided by the candidate himself. However, the nature of the information should be logical.

Think before you even try to make an attempt to answer any query. There are bound to be interviewers on the panel, sharp and quick enough to catch you if you make an illogical move in answering a question. Do not take any question too casually. At the same time, don't spend too much time on thinking about your reply, as you would be wasting your interviewer's time, which is not appreciable.

The Stress Interview

An interview may be of an amicable nature or it may so happen that you are going to be put under constant pressure so that your reactions in such situations can be judged. One after another, questions are hurled at you, cutting short your responses or pulling them down to the basic or the most elementary level till you reach a point where due to exhaustion, lack of appropriate words or limitations of knowledge, you finally succumb to pressure. Try as hard as the interviewer might, you should not buckle under pressure.

Thank the interviewer(s) for his/her/their time and for seeing you. While leaving the room, express your enthusiasm for the job. Use the interview as a learning experience.

Take notes on what you would like to improve on after you leave the room. Send a follow-up letter to thank the interviewer, and stress points in your background that qualify you for the position.

If you are not contacted within the specified time, call to restate your interest. If you do not get the job, you may want to ask the interviewer for some constructive criticism or recommendations for future interviews. If you are consistently passed over for positions, try to identify potential problems; then seek guidance for improvement.

Team Skills

TEAM BUILDING

Team building refers to a wide range of activities, usually in a business context, for improving team performance. Team building is pursued via a variety of practices, and can range from simple bonding exercises to complex simulations and multi-day team building retreats designed to develop a team (including group assessment and group-dynamic games), usually falling somewhere in between. It generally sits within the theory and practice of organizational development, but can also be applied to sports teams, school groups, and other contexts. Team building is not to be confused with "team recreation" that consists of activities for teams that are strictly recreational. Teambuilding is an important factor in any environment, its focus is to specialize in bringing out the best in a team to ensure self development, positive communication, leadership skills and the ability to work closely together as a team to problem solve. Work environments tend to focus on individuals and personal goals, with reward and recognition singling out the achievements of individual employees. "How to create effective teams is a challenge in every organization" Team building can also refer to the process of selecting or creating a team from scratch.

- Sigmund Freud (1921, 1960) discussed a theory of group dynamic termed identification with the leader which is the foundation of group formation.
- McDougall (1920) tends to be credited for being the first team builder and suggested five different conditions needed for a high functioning group.

- Taylor (1947) discovered how group norms impact performance.
- Lewin (1945) founded the Centre for Research in Group Dynamics and laboratory studies were conducted.
- World War II brought increased research/attention to team performance.
- During the 1970s theory and methodologies were available for large-scale team building. However, work culture tended to not be supportive of teamwork and rather rewarded individual behaviour.
- From the early 1980s until 1990, the United States began to rethink business and viewed teams differently given the economics with inflation rising and significant international debt. Team-based reward systems were implemented.
- The years 1990 to present are considered the era of high-performance teams. Consulting firms developed methods and tools to help organizations with

What does a Team-Building Consultant Do?

A team-building consultant is responsible for each component of a team building intervention. A team-building consultant will likely interact with the team once, or for a limited number of times. During this relationship, the consultant will actively work to assess the team, make recommendations, and provide activities (exercises that compose a team building intervention) for the team. These responsibilities usually require a team-building consultant to write a proposal after his or her evaluation of the organization and the team, indicating how he or she would go about improving the team's performance.

Once the organization and consultant determine which recommendations to utilize (if not all), the consultant is then responsible for providing a useful intervention that will transfer back into the organizational setting. This responsibility usually requires the consultant to create a detailed plan of events, while allowing for flexibility. After the intervention has been employed, the consultant will typically evaluate the team-building programme and communicate the results to the organization. otherwise!!

Things a Team-Building Consultant Might Ask

What does your organization want to get out of the exercise? The organization should make their goals clear to a team-building consultant or facilitator. This will allow the consultant to more effectively work with the organization to find the best exercises that fit their needs.

What are the needs of the current team? Sometimes an organization will not know exactly what is wrong with a team. The team itself may have some clear ideas about what they need to improve on. Again, a consultant or facilitator will be able to assist the team better if they are able to get this kind of information. With this information, they can tailor the team building and individual exercises to best help the team.

What is the general age of the participants within the team? Some team building exercises are designed for younger groups. These exercises are not appropriate for older

groups and could cause the organization and the team members to think that team building is a waste of time. In addition, some exercises are simply beyond some individuals physical capabilities. It is important to make exercises all-inclusive, so that all individuals within the teams can participate.

Reasons for Team Building

Reasons for Team Building include:

- Improving communication
- Making the workplace more enjoyable
- Motivating a team
- Getting to know each other
- Getting everyone "onto the same page", including goal setting
- Teaching the team self-regulation strategies
- Helping participants to learn more about themselves (strengths and weaknesses)
- Identifying and utilizing the strengths of team members
- Improving team productivity
- Practicing effective collaboration with team members

What are Team Building Exercises and What is their Purpose?

Team building exercises consist of a variety of tasks designed to develop group members and their ability to work together effectively. There are many types of team building activities that range from kids games to games that involve novel complex tasks and are designed for specific needs.

There are also more complex team building exercises that are composed of multiple exercises such as ropes courses, corporate drumming and exercises that last over several days. The purpose of team building exercises is to assist teams in becoming cohesive units of individuals that can effectively work together to complete tasks.

Who can Benefit from Team Building Exercises?

Team building exercises are useful for all kinds of teams. Some exercises are designed for smaller teams, some for larger teams. Some are designed for new teams, others to focus on specific areas of an established team to be worked on. In addition to this, team building exercises also are for different age groups. In addition to this, some team building exercises are intended primarily for a specific age group. It is possible that some team building activities designed for younger teams being misused with more mature groups has contributed to the negative stigma frequently associated with team building exercises.

TYPES OF TEAM BUILDING EXERCISES

Communication Exercise

This type of team building exercise is exactly what it sounds like. Communications exercises are problem solving activities that are geared towards improving communication skills. The issues teams encounter in these exercises are solved by communicating effectively with each other.

- *Goal:* Create an activity which highlights the importance of good communication in team performance and/or potential problems with communication.

Problem Solving/Decision Making Exercise

Problem Solving/Decision making exercises focus specifically on groups working together to solve difficult problems or make complex decisions. These exercises are some of the most common as they appear to have the most direct link to what employers want their teams to be able to do.

- *Goal:* Give team a problem in which the solution is not easily apparent or requires the team to come up with a creative solution.

Planning/Adaptability Exercise

These exercises focus on aspects of planning and being adaptable to change. These are important things for teams to be able to do when they are assigned complex tasks or decisions.

- *Goal:* Show the importance of planning before implementing a solution

Trust Exercise

A trust exercise involves engaging team members in a way that will induce trust between them. They are sometimes difficult exercises to implement as there are varying degrees of trust between individuals and varying degrees of individual comfort trusting others in general.

- *Goal:* Create trust between team members

Methods for Team Building

Team building events often take participants out of their regular work context, and use the new context as an enabler of change and development - allowing team participants to get to learn more about each other in a new (non-work) context.

A good method for a team building will have 4 components:

- *Screening phase:* Aimed at finding the actual problems, topics and/or issues the team would like to deal with.

- *Analytical phase:* Data collection, exercise or any other procedure that will help to collect a good material to be used in intervention part. Data used in this part vary from very systematic (social network data or sociogram) to unsystematic data collected by experience in exercise, simulation or a game.
- *Intervention/debriefing phase:* In this phase, team members use the data from the first part to reflect on team, themselves and their role in the team. Best methods help team members to process the data/experience into an developmental action plan.
- *Follow-up phase:* Scheduled weeks after the first three phases to make sure the planned changes (action plan) actually took place.

EXAMPLE OF A TEAM BUILDING EXERCISE

Three Components of a Team Building Exercise

- *Part 1: Instructions:* This part of a team-building exercise involves introducing the participants to the instructions for the exercise.
- *Part 2: Activity:* This part of the team-building exercise is the exercise itself. This is when participants utilize the instructions and begin to participate in the actual activity.
- *Part 3: Debriefing:* This is the most important part of a team building exercise. The facilitator will close the exercise with a review of the purpose for the exercise and how the team accomplished it.

For the debriefing portion of the team building exercise using open ended questions is a tool that a team building facilitator uses to bring participants to examine what was learned. These questions have no right and wrong answer they are meant to trigger thought and insight in the team members. These questions can be used for front loading - setting up the thoughts prior to the beginning of a team building activity. These questions can also be used following an activity to reflect on the individual experience, team experience and actions plans for behavioural change within the team.

Below are examples of open ended questions that get results and inspire team work; What was the first clue that the situation was not going well? How did the chaos stop? What had to happen before you could start working towards a solution? What type of solution were you, as small teams, striving for? What are some real examples from your work lives that mirror this activity? As a team initiative, which elements of high performing teams were evident and which elements needed more emphasis? Clarity of purpose and clarity of roles are essential for team performance. How did these two factors influence performance? What similarities do you see between this and the workplace? Is there anything we want to focus our attention on in future initiatives?

How did you use your planning time? Was everyone incorporated into the planning, if not why? Those of you who did not feel part of the team what stopped you from

pushing your way in? Was a common language created? How is this like work? How can we implement our learning into the team? What strategies did the group develop to implement an effective solution? What was the consequence of change during the activity?

What strategies did the group develop to adjust to change? What recommendations does the group have for managing change at work based on the experience? How did this activity build trust? What changes have you noticed since you finished the stages? How did you overcome any anxieties? How well did you coach your partner? Using an open ended question will raise ideas and create solutions that teams never thought possible.

The methods of doing this vary widely, including:

- *Simple social activities:* To encourage team members to spend time together
- *Group bonding sessions:* Company sponsored fun activities to get to know team members (sometimes intending also to inspire creativity)
- *Personal development activities:* Individual programmes given to groups (sometimes physically challenging)
- *Team development activities:* Group-dynamic games designed to help individuals discover how they approach a problem, how the team works together, and discover better methods
- Psychological analysis of team roles, and training in how to work better together (and combinations of the above)

Team interaction involves "soft" interpersonal skills including communication, negotiation, leadership, and motivation - in contrast to technical skills directly involved with the job at hand. Depending on the type of team building, the novel tasks can encourage or specifically teach interpersonal team skills to increase team performance.

Models of Team Behaviour

Team building generally sits within the theory and practice of organizational development. The related field of team management refers to techniques, processes and tools for organizing and coordinating a team towards a common goal - as well as the inhibitors to teamwork and ways to remove, mitigate or overcome them.

Several well-known approaches to team management have come out of academic work.

- The forming-storming-norming-performing model posits four stages of new team development to reach high performance. Some team activities are designed to speed up (or improve) this process in the safe team development environment.
- Belbin Team Types can be assessed to gain insight into an individual's natural behavioural tendencies in a team context, and can be used to create and develop better functioning teams.

- Team Sociomapping is an visual approach to team process and structure modelling. This model is based on social networks approach and improves the team performance by improvement of specific cooperation ties between the people.

Team Member Qualities

Emotional stability:

- Adjustment.
- Self-esteem.

Extraversion:

- Dominance.
- Affiliation.
- Social Perceptiveness.
- Expressivity.

Openness:

- Flexibility.

Agreeableness:

- Trust.
- Cooperation.

In breaking down these dimensions, it was generalized that past research has been consistent when it mentions that emotional stability, extraversion, openness, agreeableness, and conscientiousness are all related to team effectiveness. Within extraversion, dominance was found to be a negative attribute in team members where they are not working independently and not collaborating with others. Adjustment and flexibility were noted to be important facets for team members to have where adjustment to situations is needed. Clearly for teams to be successful there has to be a balance between the personality dimensions. This provides well-roundedness for a person to bring to a team.

Organizational Development

In the organizational development context, a team may embark on a process of self-assessment to gauge its effectiveness and improve its performance. To assess itself, a team seeks feedback from group members to find out both its current strengths and weakness. To improve its current performance, feedback from the team assessment can be used to identify gaps between the desired state and the current state, and to design a gap-closure strategy. Team development can be the greater term containing this assessment and improvement actions, or as a component of organizational development.

Self-Managed Work Teams

Self-managing work teams (SMWTs) have been rising in popularity since the beginning of the 1990s. These team members are responsible for themselves. Although

more organizations are implementing SMWTs, employees have been resisting them. Three variables at the individual-level are potential reasons for resistance to SMWTs. These variables include trust, cultural values and low tolerance for change.

Managers should implement SMWTs with procedural and distributive justice. Also, managers should address concerns regarding trust, and accountability. They should provide clarity regarding who is responsible for what and how the employees' careers and opportunities for development will be affected. Managers should work to encourage employees having a positive organizational outlook.

TEAM MANAGEMENT SKILLS

So you've just got a new job as a manager or supervisor. Congratulations! Or, maybe you've just been given the task of pulling a new team together. What a challenge! Either way, whether your team exists already, or whether it's your responsibility to create it, what do you do next? This article looks at some of the key things that team managers need to do if their team is to thrive and succeed. These range from choosing the right people and deciding who does what, to communicating with, developing and motivating people. It also covers some of the most common pitfalls to be avoided.

FIRST THINGS FIRST

But before that, some definitions are useful. What is management, exactly? And how does it differ from leadership? A good starting point is the saying "Leaders do the right things, while managers do things right." What this means is that leadership involves setting direction, communicating that vision passionately to those they work with, and helping the people they lead understand and commit to that vision. Managers, on the other hand, are responsible for ensuring that the vision is implemented efficiently and successfully. Of course, these two roles overlap considerably - and what's best is when you fulfill both roles. However, the focus here is on the specific skills and responsibilities of managers, and the tools available to them.

Team Skills in Today's Time

In today's environment teams take many forms. Technology and geography lead to 'virtual teams' that might never physically meet. Projects require rapid formation of teams for a short term activity, and increasingly teamworking occurs across departments. This means that team building and team skills training are an important and recurring activity.

For many organisations, the term "team building" implies a fun activity (possibly involving mud!), in which people get out of the office and do some 'bonding'. But developing team work and team skills, and building high performing teams requires a far more comprehensive approach.

A Comprehensive Approach to Team Building

Team building for high performance requires a more comprehensive approach. Depending on where the team is, this could include learning how teams are formed, psychometric profiling of team members, communication skills, analysis of team processes, and group work on vision, mission and values.

Here is a selection of some of the skills that support effective teams:

- Understanding team processes
- Forming, storming, norming and performing
- Communication
- Goal setting
- Developing a team identity
- Developing shared vision, mission and values
- Understanding team roles
- Discovering and interpreting personal profiles
- Setting well formed outcomes
- Negotiation
- Decision making
- Giving and receiving feedback

Outcomes should include well formed teams with shared goals and values, congruent with those of both individual members and the organisation, and individuals with new transferable skills.

Find out about Away Days and Corporate Retreats

The best place to work on team building is in a different environment. We don't know whether you are just forming a team or launching a new project, have just recruited a new member, or would like better teamwork to improve the performance of your team. You could contact us now. Or you could read more about our approach to training or explore more of the site, or our resources or books or learn about facilitated workshops or team challenge.

SELF-DIRECTED WORK TEAMS

Minnesota-based 3M is among an increasing number of companies that involve employees in the daily management of their business through work teams. These teams are empowered to take corrective actions to resolve day-to-day problems. They also have direct access to information that allows them to plan, control and improve their operations. In short, employees that comprise work teams manage themselves.

Self-directed work teams represent an approach to organizational design that goes beyond quality circles or ad hoc problem-solving teams. These teams are natural work groups that work together to perform a function or produce a product or service. They not only do the work but also take on the management of that work — functions formerly

performed by supervisors and managers. This allows managers to teach, coach, develop and facilitate rather than simply direct and control.

At 3M, the movement towards self-directed work teams has been driven more by initiative and need than by corporate directive. Many of the initial efforts were in manufacturing facilities where the changing environment demanded employees operate differently in order to be competitive. Plants in Hutchinson, Minnesota; Weatherford, Oklahoma; Cynthiana, Kentucky; and Bristol, Pennsylvania, provide good examples of adaptation to self-directed work teams. Now, most of 3M's manufacturing facilities, while at different levels of empowerment and different degrees of involvement, employ a team-based approach. In 1994, 3M's new Brockville, Ontario, facility came online as the organization's first "greenfield" site. It was designed and built to operate with self-directed work teams. Many work groups in line divisions and staff groups are moving more and more into self-direction. 3M's commercial office supply division, dental products division, finance, logistics and quality management services are becoming increasingly team-based and self-directed.

A Breakthrough Approach to Designing Work

Self-directed work teams, also known as self-managing teams, represent a revolutionary approach to the way work is organized and performed. Instead of organizing work based on the traditional Taylor model — reducing a process to individual steps — work becomes restructured around whole processes.

There must be interdependence and joint responsibility for outputs if there is to be a self-directed work team. Whereas the traditional system reduces the required skill at every level of work, producing boredom in the bottom-level jobs, the new system integrates the needs of the people with the work to be done, and those closest to the jobs help design the job.

This concept — designing the work system with the full participation of the people doing the work — is contributing to productivity breakthroughs for organizations in the 1990s. Companies are redistributing power, authority and responsibility so that the people closest to the customer and the end product or result have decision-making capability.

Business Week recently reported that self-directed work teams are, on average, 30 to 50 per cent more productive than their conventional counterparts.

The following are some examples of organizations that attribute major productivity results to the advantages of self-directed work teams:

- AT &T — Increased the quality of its operator service by 12 per cent.
- Federal Express — Cut service errors by 13 per cent.
- Johnson and Johnson — Achieved inventory reductions of \$6 million.
- Shenandoah Life Insurance — Cut staffing needs, saving \$200,000 per year, while handling a 33-per cent greater volume of work.
- 3M's Hutchinson facility — Increased production gains by 300 per cent.

Advantages of Self-directed Teams

Why is this concept of self-directed teams growing? A recent survey of more than 500 organizations offers several reasons why senior line managers chose to revolutionize their approach to work.

Self-directed work teams have resulted in:

- Improved quality, productivity and service.
- Greater flexibility.
- Reduced operating costs.
- Faster response to technological change.
- Fewer, simpler job classifications.
- Better response to workers' values.
- Increased employee commitment to the organization.
- Ability to attract and retain the best people.

Challenges in Developing Self-direction

The major challenges organizations face in changing from a traditional environment to a high-involvement environment include developing the teams and fostering a culture of management support. Teams go through several stages of increasing involvement on their way to self-management. This journey can take between two and five years, and is never-ending from a learning and renewal perspective. Comprehensive training is also critical to developing effective self-directed work teams. The training for these teams must be more comprehensive than for other types of teams.

Not only must employees learn to work effectively in teams and develop skills in problem solving and decision making, they also must learn basic management skills so they can manage their own processes. Additionally, people must be cross-trained in every team member's job. Therefore, it is not uncommon for self-directed work teams to spend 20 per cent of their time in ongoing training.

Developing and Empowering the Team

The training strategy that has enabled 3M to develop high involvement in many of its businesses is the train-the-trainer approach. We train people to go back into their departments and provide teams with the knowledge and skills to manage their work process. The intent is to transfer as much of the capability as possible. It's imperative that the business units assume ownership for the process to ensure that it "takes." The training strategy builds five areas of effectiveness for managing the work process.

Teams gain hands-on experience in methods for:

- Developing a customer focus and making customer satisfaction their top priority. All teams exist for an external reason: Their outputs will be used by someone else. By focusing on the customer — whether internal or external

- the team makes sure that it retains its added value.
- Becoming aligned around a common vision and mission, and developing a clear understanding of roles and operating guidelines. The team needs to understand not only the organization's mission but also how it links to that mission. The team needs to have a good understanding of the roles of individual members within the team as well as its role with the organization.
- Building skills for working together to make decisions, plan work, resolve differences and conduct meetings. Teamwork needs to be developed. The members learn to become interdependent by building trust. They develop a sense of "we" so that they accept joint responsibility.
- Becoming empowered to improve the work to achieve the needed results. The first three areas of effectiveness are really precursors that need to be in place before the empowerment journey can begin. Since empowerment is neither abdication nor anarchy, the parameters need to be set. Then the critical empowerment needed for the team's success must be determined. When 3M first launched its effort, it tried to heap too many empowerment upon the teams too quickly. This not only frustrated the teams but also created failures. The key is to start with fewer critical empowerment and let the team become skillful at those before taking on more.
- Setting goals and solving problems for continuous improvement. The team must consciously strive to improve itself and its processes, outputs and inputs. This means equipping itself with appropriate tools and methodologies and dedicating time to use them. Continuous improvement is a responsibility of the self-directed work team.

Changing the Role of Leadership

Front-line and middle management can either enable or stifle employee involvement, empowerment and self-directed work teams. Therefore, it is important to elicit management's active support in these efforts. Special support materials as well as training are also available to facilitate the changing role of supervisors and managers. Employees need assurance about their futures. Are they being eliminated, or are their current positions being eliminated and their roles being redefined? The company must provide honest answers to employees' concerns and fears. Management also must be involved in the transition. The pragmatic, day-to-day skills in managerial functions that the team will assume currently resides in the supervisors and managers. They need to learn to guide the work group in its transition, development and empowerment.

They need to learn when to hold on and when to let go. This requires planning, training, facilitating and team-building skills. Supervisors should also learn to provide ongoing coaching support, linking the team's role with the rest of the organization. Upper management also has a vital role to play in the implementation of self-directed work teams. Senior managers need to strongly champion and sponsor the teams and the

process. This commitment must be constantly visible and ongoing. It also should be reinforced with sufficient resources, including time. Last, management must exhibit patience and tolerance because the transition will take time, and delays and mistakes will occur.

A High-involvement Work Culture

By backing self-directed work team efforts with effective training for both employees and management, 3M has developed a high-involvement work culture that contains multiskilled jobs, promotes empowerment, is customer-focused, has moved decision making to the lowest effective level and rewards group performance and continuous improvement.

This, in turn, provides 3M with a competitive advantage in the marketplace as well as in employee hiring and retention. This is not to say that the change to self-directed work teams does not involve pain and challenges — it does. Nor is it a quick fix; it takes two to five years to develop mature teams and to have the systems in place to support them. However, 3M has found that increasing employee involvement through self-directed work teams is not only a good thing to do, it is a "business thing" to do. 3M has seen teams make improvements in products, services and processes while increasing customer responsiveness and flexibility. At the same time, these teams have lowered operating costs, increased productivity and decreased cycle times. For 3M, it has been a sound business decision as well as a sound human resources decision.

Counselling Skills and Personal Development

INTRODUCTION

Personal development is at the heart of our journey as counsellors and therapists. It is the core condition of recognising ourselves and one another as human beings and not human doings. Without it we are detached from the ideology of the meaning of human. What we are depends upon our lived experiences and feedback from others about how we impact on people with whom we come into contact and who we touch, emotionally and spiritually, and who touch us in a similar way. These are the fundamental core elements of our craft as therapists and counsellors.

This is what we are in the business of attempting to do-to teach our clients how to become more human through being in touch with others who have embarked on a journey of personal development. In order to know where we are it is important to have some idea of how we got there and it is our intention to attempt to illustrate this path by showing how our personality develops over a life-long period. What we become depends on multifarious forces that shape and mould our identity-some of which we have control over and others of which are completely out of our control.

The Chambers Dictionary defines 'identity' as, simply, "who or what a person is", while the Open University D103 Glossary offers, "the characteristics by which

individuals or groups are recognised by others and by themselves—who or what they are and where they belong in human society”. Both these definitions encompass class, gender, and ethnic origin, national and other identities. In order to see how identity changes through the process of personal self-development it seems necessary to compare how personal identity is seen by different perspectives.

Rogers (1961) emphasised how important it is to maintain one’s own identity while grasping the client’s world; Kelly (1955) suggests that, ‘You are not the victim of your own autobiography, but you may become the victim of the way you interpret (it)’, in his promotion of his personal construct theory; Satre (1934) from the viewpoint of the existentialist states, ‘We are our choices, with the freedom to redesign our lives by those choices.

There are four different perspectives that are presented here, namely the phenomenological, the psychoanalytical, the biological and the social. It is worth considering in this case whether all are actually looking at the same thing but for the purpose of this article we shall only compare the phenomenological, Humanistic and the biological models as we see those as models fitting in to the development of the counsellor and which contrast most widely in their explanation of our identity and how it changes throughout life, particularly when experiencing personal reflection through the cycle of personal exploration.

The phenomenological perspective, (phenomenon of self), emphasises that we as human beings actively interpret and make sense of our lives and our worlds through symbolic thoughts, reflecting on our own feelings and actions and those of the world surrounding us. This reflective awareness can be described as, “the human capacity to be aware of one’s self as being a particular person distinct from all others and to reflect on the experience of being that person and who that person is”. (Stevens, 1985). This self-awareness generates other factors such as the importance of language and thought which enable us to transcend time and space, think about past and future and to use our imagination.

Also generated is an awareness of our own mortality, choice and the need for a meaning to our lives. This experience of personal identity depends not only on self-awareness but also on a sense of personal continuity and of agency, which is, having the power to produce an effect, for example, “I am going to cheer him up”. Self-awareness and personal agency is not something which we are born with, however, in fact we acquire the sense of self-awareness and personal agency as we develop from infancy to adulthood. Erich Fromm (1960) calls this stage individuation and relates it to being a bit like a double edged sword, where the transition from autonomy out of childhood is replaced by realisation of independence but results in separateness and perhaps aloneness so our inner identity changes.

Everyone entering into the counselling contract as a client has the right to expect their counsellor to be capable of attending their needs; needs which can place great demands on the counsellors emotional resources. We as counsellors have needs of our

own and those of us that are drawn into the 'helping professions' are often more comfortable giving than receiving. For this reason it is important to consider the reasons behind the career choice as clients should not be expected to fulfill the needs of the counsellor of being in control, virtuous and resourceful. The counselling setting is often the place where feelings which seem too dangerous to be expressed anywhere else can emerge safely and through personal exploration of the self it can be established if the counsellor can cope well with feelings of anger, desperation, sadness and grief, hurt and rejection, not only in the client but in oneself.

The phenomenological perspective implies that we are able to self-create by actively participating in the building of our individual identities and this provides the main support of this particular theory. Glover (1988) reasoned that, "shaping ourselves is a more important aspect than is usually supposed. It should be given a central place in our thinking about social issues," (Glover, 1988, p.110). He goes on to explain how simple everyday decisions give leverage to who we become. What needs to be taken into account here is the fact that our simple individual decisions are often influenced by social construction. By consciously adapting our personality to fit in with the expectations of family, friends, employers and, in relation to this topic, clients, for example, we may in fact be acting in response to our own unconscious expectations. It is not suggested that we should never be confused, frustrated or unhappy in our work as counsellors. Our work is to help clients locate in themselves the resources they need to exist creatively which should be reflected in our work with them. Counsellors do not accept things at face value, particularly when it comes to human resources but this can mean discovering painful truths about our clients and ourselves along the way. Glover (1988) argues that we create ourselves in the image of those expectations and by telling others what our self-created belief is we not only deceive them but also deceive ourselves.

It would appear that ideology puts blinkers on our eyes for to assume a personal style and express it as our own is failing to account for our private choices being influenced by public representations both locally and globally. If we were to develop within the counselling field in Salisbury, for example, our personal and professional identity would be very different from that if we had developed our real sense of self in London. Different regions help shape our personal and professional identities in different ways and changes of location might also alter our identity further. From a personal perspective we can see the value, for the furtherance of our career, of a move to London where we have only recently secured work as a senior counsellor in an all-male prison.

A further existential issue to the phenomenological perspective is the search for meaning. For some the way to understand the representations of our belief system sees them joining religious sects in their search for meaning, or, as Cottrell (1979) suggests, it is more common within modern United Kingdom for people to find meaning by, "creating everyday projects related to work and family". Counsellors face uncertainty at many levels and the search through skills and theories often leaves us not knowing what brings about emotional healing. We work in a field where, as yet, no clear career

path has been defined leaving us to compete for work which we can only take if it is within our own personal level of competence. Our work involves looking introspectively which creates some level of risk for us as counsellors and for our clients who may present us with painful and difficult aspects of life: loss, relationship difficulties and all kinds of abuse. We also have to consider if the satisfaction of 'doing' the job is more important than the financial reward. This is not a career where you can get rich quick and much of one's earnings in the early stages of the counselling career are minimal, if there is any gain at all, and most of the time further training, personal therapy, supervision, insurance etc. has to be maintained to protect oneself and the client. It might be quite tempting to take on a client who was rich even if the counsellor were not the best person to deal with the issues presented.

So how actively do we participate in the making of our own identity and how much are we influenced by ideology within the phenomenological perspective? Bandura (1989) claimed that 'perceived self-efficacy', is the most relevant factor. Our individual differences depend on how capable we see ourselves of achieving what we want to do. This is linked to ideas that the more we want to change the more likely we are to try which is similar to the idea of self-fulfilling prophecy. Bandura believes in perceived self-efficacy and therefore in the idea that we can create our own identity changing to suit ourselves with perhaps an acceleration of the process with limitations of mortality.

The biological perspective sees personal identity and development from a different angle and has two aspects that will be looked at separately. Firstly, it is concerned with the body and sees it as an intrinsic part of identity and personality believing that it is through the ways that we relate to other people and to the world around us. How we relate to our clients is the core element of the work we do and we have to be ever vigilant about the way we sit, look, hold our hands, move and even dress. We often use body language and movements to express our feelings, (if only by fluttering our eyelashes to attract a mate) and these subtle moves also allow us to interact with others on a social level. If the ability to use our body is taken away then our ability to connect and develop is more restricted. Contact with others is through bodily actions and if the body is mistreated or hurt, for example, then the personal identity is too, according to the biological perspective and approach. We are aware of how our body feels, if it is tired or excited and we are aware how effective it is as an instrument. If our body hurts then we hurt too. We are also affected by our body image and how we appear to others knowing that our appearance affects their attitude which affects how we feel about ourselves and this may influence what we do to self-create. We learn to promote our best assets in order to maximise the most beneficial attention in the hope that others identify us as what we would like to be rather than what we really are. People who have often aged, for example, may often feel that they look younger than they do and this is often apparent in men like myself who are approaching mid-life.

Levinson's (1978) idea about the physical changes throughout the seasons of a man's life are particularly appropriate here where men, like myself, get older and see an gradual

yet effective change in the body such as hair loss, memory loss, loss of faculties and in my case, the inability to retain information! How we are perceived by clients should not get in the way of our work but often it has been found that wondering what a client thinks about me. This was an issue I needed to explore in supervision and realised that there was some erotic transference about in my session with the client. This biological transformation can be drastic, take for example one of my clients whose feelings about himself in both the public sphere and private domain were affected by others because of his disability after an horrific road traffic accident in which he lost mobility and now has to use a wheelchair.

Other influences such as chemical imbalances in the brain can affect our personality and sense of self and these can be brought about by abuse or misuse of alcohol and drugs used socially. A lot of my work has been in the addiction field working with people who cannot live without some mood altering chemical to get them through their pain. I too was an addict once and the importance placed upon working as a counsellor with several years clean time cannot be stressed highly enough. Depression often results from this type of imbalance and often the results can give false perceptions of ourselves by others, and ourselves. This theory was explored in depth by Hans Eysenck who believed that aspects of personality are inherited. He claimed to have identified underlying personal dimensions which provide a hierarchical model of personality and self which reveals patterns of surface traits as well as the continuity of identity.

Eysenck (1985) believed that the human personality is divided into two major traits which could be scientifically measured using psychometric testing to measure extraversion (E) and introversion (N) and he regarded environmental influences as of little importance. Intra version and extraversion were terms used to describe personality traits of impulsiveness, risk taking and stimulus seeking. Eysenck believed that they were physiologically based. The consequences of the physiological differences enabled Eysenck to categorise people into clusters or groups and based on his research he found that social people in general were impulsive. Another dimension Eysenck measured was that of neuroticism or stability. He believed that an average person would be placed centrally on his two dimension chart of E and N. If extraversion and introversion is biologically based then it is reasonable to argue that some aspects of identity are inherited and indeed physical characteristics are passed on from our parents in the form of genes.

Eysenck tested the theory of hereditary personality and self in a study of identical twins who were brought up separately but whose E and N scores correlated. Kamin (1974) argued that social factors may have played a part in the results claiming that children may have grown up in similar environments which relates back to the part of this essay dealing with social factors in the phenomenological approach and how the suggestion that the world environment helps determine personality.

Secondly, the sociobiological approach is based on the belief that social behaviour is determined by inherited predisposition characteristics of humans. The outcome of natural and sexual selection also focuses on the evolutionary origins of the behavioural

patterns arguing that the origins of consciousness, and a sense of individual identity, may develop because of the value in understanding, relating to and cooperating with others. It goes on to say that some differences in identity and behaviour may originate in the reproductive strategies which are considered optimal for our male and female ancestors.

Humanistic development took place in the 1950's largely as a reaction to behaviourism and psychoanalyses, fitting well with the social and political emancipation of the 1960's. It concentrates more on the orientation to psychology than on a coherent set of ideas and theories, assuming that subjective experience is primary to personal growth, and is phenomenological rather than behaviourist as a perspective and that all people possess a capacity for personal growth and personal agency having some choice and responsibility for what they become. It suggests that each individual is a whole and takes into account the many aspects of feelings, thoughts and bodily awareness which make up our experience of being a person.

The existentialist theory sees people as being directly responsible for their own life choices, placing strong emphasis on the ability to say "no" and accept the consequences, maintaining that people are responsible for their own actions. Acknowledgement of the constraints on our lives is an important part of existentialism and our culture widely accepts that we are unable to control certain things in our lives, for example, our own mortality, which our parents are and our language. By taking responsibility for our own actions we act authentically but allowing others to make choices for us is seen as acting unauthentically. Many people are afraid of their own freedom of choice and behave in conventional ways avoiding the act of self-actualisation. I remember working with a client who was so desperate to please me that he would say what he thought I wanted to hear rather than what was really going on for him. Through my own personal journey which identified me as a 'Yes-man', I was able to recognise the pattern and avoid falling into that trap. It might have been so easy to allow this behaviour to continue because it made me feel good rather than become increasingly aware and willing to share when we don't really know what is going on for us, or when we are afraid to speak, or do not feel comfortable in another's presence. To reveal ourselves is to take a risk and that is so for our clients. We can, however, create an atmosphere in which we can make the client feel safe enough to explore these feelings because we have experienced them ourselves in our own therapy and supervision.

Victor Frankl (1959) highlighted significant ways that we develop purposive intrinsic selves through action, in particular creative activity, experience, love and attitude. A criticism here is that Frankl's ideas failed to take into account the social context in which we live where in reality individuality is influenced by society where change and progress is synonymous with autonomy.

Continuing on from Frankl's idea of personal agency bringing about change was the work of Abraham Maslow and Carl Rogers. Maslow's idea was that certain needs require meeting before self-actualisation can be realised. Maslow's theory of motivation (1954/

1987) suggested that in order to become what one is capable of becoming needs have to be met. His hierarchy of needs theory suggests that a physical need is related to survival and consists of basic requirements for food, drink, warmth, sleep and sex, and is the first step to self-actualisation. This is followed by the need for safety being met, safety in this case being physical, economic and psychological security. If these needs are met then a need for love, belonging and affection through intimacy is the next step followed by the need for self esteem which is a requirement for competency, adequacy, self-respect and respect from others. Once these needs are met self-actualisation is reached. Maslow indicated that needs are not always defined and an analysis of self-actualisation was conducted by him with a sample of people most of whom were over sixty years old. From this he deduced that self-actualisation develops with maturity and concluded that the potential for personal growth comes from making a choice rather than remaining with the safe option thereby realising the possibility of peak experiences.

Carl Rogers has been the most significant figure in humanistic psychology and he developed his theory of personality using three main concepts. He refers to the term “organism” as an organised, whole individual, emphasising concepts of drive and motivation. The phenomenological field, referred to earlier, Rogers refers to as a person’s life experiences including those which are unconscious. He stressed that self-awareness of the person on a conscious level is the most important and best way to work in understanding behaviour by making reference to the internal framework. The third concept is that of the self, when there is a development of the I and the Me. The self develops from childhood experiences of what we can or cannot do, does or does not like and what is enjoyed or disliked doing and by evaluation of the self by other’s who are significant in one’s life, for example parents and teachers, employers and counsellors. Positive regard by these significant others is often conditional except in the case of counsellor. Rogers indicated that it is more appropriate to help one realise that it is okay to have feelings of anger and jealousy but it is not okay to act on those feelings because of the resultant damage that behaviour might cause.

Maslow and Rogers both believed that self-actualisation is the core to development of the self and that restoring a person to his full potential requires a form of non-directive counselling which enables the person to realise and bring out feelings repressed from childhood. By offering a safe environment and unconditional positive regard the person can develop their real sense of self thus enabling them to move on. This form of personal change Rogers calls person-centred. It is experiential, allowing the person to get in touch with their true feelings. Personal change is therefore seen as the result of being given therapeutic space where repressed feelings are allowed out into the open. Unconditional positive regard enables the person to move on and get in touch with their real feelings.

It can be seen that the phenomenological perspective is approached in the form of a philosophical investigation and is not measured but described in terms of meaning through introspection, reflection and ‘thought experiments’ while the biological approach

uses statistical analysis as a method to measure behaviour in order to identify personality changes and a change of one's self. The phenomenological perspective presents the strongest support for this essay strongly arguing that self-awareness, self-motivation, choice and the capacity to consider alternatives are intrinsic to the human condition of identity and change while the biological perspective submits that people's identities are largely determined by their personality type and dependent on inherited biological characteristics. We should not overlook the fact that all perspectives have something in common: the biological, social and psychoanalytical stress factors beyond our individual control while the phenomenological emphasises agency and choice.

I believe that all four perspectives can help to account for change and play a part in forming, shaping and reshaping our identities and that, as individuals, we each react differently to the influences placed upon us. All approaches to therapy and counselling have a vocabulary of their own and all theoretical models have explanations and agreed forms of contact, speaking and being which are based on these fundamental values and conventions regulating our social and professional conduct. These do differ between each orientation, school, organisation and individual but this is what makes for the richness of our profession. The invitation is to participate fully in a frank observation over a lifelong period about our differences in attitudes, beliefs, intentions and actions as our modesty, fearfulness, confusion, need for and fear of recognition and belonging allow. When we embark on a career as a counsellor we embark on the risky journey into our own dark interior and agree to do so in the company of men and women who have also promised to travel alongside in a shared adventure (!) of personal discovery filled with trials and tribulations leading to new and unknown pastures green.

We cannot know in advance who we will become but can only give of ourselves allowing the process of growth to unfold revealing our own unique qualities of strengths and shortcomings. The difference by this time is that we can accept the criticism or praise and work with it rather than against it. Throughout this we continue to be tied up in our own personal webs of the responsibility of jobs, relationships, families, partnerships or communities and we need to ensure our financial and material survival.

Our challenge as counsellors should be to find a workable compromise between attaining the freedom to discover who we are and a secure means of living at the same time placing responsibility on us all to continue working on establishing our personal identity through self-reflection and support of each other along the way.

Our learning through our peers, trainers, tutors, and supervisors will help us identify our own strengths and manage or change our shortcomings. To realise that to give your best requires an inward journey instead of an outward search shows that you possess greater wisdom than most in this day and age. Sometimes, on journeys inward, people run into roadblocks or personal turmoil and where in the past this would have been seen as self-defeating behaviour, with courage and perseverance, a counsellor embarking on this trip of self-discovery will see it as an opportunity to learn more about themselves which in turn will benefit the client.

ONLINE COUNSELLING

Internet has been a boon especially to offer seamless technology benefits. This is effective to make communication ongoing, reachable and above all improve accessibility. Simple surfing on the net helps us in exploring a plethora of opportunities in lifestyle, education and ideas. There are several forums and communities that conduct online counseling and this is a great relief for people who are faced with a problem of time.

Marriage counseling is also done online with the help of an expert person who also gives you an opportunity in expressing your expectations in matrimony. Education online counseling is available for covering various views. A simple registration allows you to login into the site and seek newsletters, views, new areas and specific courses that is recommended by the counselors. You can also express your concerns to receive an opinion from the education counselor with the association.

NGO's and other charitable associations also help in solving problems that seem social in nature. This can be conflicts within a family, marriage counseling, abuse ending or also overcoming addictions. Other associations also offer counseling free of charge in the online category to solve depression, loneliness and other confusing conflicts.

Several diet management companies also suggest weight loss therapy that enhances your confidence. The advice given online has to be communicated with your personal doctor and family to seek a confident vote. This is imperative before embarking on a diet programme. Online workshops and games also boost the confidence and personality of a person that helps a person link himself with the counselor to seek an unprejudiced opinion.

Online counseling courses are also available for people who are already in jobs or who wish to acquire additional diplomas or degrees. A choice can be made to decide the stream of counseling which are economical and cost effective. There are online sessions, theoretical applications and ready references which are also guided by the educational counselor online.

We all jump at the opportunity to ride the roller coaster at the park. Similarly life is much about achievements, partnerships and above all maintaining relationships. All things in life are subject to change and yes change is the only thing that remains constant. Gradual changes in our personality is totally because of our lifestyle and shift in focus. Similarly people around also adjust to change which we imbibe as their shift in attitude.

Relationship counseling is gaining importance everywhere. We marry for love and companionship and yet there are some differences with our spouse which we fail to understand. Most of the relationship problems are owing to difference of opinion or overlooking the other person's objectives in life. Increasing pressure to perform well at work and other social needs builds stress and a counselor gives us an impartial view to help us overcome even minor relationship stress factors.

Benign wounds usually crop up as irritation in a marriage. The quality of any relationship is based on making time and building a good rapport with the other person.

Before the stage of irreconcilable differences is reached, counselors help us cope with the destructive behaviour mostly taken up by couples. Recognizing the problem, elaborating the corrective procedure is a part of the therapy.

A counselor is a professional and though there are differences or blame game associated in relations they have an impartial view wherein they refuse to take sides. Constant reinforcement of the presence of love, kindness and the need to retain effective communication is the service of the counselor. Often people approach the counselor for minor miscommunication whereas certain couples have acute problems related to illness, depression and other personal relationship problems.

Narrowing down the difference is the joint effort of the counselor and couples. Several communities and religions offer free counseling to guide relationships towards better communication.

PERSONAL DEVELOPMENT

Perhaps the most important realization that an individual can make in their quest for personal growth is that there is no single formula that defines the path to personal success. We all have different goals and priorities, which means that different activities and attitudes will make us feel good about ourselves. We also have different natural strengths and weaknesses that are a part of our inherent personality type. How then, as individuals, can we feel successful in our lives?

Each personality type has a different idea of what it means to be successful. Self-knowledge is one common goal that will help everyone achieve personal success. So many people are hung up on somebody else's idea of what it means to be successful, and they are unaware of what is truly important to them. This is completely normal. We all have important role-models and influencers in our lives who may have basic values that are quite different from our own. If this is the case, it's important to recognize that the discrepancy between what we have been taught is truly important and what we personally believe to be truly important is due to a difference in perspective. If we spend our time and effort trying to meet somebody else's idea of success, and ignore or belittle any conflicting messages from our own psyche, then as suggested, find ourselves exhausted and unhappy. Realizing what is truly important to us is a major step towards achieving personal success.

RECOGNIZE YOUR WEAKNESSES

While improving our self-knowledge and realizing our true goals can be very liberating, we should not discard the rules of the society in which we live. We must recognize that other people's value systems are no less important than our own. And we must recognize and accept that we live in a society in which certain personality types and behaviours are more suited towards particular tasks. This is the second key that will open the door towards personal growth.

For example, there are situations in which it is more appropriate and effective to show compassion and caring (Feeling), rather than impersonal logic (Thinking). Likewise, there are situations that call for using impersonal logic to make a decision, in which the more subjective viewpoint of the Feeling function is inappropriate and ineffective. Persons with a preference for Feeling will have a natural advantage over Thinkers in situations that require compassion and awareness of other's emotions. Conversely, persons with a preference for Thinking will have a natural advantage over Feelers in situations that require the ability to make a decision based on impersonal data.

As we learn about our personality type and the types of others, we are empowered with an understanding of why people react differently in different situations. When put into the context of Psychological Type, we can better accept and understand people's behaviours that are different from ours. These insights are extremely useful and powerful to us as individuals. However, if we are concerned with growing as individuals, we must take care not to use personality type as an excuse for our inappropriate behaviour. While it's powerful and useful to notice that another person's inappropriate behaviour may be due to their personality type, we cannot use the same reasoning on ourselves.

We should recognize that our personality type has weaknesses, but we must use that knowledge to conquer those weaknesses rather than to excuse poor behaviour. We cannot be responsible for other people's behaviour, but we can control our own. If we notice that someone seems to be unable to make an impersonal decision that is isolated from human perspective, we should say to ourselves, "Ah ha, here is a Feeler.

This person does not use Thinking well, and that is why they're behaving this way." Yet when we as Feelers are presented with a situation that requires an impersonal approach, we should NOT say to ourselves "I am a Feeler, and can't be expected to make decisions based purely on impersonal facts and logic." This kind of rationalization for behaviour is certainly an easy way out of a situation, but it enforces the weakness, making it weaker and weaker still.

Strive for Balance

Most of the weaknesses associated with any given personality type are a result of that type's dominant function overtaking the personality to the extent that the other functions become slaves to the dominant function. Although it is natural for every personality to be ruled by its dominant function, it becomes a problem when the supporting functions are not allowed to develop fully on their own because they are too busy "serving the master". In such cases, a personality can become quite imbalanced.

A situation in which the dominant function of a personality completely overshadows the other personality functions is analogous to a kingdom that is ruled by an overbearing king who requires absolute servitude. Imagine such a king sitting down to dinner in his castle. He keeps all of his servants running about to bring him dinner, and requires that they serve him fully (disregarding their own needs) until he is completely sated. His

Foreign Minister, who is expected at an important affair at a neighbouring kingdom, finds himself pouring ale. His Minister of Domestic Affairs, rather than addressing the issue of a failing economy, slices roast turkey.

His staff grabs food for themselves here and there, but never get what they really need or want, and are consequently unsatisfied, malnourished, and underdeveloped. The issues that the staff should be taking care of are left undone, because they never finish their primary task of serving the king. The king's immediate needs are being met, and so he is tolerably happy, but he is an ineffective king. As far as he knows, everything and everybody exists simply to serve him. He has no concept of Success beyond his daily needs. Since he cannot see beyond his own needs, the entire kingdom suffers.

Likewise, a personality that has developed with a goal of serving the dominant function all other considerations often results in a person who is imbalanced. In severe cases, the weaknesses associated with the given type are often quite apparent to others, and overshadow the individual's natural strengths. Such a drastic imbalance is not common, and may be the result of continuous and extreme stress. Most people will experience times in their lives during which they are stressed to the point of serious imbalance. People who experience this constantly have issues that need to be dealt with, and should seek help.

Much more commonly, we see individuals who exhibit both the strengths and weaknesses of their type. It is natural and healthy that each personality type is ruled by a dominant function, and that the other functions support the ruling function. We don't seek to change anyone's natural self, or to achieve a perfect balance amongst a personality's functions. By definition, a kingdom needs a king in order to exist, and a personality needs a dominant function. However, a kingdom with a well-developed and effective king (the dominant function), who has well-trained and educated advisors (the supporting functions), will thrive more than the kingdom ruled by a neglectful king who is supported by inexperienced advisors. As we can see, Balance and Success are relative terms. They have different meaning for each of the sixteen personality types. One statement using these terms is true for all types: Balance is the key to Success.

So how do we go about realizing what's truly important to us? How do we recognize our weaknesses, and learn not to hide behind them? How do we become balanced? How do we open that magical door that will show us the way to personal growth and success? There is no quickie scheme that will make you a successful person. Psychological Type is a powerful aid in our quest for excellence, but it is not the actual solution. It is a model that will help you to expand your understanding of human nature.

An improved understanding of yourself and others will help you to find, follow or expand your path. An awareness and acceptance of the fact that one personality function may be more effective than another function in a given situation will help you to understand the relevance of personal growth to your life. Carl Jung identified a process of personal growth that he called individuation, which is essentially the conscious realization of your true self, beyond the Ego that is presented by your conscious self.

Our efforts to help people develop themselves is essentially the effort to help them to realise that their personal perspectives and conscious ideas are only a small part of who they are, and that the more they try to develop and defend this superficial “self”, the further they get away from their true Self. This realization helps a psyche in many concrete ways, and is also a positive step towards promoting a psyche that is open to the process of individuation. For the purposes of making this realization accessible to the general public, our writings are mostly void of complex theoretical discussion.

PERSONAL MAGNETISM TEST

Personality is the mental, spiritual, and physical traits-good or bad-which distinguish you from all others. To realise prosperity and success you need to build a powerful magnetic personality that attracts people to you. Here’s a list of traits that will help you achieve a pleasing, attractive, engaging, and winning personality. Please rate yourself, not on how you feel about yourself, but on how you think others would rate you.

RATE YOURSELF

- Poor-Fair-Good-Excellent

A Positive Mental Attitude

Keep your mind filled throughout the day with positive and happy thoughts? It’s not much fun being around negative people. Treat everyone you meet as if they were the most important person in the world.

Positive Self-projection

Learn how to send out and project an aura into the atmosphere that surrounds you, that will create a good mood and feeling for those near you.

The Capacity to Understand People

To be a leader and well respected by the people you work with-you must learn to be an expert when it comes to understanding and inspiring people.

Appearance

The best-dressed and groomed person usually increases their energy and attracts the most favourable attention.

Control of your emotions: Self discipline is necessary if you’re to enjoy the benefits of a pleasing personality. Some of the negative feelings, which must be brought under control, are: Fear, hatred, anger, envy, greed, jealousy, revenge, irritability, and

superstition. On the positive side of these negative emotions are the positives of: Love, kindness, faith, hope, desire, loyalty, sympathy, and optimism.

Use of Creativity

Everyone is born with a brain and an imagination. Some use theirs to develop their fullest capacity to create a great life for themselves-while others use theirs very seldom and end up living a life of mediocrity and lack.

Hope and Ambition

A person without ambition may be harmless to others, but will never be popular. No one cares much about a person who shows by their actions (or lack of action) that they have abandoned hope of getting ahead in this world. Having dreams, goals, and plans on how to achieve them—create positive energy around you.

Persuasiveness

To get what you want from life you must have the powers of persuasion to get others to want to help you and cooperate with you.

Temperance

The person who lacks the necessary self-discipline to manage his or her personal habits is never attractive to others. This is especially true of eating, drinking and sexual relationships. Excesses in relation to any of these destroy personal magnetism.

Concern for Others

A person who is concerned about the welfare, happiness, and safety of others is a well-loved person.

Patience

This is a fast moving, high speed world. The tempo of human thoughts and actions is so rapid that people often get in one another's way. Patience is required if you wish to avoid friction in human relationships.

Self-motivation

If it's meant to be—it's up to me. Making things happen.

Humility of the Heart

Be humble. Keep your empathy and your ego in balance.

Aspiration for Excellence

Always doing your very best—taking personal initiative and going the extra mile.

A Friendly and Pleasing Tone of Voice

Keep your tone of voice calm, friendly, soothing, caring, cheerful, easygoing and kind-hearted.

Self-discipline

Discipline is what corrects, molds, and perfects.

Ability to Work in Harmony with Others

Teamwork and cooperation.

A Fondness for People

It is inevitable that people who dislike others will be disliked; people sense disapproval, even when you're silent! It is greatly beneficial to monitor your thoughts and emotions as well as your words.

Treat everyone you meet, every day, as if they were the most important person in the world. They will give you their love, their respect and their business.

PROBLEM SOLVING SKILLS**The Habit of Smiling**

The Habit of Smiling requires 12 muscles to smile-103 muscles to frown. When we smile at another person, it puts them at ease and raises their self-esteem. It also releases endorphins in your brain that gives you a feeling of well-being and contentment. Your smile will change the mental attitude of those with whom you come into contact.

Self-confidence

Correction and regulation of oneself for the sake of improvement.

Positive Facial Expressions

There are thousands of ways a person speaks without ever opening their mouth. It's called body language. Are your facial expressions saying things that will attract others to you, or turn them off?

Speaking Ability before Others

Can you inspire and rouse an audience to action?

Courtesy

Always go out of your way to help others and be kind to them.

Show Alertness of Interest

The greatest compliment one can pay another person is that of concentrating their attention wholly on the person that is talking to them. Be a great listener.

Personal Magnetism

Do you have the ability to arouse and add vitality in people? People love to be around others that make them feel alive and important.

Sincerity

Always be genuine and honest and free from deceit and phoniness.

A Good Sense of Humour

A well developed sense of humour helps you stay flexible and adjust to life's varying circumstances. It keeps you from taking yourself and life too seriously.

Flexibility

Do you have the ability to adapt yourself to quickly changing circumstances without losing your composure?

Tactfulness

Skill and grace in dealing with others. People show their lack of tact in many ways. The most common are: A gruff and irritable tone of voice indicating that you are in a negative mental mood or displeased. Volunteering opinions which have not been requested, and for which no reason exists, especially opinions on subjects with which one is not familiar. Interrupting the speech of others, indicating one of the more frequent expressions of discourtesy, and lack of culture. Expressing your dislike too freely. Overworking the personal pronoun, "I". Asking favours you haven't earned the right to request.

Asking impertinent questions generally for impressing others with the questioner's importance, or his or her contempt of the one they are addressing. Injecting intimately personal subjects into conversations where such actions have not been invited, and may be embarrassing to others. Going where one has not been invited. The habit of trying to

minimize another person's achievements. Speaking disparagingly of people in the presence of their friends. Common boastfulness.

Tolerance

Keep an open mind at all times. This applies to people and circumstances.

Frankness in Manner and Speech

Always be straightforward and sincere. Say what you mean and mean what you say. Get your point across in the shortest time with well-chosen words

A Keen Sense of Justice

Doing the right thing in dealing with people. Live by the golden rule.

Appropriate Choice of Words

The English language is filled with words, which carry every conceivable shade of meaning. There is no excuse for the common habit of using words that offend others. And, of course, the use of profanity at any time, or under any circumstances, is inexcusable and unnecessary.

Effective Speech

People have risen to great heights of personal achievement because of their ability to sell themselves and their ideas through dramatization of speech. The most important factor in effective speech is a thorough knowledge of the subject on which you are speaking.

All the rules of effective speaking can be stated in one sentence. Know what you want to say, say it with all the emotional feeling at your command, and then sit down.

Versatility

Popular people are versatile. They have at least a surface knowledge of many subjects. They are interested in other people and in other people's ideas.

Control of Temper

The person who lets his or her temper fly off in all directions is sure to receive negative feedback. The most common injury an uncontrolled temper inflicts is that which results from an uncontrolled tongue.

Effective Showmanship: Have a sense or knack for dramatically effective presentation. Pizzazz.

Clean Sportsmanship

Show graciousness in winning and in losing, and, in getting or not getting what you want.

The Ability to Shake Hands Properly

We all know how uncomfortable it is when someone squeezes your hand too hard. Also, a limp handshake leaves a poor impression. The person who shakes hands properly coordinates his or her handshake with their words of greeting, generally emphasizing each word with a firm grip of the hand. They do not release the other person's hand until they finish their greeting.

Making Decisions Promptly

Successful men and women reach decisions quickly and act on them promptly.

Faith in Infinite Intelligence

Stay in harmony with the Supreme Being that created this universe, whoever you think your creator is.

Enthusiasm

Enthusiasm is to go forward every morning with the thrill of being alive.

**THE USE OF COUNSELLING SKILLS IN
GROUP TRAINING AT WORK****GROUP OR ONE-TO-ONE**

Most of the time we talk of 'counselling at work' as taking place in a one-to-one format. Working over a limited number of sessions, issues are addressed that affect people's performance at work. In that setting the counsellor uses his or her specialised abilities to facilitate clients being able to understand and deal more effectively with their specific issues. What is less talked about is the use of counselling skills in-group training workshops. In this context, too, the use of counselling skills can have a significant and positive impact on the intended outcome.

Training can be damaging to your health! When you look at the non-technical areas those much training addresses—communication, personal effectiveness, team building, presentation, etc—you can see that all these areas touch on people's self-esteem, value and confidence. In unskilled hands participants can finish a training feeling undermined and unsupported. And this is often why companies shy away from 'touchy-feely' training

that they fear won't really make things better. The counselling skills are essential to good training and it is required to all of facilitators to have some background in the use of counselling or psychotherapy skills.

By this we are not talking about group therapy, which by its very nature needs to be facilitated by counsellors or psychotherapists. We mean the sort of courses run by the various institutes: structured, active trainings, with delegates participating in a variety of processes and exercises. However, experience shows that the use of counselling techniques in training makes for a better outcome. Just about any interactive workshop situation can benefit from the use of counselling skills. Good training is viewed as personal development, not just a place to learn new tools and techniques.

Similarities between One-to-One Counselling and Group Work

Part of the purpose of counselling is to facilitate clients developing their ability to cope with stress and deal more effectively with difficult or challenging situations as they arise. As esteem and confidence are increased, individuals have a greater capacity to change their behaviour in healthy and appropriate ways.

So, too, with good people skills training. These kinds of workshops should not be places where participants are 'trained' in the 'right' way to communicate, to present, and to lead others. Unfortunately, that is often what happens: participants are given rigid rules and regulations which can be demotivating and can shut down their creativity and enthusiasm for finding their own solutions. When counselling skills are used in training, delegates' esteem and capabilities are dramatically increased. As a consequence of this, their capacity to take in new information and integrate it is far greater.

"You didn't try to change me, but let me find my own way." This is also what counselling is about: not changing the person, but helping them to become more authentically themselves.

There are the obvious transferable Counselling Skills such as:

- Creating a safe environment so that people are more able to take risks
- Setting effective boundaries so that delegates know where they stand and what's expected of them within a workshop format
- Using active listening and responding skills, which allow participants to feel heard and understood
- Working in a non-shaming way so that people can disclose some of their concerns
- Allowing participants to work at their own pace
- Not pushing or forcing delegates to do things they don't want to do
- Letting people find out what works best for them
- Allowing people to find their own solutions rather than giving advice or answers, while at the same time offering a range of options for them to practise
- Understanding that there will be issues of transference and projection during even the shortest training session

Workshops are just that: Places for delegates to explore different options and practise new ways of behaving where there are no career limiting consequences, mirroring the exploratory nature of counselling. They may experience unusual or even uncomfortable feelings, but they will also discover not only what works best for them but also what they know they'll be able to put into practise in the 'real world' outside the training arena.

Good counselling is flexible rather than fixed to a rigid structure: the counsellor sees what a client needs and is able to provide that flexibility. People skills training also needs to be flexible and attuned to the needs and capabilities of the group rather than sticking to a fixed, prepared structure. Having counselling skills enables a trainer to change that structure when they see what else might be needed.

A less obvious skill is the ability to deal only with what delegates bring into training, rather than what else the facilitator may see is going on. Effective counselling creates the space for clients to realise that there may be deeper issues that need tackling. But counsellors who 'move in' too quickly when they are aware that there is more going on than the presented problem(s) are in danger of undermining a client's trust and pushing them beyond where they are ready, willing or able to go.

In turn, there can be a great temptation amongst trainers to 'show off' how good they are at noticing what people need. They often confront delegates and comment on their behaviour, motivation or feelings when it is inappropriate to do so. They will lose the delegate's trust and may be entering territory outside the workshop remit.

The use of counselling skills in this type of situation is having the awareness that there may be other issues going on for the delegate, being capable of dealing with them if they do arise, but having the patience and humility to leave them be if they don't.

One of the surest ways of creating trust, building confidence and boosting self-esteem is for people to really feel seen for who they are. We know that when we run trainings at work, we are privileged to be dealing with very capable, intelligent and willing delegates. Even if people are resistant, having been sent on a training rather than self-enrolling, they will be of a high calibre in terms of their ability to understand relatively complex ideas and concepts. Respect for which the delegate is, is fundamental to our work; as well as trusting that they will know what is best for them.

By working with the skills, talents and abilities delegates already bring to the workshop and developing those, we can help them see that some of the recurring difficulties they have are usually triggered by certain people or situations. This is far more effective than telling people what their problem is and what they're doing wrong that gets them into difficulties.

Pointing out what's wrong and trying to fix it is a lot harder on both the facilitator and the delegate and is ultimately de-motivating and de-skilling. Yet time and time again we hear about training that does just that. We have even heard people being told the cringe-making phrase: getting criticism may not feel good, but remember, there's no gain without pain.

Counsellors who give their clients a run-down of their faults and say, 'Now we'll work on fixing those' will soon find themselves without much of a practice! Counsellors see and support the best in their clients in order to then be able to address the difficulties and areas that most need attention.

Differences between One-to-One Counselling and Group Work

Having looked at the similarities between counselling and use of counselling skills in work groups, there are also many areas where the dynamic created in one-to-one formats simply cannot be used in-group settings. Training courses are of finite duration and the relationship between a facilitator and delegate can rarely have the depth and breadth as that of a counsellor and client. Delegates also have to share the time and attention that a facilitator gives to them and issues of transference aren't generally addressed in people skills trainings.

This means that there won't always be the time available during a training to deal in any depth with other issues that arise. Personal disclosure of delegates may be limited and certain subjects simply cannot be dealt with during a training session. Interventions that might be normal practise in a counselling session require more skill and time than is available in a training session.

Even more importantly, the whole area of confidentiality is open to serious question. Many training organisations have people sign or agree to confidentiality 'contracts'. In theory, this practise is laudatory. However, our experience is that it is almost impossible to guarantee confidentiality no matter how well intentioned everyone's agreement is. People inadvertently gossip; they might mention in strictest confidence to their best friend or spouse what happened during the workshop, in front of other people they might refer to a process or game and what it was like.

Although some training organisations offer a follow-up 'service' there are many times when issues arise after a workshop is over where delegates are often left to their own devices to get the support they need. Unfortunately that doesn't always happen as effectively as it could.

What can be Done in a Group that can't be Done One-to-One?

There are also certain areas that can be dealt with in-group training that can't be done in a counselling format. The most obvious is the fact that a workshop is a shared experience. People come because they want to address similar issues and will often be surprised that other people in their workplace have concerns that mirror their own.

Participants are also able to see themselves in relation to other people, which adds a dimension to the work unavailable in one-to-one. The reality of group dynamics provides more choices and increases awareness.

A training programme will often have a section where delegates bring in scenarios where they felt their people skills weren't as effective as they could be. In this setting

people get a chance to practise with others different ways of behaving that will create more positive outcomes. This also means that participants actively support each other and have an opportunity to ‘play’ in ways that stretch their capacities.

Finally, delegates can practise something new, find it doesn’t work, try something else, find it doesn’t work, try a third thing and find that it does; all within the safe confines of the workshop environment. They experience immediate results. Even if they don’t practise these new ways of behaving right away in the ‘real world’ they have the knowledge that they are capable of doing something different when and if they choose.

The use of counselling skills is growing: in their traditional format of one-to-one settings, in group therapy, in personal development and people skills training, in everyday life. The more they are used, the better people are able to communicate with each other, cope with stress, deal with difficult situations and feel much better about their own capabilities.

SKILLS NEEDED IN COUNSELLING

Several skills need to be brought into a one-to-one counselling session.

These include:

- Attitudinal skills;
- Listening skills;
- Verbal communication skills; and
- Giving leads.

ATTITUDES

There is probably nothing which has a greater impact on the outcome of a counselling session than the helper’s attitude. Attitudes can be positive or reactive. Attitudes are included in this unit on skills because good attitudes can be learned and practised.

They include the following:

- Respect
- Guidance/congruence
- Unconditional positive regard
- Empathy
- Self-disclosure
- Confrontation

Respect

It is one of the most important human attitudes required. It normally begins with respecting one’s self, so that others respect you in turn. It is having good intentions and warm regard for students. Respect the students and avoid imposing your values on

them. Avoid judgement. Many times, respect demands praising the individuality of each student, supporting each one's search for him/herself, and structuring the counselling to the needs, capacities and resources of the individual student. The teacher needs to ensure that the student accepts the problem and the solution as his/her own.

Genuineness/Congruence

Genuineness is at times referred to as congruence. It is the consistency or harmony between what you say, and what you are, as a teacher. This condition reflects honesty, transparency, and trust. This element is basic to a counselling relationship. Once it is established, open communication, warmth and respect for the client gradually develop.

Unconditional Positive Regard (Warmth)

You may have experienced situations where a student approached you with a concern, and you blamed the student, or acted as if the student bothered you. These are negative attitudes which are ineffective in counselling. Unconditional, positive regard makes students feel welcomed and valued as individuals.

An example to illustrate this warmth is the following:

- 'Hello, Jane. Can I help you?'

Not:

- 'I am sorry, I am very busy. I prefer you to be very brief.'
- 'Hello. Can I help you? I am sorry I am very busy and prefer that you be brief.'

Empathy

Empathy is your ability, as a teacher, to understand what your students experience, and communicate this kind of feeling. Carl Rogers, defined it as perceiving the internal frame of reference of another person. Gerald Egan, explains it as entering the private perceptual world of the client, and being sensitive to his/her feelings, whether good or bad. As a teacher, you need to be empathetic. You need to be responsive to both the content and the feelings expressed by students. This attitude helps you to assess students' concerns and understand them better.

Self-Disclosure

Self-disclosure helps your student to communicate easily. It is one of the attitudes that helps your student to reveal something about him/herself. It helps to create mutual trust, and disarm the student, so that he/she feels free and talks openly. This is equally important for both parties in the counselling session.

It promotes a relationship through increased communication and better understanding of the student. It also helps the student to understand him/herself better, and help him/

her get rid of the burden of guilt. This is a first step in behavioural change. Opening with self-disclosure helps the student to talk about his/her problems more concretely and realistically, and allows him/her to act accordingly. Disclose only what is necessary.

Confrontation

This is when you use your student's behaviour, or words, to point out inconsistencies between what is said and what is done. When handling a response, confrontation, or challenging attitudes, is a healthy development in counselling. For example, a student may say he/she hates a particular teacher and, in another instance, may say that he/she likes her. This is inconsistent. You could draw the attention of such a student to such inconsistency by saying, 'You said that you did not like the teacher. Now you are saying that you like her. What exactly do you mean?' Remember to bring this out in a 'feeling' and not in a threatening way. You will, in this way, initiate action in your student.

LISTENING

Effective listening is more complicated than it seems, since it involves a teacher's own level of self-awareness, as well as his/her awareness of the spoken and unspoken cues of the other person. Furthermore, a teacher needs to be able to respond to the student in such a way that he/she feels understood. Being a good listener entails receiving and sending appropriate messages.

In counselling this is important, because it means meeting the needs of the students. Listening to students is not just a matter of receiving what they say, but also receiving how they say it. Sometimes how they communicate is much more revealing than what they actually say, which may be more concealing than revealing. Listening skills are basic to all human interaction, whether the purpose is for getting information, conducting in-depth interviews, or offering informal help. Listening is considered to be the most important counselling skill.

VERBAL COMMUNICATION

The use of words in counselling is a skill which, like any other skill, requires practice to master. Verbal communication takes place first in the literal or content phase. If inappropriate vocabulary is used, rapport and understanding will be hindered. When this happens, miscommunication occurs. Even common words can be misunderstood due to the multiple meanings they carry. Look up any common English word in an unabridged dictionary, and you will find several different definitions of this word. So the potential for miscommunication is great.

In addition to the literal phase of verbal communication, there is also the emotional phase. This refers to other attributes involved in vocal interactions, such as volume, the emotional edge, and other non-verbal cues such as gestures. A student saying, 'I don't care' while angry, or while indifferently walking away from you, or while weeping with his head in his hands. Although the words are the same, the message conveyed is vastly different. As

helpers, we must be sensitive to both the literal and emotional phases of verbal communication. In addition to the two general phases of communication that we have just discussed, there are five more levels of communication. Each of these levels is valuable in different contexts.

The five levels of communication are:

1. Cliches;
2. Facts;
3. Beliefs;
4. Emotions; and
5. Intimacy.

Cliches

This is a French word which has been adopted by English speakers to mean a trite, well-worn phrase. A universal example is the greeting, 'How are you?' 'I'm fine. How are you?' In some African languages, a formal greeting may take ten minutes and yet nothing new is communicated. Everybody is always *good* or *fine*, because that is the pattern the greeting takes. This is communication at the most superficial level, but an important social obligation is met.

Facts

Facts are pieces of information that we pass on to others. They include comments on current events like, 'The morning news mentioned that the President is coming to town tomorrow,' or making conversation on the weather *e.g.*, 'Those clouds look as if they could bring rain this afternoon.' The communication of facts may transmit valuable information from one to another, but little interaction takes place.

Beliefs

Beliefs include any part of an individual's value system. They may communicate insights and choices, or facts which are value-laden. The sharing of one's person begins at this level, and the risk of rejection increases. The sharing of beliefs may include subjects which are considered 'forbidden' in some cultures, such as sex, politics, or religion.

Emotions

Emotions include communicating personal feelings. 'I am thrilled that I was invited to the party', or 'That teacher is rude, he annoys me'. Communication at this level is difficult for most men and women. It requires a great deal of vulnerability to share feelings with someone else, and more so when feelings about another are shared. This is the optimum level for counselling to take place. If the student talks to the teacher at an emotional level, and the teacher responds at the level of facts or beliefs, counselling may be derailed. A

miscommunication may occur. Guidance may take place at the facts or beliefs level, but effective counselling rarely does.

Intimacy

Although sometimes used as a euphemism for sexual intercourse, intimacy is more accurately defined as the intercourse of the soul. At this level, the self becomes united to another person. This is a level of communication that many individuals never experience. Indeed there is some debate as to whether such a level is even desirable, since the self may be compromised. In counselling, this is an inappropriate level, since it may encourage the dependency of the student on the helping teacher and thereby inhibit the student's personal growth.

LEADS

Leads may be defined as statements that counsellors use in communication with the clients.

Leads have been classified into categories of techniques, namely:

- *Restatement of Content:* Attempts to convey understanding by repeating or rephrasing the communication.
- *Questioning:* Seeks further information and asks the person counselled to elaborate a point.
- *Reflection of Feeling:* Understanding from the client's point of view and communicating that understanding.
- *Reassurance:* Serves as a reward or reinforcing agent. It is often used to support the client's exploration of ideas and feelings or test different behaviour.
- *Interpretation:* Explains meaning behind the client's statements.

Example

A statement by a client immediately after seating herself in the counsellor's office. The counsellor had not met the student before. Different leads or counsellor responses are given and classified. 'Miss Musonda told me to come down here to talk to you. I don't know why. She said I couldn't go back to class until I have learnt to stay awake. I work at a restaurant until one o'clock every morning in a part-time job, and I am tired. Anyway, who could stay awake in there? She bores you to death!' Among some of the responses the counsellor could make are the following:

- 'You were bored and fell asleep, and Miss Musonda asked you to leave the class.'
 - Restatement of content = understanding.
- 'What does she do that you find boring?'
 - Questioning = investigating.
- 'You feel put off.'
 - Reflection of feeling = understanding

- ‘I am sure that something can be worked out between you and Miss Musonda in this situation.’
 - Reassurance = supporting.
- ‘Do you think that you might be disowning responsibility for what has happened?’
 - Interpretation = interpreting.

PERSONAL GROOMING AS A SOCIAL ACTIVITY

Many social animals adapt preening and grooming behaviours for other social purposes such as bonding, social structure enforcement, or dispute resolution. How you are groomed is the first thing anyone looking at you will probably notice.

When you are fresh and well groomed, it creates a positive impression. Research has shown that good looking people have a 20% advantage over the not so groomed ones etc.. “How you are groomed is the first thing anyone looking at you will probably notice. When you are fresh and well groomed, it creates a positive impression. Research has shown that good looking people have a 20% advantage over the not so groomed ones.”

If you are a genius, perhaps you can get away with anything. If you are not, though, here are some basic rules to conform to: “If you are a genius, perhaps you can get away with anything. If you are not, though, here are some basic rules to conform to:”

- Daily showers are a necessity. “1 Daily showers are a necessity.”
- Hair must be shampooed at least once in 2 days and conditioned once a week. “1 Hair must be shampooed at least once in 2 days and conditioned once a week.”
- A hairstyle to suit your face and personality must be chosen. “1 A hairstyle to suit your face and personality must be chosen.”
- Eyes, nose and ears need to be cleaned in privacy and not in public. “1 Eyes, nose and ears need to be cleaned in privacy and not in public.”
- Teeth need brushing and flossing every morning and night, and rinsing after every meal. Make sure not to eat any pungent food during office hours. If you do, rinse your mouth thoroughly and eat some mouth freshner. “1 Teeth need brushing and flossing every morning and night, and rinsing after every meal. Make sure not to eat any pungent food during office hours. If you do, rinse your mouth thoroughly and eat some mouth freshener. “
- Nails should be clipped and filed short for men and be of medium length for women. It is understood that medium length nails have to be clean and if painted, the enamel should not be chipped. Bright and zany nails are great for parties but not for work. “1 Nails should be clipped and filed short for men and be of medium length for women. It is understood that medium length nails have to be clean and if painted, the enamel should not be chipped. Bright and zany nails are great for parties but not for work.”

- Toes and feet too should be taken care of. The feet should be kept clean and crack free. The toenails should go through a routine of cleaning. Ladies can paint them in mild colours for work and try and have a pedicure once every fortnight.

PERSONAL GROOMING

Personal grooming (also called titivating) is the art of cleaning, grooming, and maintaining parts of the body. In animals, it is a species-typical behaviour that is controlled by neural circuits in the brain. Grooming in humans typically includes bathroom activities such as primping: washing and cleansing the hair, combing it to extract tangles and snarls, and styling. It can also include cosmetic care of the body, such as shaving.

Primping is usually the act of getting ready before going out for the night. Such activities include showering, the application of makeup and the picking out of the night's outfit and jewelry. Hygiene refers to practices associated with ensuring good health and cleanliness. Such practices vary widely and what is considered acceptable in one culture may be unacceptable in another. In medical contexts, the term "hygiene" refers to the maintenance of health and healthy living.

The term appears in phrases such as personal hygiene, domestic hygiene, dental hygiene, and occupational hygiene and is frequently used in connection with public health. The term "hygiene" is derived from Hygieia, the Greek goddess of health, cleanliness and sanitation. Hygiene is also a science that deals with the promotion and preservation of health, also called hygienics.

The purposes of food and cooking hygiene are to prevent food contamination, the transmission of disease, and to prevent food poisoning. Food and cooking hygiene protocols specify safe ways to handle and prepare food, and safe methods of serving and eating it.

Such protocols include:

- Cleaning of food-preparation areas and equipment (for example using designated cutting boards for preparing raw meats and vegetables). (Cleaning may involve use of chlorine bleach for sterilization.)
- Careful avoidance of meats contaminated by trichina worms, salmonella, and other pathogens; or thorough cooking of questionable meats.
- Extreme care in preparing raw foods, such as sushi and sashimi.
- Institutional dish sanitizing by washing with soap and clean water.
- Washing of hands after touching uncooked food when preparing meals.
- Not using the same utensils to prepare different foods.
- Not sharing cutlery when eating.
- Not licking fingers or hands while or after eating.
- Not reusing serving utensils that have been licked.
- Proper storage of food so as to prevent contamination by vermin.

- Refrigeration of foods (and avoidance of specific foods in environments where refrigeration is or was not feasible).
- Labeling food to indicate when it was produced (or, as food manufacturers prefer, to indicate its “best before” date).
- Proper disposal of uneaten food and packaging.
- Proper bandaging and dressing of injuries.
- Use of protective clothing, such as masks, gowns, caps, eyewear and gloves.
- Sterilization of instruments used in surgical procedures.
- Safe disposal of medical waste.

Most of these practices were developed in the 19th century and were well established by the mid-20th century. Some procedures (such as disposal of medical waste) were tightened up as a result of late-20th century disease outbreaks, notably AIDS and Ebola.

- Sterilization of instruments used by hairdressers.
- Sterilization by autoclave of instruments used in body piercing and tattoo marking
- Cleaning hands before eating in food outlets, such as using soap to wash or wet wipe to mop up

Excessive hygiene practices may cause allergic diseases. Some parts of the body, *e.g.* the ear canal, or inside of the vagina are mostly better left alone for the body's own cleaning systems. Also, excessive application of soaps, creams, and ointments can adversely affect certain of the body's natural processes. For examples, soaps and ointments can deplete the skin of natural protective oils, and some substances can be absorbed and, even in trace amounts, disturb natural hormonal balances. In medicine, the hygiene hypothesis states that a lack of early childhood exposure to infectious agents, and later a lack of exposure to helminths as adults, increases susceptibility to allergic diseases. The ear canals have a perfectly functioning cleaning system of their own, and don't normally need assistance. In fact, attempts to clean the ear canals may only do the opposite, since earwax, carrying debris and other material towards to opening, is pushed back inwards. The skin has a natural layer of fat, which protects the skin from *e.g.* drought. When washing, unless using aqueous creams, etc. with compensatory mechanisms, this layer is removed, leaving the skin unprotected. By this mechanism, excessive washing may eventually trigger eczema.

Elaborate codes of hygiene can be found in several Hindu texts such as the Manusmriti and the Vishnu Purana. Bathing is one of the five Nitya karmas (daily duties) in Sikhism, not performing which leads to sin according to some scriptures. These codes were based on the notion of ritual purity and were not informed by an understanding of the causes of diseases and their means of transmission. However, some of the ritual-purity codes did improve hygiene, from an epidemiological point of view, more or less by accident.

Regular bathing was a hallmark of Roman civilization. Elaborate baths were constructed in urban areas to serve the public, who typically demanded the infrastructure

to maintain personal cleanliness. The complexes usually consisted of large, swimming pool-like baths, smaller cold and hot pools, saunas, and spa-like facilities where individuals could be depilated, oiled, and massaged. Water was constantly changed by an aqueduct-fed flow. Bathing outside of urban centres involved smaller, less elaborate bathing facilities, or simply the use of clean bodies of water. Roman cities also had large sewers, such as Rome's Cloaca Maxima, into which public and private latrines drained.

Romans didn't have demand-flush toilets but did have some toilets with a continuous flow of water under them. (Similar toilets are seen in Acre Prison in the film *Exodus*.) Until the late 19th Century, only the elite in Western cities typically possessed indoor facilities for relieving bodily functions. The poorer majority used communal facilities built cesspools in backyards and courtyards. This changed after Dr. John Snow discovered that cholera was transmitted by the fecal contamination of water.

Though it took decades for his findings to gain wide acceptance, governments and sanitary reformers were eventually convinced of the health benefits of using sewers to keep human waste from contaminating water. This encouraged the widespread adoption of both the flush toilet and the moral imperative that bathrooms should be indoors and as private as possible. Individual animals regularly clean themselves and put their fur, feathers or other skin coverings in good order. This activity is known as personal grooming, a form of hygiene.

For example, combing through the hair or feathers, ensuring they lie smoothly against the skin, and extracting foreign objects such as insects, and leaves, dirt and twigs, are all forms of grooming. Among animals, birds spend considerable time preening their feathers. This is done to remove ectoparasites, keep them in good aerodynamic condition, and waterproof them.

They use the "preen oil" secreted by the uropygial gland, the dust of powder down, or other means such as dust-bathing or anting. When an oil spill affects penguins, animal conservation that rescue them sometimes dress them in knitted sweaters to stop them from preening and thereby ingesting the mineral oil which is poisonous. Felidae (cats) are famous for their extensive grooming. One reason advanced for such grooming is to remove all traces of blood and other matter so as to not alert prey with the scent. Cats groom so much that they often produce hairballs from the fur they ingest.

DEVELOPMENT OF COUNSELLING RATIONALE

RATIONALE

Counselling, in different forms and with different interpretations, has existed in societies for a long time. Counselling has now become institutionalized. Schools, for example, have to a large extent taken over the task of providing psychological support to boys and girls. The differences and contradictions in present-day counselling have

their origin in the social and historical forces that have shaped modern culture. People in all societies, and at all times, have experienced emotional or psychological distress and behavioural problems. In each culture, there have been well established ways and methods of helping individuals with their problems.

COUNSELLING IN AFRICA

Most sub-Saharan African societies have, in the past, been held together by elements unique to the region.

The most outstanding of these elements are:

- The extended family system, including the clan and the tribe;
- Chieftaincy;
- Taboos;
- Various forms of initiation; and
- Close links with ancestors and elders.

The village is the focal point of society. While each one of these elements is important, only a few are used to illustrate the role of counselling in present-day sub-Saharan African societies. Basically, traditional chiefs had multiple roles which included serving as a symbol of authority and as a regulator. Since these roles were accepted and respected by all, there was a clear direction in the day-to-day affairs of society. The elders, the chief included, were a valuable source of guidance and counselling for boys and girls.

In most cases, the chiefs were regarded as a vital link between ancestors and the present generation. This link was strengthened by the rituals, ceremonies and taboos attached to them. It was easy to guide and counsel the young, since the rituals or ceremonies were also aimed at preparation for adult roles in society.

The extended family, the clan, and the village, made society supportive. No individual regarded him/herself as alien. Counsel was readily sought and provided.

At present, sub-Saharan African countries experience many changes, which in turn have resulted in the weakening of the structures of society.

The most outstanding examples are:

- A gradual shift from the extended to the nuclear family unit, or single parent family unit;
- A heavy reliance on a cash economy in poor countries;
- political demands and expectations;
- A rapid rate of urbanization with a high unemployment rate compounded by a high illiteracy rate;
- A high population growth rate, which leads to large classes in schools;
- The infiltration of foreign culture through films, television, videos, live performances, and magazines, which are counter productive;
- Wars, political instability and epidemics, leading to increased numbers of orphans and refugees; and
- Moral decay due to elements from within and outside the nation.

Forms of Counselling in Traditional African Societies

In traditional African societies, counsel was given in various forms, the most common of which were giving advice and sharing wisdom.

Giving Advice

Giving advice has been a common way of providing help for other people. The advice offered was frequently instrumental in helping people to consider their future. In many instances, the extended family was the main source of advice for girls and boys. There was usually no shortage of people willing to share their wisdom with others.

Giving advice often promoted the dependence of the young person on the advice given. In most cases, it was largely subjective and did not promote the personal development of young people.

Wisdom

Wisdom generally refers to experience and knowledge about life and using them judiciously. In African societies, it was considered the responsibility of elders to provide wisdom or counsel to young boys and girls. The wisdom provided by elderly men and women was part of the counselling function of the family or society for boys and girls. Another aspect of wisdom is sharing proverbs or folk stories. A well-known African proverb is, 'When elephants fight, the grass suffers.' Folk stories about the 'hare' are told in many parts of Africa.

Counselling in the Educational System

The ever growing complexity of society, coupled with social problems like HIV/AIDS and the rapid development of science and technology, place heavy demands on education. The school, as an important social institution, is required to adapt quickly to changing patterns, and help prepare citizens for tomorrow's challenges. Counselling in the educational system should help boys and girls alike, to develop their capacities to the full. These include intellectual, social, physical and moral capacities.

Education and Counselling of Girls

Disparities in gender, social and cultural practices, beliefs and perceptions, are widespread in many societies. Unless there are systematic interventions to remove the gender gaps in education, half of the human resources in most countries will be underutilized. Sociocultural beliefs and practices in schools often discourage girls from learning and subsequently lower their aspirations. The provision of effective counselling should help to improve the self-image of girls and boys, and broaden their educational and occupational ambitions.

DEFINITION OF COUNSELLING

It is difficult to think of a single definition of counselling. This is because definitions of counselling depend on theoretical orientation. Counselling is a learning-oriented process, which occurs usually in an interactive relationship, with the aim of helping a person learn more about the self, and to use such understanding to enable the person to become an effective member of society. Counselling is a process by means of which the helper expresses care and concern towards the person with a problem, and facilitates that person's personal growth and brings about change through self-knowledge.

Counselling is a relationship between a concerned person and a person with a need. This relationship is usually person-to-person, although sometimes it may involve more than two people.

It is designed to help people to understand and clarify their views, and learn how to reach their self-determined goals through meaningful, well-informed choices, and through the resolution of emotional or interpersonal problems. It can be seen from these definitions that counselling can have different meanings.

Counselling is provided under a variety of labels. For example, there are instances where counselling is offered when a relationship is primarily focused on other, non-counselling concerns. A student may use a teacher as a person with whom it is safe to share worries. In such a situation, the teacher uses counselling skills, but does not engage in an actual counselling relationship. The teacher counsels but is not a counsellor.

AIMS OF COUNSELLING

The aims of counselling are broad. They may depend on the situation and the environment, and on training.

The basic aims of counselling include the following:

- To help students gain an insight into the origins and development of emotional difficulties, leading to an increased capacity to take rational control over feelings and actions.
- To alter maladjusted behaviour.
- To assist students to move in the direction of fulfilling their potential, or achieve an integration of conflicting elements within themselves.
- To provide students with the skills, awareness and knowledge, which will enable them to confront social inadequacy.

In a school, boys and girls face many difficulties and problems which may be expressed in the following ways:

- Withdrawal,
- Unhappiness,
- Annoyance,
- Anger,
- Inability to meet needs,

- Lack of knowledge,
- Partial or total failure,
- Inability to realise aspirations,
- Anxiety and
- Hyperactivity.

Added to these is the problem of HIV/AIDS for which a great deal of psychological support may be required for boys and girls, particularly those already infected, or who are orphans as a result of this disease.

Young boys and girls are a large segment of the population. It, therefore, makes strategic sense to target them through guidance and counselling. Counselling is important at this stage, because this is when boys and girls develop positive sexual attitudes and practices. It is when students begin to understand who they are, and how they can contribute to healthy relationships. They start to develop attitudes of respect towards members of the opposite sex, and see how each community member can contribute to development.

Personal and social counselling should also assist in awakening students to educational and vocational opportunities. The image of a girl in most African communities is that of a passive, submissive person, who remains in the background. Generally these girls have a negative self-image and a feeling of inferiority. This is increased by the attitudes of parents, teachers and society. Personal counselling empowers girls, and teaches them to develop positive attitudes towards themselves, and is marked by an ability to acknowledge areas of expertise and to be free to make positive choices.

FIELDS OF COUNSELLING

EDUCATIONAL COUNSELLING

A term first coined by Truman Kelley in 1914, educational counselling is a process of rendering services to pupils who need assistance in making decisions about important aspects of their education, such as the choice of courses and studies, decisions regarding interests and ability, and choices of college and high school. Educational counselling increases a pupil's knowledge of educational opportunities.

PERSONAL/SOCIAL COUNSELLING

Personal counselling deals with emotional distress and behavioural difficulties, which arise when individuals struggle to deal with developmental stages and tasks. Any aspect of development can be turned into an adjustment problem, and it is inevitable that everyone encounters, at some time, exceptional difficulty in meeting an ordinary challenge.

For example:

- Anxiety over a career decision.
- Lingering anger over an interpersonal conflict.
- Insecurities about getting older.
- Depressive feelings when bored with work.
- Excessive guilt about a serious mistake.
- A lack of assertion and confidence.
- Grief over the loss of a loved one.
- Disillusionment and loneliness after parents' divorce.

VOCATIONAL COUNSELLING

Vocational counselling is defined as individual contacts with those counselled, in order to facilitate career development.

This definition and category encompasses counselling situations such as these:

- Helping students become aware of the many occupations to consider.
- Interpreting an occupational interest inventory to a student.
- Assisting a teenager to decide what to do after school.
- Helping a student apply to a college or university.
- Role-playing a job interview in preparation for the real thing.

FEATURES OF COUNSELLING

Counselling is a concept that has existed for a long time. We have sought through the ages to understand ourselves, offer counsel and develop our potential, become aware of opportunities and, in general, help ourselves in ways associated with formal guidance practice.

In most communities, there has been, and there still is, a deeply embedded conviction that, under proper conditions, people can help others with their problems. Some people help others find ways of dealing with, solving, or transcending problems. In schools, if the collaboration between teachers and students is good, students learn in a practical way.

Young people develop degrees of freedom in their lives as they become aware of options and take advantage of them. At its best, helping should enable people to throw off chains and manage life situations effectively.

Unprecedented economic and social changes have, over the years, changed the ways in which we manage our lives. Consequently, not all the lessons of the past can effectively deal with the challenges of modern times. Effective counselling, especially in institutions of learning has now become important. Boys and girls, and young men and women, need to be guided in the relationships between health and the environment, earning skills, knowledge, and attitudes that lead to success and failure in life. The need for counselling has become paramount in order to promote the well-being of the

child. Effective counselling should help to improve the self-image of young people and facilitate achievement in life tasks. Counselling should empower girls and boys to participate fully in, and benefit from, the economic and social development of the nation.

APPROACHES TO COUNSELLING

Integrated Approach

At Riversdale, we adopt an integrative approach to our counselling. By ‘integrated’ we mean that we take what is best from a number of approaches and apply it to your unique set of needs, circumstances and experiences.

COGNITIVE BEHAVIOURAL COUNSELLING

This type of counselling pays particular attention to the way you think and act and helps you identify whether or not your thinking and behaviours are actually gaining positive outcomes for you in your life. Our thinking, formed from our childhood, can heavily influence the way we view our experiences and therefore the way we respond to them.

Many clients are unaware that they can choose to change or adapt the way they view things and are equally unaware that sometimes their own thinking can serve to embed them in a negative cycle that can lead to stress and depression. Once you become aware that you can change and influence your thinking then you become freed to see that if you can change the way you think and see things, you can change the way you feel about these events. Fundamentally, cognitive therapy helps you to choose the way you view life and helps you to see that there is often at least one other way to view a problem or problem situation. We often find that we are overwhelmed by life simply because we have temporarily lost our perspective. Cognitive therapy helps us to restore and rebuild our sense of perspective and context thus assisting us in realising our full potential.

PERSON-CENTRED COUNSELLING

While cognitive and behavioural counselling (CBT) addresses the way you think and behave, Person-Centred counselling looks at your whole person and your whole life, from childhood to the present day. It can be a longer term approach than CBT. Person-Centred counselling seeks ways to assist you in overcoming more deep-rooted problems that persist in preventing you from achieving your potential and in achieving self-actualisation, *i.e.*, becoming the person you have the potential to become. There may be deep unresolved issues in your life that you now feel ready to address for the first time.

Person-Centred counselling operates around a number of core principles:

- Unconditional positive regard—always placing you first and always having regard for your worth as an individual as well as a concern for your well-being;
- Non-judgemental—never judging your actions and thoughts even if you do
- Empathy—always trying to see life as you are seeing it and experiencing it

Communication Management Skills

PRINCIPLES OF COMMUNICATION

Interpersonal communication is the groundwork of human interaction. Its importance for innovation and change can hardly be overemphasized. In this section, communication from different viewpoints including listening and speaking is ex.

Objectives:

- To introduce communication and to demonstrate the importance of communication in a variety of contexts including that of the manager of innovation and change.
- To evaluate and discuss the characteristics of good communication and how to improve our communication.

Communication is a two-way process of giving and receiving information through any number of channels. Whether one is speaking informally to a colleague, addressing a conference or meeting, writing a newsletter article or formal report, the following basic principles apply:

- Know your audience.
- Know your purpose.
- Know your topic.
- Anticipate objections.
- Present a rounded picture.
- Achieve credibility with your audience.

- Follow through on what you say.
- Communicate a little at a time.
- Present information in several ways.
- Develop a practical, useful way to get feedback.
- Use multiple communication techniques.

Communication is complex: When listening to or reading someone else's message, we often filter what's being said through a screen of our own opinions. One of the major barriers to communication is our own ideas and opinions.

There's an old communications game, telegraph, that's played in a circle. A message is whispered around from person to person. What the exercise usually proves is how profoundly the message changes as it passes through the distortion of each person's inner "filter."

ENVIRONMENTAL FACTORS

Communication can be influenced by environmental factors that have nothing to do with the content of the message. Some of these factors are:

- The nature of the room, how warm it is, smoke, comfort of the chair, etc.
- Outside distractions, what is going on in the area.
- The reputation/credibility of the speaker/writer.
- The appearance, style or authority of the speaker.
- Listener's education, knowledge of the topic, etc.
- The language, page layout, design of the message.

People remember:

- 10% of what they read.
- 20% of what they hear.
- 30% of what they see.
- 40% of what they hear and see.

Communication with Decision Makers

Innovation and change often depends upon persuading potential users of the benefits of an innovation. To deal persuasively with decision makers, it is necessary to know and understand their interests and opinions.

The following questions are helpful in organizing technology transfer efforts:

- Who are the key people to persuade?
- Who will make the decisions about innovation and change?
- What are these decision makers' past experiences with innovation and change?
- What are the decision makers' current attitudes towards innovation and change? Are they neutral, friendly, hostile or apathetic?
- What is the most appropriate way to approach the decision maker?

- What are the work styles of the decision makers? Are they highly formal people who want everything in writing and all appointments scheduled in advance? Or are they more flexible, responding favourably to personal telephone calls and informal meetings?
- What networks or groups is the decision maker a part of?
- What programmes or services will the new innovation improve?
- What programmes or services will the new innovation cause problems with?
- How will the innovation or change benefit the decision maker?

Principles of Effective Persuasion

Whether making a formal presentation at a meeting or writing a report or fact sheet, the following principles hold:

- *Do not oversell or overstate your case:* Make effective use of understatement.
- *Outline the topic you are trying to cover into two parts:* The first part should give broad background information, while the second part provides a detailed summary.
- *Persuasion depends on clarity and simplicity:* Avoid the use of jargon and buzz words.
- Be prepared to back up claims or facts immediately.
- Incorporate major anticipated objections into your programme or presentation.
- Address all relevant aspects of a topic, especially those that may affect the functioning of an organization.
- Use graphics and audiovisuals appropriately.
- *Consider ways to get meaningful input from people:* Find out what they think about the innovation or change.

Good Communication Skills

The way one communicates does not only have an impact on their own profession and personal relations, but also an effect on others. Those who do not have appropriate communication skills are usually ignored or simply kept at bay. Where are those with good communication skills are looked upon and well respected. After all a good listener and a good orator are popular in their groups - professional and personal.

Teaching communication skills can be a rather daunting task, considering that almost every individual feels that they are very good communicators. In fact, most trainers prefer to be regarded as facilitators, who are able to bring to light the nuances that occur while communicating ineffectively, rather than pointing a direct finger and saying - 'You all cannot communicate well'. and when this occurs the participants are ready to delve deeper within and bring out the negative aspects of their communications and replace it with the corrective measures.

Based on the communication skills training programmes conducted by known experts in the field, here are some tips to good communication skills:

- Maintain eye contact with the audience: This is vital as it keeps all those present involved in the conversation. It keeps them interested and on the alert, during the course of the conversation.
- Body awareness: One needs to be aware of all that their body is conveying to them, as well as others. For instance, if there is anxiety rising during the course of a conversation then one feels thirsty and there maybe a slight body tremor. At that point one needs to pause and let someone else speak. A few deep breaths and some water works as the magic portion at this point.
- Gestures and expressions: One needs to be aware of how to effectively use hand gestures and the way they need to posture their body to convey their messages effectively. Sometimes it may happen that they verbally convey something, but their gestures and facial expressions have another story to tell.
- Convey one's thoughts: It is important for one to courageously convey what they think. This is because when things are left unsaid, then what is being spoken is not as convincing as it should be. Then a lack of confidence develops.
- Practice effective communication skills: One should practice speaking and listening skills as often as possible.

In order to practice effective speaking skills one can read passages from a book aloud, in front of a mirror, or simply perform a free speech in front of the mirror. And where listening is concerned, one can try transcribing from the radio or television, etc. this helps in honing sharper listening skills.

List of Communication Skills

The ability to communicate effectively is a trick learnt by many, but practiced perfectly by not too many. This is because for most communicating is simple process. However, it is not so, it is a rather simple-complex-networking system that has varied undercurrents flowing between the speaker and listener/s. Given here is an interesting list of communication skills that one should be aware of in order to better their ability to convey their valuable messages...

- Taking responsibility for one's messages.
- Claiming ownership for one's messages.
- Preparing to listen.
- Encouraging the speaker to speak more.
- Reflecting on what the speaker has to say.
- Adapting to difference of opinions.
- Being open minded.
- Acknowledging differences.
- Assessing without being judgemental.
- Accepting feedback.

- Being assertive.
- Ability to share one's thoughts.
- Sharing one's feelings.
- Conveying to others a message without commanding or dictating terms.
- Being aware of the information coming in
- Maintaining a communication wheel of conclusions, sense data, emotions, impact and desire.
- Calm repetition to drive in a message.
- Addressing people by their name.
- Ability to explain a concept differently so that all those present understand it at their level.
- Ability to resolve conflicts so that it is a win-win for all.
- Ability to be concise and clear.
- Ability to convey thoughts in a focused and concrete manner.
- Ability to confront a situation without ruffling any feathers.
- Ability to convey with an empathetic statement.
- Ability to explain objectively without evaluating.
- Ability to provide specific details supported by concrete examples.
- Ability to monitor emotional reactions and filter out irrational thoughts.
- Ability to project oneself into the audience's point of view.

Improving Communication Skills

When one is required to communicate complicated ideas, one needs to first and foremost work on improving their skills in communicating. Firstly, one needs to overcome all language related barriers by first seeking how to learn English speaking. This is essential, because most people find it difficult to convey their thoughts, because of a strong influence of their national language, regional language and mother tongue.

Well, to overcome the language barrier, one can attend English speaking classes. But then thereafter one also needs to be aware of other nuances involved in improving communication skills. In fact, one needs to ensure that as when they communicate they should not be misunderstood, so as to ensure a free flow of thoughts and ideas, doing away with stumbling roadblocks.

One way of ensuring that one will not be misunderstood is to look into the use of 'scope'. 'Scope', essentially refers to the words that combine with each other in order to create a 'sense unit', in a sentence. For instance, which nouns are covered by a particular verb or preposition. Often poor punctuation or poor sentence construction brings about ineffective communications.

There are varied grammatical devices that help to indicate 'scope'. These devices can be perfected by constantly practicing grammar. In fact, no matter how eloquent a speaker or communicator one maybe, one should spend sometime, ever so often in practicing grammar exercises. One can refer to the various English speaking books that will help them improve.

In fact, parents can improve their own grammar skills by working on exercises with their children, making it a family activity, rather than a boring homework lesson.

Communication Barriers

No matter how good and effective a communicator one maybe, yet the fact is that one does face certain barriers, from time to time, which forces them to work on becoming even more effective in their skills to communicate. Given here are the communication barriers that occur while listening, speaking and in the case of non-verbal communications...

Listening barriers:

- Interrupting the speaker.
- Not maintaining eye contact with the speaker.
- Rushing the speaker to complete what he/she has to say.
- Making the speaker feel as though he/she is wasting the listener's time.
- Being distracted by something that is not part of the on going communication
- Getting ahead of the speaker and completing his/her thoughts.
- Ignoring the speaker's requests.
- Topping the speaker's story with one's own set of examples.
- Forgetting what is being discussed.
- Asking too many questions, for the sake of probing.

Barriers while speaking:

- Unclear messages.
- Lack of consistency in the communication process.
- Incomplete sentences.
- Not understanding the receiver.
- Not seeking clarifications while communicating.

The other barriers include:

- An individual's subjective viewpoint towards issues/people, which leads to assumptions.
- An emotional block, which can lead to an attitude of indifference, suspicion or hostility towards the subject.
- An emotional block or bias that is based on a third party's view point, or on what you have read/heard.
- Words can have different meanings to different people, thus blocking communication.
- Use of negative words.

Meaning and Discipline of Communication Skills

The meaning of the word "communication" is at once both clear and obscure. It is clear enough in conventional usage, but obscure when we seek to determine the limits

of its application. To illustrate, if someone talks to another and common understanding results (indicated by mutually satisfactory action), we have no qualms about saying that communication has occurred.

If, however, misunderstanding results (indicated by mutually unsatisfactory action), we are uncertain whether we should say that there has been poor, or no, communication. Further, if someone does not talk to another and the latter as a result gains certain impressions of the former, has communication occurred? Would it make any difference whether the first person deliberately did not talk or unintentionally failed to talk? If someone eavesdrops on a conversation, is he receiving communication? If from the antics of my neighbour's children or from the condition of his house I draw certain conclusions about him, has there been a communication? If classify a group of objects before me, say, several pieces of lumber, on the basis of certain characteristics, is there communication?

The problem is familiar: It seems impossible to draw a line between those situations that we conventionally term "communication" and those we do not, short of a purely arbitrary distinction. And the many and varied definitions of "communication" appearing in the literature of various fields of study often appear, at first glance at least, to compound the difficulty. We who are teaching speech must be concerned about defining communication. Certainly our concept of this process determines to no small degree our approach to speech training, how broadly or narrowly we view our subject, how we relate it to other areas of study.

To put the problem of defining "communication" in clearer perspective, thus assisting in the selection of a more consistent and pedagogically helpful concept of communication.

To accomplish, shall present a number of definitions of "communication" in a twofold classification and examine the application of these definitions to a series of situations in which human responses and interactions occur. Such classification and application should give us some insights into the problem of definition, into the relationship among existing definitions, and provide us with the perspective necessary to select the most basic, consistent, and useful definition of "communication," and to see its relationship to the process of speech. Definitions of "communication" fall into two broad categories. In one category are those definitions which limit the process of communication to those stimulus-response situations in which one deliberately transmits stimuli to evoke response. In the other category are those definitions that include within the area of communication stimulus-response situations in which there need not be any intention of evoking response in the transmission of the stimuli. The second category obviously overlaps the first.

The definitions have grouped into these two categories. In the first group there is no particular sequence; I include the various definitions to provide a broad view of the definitions in this category. In the second group I present the definitions roughly in the order of their inclusiveness. Our everyday usage of the word "communication" fits in

here. Standard dictionary definitions reflect it. “Communicate” is defined as “To impart, bestow, or convey. To make known; give by way of information. To have intercourse, or to be the means of intercourse; to hold or afford communication; to converse.” “Communication” is defined as “The act or fact of communicating. Intercourse by words, letters or messages; interchange of thoughts or opinions, by conference or other means; converse; correspondence.”

Wilbur Schramm gives what he terms the classical statement of the communication process as “. *A communicates B through channel C to D with effect E.* Each of these letters is to some extent an unknown, and the process can be solved for any one of them or any combination. ” Similarly, Carl Hovland states that communication is “... the process by which an individual (the communicator) transmits stimuli (usually verbal symbols) to modify the behaviour of other individuals (communicatees).” Elaborating the process of communication more fully, Mapheus Smith states, Communication behaviour in its simplest reciprocal form is the use of some action by one person, whether or not accompanied by a material object, as a stimulus to another person in such a way that the second person can perceive the experience of the stimulating person. The overt action of the first person plays the role of a symbol whose reference or meaning is the same for the two participants, with the result that common experience is perceived by both participants. Smith uses the term “communicative behaviour” because it focuses attention on the process of inter behaviour. Two other definitions are interesting additions to this category for the distinctions they draw between communication as interaction and other forms of interaction.

Charles Morris writes: The term communication, when widely used, covers any instance of the establishment of a commonage, that is, the making common of some property to a number of things. In this sense a radiator “communicates” its heat to surrounding bodies, and whatever medium serves this process of making common is a means of communication (the air, a road, a telegraph system, a language). For our purposes “*communication*” will be limited to the use of signs to establish a commonage of signification; the establishment of a commonage other than that of signification—whether by signs or other means—will be called *communization*.

Thus, as Morris points out, the anger of one person may make another person angry, and signs may not have established the commonage.

This sort of situation he calls “communization.” On the other hand, someone may signify anger, and, without becoming angry himself cause someone else to signify anger. An incident of this type he calls “communication.”

George Lundberg puts his definition this way: We shall use the word communication, then, to designate interaction by means of signs and symbols. The symbols may be gestural, pictorial, plastic, verbal, or any other which operate as stimuli to behaviour which would not be evoked by the symbol itself in the absence of special conditionings of the person who responds. Communication is, therefore, a subcategory under interaction, namely, the form of interaction which takes place through symbols.

Lundberg adds that this definition is subject to certain qualifications. It is important to distinguish between “... *communication* and mere *contact*, or *interaction* whether on the verbal level or otherwise.” “True societal communication consists of temporarily identifying oneself symbolically with the other as regards the particular situation involved in the communication.” True communication, he says, is the kind of interaction through signs and symbols that leads to tension reduction or understanding. Similar interaction that leads to increasing tension is also communication, but of a different degree. It involves a different degree of symbolic identification.

In the last two definitions above there is recognition of processes or areas of behaviour very closely related to communication—the “communization” of Morris and the “interaction without the use of signs and symbols” of Lundberg—but which, however, they carefully mark off from what is strictly called “communication.” The excluded areas of behaviour, in the present classification, would be included among the definitions in category two. In this group are the definitions that include as communication situations those situations in which there is no intentional transmission of stimuli to evoke response.

Two concepts of communication in this category are suggestive of the Morris and Lundberg definitions, but instead of excluding the closely related areas of behaviour they include them as special kinds of communication. Edward Sapir, in defining communication, wrote of “explicit” and “implicit” communication. The former is communication in the conventional sense, the use of language to establish common understanding among people (a Category One definition); the latter is the “intuitive interpretation” of the “relatively unconscious symbolisms of gesture, and the unconscious assimilation of the ideas and behaviour of one’s culture”.

Baker Brownell used the terms “direct” and “indirect” communication. The latter is a “... process wherein something converted into symbols is carried over from one person to another.” This is conventional usage (Category One again). The former, direct communication, is a function of the “... identification of people with one another.” This is communication without a symbolic medium; it is an identification of experience.

The odour Newcomb states that when someone gains certain impressions of someone else the latter is communicating something to the former. To use his example, the man who allows junk to accumulate in his front yard communicates something to his neighbour whether he knows it or not. An almost identical point of view is that of Jurgen Ruesch, who states that “... as used in our sense the concept of communication would include all those processes by which people influence one another.” And in slightly different wording, Henry Lindgren expresses it, “Communication, viewed psychologically, is a process which is concerned with all situations involving meaning.” Several years earlier Charles H. Cooley had foreshadowed this broad concept of communication:

By communication is here meant the mechanism through which human relations exist and develop—all the symbols of the mind, together with the means of conveying them through space and preserving them in time. There is no sharp line between the

means of communication and the rest of the external world. In a sense all objects and actions are symbols of the mind, and nearly anything may be used as a sign.

Some writers conceive of the term “communication” broadly enough to include non-human interactions. S. S. Stevens, for instance, gives what he describes as a “... broad, operational, and behaviouristic” definition of communication.

He states: Communication is the discriminatory response of an organism to a stimulus. This definition says that communication occurs when some environmental disturbance (the stimulus) impinges on an organism and the organism does something about it (makes a discriminatory response). If the stimulus is ignored by the organism, there has been no communication. The test is differential reaction of some sort. The message that gets no response is not a communication. Stevens adds that his definition includes the clucking of a mother hen that brings her chicks, as well as a treatise on the information theory of communication. In Warren Weaver’s definition the ultimate step is taken, to include the interaction of machines:

The word *communication* will be used here in a very broad sense to include all of the procedures by which one mind may affect another. In some connection it may be desirable to use a still broader definition of communication, namely, one which would include the procedures by means of which one mechanism (say automatic equipment to track an airplane and to compute its probable future positions) affects another mechanism (say a guided missile chasing this airplane).

With the above classification of definitions in mind, let us turn to an application of these definitions. Let us picture an office in which several men are working at their desks. At midmorning the boss emerges from his private office and briefly talks with an employee. Let us assume that he gives the employee instructions to prepare a report, which the latter does, to the complete satisfaction of the boss. We can, without quibbling, say that in this case communication between the employer and the employee has occurred. We can also say that in this case communication has been successful. If the report had not been correct in every detail, because of some misunderstanding of the instructions, we would still say that communication had occurred, though not so successfully. Now suppose the boss had stepped into the room, briefly looked around, and then returned to his office without having said a word or made a gesture designed to evoke a response. It seems reasonable to suppose that some of the employees would nevertheless respond. They might have wondered, for instance, if the employer were checking to see that everyone was busy.

It seems apparent, moreover, that the responses of the employees might have been the same whether the boss had in fact been observing their work or not thinking about them at all. And yet again, if the employees had expected the boss to appear and had he not done so, his non-appearance would undoubtedly have evoked certain responses. Let us imagine, to carry the hypothetical incident further, that one of the employees is working on a large chart. His desk is inconveniently small for his work; lack of space reduces his efficiency and makes his job appreciably more difficult.

The employee might respond by feeling frustrated and angry. He might further begin to consider his small desk a threat to his prestige, and an indication of the small value the company places on his services. Still another employee might be finding his chair uncomfortable, and besides squirming around for an optimum adjustment to it, could well be thinking that the boss feels little concern for the welfare and dignity of his employees.

These commonplace office situations, a moment's reflection will show, correspond to most, if not all, of the communication situations. There was transmission of stimuli to evoke response; there was an interchange of ideas; the use of signs established a commonage of signification; people interacted through the use of signs and symbols; and impressions of certain people—intended or unintended—were evoked in the minds of others.

These doubtless were, in Sapir's terms, intuitive interpretations of gesture and unconscious assimilation of office culture. Also there may have been direct communication in Brownell's sense of the identification of people with one another, which perhaps could be illustrated by the common feelings towards the company. All were situations involving meaning. Moreover, we could class all as discriminatory responses to environmental stimuli. If we apply our definitions by categories, we find that in terms of the definitions in Category One, only the first of the office situations described has the characteristics of a communication situation, that is, the one in which the boss instructed an employee to make a report. In none of the others was there a deliberate use of signs or symbols to influence behaviour.

All of these situations could, however, with the addition of the element of purpose, involve communication in the sense of Category One. Had the boss when he made his wordless appearance done so intentionally to evoke response, or had he intentionally not appeared when he knew his employees expected him to (the absence of a stimulus object in a certain context can be as meaningful as its presence), the definitions would apply. If the too-small desk and the inadequate chair had been purposely given to the men in question (to let them know, for instance, that they were not so important as they might have felt themselves to be) these would have been communication situations in terms of definitions in Category One.

If we apply Category Two definitions, on the other hand, we find that all the office situations described involve communication. The definitions of Newcomb, Ruesch, Cooley, Lindgren, Stevens, and Weaver would quite plainly make of each of the office incidents a communication situation. The "split" definitions of Sapir and Brownell are more difficult to apply, but it seems apparent that their "implicit" and "explicit" concepts would include those situations that had meaning for the individuals involved although they were not intentionally structured to have such meaning. The relationships among them, and their relationships to the situations described? In the first place, the classification itself gives us a perspective on the problem of defining "communication" by revealing various attempts to conceptualize the process. The classification reveals

attempts to delineate certain types of interaction as communication to the exclusion of other types; it reveals attempts to include as a special kind of communication certain interactional behaviour that does not fit the conventional concept of communication, and further, a disregard of such distinctions and the inclusion of all forms of human interaction, direct or indirect, as communication. And still further, it reveals definitions so broad that certain animal responses, and even mechanical interactions, fall into the category of communication. Secondly, the importance and value of viewing communication as response become apparent. It is evident from the classification and application of the definitions that in the first category the concept of the process of communication is from the point of view of the transmitter of stimuli, and in the second category, from the point of view of the person responding.

Looking at the process of communication from the transmitter's point of view provides the most obvious method of delimiting the area of behaviour to be treated as communication, and consequently simplifies the problem of definition. If someone is transmitting stimuli for the purpose of evoking response there is communication; otherwise there is none. This is certainly one basis for definition, but it leaves a large area of behaviour—often indistinguishable from “communication” by the responder or an observer—inadequately related to it, and in a sense unaccounted for. Only the transmitter can know whether or not he is transmitting stimuli for the purpose of influencing the behaviour of others. When the process of communication is viewed from the perspective of the person responding, the above problem of what to do with the closely related behaviour no longer exists. There seems to be no significant difference in the process of response whether or not it is to deliberately transmitted stimuli, and therefore no reason to classify the responses on this basis.

To use the office examples again, in the non-verbal situations, if the responders had known whether or not the situations were intentionally structured, it might have made a difference in the behaviour elicited, but this difference would have been the result of their having perceived the stimulus pattern differently. Had they assumed intentional structure, then whether or not there was in fact intentional structure would have made no difference to their response. There may appear to be a problem in viewing communication from the point of view of the responder when we proceed from people's influencing each other through words, actions, or man-made artifacts as communication to including as communication the individual's response to some object in the natural environment that human effort has in no way structured.

Take, for instance, someone's responses to the moon. Yet, here again, apart from the very basic response of awareness, his reactions, intellectual and emotional, and the meanings he “sees” in the moon are a function of the influence of other minds; he is interacting, though indirectly, with other people. Thirdly, we are able to select a basic and useful definition of “communication.”

The logical end result of accepting any of the definitions in Category Two is the acceptance of the broadest of the definitions, that of Stevens, which includes all instances

of discriminatory response to environmental stimuli as communication (disregarding, of course, mechanical interaction as communication). As a basic definition this is the most satisfactory. It is inclusive of the other definitions, and it provides a perspective that permits us to see the relationships between the many other proposed definitions of communication.

Viewed from the perspective of this definition, the other definitions differ from each other on the basis of the range of response-evoking stimuli included in the communication situation. By the same token, this definition permits us systematically to delineate areas of communicative behaviour for purposes of study, while keeping these limited areas of behaviour in a consistent relationship to the total area of communicative behaviour of which they are a functionally inseparable part. We can delineate these areas for study by delimiting the range of response-evoking stimuli that is to be included in a given communication situation. Thus we might include as communication only those responses to words, objects, or actions deliberately structured to evoke response in a given situation. We might include only responses to written words designed to “communicate” at a particular time. We might include only spoken words and bodily actions, or only spoken words, or spoken words in a face-to-face situation, depending upon what aspect of the human interaction we happen to be primarily interested in.

There can, of course, be no sharp line of demarcation between the responses defined as communicative and those that are not. There is, as Cooley stated, no sharp line between the means of communication and the rest of the external world. Moreover, delimiting the communication situation by limiting the range of response-evoking stimuli included does not cancel the effects of other stimuli.

The individual is constantly making differential responses to a wide range of stimulus patterns, environmental and internal, responses which are often inextricably intermingled with the responses to the stimuli that would be, by definition in a given case, included within the area of communicative behaviour. The process of limitation suggested here, however, makes possible a systematic approach to the problem of limited definition, and makes us more clearly aware of what we are including and excluding for purposes of study and how these parts are related to each other.

The broad, basic definition adopted here points to the basic nature of communicative behaviour.

While it may often serve our purpose to consider as communication situations only those in which people are responding to verbal stimuli, or rather, to consider primarily their responses to verbal stimuli, we must recognize the integral relationship between such responses and responses to other stimuli.

The problem of defining “communication” is not unlike that of defining “education.” In a sense, all learning experiences are educational (perhaps all experiences beyond reflex action), but to make learning more rapid and profitable we set up certain conditions of learning and in general limit the term “education” to an application to learning under such conditions.

But to see what is conventionally termed “education” in the proper perspective we must see it in relationship to the vast number of other experiences of which it is a functionally inseparable part. And so, too, must we see communication, particularly that process of communication we call speech.

Effective Communication Skills

While it is an undisputable fact the communications forms one of the essential basis of human existence, yet most individuals overlook the need to refine their communication skills, from time-to-time. Effective communication skills is a must whether it is individual or then effective team communication skills.

According to the experts one can communicate effectively when they understand the stages of interpersonal communication, which are explained below:

- *The phatic stage:* This is the initial exploratory stage, which determines the course of the conversation. This begins with the greetings and accompanying gestures such as eye contact, the smile, etc. In a formal encounter there is more distance between the individuals, as compared to in the case of an informal encounter. This stage is also known as the warming up stage. There is a no meaning and intention, but just the setting for the next level of the conversation.
- *The personal stage:* This is the second stage in which the individuals bring a more personal element into the conversation. During this stage one generally brings down their social guard and begin to interact more openly. They are ready to let the others involved in the conversation more about themselves and the hesitation decreases. Interpersonal interactions generally move into a third stage. Otherwise professional interactions are generally confined to this stage.
- *The intimate stage:* This stage is mainly meant for conversations between friends, family and relatives, where those involved in the conversation share a higher level of intimacy with each other. This stage of communicating usually entails opening one’s heart and sharing rather intimate details, which is not a part of professional conversations.

Keeping in mind these stages, one becomes more aware of how their conversations should progress and where they need to conclude a conversation, or extend it for that matter. Effective skills in communication calls for awareness and attentive listening.

Examples of Communication Skills

More often than never, most people consider themselves to be good and effective communicators simply because they feel they can speak fluently.

While speaking fluently is an important aspect of communicating, yet it is not the only requirement. One should be able to listen effectively, speak fluently and clearly, write well and read in the language/s they are familiar with.

Apart from these basic aspects of communications, one needs to keep in mind the non-verbal aspects too, in order to be considered adept in communication skills.

The fact is that one needs to constantly work towards developing effective communication skills. And primarily they need to overcome the barriers to effective communication. And this can be done when they are aware of the barriers and shortcomings.

This is in fact the first and foremost primary step to being good communicator. Given here are some of the barriers that occur in communicating effectively. Understanding these barriers will help one comprehend examples of communicating skills. After all breaking down barriers implies setting good examples...

The verbal barriers are:

Attacking:

- Interrogating.
- Criticizing.
- Blaming.
- Shaming.

You messages:

- Moralizing.
- Preaching.
- Advising.
- Diagnosing.
- Endorsing Power.
- Ordering.
- Threatening.
- Commanding.
- Directing.
- Shouting.
- Name-calling.
- Refusing to talk.

The non-verbal barriers are:

- Flashing eyes.
- Rolling eyes.
- Quick movements.
- Slow movements.
- Arms crossed.
- Legs crossed.
- Gestures out of exasperation.
- Slouching.
- Hunching.
- Lack of personal hygiene.
- Doodling.

- Avoiding eye contact.
- Staring at people.
- Over fidgeting.

Verbal Communication Skills

Everybody has interesting thoughts floating in their mind, however only a few are able to communicate them effectively, and bring about a resounding impact on their audience. This is because they have probably sharpened their verbal communication skills. Many feel that this skill does not need any training, as every individual is able to communicate. Yes, every individual can communicate, but the problem is that every individual cannot effectively communicate.

Then the common question that arises is: 'How to improve my communication skill'. Though the years, experts in the field of training have found innovative ways and have provided interesting tips and methods to improve your communication skills.

Given here are some interesting tips ways in which one can improve the way in which they communicate:

- *Be aware of the communication process:* One should be aware of every aspect of the present communication - the purpose, objective and needs. One needs to be aware of what is occurring within the self; aware of what the others present feel; aware of all that is occurring between the communicators and aware of all that is happening around the communicators.
- *Digging deeper:* One should be able to dig below the surface and derive and understands each communicator's primary needs from the conversation taking place.
- *Clarity of thought:* One needs to be clear and focused on the subject at hand and not beat around the bush and be ambiguous.
- *Listening empathetically:* One should hone the skills of listening with understanding.
- *Assert respectfully:* It is important that one develops speaking up assertive communication skills. This is because when one is assertive, they are proving that they are confident about what they need to convey.
- *Conflict resolution:* One should be able to come to win-win solutions in order to solve all problems that may occur from time-to-time.

Motivational Skills

Motivational skill is very important for the leaders to lead from front in order to get task done effectively and on scheduled time. To motivate team, you need to apply following skills:

- Give recognition to the team's achievement.
- Giving respect would motivate people to give best.

- Extend help.
- Provide opportunities to grow.

Motivational Skills -October 14, 2008 at 18:10 pm by Rajmeet Ghai

Motivation means encouragement. It's a driving force that helps any individual to move further. Many a times we are made to do the same job everyday. This is where motivation comes into picture. By motivating the individual he may be encouraged to work and bring new prospects and revenues.

Why Motivations?

- Reduces boredom.
- Brings new prospects and revenues.
- Leads to job satisfaction and mental peace.
- Avoids jealousy and prejudice amongst team.
- Helps to achieve deadlines faster.

Ways of Motivating: Students can be motivated by:

- Giving a positive feedback on their assignments, projects etc..
- Giving them new opportunities.
- Creating a comfortable atmosphere in class.
- Helping the students in the course.
- Allowing them to participate in extra curricular activities.
- Emphasizing on their hard work rather than grades.

New and old employees can be motivated by:

- Offering perks and incentives regularly.
- Incentives may not always be monetary.
- For old employees, a friendly and supportive atmosphere matters.
- To retain old employees, appraisals works the best.
- Organizing events and programmes to reduce monotony.
- Sending employees on site.
- Giving them new challenges apart from their daily tasks.
- Appreciating their hard work.

Self confidence is the definite way to success. Self confidence is based on the previous performance. If your previous performance was not good, you would feel heat in your feet. We are living in a society which values flawless performance and if you lack confidence, your performance will definitely get effected adversely. Beware of overconfidence. It can set you up for serious failure and can flatten you confidence.

Benefits of having self confidence:

- You can face day-to-day challenges with ease.
- You will find comfortable in social gathering.
- You can attract better prospects at work.
- Anxiety level will be low.

Self confidence has a lot to do with ones own abilities. How well can one encourage himself to work and stand up for their rights. A self confident individual is confident and secured. He knows that he can achieve what he wants in spite of obstacles.

Why Self confidence?

- Self confident people have a positive approach keeping negative thoughts at bay.
- They help bringing prospects and meet deadlines
- Self confident people are mentally stable and can be an integral part of the team.
- Self confident people can encourage and motivate others.
- Helps to build relationships from a professional perspective.

How to Develop Self Confidence?

Self confidence cannot be developed over night. Realizing your own faults and weaknesses is the first step to develop self confidence

Team Skills

For most of us, cooperating with people, discussing ideas, collaborating on projects, influencing others, and working on cross-functional teams typically represents 50-75% of most workdays. Team skills are critical and those that do it well are rewarded in terms of influence, support, promotions, and bigger reviews. Those without it are avoided, shunned, or assigned to the proverbial closet. Working with people without decent team skills literally sucks the energy out of the rest of team, bringing everyone down.

The importance of team skills cannot be understated, yet most recruiters and managers are not very effective in assessing this vital skill during the interview. Many people substitute friendliness, warmth, and extroversion as signs of good team skills. For some, a smile, a firm handshake, a reasonable degree of self-confidence, and direct eye contact is all it takes to earn a positive grade for team skills. Nothing could be further from the truth. Let's set the record straight by better understanding what team skills are and what they are not. With this understanding, we'll move on to describing how to use the two-question performance-based interview to accurately measure real team skills.

In his book, *Emotional Intelligence*, Daniel Goleman offers this useful definition of team skills: the ability to inspire, influence, and develop others while managing conflict.

You might want to add these additional ideas: the ability to be coached and to coach; to cooperate with others without urging; to deal with people in a professional and open manner, even those you don't particularly like; to negotiate or discuss important issues in an open and fair manner; to openly change your position on an important issue when the facts are, or are not, against you when it's for the good of the team; to deal with differences in a constructive manner; being sensitive to the needs of others; the ability to influence people in an organization who are superior and to be influenced by those who are subordinate; and to be aware of each individual's personal needs in group situations and act with respect to accommodate them.

Our basic one-question performance-based interview is an effective tool for assessing team skills. It involves asking candidates to describe major accomplishments related to some real job need (*e.g.*, working with others designing a product under tight restraints or building a team to handle a major project). Fact-finding, digging deep, getting lots of specific examples, and peeling the onion are the keys to the effectiveness of this interviewing technique.

Done properly, this type of questioning can take 15 minutes for each accomplishment to fully understand its depth and scope. By repeating the question for different accomplishments, consistency and growth can be observed in comparison to real job needs.

For team-based accomplishments it's important for the candidate to describe all members of the team, with specific names and titles. As part of this the candidate needs to describe his or her actual role on the team, the team objectives, how plans were put together, and the overall team results, with specific details. Much of the subsequent fact-finding involves understanding how the candidate influenced, or was influenced by, those on the team. Getting specific facts, examples, and details is essential to this type of questioning. Look for areas of disagreement and conflict and find out exactly how these issues were resolved and the specific role the candidate had in these areas.

Asking about different team projects over extended periods of time provides an opportunity to see growth in a number of important areas, like the size and make-up of the team; types of people on the team, including their levels and functions; and involvement with people outside the department, function, and company, including vendors, consultants, and customers.

People with strong team skills clearly show growth on multiple levels when their team accomplishments are viewed this way. For example, a technical person who is only involved with other peer technical folks is likely to be less effective on team skills than a comparable technical person who has been dealing with senior-level people in other functions and with customers. Here are some other articles to help you better assess team skills.

To improve the accuracy of your assessment during the interview look for social awareness, sensitivity to the needs of others, the ability to interact comfortably in social settings, self-confidence in expressing a contrary viewpoint, examples of working with peers and superiors in other departments, the ability to give constructive criticism, and the ability to take criticism (even from a subordinate).

With this information you'll be able to properly assess team skills using our 10-Factor Candidate Assessment scorecard.

The 10-factor form provides specific information for ranking each factor. Here's what's provided for ranking team skills. As you'll note grading a person using this form requires specific information obtained from the team-based questioning—feelings won't suffice.

Models of Team Behaviour

Team building generally sits within the theory and practice of organizational development. The related field of team management refers to techniques, processes and tools for organizing and coordinating a team towards a common goal-as well as the inhibitors to teamwork and ways to remove, mitigate or overcome them. Several well-known approaches to team management have come out of academic work.

- The forming-storming-norming-performing model posits four stages of new team development to reach high performance. Some team activities are designed to speed up (or improve) this process in the safe team development environment.
- Belbin Team Types can be assessed to gain insight into an individual's natural behavioural tendencies in a team context, and can be used to create and develop better functioning teams.
- Team Sociomapping is an visual approach to team process and structure modelling. This model is based on social networks approach and improves the team performance by improvement of specific cooperation ties between the people.

Team Member Qualities

Emotional stability:

- Adjustment
- Self-esteem.

Extraversion:

- Dominance
- Affiliation
- Social Perceptiveness
- Expressivity.

Openness:

- Flexibility.

Agreeableness:

- Trust
- Cooperation.

In breaking down these dimensions, it was generalized that past research has been consistent when it mentions that emotional stability, extraversion, openness, agreeableness, and conscientiousness are all related to team effectiveness. Within extraversion, dominance was found to be a negative attribute in team members where they are not working independently and not collaborating with others. (Driskell and Salas, 1992). Adjustment and flexibility were noted to be important facets for team members to have where adjustment to situations is needed. Clearly for teams to be successful there has to be a balance between the personality dimensions. This provides well-roundedness for a person to bring to a team.

Organizational Development

In the organizational development context, a team may embark on a process of self-assessment to gauge its effectiveness and improve its performance. To assess itself, a team seeks feedback from group members to find out both its current strengths and weakness. To improve its current performance, feedback from the team assessment can be used to identify gaps between the desired state and the current state, and to design a gap-closure strategy. Team development can be the greater term containing this assessment and improvement actions, or as a component of organizational development.

Self-Managed Work Teams

Self-managing work teams (SMWTs) have been rising in popularity since the beginning of the 1990s. These team members are responsible for themselves. Although more organizations are implementing SMWTs, employees have been resisting them. Three variables at the individual-level are potential reasons for resistance to SMWTs. These variables include trust, cultural values and low tolerance for change.

Managers should implement SMWTs with procedural and distributive justice. Also, managers should address concerns regarding trust, and accountability. They should provide clarity regarding who is responsible for what and how the employees' careers and opportunities for development will be affected. Managers should work to encourage employees having a positive organizational outlook.

Volunteer Work and Internships

The phrase is sometimes used to mean a type of volunteer work that is commonly intended for young people — often students — to get a feel for professional working environments. This usage is common in the United Kingdom, while the American equivalent is intern.

Though the placements are usually unpaid, travel and food expenses are sometimes covered, and at the end of the appointment, a character reference is usually provided. Trainees usually have the opportunity to network and make contacts among the working personnel, and put themselves forward for forthcoming opportunities for paid work.

Many employers in the more sought after professions (*e.g.* TV, politics, journalism) demand that every new entrant undergo a period of unpaid “work experience” before being able to get paid work.

Educational Work Experience at Secondary Level in Australia and the United Kingdom

Work experience is offered on the national curriculum for students in Years 10 and 11 in the United Kingdom (4th year in Scotland) and Australia; every student has a statutory right to take work experience if he or she wishes. Work experience in this

context is when students in an adult working environment more or less act as an employee, but with the emphasis on learning about the world of work. Placements are limited by safety and security restrictions, insurance cover and availability, and do not necessarily reflect eventual career choice but instead allow a broad experience of the world of work.

If a student fails to find a placement then he or she may sometimes be forced to attend school everyday, continuing the normal school day or doing a placement around the school such as aiding the caretaker for example, or helping out elsewhere in the school, such as with language and PE departments, or with ICT technicians.

Students are not prohibited from working at a company outside the conurbation of the city or abroad. Routine safety checks on the companies are now more thorough and students who arrange placements at failed companies are forced to find a new placement; companies which fail to comply with statutory requirements for insurance and child protection may be prohibited from officially taking students (this depends upon the LEA). Most students do not get paid for their time doing work experience however some employers do give money to the students, as this is considered part of their education. The duration varies according to the course the student is on and various other personal circumstances; the vast majority of students will go out on work experience for one or two weeks in a year, while some students will work in a particular workplace perhaps one or two days a week for extended periods of time throughout the year, either for vocation reasons and commitment to alternative curricula or because they have social and/or behavioural problems.

University-level Work Experience

At the university level, work experience is often offered between the second and final years of an undergraduate degree course, especially in the science, engineering and computing fields. Courses of this nature are often called *sandwich courses*, with the work experience year itself known as the *sandwich year*. During this time, the students on work placement have the opportunity to use the skills and knowledge gained in their first two years, and see how they are applied to real world problems. This then can offer then useful insights for their final year and prepares them for the job market once their course has finished. Some companies also have the means to sponsor students in their final year at university with the promise of a job at the end of the course. This can act as an incentive for the student to perform well during the placement as helps with two otherwise unwelcome stresses: the lack of money in the final year, and finding a job for when the University course completes and when he have a free time.

Why Business Schools want Work Experience?

Research has proved that one learns more when he/she interacts with people from varied backgrounds.

A diverse MBA class is a perfect learning environment and for this reason, Business Schools prefer students with different cultural, personal, and professional backgrounds. In addition, team work is critical for success in any MBA programme. Most MBA programmes consist of case discussions and group assignments, which call for working in teams. Hence, B-Schools want candidates who have demonstrated an ability to work well in group setting. More often than not, work experience provides individuals an opportunity to work in teams, and demonstrate team work and people skills.

If you are an Asian student, you provide the necessary cultural diversity. Add to this, your work experience brings the necessary diversity in the collective work experience of the class. This makes you an attractive applicant to Business Schools. But the problem is that there are others like you who are applying-applicants from your own country, many with similar backgrounds and achievements, and they all compete with you. Having good work experience gives you an edge over the competition. If you have good work experience, flaunt it. And if your work experience is about average, don't lose heart, you can make an average work experience sound better if projected the right way.

However, if you happen to be one of those who are in a hurry to get an MBA and have just completed your bachelors degree, we recommend that you reconsider your decision. Try thinking on your own, why should you be chosen over others who have work experience to show? If you have reasons and are sure they are good enough (such as outstanding achievements in the field of sports, military, or community service; or exceptional leadership experience), you could give it a try. Otherwise, get yourself a job, and wait for a few years before applying.

Work experience is mandatory in most Business Schools across the world. Most business schools in UK are very strict, they do not provide admission to any candidate with less than three years of full time work experience.

The schools in US do not have a strict policy. But the competition rules out a chance of getting admission without work experience, unless of course you have some exceptional personal achievements to show.

Basic Interpersonal Communicative Skills

Basic Interpersonal Communicative Skills (BICS) are language skills needed to interact in social situations, for example, when speaking to a friend on the telephone. BICS refers primarily to context-bound, face-to-face communication, like the language first learned by toddlers and preschoolers, which is used in everyday social interaction.

We use this language skill in face-to-face interactions, rather than in dealing with academic tasks.

This term is often credited to Jim Cummins research related to language acquisition and learning. The other term that is often used in conjunction with this term is Cognitive Academic Language Proficiency (CALP). CALP refers to the highly abstract, decontextualized communication that takes place in the classroom, especially in the later elementary grades. CALP involves the "language of learning", which enables

children to problem-solve, hypothesize, imagine, reason and project into situations with which they have no personal experience. It is a prerequisite for learning to read and write and for overall academic success. The implications of the BICS and CALP concepts for children are that the second language or language of the classroom needs to be sufficiently well developed for her or him to be able to meet the cognitive demands of the academic setting. Students typically are thought to acquire BICS in 2-3 years but take 5-7 years to develop the CALP needed to be on the same level with their native speaking counterparts in the classroom.

Competency Mapping-What it is: It is about identifying ideal behaviours and personal skills which distinguish exceptional and stupendous performance from the average. This aids in setting standards of behaviour and thereby performance for the average workforce to follow. Competency maps provide employers with concrete and objective information usable in all employment decisions.. As a matter of fact competency is a behavioural and demonstrative ability that is informed to some degree by a conceptual perception.

Brief History: Concept maps were invented by Joseph Novak in the 1960s for use as a teaching tool. Later in 1986 William Trochim developed the concept map into a strategic planning tool for use in the design of organisational components. Trochim's technique differs significantly from Novak's original school of thought. While Novak's maps are generated for an individual, Trochim's are generated by a group.

Difference – Competence and Competency

A Competency illustrates how a job might be done, excellently whereas a Competence only describes what has to be done, not how. Consequently the Competence portray the duties of an HR Manager-such as manage the HR office and the staff of the organisation, prepare salary stack ups and compensations benefits and rewards, manage recruitment and selection processes and motivate the office force.

The Competencies which might determine excellence in this role could include Problem Solving and Judgement; Drive and Determination; Awareness of statutory compliances; Interpersonal skills, leadership skills etc., all of which might be expressed further by Behavioural Indicators concerning explicitly to that position in that organisation.

How a Typical Competency Map Would Look: Now the basic problem of how these graphs can be interpreted and inferred arises. The accuracy of the representation of the map is rather dicey to analyse and validate with reference to theory. It aids in breeding fake data with known properties and asses the reliability of the competency mapping exercise.

It surely provides as a workable input to competency mapping. Interpretations of the data are of course subject to the designer.

When to Use: The use of Competencies can include:

1. Assessment during recruitment, through specific work-based exercises and relevant, validated, psychometric tests,

2. Assessment during auxiliary development; as a profile during assessment to guide future development needs,
3. Succession planning and promotion,
4. Organisational development analysis.

Techniques used to map Competencies include:

1. Critical Incident Analysis
2. Repertory Grid
3. Behavioural Event Interview
4. Expert systems
5. Benchmarking.

Why Competency Mapping: Erudition and training are conducted to ensure that people have the knowledge and skills needed to excel at their jobs. In order to do this, it is important to map the required knowledge and skills (competencies) to jobs and to the organization's strategy. It serves as a means to ascertain that an organization's knowledge and capabilities are in alignment with its strategy. Increasing recognition of the importance of competency mapping and alignment, many management systems are including support for this in their systems. But of course it is evident that this is applicable only to learning organisations. It is advisable to broaden horizons to link competency maps with content, so that content searches and purchases can be tightly allied to an organization's strategy. It makes use of sophisticated mapping between competency taxonomy and multiple content taxonomies. This kind of multiple mapping between taxonomies requires the use of information organizations known as ontology.

Competency mapping-how it can be implemented:

- Through assessment centers.
- By means of sample roles and simple mapping techniques.
- Use of Psychometric Tests to assess competencies.
- Experience some of the tools used in Assessment and development centers:
 - *In-basket exercises:* Application, methods of developing and using the tool
 - *Interpersonal skill exercise:* Demonstration Role plays, examination of their potential for assessment.
 - Leaderless Group Discussions.
 - Simulation Games, exercises and discussion.

Implementing Competency-Based Systems: Competencies are perspective in nature. They answer the question 'What does a star performer look like in a specific setting?' In other words, effectual competencies are associated to a particular organizational target or goal. As a result, depending on the context, models may be geared towards various levels in the organisation:

The total organization (e.g., core competencies or values):

1. An entire function (e.g., marketing, human resources).
2. A career level or band (e.g., individual contributor, team leader, Mid-level manager, strategist, or executive).

3. A specific role (*e.g.*, HR generalist).
4. A specific job (*e.g.*, compensation analyst).

Applying competencies appropriately endows an excellent engine for raising the slab, endorsing common standards, and assimilating HR processes. Conversely, competencies should be coupled with other interventions such as programme offerings and setting objective performance goals to make an optimum impact.

However, executing competencies in functions manifold through the cross section of the organization amounts to a large-scale change and necessitates considerable resources and time. In other words, clarifying the critical success factors or competencies required for the success of future professionals is a necessary, but not sufficient aspect of functional transformation. More often than not individuals and organizations hub on defining the specific behaviours that sustain excellence, overlooking restraints to change such as culture, structural, process and learning systems.

Choosing the Accurate Competencies: Competency-identification is a dominant organizational exercise the top management has to establish what really steers the organisation to success. Scores of imperative attributes and proficiencies can be articulated.

Every effective performance evaluation system focuses on both competencies and results. But which competencies should the organization pick to assess? One practical and highly enlightening way to help top management identify the most important competencies for their organization is to list all of the possibilities, together with a definition or explanation, on separate index cards. Each senior executive is then responsible for arranging the cards into three equal lots: ought to, should and preferable.

How Would a Star Performer Behave? A glaring error on too many performance appraisal forms is that desired performance is only defined, not described. It's a cake walk for a student to cut and paste an important idea or concept from the encyclopedia or the net. But what about its application? How do you identify or classify it? If you observe a teamwork or leadership master at work, what would notice?

Mastery-narrations are much more precise than definitions: descriptive behaviours of one who has mastered the area. Mastery descriptions give the appraiser a yardstick against which to evaluate the actual activities of the individual he is assessing. Even better, it provides the appraisee with an apparent picture of what the organization precisely expects.

Once the core competencies have been identified, an equally difficult challenge awaits: what is the basis of evaluating these competencies? What kind of scale should be employed?

Choosing the right values of the scale is a seemingly challenging task. For instance, people are apprehensive if a numerical scale is chosen (1-2-3-4-5). An attempt to benchmark the performances against measurable yardsticks would leave ambiguity in the average and below average performers. They would fail to understand the specifics of the expectations of them (Failed to meet expectations/met expectations/ surpassed

expectations. Using an absolute verdict system would invite complaints about the rating being unfair (Marginal/Fair/Competent/Superior/Distinguished). In order to evade discontent amongst the performers one of the ratings that we have decided to use is a qualitative scale (Disagree Strongly (5) Disagree (4) Neutral (3) Agree (2) and Agree Strongly (1)). The results of this are under a pilot test and shall be discussed at length in our subsequent article.

There are yet other opinions that others hold as an alternative to this-a behavioural frequency scale.

In this the rater errors are minimized or even eliminated as the behavioural frequency scales ask raters to indicate how recurrently the appraisee behaved like a star performer. Next, think of someone whose performance you are responsible for assessing, and then ask yourself, “How often does the person do all the things listed in the competencies dictionary?-rarely, occasionally, frequently or regularly?”

Another advantage of the behavioural frequency approach is that it directly guides performance. Instead of having to site out examples of each of the items on an organisations’ competency list, the executive has to instead review the list with the subordinate and say, “Just do the things on this list and you’ll be a fully acceptable performer.” In fact this is something that we are trying to instill in our educational institution-PESIT Bangalore.

Finally, the behavioural frequency scales gives way to ease out the delivery of bad news. Instead of forcing the manager to call Naveen a numero uno or a Marginal performer, the manager can say, “Naveen in this list of business acumen I see you are following certain things listed here, rarely. What is your suggestion for bringing about an improvement or displaying a frequency of this/these particular behaviours? In order for me to project a better report?”

There is also an appendage to this. For instance, some assessment items just align with an evaluation through a behavioural frequency scale. Predominantly, absolute verdicts are essential when it concerns assessment of the appraisee having met the job description or accomplished the set targets. The best things that some organisations would do is to use a readily acceptable and intuitively coined verbal descriptions of behaviours which acts more as a motivator than a demotivator.

Personal Appearance and Attitude

Personal appearance is usually defined by the way we groom and dress ourselves and is generally instrumental in other people forming opinions about us. It’s obvious therefore that care and attention should be given to how we look in order to make the best impression. In a working environment, there is often a dress code which is, in some cases, obligatory. This situation means the employee has little or no problem in following the code. However, to the ambitious, keen, dedicated person this dress code can present an ideal opportunity to become noticed. Smart, well fitting, well pressed clothing will make a huge difference to how one is judged. Certain industries and

professions are quite inflexible concerning dress and insist on company uniforms being worn. Even then it's possible to stand out from the crowd by giving attention to good grooming which will always result in a smart appearance.

If there are no restrictions on the type of clothes you wear at work it is generally easier to make a good impression with your choice of clothing. Care in deciding on the clothes you wear at work make a statement about you, so make the most of the opportunity. Dress sense is a very useful attribute to have, but not everyone possesses it. If you fall into that category follow the dress code used by your colleagues, but always endeavour to be that little bit smarter. This extra attention to detail helps to create a business like appearance.

A person's attitude is extremely important as the wrong one can have a negative affect and spoil their chances of promotion. The wrong attitude can result in someone appearing to be offensive and truculent, giving a completely false impression. Attitude has a lot to do with confidence and can provide the wrong signals to other people. It's not uncommon for a person's attitude to affect their whole performance adversely in a work environment even though they may be good at their job.

Recent research has analysed the reasons why certain managers are chosen for redundancy rather than their contemporaries. If you are aware of the main reasons thrown up by this research, obviously you will avoid making the same mistakes. For the benefit of the reader and as a matter of interest we will include them in this section as they refer to attitudes which must be avoided at all costs. It might not stop redundancy, but it will certainly help in preventing you from being a prime candidate.

So here are some of the reasons that are looked on as being unhelpful. (a) Failure to build a team (b) Arrogance (c) Unethical (d) Not trustworthy (e) Poor Administration (f) No strategic thinking (g) Over Managing (h) Tunnel Vision (i) Will not network (j) Inflexibility (k) Defensiveness.

Once again we see the need for being practical, helpful, sympathetic and truthful plus being able to spot a problem and have the ability to deal with it. Personal attitude to the job counts for a great deal in how your performance is evaluated, so it is obviously beneficial to develop a positive, constructive and helpful attitude at work. Such an attitude will help you to cope with every single aspect in the workplace and brings its own rewards and very often leads to promotion.

If you are fortunate enough to have a company car provided, should you look on it as a "perk" that goes with the job? In which case it probably isn't looked after very well, is seldom washed, usually messy inside, has several minor faults, broken lenses, small scratches etc. Surely it is better to look on it as an expensive privilege which comes with the job, one that is worth looking after and of which to be proud? Again this attitude gives an excellent impression if you take care of company property. The same values apply to mobile phones, lap top computers, voice recorders and any other equipment the modern manager uses. Looking after these things as if they were your own and had been paid for by you can only result in positive comments about your

attitude. One other place where you can make a good impression is in your office or workplace. We have all seen offices and workplaces where chaos reigns. Desks littered with paper, paper trays overflowing, newspapers and magazines spread around, empty coffee cups lying around, all give the wrong signals. So do filing cabinets with the tops loaded with files and plants in dire need of a drink of water. Clothes hung precariously on bits of furniture also look untidy. All these points paint a picture of inefficiency.

Just imagine how much better the impression if the desks are tidy and the filing cabinets and other furniture are used for the purpose for which they were meant. It doesn't take long to tidy up, particularly if it is done regularly. Once again, if you do it often it becomes a habit. There is a saying in business that 'A tidy desk shows a tidy mind'. Very true!

Most of the above will be seen to be common sense and obvious to most readers, but we make no apology for emphasising them. It is very often a lapse of common sense and neglecting the obvious which lead to bad practices, thus reflecting on the person concerned, so please, very carefully, consider these points. To conclude, remember that a positive appearance and a positive attitude result in a positive impression of you.

Pay Attention to Personal Appearance

Does a good appearance give an edge over others in all human transactions? Not all are endowed with beautiful features, good complexion or handsome physique. These are god given advantages. But appearance by way of cleanliness of body and comeliness of dress are within ones control. How many of us pay full attention to these two aspects of our personalities? I believe the outward appearance is a reflection of the inner self. An unclean man with an unshaven face, unkempt hair and dirty clothes on him cannot be expected to be orderly and methodical in his affairs. We can never relate efficiency, high ideals and clean work with a person who has poor standard of personal cleanliness of body and dress.

He is bound to be slovenly in his approach in all matters. Many a people have lost in the race for positions in career due to smelly dress, unshaven faces with bristles, careless teeth, poor mouth hygiene, undressed hair, soiled hands, and undesirable habits of nose picking. The one tip for youngsters who wish to succeed in life is best contained in the quote "The apparel oft proclaims the man" To put in lighter vein when the ocean was churned for taking out the Amrita (nectar), the well clad Vishnu got Mahalakshmi, while the ash smeared Shiva got only poison Aalakala.

It is not necessary that one should be dressed in expensive or rich clothes. One can be simple and yet elegant. Subject to all other things being equal, whom would you select for a position between two candidates, a neatly clad smart looking guy with good personal appearance or a slovenly chap who is careless in his appearance? True like a rough unpolished diamond getting passed over for a well polished glistening glass, capable persons may get a short shrift and an inferior person passing the muster. Apart from this the consciousness that one is clean and dressed well befitting the position

gives self confidence and poise. I give a quotation that impressed me very much. “One cannot but feel that God is a lover of appropriate dress. He has put robes of beauty and glory upon all His works. Every flower is dressed in richness; every field blushes beneath a mantle of beauty; every star is veiled in brightness; every bird is clothed in the habiliments of the most exquisite taste. And surely He is pleased when we provide a beautiful setting for the greatest of His handiworks

Tips on Personal Appearance and Hygiene

When meeting someone for the first time, the first impression you make will leave an imprint of your appearance to the other party. The way you look in terms of style and hygiene are the biggest factors with an initial impression. Although it may seem shallow to concentrate on personal appearance only, it is one of the most essential facets of making a good impression. In utilizing a few tips and tricks, you can put your best face forward everyday.

Exfoliate the Skin

Although bathing seems like an elementary part of hygiene, most people do not understand that bathing in conjunction with exfoliation is essential to keep skin clean and rejuvenated. By exfoliating the skin with face and body scrubs, it reduces blackheads, blemishes and sloughs off dead skin cells. If left untreated, skin can have a dull appearance. Exfoliating with a skin or body scrub can turn skin from muddy to ruddy. If you are not able to purchase expensive body scrubs, simple household items such as baking soda are great ways to exfoliate on a budget. Pure baking soda is a natural product and can be used with or without your favourite soaps and body washes. In utilizing , you will reveal glowing, healthy skin.

Dress Appropriately: Although current trends may suggest certain styles of clothing, every body type cannot accommodate those styles, therefore, it important to select clothing that is appropriate for your body type. For example if you’re a woman or man that has a larger bottom half, don’t opt for clothing that will accentuate larger hips such as low rise jeans or skinny leg jeans. In order to gain a better grasp of your body type, simply stand in front of a mirror and look at the size and proportions of your body to figure out your body type. Once you have done so, you can then begin to dress it accordingly.

Choosing Appropriate Hairstyle

When choosing a hairstyle, take into consideration the type of lifestyle that you lead. For example, if you are a public speaker, red and green streaks will not showcase a qualified professional. Choose hairstyle options that fit your lifestyle. Oval shapes can wear virtually any hairstyle, both long and short. Rectangle or square face shapes should opt for styles that create layers and curves to fill any linear areas of the face. Round

faces may appear too full and pudgy in the cheek areas, therefore styles that add volume to the top should be employed to make the face appear slighter longer. Triangle and diamond shaped faces should opt for sweeping bangs and fringes to soften harsh lines. Nevertheless, choose hairstyles that will enhance your features while creating the illusion of an oval face.

Remain Clean-shaven: First, it is important to keep a clean-shaven appearance. Although this may seem directed towards men, women also have amounts of facial hair that can be seen by other people. Excess amount of body hair are also unsightly and may cause sweating and body odour. Therefore, keep the face and body neat and clean.

Try Different Deodorants: You may notice that at different times of the year, your favourite deodorant may not be working for you as well. Changes in climate as well as hormonal changes can cause a deodorant's odour and wetness fighting ability to slowly taper off. This is the time to try different deodorants. After you have found a few that work, keep them in your arsenal for those times when change is needed.

Personal Appearance

A guide to helping you prepare your appearance for interviews. However, you can also apply the same principles to work once you have attained the job. It is said that you have 10 seconds upon meeting someone to make your first impression.

Bearing that in mind, people will judge you on the way you look and carry yourself; the time old saying of never judge a book by it's cover has never been as out of place as it is within work. People and perspective employers especially will be doing just that! More often than not, your appearance will play a huge part in the way you are perceived and treated. We discuss factors that influence appearance, and suggest possible ways to approach dress code at interviews and within the workplace.

Dressing for an Interview: How you look when you arrive for an interview will be an important factor in deciding whether that job is offered to you or not. To sell yourself as the ideal candidate you will need to take into account the company to which you are applying, the type of job you are going for, the colours you wear, hair, makeup, jewellery etc. It is worthwhile remembering that you have been chosen for interview on the merits of your C.V so the biggest part of the sale is complete. It is now up to you to impress! The guide below is just that-a guideline of ideas that could lead to that all-important job.

Appearance for Men:

- **Suits**-Ideally you should have in your possession either a two or three piece suit. They needn't be expensive, there are plenty of department stores that sell well made and more importantly well cut suits at reasonable prices. You don't have to buy a designer suit to create an impressive look. The best colours to go for are conservative ones like black or blue. When deciding which one to wear on the day, consider the company you are going to. If you decide not

to go for a suit, separates can also work well. You could buy a smart jacket and wear it with any number of trousers that match.

- **Trousers**-When buying these, it is vital they fit perfectly. If you have bought a suit then the trousers come with the jacket. Ensure that whatever trousers you buy are comfortable, and do not drape along the floor. If they are too long for you, most stores will be able to offer alterations or recommend a tailor.
- **Shirt**-The shirt should match the suit, and be the right size. Again, the colour of shirt you wear on the day will depend on the company you are going to. Ideally you will have a number of shirts that you can wear with the one suit. To complete the look you could always add some cufflinks. Try and avoid bright colours as they can attract attention for the wrong reasons. Remember you want to be remembered for your vibrant personality, not the colour of your shirt.
- **Tie**-When attending an interview in a suit, a tie must be worn, ideally matching your suit. However, this is one area that you could have some fun with. A tie can say a lot about you-the individual. Try to avoid a novelty tie as this can distract the interviewer, but do wear one that you feel reflects your personality.
- **Shoes and socks**-Formal shoes should be worn, as opposed to trainers or boots. Ensure they are polished and that your socks are dark in colour. There is nothing worse than a flash of white sport or towelling socks peeping under your trousers! Good shoes can be expensive, however department stores do shoes at reasonable prices.
- **Hair**-Ensure that your hair is kept neat and tidy. If you have long hair, sweep it back into a ponytail. Most importantly, make sure that your hair is washed and combed.
- **Nails**-You should make sure your nails are clean and trimmed. If you have rough skin or a tendency to bite your nails, try and fix these for the day. Avoid sweaty palms but by applying some hand cream before hand.
- **Tattoos and Piercings**-The interviewer should not be able to see any piercings that adorn your body. If you wear earrings, either take them out or wear a simple stud for the interview. Nose, lip, tongue and eyebrow piercings in particular should be avoided.
- **Smoking**-If you are a smoker try to avoid smoking just before the interview. Try not to smoke in a confined space, as this will retain the smell on your clothing. If you have smoked before your interview keep some breath mints handy.
- **Your demeanour**-Try not to swagger, whist in the interview. Speak politely and clearly and be concise. Try to avoid the use of slang, but be yourself. Remember the interviewer wants to see the real you, not a performance purely for the interview.

Appearance for Ladies:

- **Suit**-Get a well fitting suit. For ladies this can vary from a trouser, dress or skirt suit. The suit needn't be an expensive one, go for one that is well cut. Ladies suits can be bought from a number of stores ranging from department stores to boutiques. Colours should ideally be black or blue however you could choose any neutral colour. If wearing a skirt or dress suit, pay attention to the length; it should not be too short.
- **Blouse**-Ladies can wear a smart blouse with or without cufflinks or choose a smart top, which matches the suit.
- **Footwear**-Always choose something that is comfortable, that matches the suit, and you can walk in. Heels can give height and definition, but avoid wearing high-heeled shoes without hosiery.
- **Hair**-Everyone has bad hair days, and they always seem to attack when you least expect. Unruly hair should be swept back off the face, using combs, slides, scrunchies or hairbands. Keep hair clean and try to avoid putting too many products in your hair. Go for a soft and sleek image.
- **Make-up**-The best look to go for is the natural one. Avoid the dramatic looks for an interview. Keep shades subtle.
- **Perfumes**-Go for a subtle, fresh scents and keep the strong ones for evenings. As with all scents, those around you should not be able to smell your perfume.
- **Jewellery**-The wearing of jewellery should be kept to a minimum. It is best not to turn up draped in jewellery as it detracts attention away from you. Keep it simple, like a watch, necklace and ring.
- **Nails**-Should be clear and well trimmed. If you decide to wear nail varnish, make sure it matches your suit or play it safe and go for a clear, or fresh polish.
- **Bags**-Handbags should be smart and ideally in a colour that compliments your clothing. Black, blue and browns work best. Attache cases are also popular with ladies, allowing sufficient space for those important documents.
- **Smoking**-If you are a smoker try to avoid smoking just before the interview. Try not to smoke in a confined space, as this will retain the smell on your clothing. If you have smoked before your interview keep some breath mints handy.
- **Your demeanour**-Try not to swagger, whist in the interview. Speak politely and clearly and be concise. Try to avoid the use of slang, but be yourself. Remember the interviewer wants to see the real you, not a performance purely for the interview.

Dressing for Work-Casual Wear: More and more jobs nowadays offer dress down Fridays or the chance to dress casually on occasion. The one thing to bear in mind is that you should be wearing casual business attire. Shorts and T-shirts with slogans should not be worn. Casual shirts and trousers are a preferred option. Some organisations

may deter you from wearing denim and trainers. First and foremost all clothing should be clean and crease free. Please not if attending an interview with a company that promotes casual dress, you should still dress in a formal manner.

Dressing for Work-Formal Wear: The dress code for formal wear like casual varies on the situation. There are likely to be instances where only a suit will do, or you may be required to simply wear something smart. Always use your discretion. All formal wear should be dry cleaned regularly to keep it looking it's best, as shoes should be polished and healed. Stick to safe colours like blacks, blues, greys and browns, as they are least offensive. Even whilst wearing a suit it is best to avoid heavy piercings and jewellery.

Intrinsic and Extrinsic Motivation

Intrinsic motivation has been studied by social and educational psychologists since the early 1970s. Research has found that it is usually associated with high educational achievement and enjoyment by students. Intrinsic motivation has been explained by Fritz Heider's attribution theory, Bandura's work on self-efficacy, and Ryan and Deci's cognitive evaluation theory. Students are likely to be intrinsically motivated if they:

- Attribute their educational results to internal factors that they can control (*e.g.* the amount of effort they put in),
- Believe they can be effective agents in reaching desired goals (*i.e.* the results are not determined by luck),
- Are interested in mastering a topic, rather than just rote-learning to achieve good grades.

Extrinsic motivation comes from outside of the performer. Money is the most obvious example, but coercion and threat of punishment are also common extrinsic motivations.

While competing, the crowd may cheer on the performer, which may motivate him or her to do well. Trophies are also extrinsic incentives. Competition is in general extrinsic because it encourages the performer to win and beat others, not to enjoy the intrinsic rewards of the activity.

Social psychological research has indicated that extrinsic rewards can lead to over justification and a subsequent reduction in intrinsic motivation. In one study demonstrating this effect, children who expected to be (and were) rewarded with a ribbon and a gold star for drawing pictures spent less time playing with the drawing materials in subsequent observations than children who were assigned to an unexpected reward condition and to children who received no extrinsic reward.

Self-control: The self-control of motivation is increasingly understood as a subset of emotional intelligence; a person may be highly intelligent according to a more conservative definition (as measured by many intelligence tests), yet unmotivated to dedicate this intelligence to certain tasks. Yale School of Management professor Victor Vroom's "expectancy theory" provides an account of when people will decide whether to exert self control to pursue a particular goal.

Drives and desires can be described as *a deficiency or need that activates behaviour that is aimed at a goal or an incentive*. These are thought to originate within the individual and may not require external stimuli to encourage the behaviour. Basic drives could be sparked by deficiencies such as hunger, which motivates a person to seek food; whereas more subtle drives might be the desire for praise and approval, which motivates a person to behave in a manner pleasing to others.

By contrast, the role of extrinsic rewards and stimuli can be seen in the example of training animals by giving them treats when they perform a trick correctly. The treat motivates the animals to perform the trick consistently, even later when the treat is removed from the process.

Motivational Theories

A reward, tangible or intangible, is presented after the occurrence of an action (*i.e.* behaviour) with the intent to cause the behaviour to occur again. This is done by associating positive meaning to the behaviour. Studies show that if the person receives the reward immediately, the effect would be greater, and decreases as duration lengthens. Repetitive action-reward combination can cause the action to become habit. Motivation comes from two sources: oneself, and other people. These two sources are called intrinsic motivation and extrinsic motivation, respectively.

Applying proper motivational techniques can be much harder than it seems. Steven Kerr notes that when creating a reward system, it can be easy to reward A, while hoping for B, and in the process, reap harmful effects that can jeopardize your goals.

A reinforcer is different from reward, in that reinforcement is intended to create a measured increase in the rate of a desirable behaviour following the addition of something to the environment.

Drive-reduction Theories: There are a number of drive theories. The Drive Reduction Theory grows out of the concept that we have certain biological drives, such as hunger. As time passes the strength of the drive increases if it is not satisfied (in this case by eating). Upon satisfying a drive the drive's strength is reduced. The theory is based on diverse ideas from the theories of Freud to the ideas of feedback control systems, such as a thermostat.

Drive theory has some intuitive or folk validity. For instance when preparing food, the drive model appears to be compatible with sensations of rising hunger as the food is prepared, and, after the food has been consumed, a decrease in subjective hunger. There are several problems, however, that leave the validity of drive reduction open for debate. The first problem is that it does not explain how secondary reinforcers reduce drive. For example, money satisfies no biological or psychological needs, but a pay check appears to reduce drive through second-order conditioning. Secondly, a drive, such as hunger, is viewed as having a “desire” to eat, making the drive a homuncular being—a feature criticized as simply moving the fundamental problem behind this “small man” and his desires.

In addition, it is clear that drive reduction theory cannot be a complete theory of behaviour, or a hungry human could not prepare a meal without eating the food before he finished cooking it. The ability of drive theory to cope with all kinds of behaviour, from not satisfying a drive (by adding on other traits such as restraint), or adding additional drives for “tasty” food, which combine with drives for “food” in order to explain cooking render it hard to test.

Cognitive Dissonance Theory

Suggested by Leon Festinger, this occurs when an individual experiences some degree of discomfort resulting from an incompatibility between two cognitions. For example, a consumer may seek to reassure himself regarding a purchase, feeling, in retrospect, that another decision may have been preferable.

Another example of cognitive dissonance is when a belief and a behaviour are in conflict. A person may wish to be healthy, believes smoking is bad for one’s health, and yet continues to smoke.

Need Theories

Need Hierarchy Theory: Abraham Maslow’s theory is one of the most widely discussed theories of motivation.

The theory can be summarized as follows:

- Human beings have wants and desires which influence their behaviour. Only unsatisfied needs influence behaviour, satisfied needs do not.
- Since needs are many, they are arranged in order of importance, from the basic to the complex.
- The person advances to the next level of needs only after the lower level need is at least minimally satisfied.
- The further the progress up the hierarchy, the more individuality, humanness and psychological health a person will show.

The needs, listed from basic (lowest-earliest) to most complex (highest-latest) are as follows:

- Physiology (hunger, thirst, sleep, etc.) .
- Safety/Security/Shelter/Health.
- Belongingness/Love/Friendship.
- Self-esteem/Recognition/Achievement.
- Self actualization.

Herzberg’s Two-factor Theory

Frederick Herzberg’s two-factor theory, a.k.a. intrinsic/extrinsic motivation, concludes that certain factors in the workplace result in job satisfaction, but if absent, they don’t lead to dissatisfaction but no satisfaction.

The factors that motivate people can change over their lifetime, but “respect for me as a person” is one of the top motivating factors at any stage of life.

He distinguished between:

- Motivators; (*e.g.* challenging work, recognition, responsibility) which give positive satisfaction, *and*
- Hygiene factors; (*e.g.* status, job security, salary and fringe benefits) that do not motivate if present, but, if absent, result in demotivation.

The name Hygiene factors is used because, like hygiene, the presence will not make you healthier, but absence can cause health deterioration.

The theory is sometimes called the “Motivator-Hygiene Theory” and/or “The Dual Structure Theory.”

Herzberg’s theory has found application in such occupational fields as information systems and in studies of user satisfaction.

Alderfer’s ERG Theory

Alderfer, expanding on Maslow’s hierarchy of needs, created the ERG theory (existence, relatedness and growth). Physiological and safety, the lower order needs, are placed in the existence category, while love and self esteem needs are placed in the relatedness category. The growth category contains our self-actualization and self-esteem needs.

Self-determination Theory

Self-determination theory, developed by Edward Deci and Richard Ryan, focuses on the importance of intrinsic motivation in driving human behaviour. Like Maslow’s hierarchical theory and others that built on it, SDT posits a natural tendency towards growth and development. Unlike these other theories, however, SDT does not include any sort of “autopilot” for achievement, but instead requires active encouragement from the environment. The primary factors that encourage motivation and development are autonomy, competence feedback, and relatedness.

Broad Theories

The latest approach in Achievement Motivation is an integrative perspective as lined out in the “Onion-Ring-Model of Achievement Motivation” by Heinz Schuler, George C. Thornton III, Andreas Frintrup and Rose Mueller-Hanson. It is based on the premise that performance motivation results from the way broad components of personality are directed towards performance. As a result, it includes a range of dimensions that are relevant to success at work but which are not conventionally regarded as being part of performance motivation. Especially it integrates formerly separated approaches as Need for Achievement with *e.g.* social motives like dominance. The Achievement Motivation Inventory (AMI) (Schuler, Thornton, Frintrup and Mueller-Hanson, 2003) is based on

this theory and assesses three factors (17 separated scales) relevant to vocational and professional success.

Cognitive Theories

Goal-Setting Theory: Goal-setting theory is based on the notion that individuals sometimes have a drive to reach a clearly defined end state. Often, this end state is a reward in itself. A goal's efficiency is affected by three features: proximity, difficulty and specificity. An ideal goal should present a situation where the time between the initiation of behaviour and the end state is close. This explains why some children are more motivated to learn how to ride a bike than mastering algebra. A goal should be moderate, not too hard or too easy to complete. In both cases, most people are not optimally motivated, as many want a challenge (which assumes some kind of insecurity of success). At the same time people want to feel that there is a substantial probability that they will succeed. Specificity concerns the description of the goal in their class. The goal should be objectively defined and intelligible for the individual. A classic example of a poorly specified goal is to get the highest possible grade. Most children have no idea how much effort they need to reach that goal.

Models of Behaviour Change

Social-cognitive models of behaviour change include the constructs of motivation and volition. Motivation is seen as a process that leads to the forming of behavioural intentions. Volition is seen as a process that leads from intention to actual behaviour. In other words, motivation and volition refer to goal setting and goal pursuit, respectively. Both processes require self-regulatory efforts. Several self-regulatory constructs are needed to operate in orchestration to attain goals. An example of such a motivational and volitional construct is perceived self-efficacy. Self-efficacy is supposed to facilitate the forming of behavioural intentions, the development of action plans, and the initiation of action. It can support the translation of intentions into action.

Unconscious Motivation

Some psychologists believe that a significant portion of human behaviour is energized and directed by unconscious motives. According to Maslow, "Psychoanalysis has often demonstrated that the relationship between a conscious desire and the ultimate unconscious aim that underlies it need not be at all direct." In other words, stated motives do not always match those inferred by skilled observers. For example, it is possible that a person can be accident-prone because he has an unconscious desire to hurt himself and not because he is careless or ignorant of the safety rules. Similarly, some overweight people are not hungry at all for food but for fighting and kissing. Eating is merely a defensive reaction to lack of attention. Some workers damage more equipment than others do because they harbour unconscious feelings of aggression towards authority figures.

Psychotherapists point out that some behaviour is so automatic that the reasons for it are not available in the individual's conscious mind. Compulsive cigarette smoking is an example. Sometimes maintaining self-esteem is so important and the motive for an activity is so threatening that it is simply not recognized and, in fact, may be disguised or repressed. Rationalization, or "explaining away", is one such disguise, or defence mechanism, as it is called. Another is projecting or attributing one's own faults to others. "I feel I am to blame", becomes "It is her fault; she is selfish". Repression of powerful but socially unacceptable motives may result in outward behaviour that is the opposite of the repressed tendencies. An example of this would be the employee who hates his boss but overworks himself on the job to show that he holds him in high regard.

Unconscious motives add to the hazards of interpreting human behaviour and, to the extent that they are present, complicate the life of the administrator. On the other hand, knowledge that unconscious motives exist can lead to a more careful assessment of behavioural problems. Although few contemporary psychologists deny the existence of unconscious factors, many do believe that these are activated only in times of anxiety and stress, and that in the ordinary course of events, human behaviour—from the subject's point of view—is rationally purposeful.

Employee Motivation

Workers in any organization need something to keep them working. Most times the salary of the employee is enough to keep him or her working for an organization. However, sometimes just working for salary is not enough for employees to stay at an organization. An employee must be motivated to work for a company or organization. If no motivation is present in an employee, then that employee's quality of work or all work in general will deteriorate.

Keeping an employee working at full potential is the ultimate goal of employee motivation. There are many methods to help keep employees motivated. Some traditional ways of motivating workers are placing them in competition with each other.

Drugs: Some authors, especially in the transhumanist movement, have suggested the use of "smart drugs", also known as nootropics, as "motivation-enhancers". The effects of many of these drugs on the brain are emphatically not well understood, and their legal status often makes open experimentation difficult.

Applications

Education: Motivation is of particular interest to educational psychologists because of the crucial role it plays in student learning. However, the specific kind of motivation that is studied in the specialized setting of education differs qualitatively from the more general forms of motivation studied by psychologists in other fields.

Motivation in education can have several effects on how students learn and how they behave towards subject matter. It can:

1. Direct behaviour towards particular goals.
2. Lead to increased effort and energy.
3. Increase initiation of, and persistence in, activities.
4. Enhance cognitive processing.
5. Determine what consequences are reinforcing.
6. Lead to improved performance.

Because students are not always internally motivated, they sometimes need *situated motivation*, which is found in environmental conditions that the teacher creates.

There are two kinds of motivation:

- Intrinsic motivation occurs when people are internally motivated to do something because it either brings them pleasure, they think it is important, or they feel that what they are learning is significant.
- Extrinsic motivation comes into play when a student is compelled to do something or act a certain way because of factors external to him or her (like money or good grades).

Note also that there is already questioning and expansion about this dichotomy on motivation, *e.g.*, Self-Determination Theory. Motivation has been found to be a pivotal area in treating Autism Spectrum Disorders, as in Pivotal Response Therapy. Motivation is also an important element in the concept of Andragogy (what motivates the adult learner).

Motivational, Self Improvement and Success Strategies

Take a look at the humble bumblebee. Theoretically, scientists say, it's impossible for the bumblebee to fly. Fortunately for the bumblebee, no one has told it so, so fly it does. Ask yourself this question: if you weren't tethered by your own limitations, or the limitations placed on you by others, what do you believe you'd be capable of achieving?

Jason Gracia asks this question in his powerful book *The Motivated Mind*. When you limit yourself with self-doubt, when you devalue yourself and your abilities, when you continually put up barriers and excuses, you will never be able to believe in the possibilities.

Instead of experiencing exciting adventures in self actualization, you get trapped by your own negative assumptions. It's too hard. What if I fail? What if I succeed? I'm afraid to push myself. In our minds we all create lists of those things we know we can do and the those things we know we can't do. In between is a list of those things we think we could do.

So for most of us, that's where we get stuck, forever limited by own expectations, clinging to impossible dreams that will never be realized because we don't believe we can do whatever is necessary to achieve them. *How to Turn Your Dreams into Reality with the Word "Don't"*

What if you could make your dreams possible by simply making one small change to the lists you keep in your mind?

What if, instead of having a list of those things you KNOW you can't do, you had a list of those things you DON'T KNOW you can't do? Yes, you've added a negative by including a "don't", but it can be one of the most positive changes you can make in your life. The bumblebee doesn't know it's not meant to fly, so what makes you so sure about the things you don't believe you can do?

I truly believed I couldn't jump out of a perfectly good airplane until I went up and did it. Admittedly, it was a tandem jump, but if you had asked me in the seconds before I plummeted out of that plane if I could do it, I still would have said, "Noooooooooooo!"

The assumptions we make-the things we *think* we can't do-become fixed in our minds and we stop questioning them. It's only natural. As human beings we all suffer from complacency at one time or another and it's easier to accept things the way they are than try to make changes.

Sure, there are going to be things on your list of "can't do's" that you really can't do, no matter what. For example, if you can't sing a note to save yourself, it's unlikely you'll ever become the next Frank Sinatra, but you could learn to play the piano and become the next Arthur Rubinstein instead! We read every day in the papers about people who have succeeded in doing something they didn't believe they could do. Often it's in a situation where the circumstances left them no alternative, so isn't the circumstances of living your life without ever realizing the possibilities enough to leave you no alternative?

I will never forget the feeling of exultation I felt when I jumped out of that plane and finally landed back on earth. Not just because the experience of free falling through an unbelievably blue sky is breathtaking, but because I succeeded in doing something I believed I was incapable of. But guess what? I did it and it felt good!

Revisit what you DO know: Sometimes it's important for your ego's sake to return to what you know you DO know.

Revisit your successes and the great strides you've made and acknowledge the results you've achieved. Certainly don't allow yourself to dwell on your achievements because sometimes the sense of self-satisfaction will keep you rooted in the one spot. One of the ways I bring a measure of success into my life when I'm having a bad day is to go back and reread some of the inspirational books that got me to where I am now.

Basic Perspective of Personality Development

We humans have the power and ability to shape our personalities however we wish. When we develop ourselves to be all that we can be, we contribute to our own, as well as the happiness of others. The eight perspective of personality psychology can be understood as a framework for observing and measuring various personality responses or patterns. Each perspective offers a different context of a component assumed to contribute to the personality makeup. This text of personality psychologies uses these eight perspectives to help define the uniqueness of each person through attempts to untangle the web of uncertainty that comes with personality approaches. Psychoanalytic perspectives assume that our personality development is influenced by a series or system of unconscious impulses and reactions to equally unconscious drives or desires. There is a heavy sexual element to this perspective. For example, Freud's Oedipus or Electra complex.

Neo-Analytic/Ego perspectives suggest an influence on personality development through internal expectations or masteries (although conscious) that define our behaviours. Biological perspectives describe the biological components that make us a person as are active in influencing the person's personality. These biological influences are considered to be inherent and individually unique. Behaviourist perspectives explain the influence of personality through the behavioural reactions to environmental stimulus. A person is conditioned through a series of events that reinforce certain behaviours

more than others. Cognitive perspectives attempt to capture the individual's thoughts and cognitive processes as they react to their world. This perspective uses the human thought as a measure of personality.

Trait perspectives assume that each person is individually constructed of unique sets of skills, traits, and predispositions that create a unique personality.

Humanistic/Existential perspectives use spiritual foundations to understand the need for human's to seek meaning for their life existence. This perspective assumes the posture that human personality needs to purpose their life by defining their meaning in a spiritual capacity. Interactionist perspectives take an approach to the ongoing dynamics between a person and their environment. This perspective targets the reactions chosen in response to the environment they are a part of.

While each perspective highlights a different and unique approach to understanding the human personality, combining each system can help to more completely understand and describe the multitude of personality potentials. This system offers an array of options for any single personality to develop. Taking into considerations these eight perspectives, a personality psychologist has many areas to observe and measure.

Definitions and Meaning of Personality

Main the measurement of personal characteristics. Assessment is an end result of gathering information intended to advance psychological theory and research and to increase the probability that wise decisions will be made in applied settings (*e.g.*, in selecting the most promising people from a group of job applicants). The approach taken by the specialist in personality assessment is based on the assumption that much of the observable variability in behaviour from one person to another results from differences in the extent to which individuals possess particular underlying personal characteristics (traits). The assessment specialist seeks to define these traits, to measure them objectively, and to relate them to socially significant aspects of behaviour. A distinctive feature of the scientific approach to personality measurement is the effort, wherever possible, to describe human characteristics in quantitative terms. How much of a trait manifests itself in an individual? How many traits are present? Quantitative personality measurement is especially useful in comparing groups of people as well as individuals. Do groups of people from different cultural and economic backgrounds differ when considered in the light of their particular personality attributes or traits? How large are the group differences?

Overt behaviour is a reflection of interactions among a wide range of underlying factors, including the bodily state of the individual and the effects of that person's past personal experiences. Hence, a narrowly focused approach is inadequate to do justice to the complex human behaviour that occurs under the constantly changing set of challenges, pleasures, demands, and stresses of everyday life. The sophisticated measurement of human personality inescapably depends on the use of a variety of concepts to provide trait definitions and entails the application of various methods of

observation and evaluation. Personality theorists and researchers seek to define and to understand the diversity of human traits, the many ways people have of thinking and perceiving and learning and emoting. Such non-material human dimensions, types, and attributes are constructs—in this case, inferences drawn from observed behaviour. Widely studied personality constructs include anxiety, hostility, emotionality, motivation, and introversion-extroversion. Anxiety, for example, is a concept, or construct, inferred in people from what they say, their facial expressions, and their body movements.

Personality is interactional in two senses. Personal characteristics can be thought of as products of interactions among underlying psychological factors; for example, an individual may experience tension because he or she is both shy and desirous of social success. These products, in turn, interact with the types of situations people confront in their daily lives. A person who is anxious about being evaluated might show debilitated performance in evaluative situations (for example, taking tests), but function well in other situations in which an evaluative emphasis is not present. Personality makeup can be either an asset or a liability depending on the situation.

For example, some people approach evaluative situations with fear and foreboding, while others seem to be motivated in a desirable direction by competitive pressures associated with performance. Personality is the supreme realization of the innate idiosyncrasy of a living being. It is an act of high courage flung in the face of life, the absolute affirmation of all that constitutes the individual, the most successful adaptation to the universal condition of existence coupled with the greatest possible freedom for self-determination.”-Carl Gustav Jung, 1934.

Intelligence to Personality

As this course moves from intelligence (1st 5 weeks) into personality (next 10 weeks), it is worth pointing out that the relationship between intelligence and personality may be stronger than many assume. Intelligence influences different aspects of personality in many different ways. In fact, intelligence is sometimes considered to be part of personality. This issue will probably always be debated. The main point to bear in mind is that both intelligence and personality are prominent individual differences. Personality is not easily defined. Basically, ‘personality’ refers to our attempts to capture or summarize an individual’s ‘essence’. Personality is personality, the science of describing and understanding persons. Clearly, personality is a core area of study for psychology, if not the core. Together with intelligence, the topic of personality constitutes the most significant area of individual difference study.

No two people are exactly the same—not even identical twins. Some people are anxious, some are risk-taking; some are phlegmatic, some highly-strung; some are confident, some shy; and some are quiet and some are loquacious. This issue of differences is fundamental to the study of personality. Note also that in studying these differences we will also examine where the differences come from: as with intelligence we will find that there is a mixture of nature and nurture involved.

Various Definitions of Personality:

- “Deceptive masquerade or mimicry.”
- “The entire organization of a human being at any stage of development.”
- “Levels or layers of dispositions, usually with a unifying or integrative principle at the top.”
- “The integration of those systems or habits that represent an individual’s characteristic adjustments to the environment.”
- “The way in which the person does such things as remembering, thinking or loving.”
- “Those characteristics that account for consistent patterns of behaviour”.
- “Personality is not an existing substantive entity to be searched for but a complex construct to be developed and defined by the observer.”
- A contemporary definition for personality is offered by Carver and Scheier (2000, p.5): “Personality is a dynamic organisation, inside the person, of psychophysical systems that create a person’s characteristic patterns of behaviour, thoughts, and feelings.” Carver and Scheier
 - *Dynamic Organisation*: Suggests ongoing readjustments, adaptation to experience, continual upgrading and maintaining Personality doesn’t just lie there. It has process and it’s organised.
 - *Inside the Person*: Suggests internal storage of patterns, supporting the notion that personality influences behaviours, etc.
 - *Psychophysical systems*: Suggests that the physical is also involved in ‘who we are’.
 - *Characteristic Patterns*: Implies that consistency/continuity which are uniquely identifying of an individual.
 - *Behaviour, Thoughts, and Feelings*: Indicates that personality includes a wide range of psychological experience/manifestation: that personality is displayed in MANY ways.
- Carver and Scheier (2000, p.5) suggest that the word personality “conveys a sense of consistency, internal causality, and personal distinctiveness”. This issue of “personal distinctiveness is very important. There are certain universal characteristics of the human race and particular features of individuals. We all for example experience stress and the elevated cortisol that goes with it, and we all suffer the immune suppressive effects thereof. BUT each of us is unique too.

Perspectives on personality that we’ll be examining:

- Trait Perspective.
- Biological Perspective.
- Psychoanalytic Perspective.
- Learning Perspective.
- Phenomenological Perspective.
- Cognitive Perspective.

Benefits of Personality Development

Personality development has many benefits that are the outcome of a strong personality development procedure. In fact, it is true that there are only benefits and no disadvantages to having personality development.

The benefits can be states in categories, or if not categorically, then it can be stated in a concise manner to get a gist of the numerous advantages one gets out of a good personality development workshop, seminar, web site or material of any kind. Benefits are plenty with development of personality.

It brings with it, a lot of new, fresh approaches; it bring with it, a lot of scope for varied interests-which in turn leads to healthy brain-storming and discussions at work places, rather than politics that are unpleasant and battles over difference of opinions. Good and effective Personality development transforms differences into discussions, quarrels into debates and fights into harmony.

The list will exhibit the benefits of personality development, at a glance, for simple and quick reading and comprehension:

- One of the key benefits of Personality development is the over-all shine that is brought about in a person's personality after undergoing personality development. The over-all demeanor of a person is more vibrant, it develops elements of many traits, that form a charming whole and there is a sharpening of personality for the better.
- Another key benefit is the confidence and morale that automatically gets a boost and a push with good personality development.
- To state another advantage of personality development, – The opportunity to be able to form a healthy rapport with anybody of any age bracket.
- There are several other advantageous aspects to having a personality development experience, like the ability to hold your own, the ability to curb temperamentalism and be an out-going and well-spoken or rather, well communicative individual.
- There are several times, we hear of how important effective communication is, how it is important to have clarity in communication and so on, all this and more is achieved by a regular personality development.
- Overall, the person gets a wonderful edge and a razor-sharp yet approachable as well as a warm outlook to life and people.

These are a few benefits, that were stated to understand the many things that are bright, that get on board with a refreshing experience as well as an educative mechanism of personality development.

Criticisms of Personality Assessment in Organisational Settings

The foregoing review shows that much has been learned about the dispositional basis of organisational behaviour. Though there is general acceptance that personality

predicts most broad organisational attitudes and behaviours, not all scholars are convinced of the usefulness of personality measures in organisational research.

Two of the most frequently advanced criticisms are:

- That the validities are sufficiently weak as to question the usefulness of personality measures in predicting organisational criteria, particularly job performance; and
- That because items on self-report personality measures are socially desirable, faking undermines the usefulness of personality measures. We evaluate each of these criticisms in turn.

Meagre Validities

The meta-analytic accumulation of evidence concerning relationships between personality and organisational criteria has led some researchers to assert ‘personality plays a meaningful role in nearly all facets of work...’ and ‘the controversy over whether personality tests can be useful for the prediction of employee performance is no longer pertinent’. However, critics of the literature suggest that many statistically significant relationships are too low to be of much practical significance, especially in the domain of personnel selection. For instance, critics are usually quick to point out that the average validity of the Big Five in predicting job performance or the validity of the single best predictor, conscientiousness is much lower than the validity of the ‘goldstandard’ individual difference predictor – intelligence or general mental ability.

However, to dismiss personality research on such grounds of low validity evidence is specious for several reasons. First, there is no theoretical reason to suggest that all personality traits should predict all performance criteria across all occupations. Thus, merely averaging Big Five validity estimates is a rather mindless enterprise, producing misleading results. A more appropriate means of assessing the validity of personality would be to compute the multiple correlation between the Big Five, as a set, and performance. When this is done, most studies indicate that the multiple correlation between the set of Big Five traits and broad criteria is between $R = 0.40$ and $R = 0.50$ – hardly a trivial result. In addition, when meta-analyses are restricted to include only hypothesised relationships between traits and performance criteria personality validities increase substantially.

Personality Inventories can be ‘Faked’

If applicants for jobs in organisations are selected based on their scores on personality tests, there is an incentive for applicants to enhance or ‘fake’ their scores.

Judging from ongoing debates answers to four questions are required to evaluate this potential problem:

- Can personality inventories be faked?
- Does faking occur?

- What impact does faking have on validity? and
- How can faking be alleviated?

To assess whether personality inventories can be faked, researchers generally ask groups of participants to complete personality inventories under two conditions: to respond ‘honestly’ and to ‘fake-good’. If the observed scores for desirable traits in the ‘fake-good’ condition are higher than in the ‘honesty’ condition, then one can conclude that participants have the *ability* to fake on personality tests. A meta-analysis of 51 such studies supports the notion that individuals can, if prompted, distort their ‘honest’ responses in favourable manners.

However, showing that individuals *can* fake does not mean that individuals *do* fake in organisational settings. To test the degree of faking in actual selection contexts, researchers generally compare groups of participants with a motivation to fake with participants lacking such motivation. Here, results are less consistent. Several studies report significant changes in the predictive validity of personality tests between job applicants and job incumbents whereas other studies fail to find such effects. Thus, though it seems clear that faking can occur, whether most applicants do fake and whether faking impacts the validity of personality testing is less clear.

Methods for ‘fixing’ faking generally fall under two categories – proactive and reactive. Proactive measures involve incorporating procedures designed to decrease respondents’ ability or desire to fake. For instance, forced-choice personality inventories instruct respondents to select between multiple options that are equal in terms of social desirability but unequal in terms of predictive validity. Conditional reasoning measures assess respondents’ underlying logical processes used to make decisions under the assumption that different logical processes are indicative of different personality traits. Because these measures do not assess personality directly, it is very difficult for respondents to intentionally distort their personality profiles. To decrease respondents’ desire to fake, researchers have suggested warning respondents not to fake or requiring respondents to elaborate on their responses.

As an alternative to preventing faking, several reactive methods exist to identify and rectify problems associated with faking after it has occurred. For instance, social desirability and lie scales may be included within the personality inventory. Respondents who endorse items on these scales are assumed to be faking on focal personality items, and their scores may either be adjusted or eliminated from the response set. Alternatively, researchers have suggested exploring item response latencies in order to identify fakers under the assumption that the longer it takes to answer an item, the more likely the respondent is answering untruthfully. In all, none of the proactive or reactive methods are without limitations and each has had only limited empirical success. Thus, future research is required to explore conditions in which faking is an issue and, subsequently, techniques for mitigating the issue. Our focus, thus far, has been on reducing faking of self-reported personality. It must be noted that when possible, researchers may lessen the effects of faking by drawing on alternatives to self-report measures of personality.

For instance, observer ratings of personality, either by significant others, coworkers and supervisors, or trained psychologists have been shown to predict performance over and above self-report measures, especially when assessments are aggregated across multiple observers. However, an interesting paradox of observer ratings of personality is that although increased familiarity between the focal individual and the observer increases the ability of the observer to accurately rate the focal individual, familiarity also increases the motivation of the observer to provide biased personality estimates.

Future Research

Though laying out a full research agenda is beyond the scope of this review, we highlight four areas involving personality and organisational behaviour that we believe are most in need of researchers' further attention.

Broad and Narrow Traits

We can often be victims of our own success. Organisational behaviour researchers' focus on the broad Big Five traits clearly has paid dividends. One wonders, however, whether this focus will reach a dead-end where there is little new to be learned, and, related, whether the extant validities might be augmented by a focus on other traits. For example, narcissism, impulsivity, and trait hostility are specific traits and each has been the subject of hundreds of studies in psychology. However, their study by organisational behaviour researchers is virtually non-existent.

One of the problems, unless we regress back to the 'pet' stage of personality psychology is to agree on which specific traits should be studied. One potentially useful investigation was recently completed by DeYoung, Quilty, and Peterson. These authors undertook a comprehensive analysis to determine whether lower-order traits could be housed within the Big Five framework. In their analysis, extraversion is comprised of enthusiasm and assertiveness; agreeableness, of compassion and politeness; conscientiousness, of industriousness and orderliness; neuroticism, of volatility and withdrawal; and openness to experience, of intellect and openness. Likewise, Roberts, Chernyshenko, Stark, and Goldberg identified six subfacets of conscientiousness, and Chernyshenko, Stark, Woo, and Conz identified six subfacets of openness to experience. It is too early to tell whether these analyses will prove useful to organisational behaviour scholars, but we encourage such efforts.

Dark Side of Functional Traits

As would be expected and as predicted by an evolutionary perspective on personality, many traits have broad adaptive properties. If one selected a broad range of work and life outcomes, for example, few people would choose to be less conscientious. However, every one of the Big Five traits appears to have certain maladaptive properties for certain specific criteria.

As Nettle noted, 'Behavioural alternatives can be considered as trade offs, with a particular trait producing not unalloyed advantage but a mixture of costs and benefits such that the optimal value for fitness may depend on very specific local circumstances'. Thus, a more nuanced view of the importance of personality to behaviour would recognise that even generally desirable traits likely involve trade-offs associated with particular criteria.

For example, despite its widespread benefits, conscientiousness does have disadvantages. Conscientious individuals may learn less in the early stages of skill acquisition perhaps because they are self-deceptive about their abilities or are overly focused on performing well. There is also evidence that conscientious individuals are less adaptable. Extraversion, though having positive relations with many organisational criteria, may be related to increased levels of impulsive or risk-seeking behaviours, resulting in increased accident and absenteeism rates.

We should not be so enamored with the general desirability of certain traits that we are blinded to the cases in which they are maladaptive. Nor should we ignore the possible benefits of some 'dark side' traits. Moreover, where traits are deemed functional, we should not assume that more is always better. Extremely conscientious individuals, for instance, might not always perform better and, in some cases, may perform worse than moderately conscientious individuals. More research is needed to identify which levels of which traits are functional under what conditions. Tett et al.s' trait activation theory and Mischel and Shoda's cognitive-affective personality system theory are two examples of personality theories that may guide fruitful explorations of this frontier.

Personality Change and Variability

Personality traits show significant levels of rank-order consistency, even if the interval between the time periods is substantial. However, evidence also clearly suggests that scores on personality inventories change over time; for example, individuals become more conscientious and less open over time. Although, thanks to the work of Roberts et al. as well as others, we have learned a great deal about personality change, much remains to be known about the role work plays in changes on personality. Is the increase of conscientiousness and decrease of openness over time, for example, a result of a context-free aging process, or might the experience of work play a role in making individuals more conscientious and less open?

Similarly, since women's neuroticism scores decline over time, serving to virtually eliminate their heightened neuroticism scores as young women does this narrowing of the 'gender gap' vary by women's labour force experiences? Finally, certain organisational cultures may reinforce personalities. We know that individuals, to some degree, chose organisational cultures based on their personality. Once an individual has joined an organisation, do organisations with 'strong cultures' shape employees' personalities? More research is needed to answer these interesting and important questions.

Personality Development: A New Perspective

Personal responsibility is the basis of personality development. It is egocentric to presume heredity to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is ethnocentric to presume a specific environment to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is eccentric to presume chance or luck to be a contributory factor for personality development. It is not a trick that one can learn in a conference or by maintaining indifference. In short it is nothing extrinsic but intrinsic. Therefore anyone interested in personality development must give up all sorts of excuses, non-committal cautiousness and escapism and instead first start looking at oneself.

Personality development, be it in social life or spiritual life is a matter of inner perception as Albert Camus, the great French writer once said, “An intelligent man watches himself”. Personality development is personal responsibility, a feeling of responsibility to be honest and trustworthy to oneself and towards others, or at least, feeling responsible to become honest and trustworthy. Personality is not meant to be built but it must be in-built; if it is built then it would stop at a point and remain static like a building. Personality is a constant process of becoming and being.

Who you are, is determined by what you are becoming and what you become is determined and what you are now, a sort of obverse. So personality is both being and becoming honest and responsible. This is possible only when there is an inextricable bond of well-patterned thoughts and feelings with concomitant ideas and actions based on lasting values and valuable purposes.

When this sort of unifying, well-organized pattern of thoughts and feelings do not exist, then there is every possibility of becoming a split personality. We do come across many who have such good behaviour and who are so well mannered in society but are highly irritable and unbearable characters at home in their personal life or vice versa.

In short the best personality is the product of serious perception of the inner self and the inner perception of life's seriousness. Where this inner perception does not exist there are bound to be conflicts between the actual self and the many desired and dreamed selves. When one honestly encounters and deals properly with one's inner self with all its emotional urges and intellectual desires one can really develop one's personality. Ultimately personality development depends on how one perceives one's inner self and how one uses one's urges.

It is evident that every emotional urge manifests itself in myriads of ways depending upon the individual's inner self. For example, curiosity can bring out an eavesdropper or a scandal monger or a clandestine voyeur or a gossip giant or a prying bore or a research scientist or a space explorer or a spiritual meditator or a social inventor etc; so the emotional urge of curiosity produces both adorable and deplorable personalities depending upon the personal responsibility and perception of the individual. No one can escape it.

So never try to evade anything, feel responsible, encounter and by the way you deal, emerge enlightened.

Organic Basis of Motivation Character of Personality Development

The history of Man's thought is the real history of mankind. Back of all the events of history are the curious systems of beliefs for which men have lived and died. Struggling to understand himself, Man has built up and discarded superstitions, theologies and sciences.

Early in this strange and fascinating history he divided himself into two parts—a body and a mind. Working together with body, mind somehow was of different stuff and origin than body and had only a mysterious connection with it. Theology supported this belief; metaphysics and philosophy debated it with an acumen that was practically sterile of usefulness. Mind and body “interacted” in some mysterious way; mind and body were “parallel” and so set that thought-processes and brain-processes ran side by side without really having anything to do with one another. With the development of modern anatomy, physiology and psychology, the time is ripe for men boldly to say that applying the principle of causation in a practical manner leaves no doubt that mind and character are organic, are functions of the organism and do not exist independently of it. I emphasize “practical” in relation to causation because it would be idle for us here to enter into the philosophy of cause and effect. Such discussion is not taken seriously by the very philosophers who most earnestly enter into it.

The statement that mind is a function of the organism is not necessarily “materialistic.” The body is a living thing and as such is as “spiritualistic” as life itself. Enzymes, internal secretions, nervous activities are the products of cells whose powers are indeed drawn from the ocean of life. To prove this statement, which is a cardinal thesis of this book, I shall adduce facts of scientific and facts of common knowledge. One might start with the statement that the death of the body brings about the abolition of mind and character, but this, of course, proves nothing, since it might well be that the body was a lever for the expression of mind and character, and with its disappearance as a functioning agent such expression was no longer possible. It is convenient to divide our exposition into two parts, the first the dependence upon proper brain function and structure, and the second the dependence upon the proper health of other organs. For it is not true that mind and character are functions of the brain alone; they are functions of the entire organism. The brain is simply the largest and most active of the organs upon which the mental life depends; but there are minute organs, as we shall see, upon whose activity the brain absolutely depends.

Any injury to the brain may destroy or seriously impair the mentality of the individual. This is too well known to need detailed exposition. Yet some cases of this type are fundamental in the exquisite way they prove (if anything can be proven) the dependence of mind upon bodily structure. In some cases of fracture of the skull, a piece of bone pressing upon the brain may profoundly alter memory, mood and character. Removal of the piece of bone restores the mind to normality. This is also true of brain tumor of certain types, for example, frontal endotheliomata, where early removal of the growth demonstrates first that a “physical” agent changes mind and character, and second that a “physical” agent, such as the knife of the surgeon, may act to reestablish mentality.

In cases of hydrocephalus (or water on the brain), where there is an abnormal secretion of cerebrospinal fluid acting to increase the pressure on the brain, the simple expedient of withdrawing the fluid by lumbar puncture brings about normal mental life. As the fluid again collects, the mental life becomes cloudy, and the character alters (irritability, depressed mood, changed purpose, lowered will); another lumbar puncture and presto!—the individual is for a time made over more completely than conversion changes a sinner,—and more easily.

Take the case of the disease known as General Paresis, officially called Dementia Paralytica. This disease is caused by syphilis and is one of its late results. The pathological changes are widespread throughout the brain but may at the onset be confined mostly to the frontal lobes. The very first change may be—and usually is—a change in character! The man hitherto kind and gentle becomes irritable, perhaps even brutal. One whose sex morals have been of the most conventional kind, a loyal husband, suddenly becomes a profligate, reckless and debauched, perhaps even perverted. The man of firm purposes and indefatigable industry may lose his grip upon the ambitions and strivings of his lifetime and become an inert slacker, to the amazement of his associates. Many a fine character, many a splendid mind, has reached a lofty height and then crumbled before the assaults of this disease upon the brain. Philosopher, poet, artist, statesman, captain of industry, handicraftsman, peasant, courtesan and housewife,—all are lowered to the same level of dementia and destroyed character by the consequences of the thickened meninges, the altered blood vessels and the injured nerve cells.

Now and then one is fortunate enough to treat with success an early case of General Paresis. And then the reversed miracle takes place, unfortunately too rarely! The disordered mind, the altered character, leaps upward to its old place,—after being dosed by the marvelous drug Salvarsan, created by the German Jewish scientist, Paul Ehrlich. Of extraordinary interest are the rare cases of loss of personal identity seen after brain injury, say in war. A man is knocked unconscious by a blow and upon restoration of consciousness is separated from that past in which his ego resides. He does not know his history or his name, and that continuity of the “self” so deeply prized and held by all religions to be part of his immortality is gone. Then after a little while, a few days or weeks, the disarranged neuron pathways reestablish themselves as usual,—and the ego comes back to the man.

One might cite the feeble-mindedness that results from meningitis, brain tumor, brain abscess, brain wounds, etc., as further evidence of the dependence of mind upon brain, of its status as a function of brain. No philosopher seriously doubts that equilibrium and movement are functions of the brain, and yet to prove this there is no evidence of any other kind than that cited to prove the relationship of mind to brain. And what applies to the intelligence applies as forcibly to character, for purpose, emotion, mood, instinct and will are altered with these diseases. Interesting as is the relationship between mind and character and the brain, it is at the present overshadowed by the fascinating relationship between these psychical activities and the bodily organs. What I am about

to cite from medicine and biology is part of the finest achievements of these sciences and hints at a future in which a true science of mind and character will appear.

Certain of the glands of the body are described as glands of internal secretions in that the products of their activity, their secretions, are poured into the blood stream rather than on the surface of the body or into the digestive tract. The most prominent of these glands, all of which are very small and extraordinarily active, are as follows: The Pituitary Body (Hypophysis)—a tiny structure which is situated at the base of the brain but is not a part of that organ.

The Pineal Body (Epiphysis)—a still smaller structure, located within the brain substance, having, however, no relationship to the brain. This gland has only lately acquired a significance. Descartes thought it the seat of the soul because it is situated in the middle of the brain. The Thyroid gland, a somewhat larger body, situated in the front of the neck, just beneath the larynx. We shall deal with this in some detail later on.

The Parathyroids, minute organs, four in number, just behind the thyroid. The Thymus, a gland placed just within the thorax, which reaches its maximum size at birth and then gradually recedes until at twenty it has almost disappeared.

The Adrenal glands, one on each side of the body, above and adjacent to the kidney. These glands, which are each made up of two opposing structures, stand in intimate relation to the sympathetic nervous system and secrete a substance called adrenalin. The Sex organs, the ovary in the female and the testicle in the male, in addition to producing the female egg (ovum) and the male seed (sperm), respectively, produce substances of unknown character that have hugely important roles in the establishment of mind, temperament and sex character.

Without going into the details of the functions of the endocrine glands, one may say that they are “the managers of the human body.” Every individual, from the time he is born until the time he dies, is under the influence of these many different kinds of elements,—some of them having to do with the development of the bones and teeth, some with the development of the body and nervous system, some with the development of the mind, etc. (and character), and later on with reproduction. These glands are not independent of one another but interact in a marvelous manner so that under or overaction of any one of them upsets a balance that exists between them, and thus produces a disorder that is quite generalized in its effects. The work on this subject is a tribute to medicine and one pauses in respect and admiration before the names and labors of Brown, Sequard, Addison, Graves and Basedow, Horsley, King, Schiff, Schafer, Takamine, Marie, Cushing, Kendal, Sajous and others of equal insight and patient endeavor. But let us pass over to the specific instances that bear on our thesis, to wit, that mind and character are functions of the organism and have their seat not only in the brain but in the entire organism.

How do the endocrines prove this? As well as they prove that physical growth and the growth of the secondary sex characters are dependent on these glands. Take diseases of the thyroid gland as the first and shining example.

The thyroid secretes a substance which substantially is an “iodized globulin,”—and which can be separated from the gland products. This secretion has the main effect of “activating metabolism” (Vassale and Generali); in ordinary phrase it acts to increase the discharge of energy of the cells of the body. In all living things there is a twofold process constantly going on: first the building up of energy by means of the foodstuffs, air and water taken in, and second a discharge of energy in the form of heat, motion and—in my belief —emotion and thought itself, though this would be denied by many psychologists. Yet how escape this conclusion from the following facts? There is a congenital disease called cretinism which essentially is due to a lack of thyroid secretion. This disease is particularly prevalent in Southern France, Spain, Upper Italy and Switzerland. It is characterized mainly by marked dwarfism and imbecility, so that the adult untreated cretin remains about as large as a three or four-year-old child and has the mental level about that of a child of the same age. But, this comparison as to intelligence is a gross injustice to the child, for it leaves out the difference in character between the child and the cretin.

The latter has none of the curiosity, the seeking for experience, the active interest, the pliant expanding will, the sweet capacity for affection, friendship and love present in the average child. The cretin is a travesty on the human being in body, mind and character. But feed him thyroid gland. Mind you, the dried substance of the glands, not of human beings, but of mere sheep. The cretin begins to grow mentally and physically and loses to a large extent the grotesqueness of his appearance. He grows taller; his tongue no longer lolls in his mouth; the hair becomes finer, the hands less coarse, and the patient exhibits more normal human emotions, purposes, intelligence. True, he does not reach normality, but that is because other defects beside the thyroid defect exist and are not altered by the thyroid feeding.

There is a much more spectacular disease to be cited, —a relatively infrequent but well-understood condition called myxoedema, which occurs mainly in women and is also due to a deficiency in the thyroid secretion. As a result the patient, who may have been a bright, capable, energetic person, full of the eager purposes and emotions of life, gradually becomes dull, stupid, apathetic, without fear, anger, love, joy or sorrow, and without purpose or striving. In addition the body changes, the hair becomes coarse and scanty, the skin thick and swollen (hence the name of the disease) and various changes take place in the sweat secretion, the heart action, etc.

Then, having made the diagnosis, work the great miracle! Obtain the dried thyroid glands of the sheep, prepared by the great drug houses as a by-product of the butcher business, and feed this poor, transformed creature with these glands! No fairy waving a magical wand ever worked a greater enchantment, for with the first dose the patient improves and in a relatively short time is restored to normal in skin, hair, sweat, etc., and MIND and character! To every physician who has seen this happen under his own eyes and by his direction there comes a conviction that mind and character have their seat in the organic activities of the body,—and nowhere else.

An interesting confirmation of this is that when the thyroid is overactive, a condition called hyperthyroidism, the patient becomes very restless and thin, shows excessive emotionality, sleeplessness, has a rapid heart action, tremor and many other signs not necessary to detail here. The thyroid in these cases is usually swollen. One of the methods used to treat the disease is to remove some of the gland surgically. In the early days an operator would occasionally remove too much gland and then the symptoms, of myxoedema would occur. This necessitated the artificial feeding of thyroid the rest of the patient's life! With the proper dosage of the gland substance the patient remains normal; with too little she becomes dull and stupid; with too much she becomes unstable and emotional! There are plenty of other examples of the influence of the endocrines on mind, character and personality. I here briefly mention a few of these.

In the disease called acromegaly, which is due to a change in the pituitary gland, amongst other things are noted "melancholic tendencies, loss of memory and mental and physical torpor." A very profound effect on character and personality, exclusive of intelligence, is that of the sex glands. One need not accept the Freudian extravagances regarding the way in which the sex feelings and impulses enter into our thoughts, emotions, purposes and acts. No unbiased observer of himself or his fellows but knows that the satisfaction or non-satisfaction of the sex feeling, its excitation or its suppression are of great importance in the destinies of character. Further, man as herdsman and man as tyrant have carried on huge experiments to show how necessary to normal character the sex glands are. As herdsman he has castrated his male Bos and obtained the ox. And the ox is the symbol of patience, docility, steady labour, without lust or passion,—and the very opposite of his non-castrated brother, the bull. The bull is the symbol of irritability and unteachableness, who will not be easily yoked or led and who is the incarnation of lust and passion. One is the male transformed into neuter gender; and the other is rampant with the fierceness of his sex.

Compare the eunuch and the normal man. If the eunuch state be imposed in infancy, the shape of the body, its hairiness, the quality of the voice and the character are altered in characteristic manner. The eunuch essentially is neither man nor woman, but a repelling Something intermediate.

Enough has been said to show that mind and character are dependent upon the health of the brain and the glands of the body; that somewhere in the interaction of tissues, in the chemistry of life, arises thought, purpose, emotion, conduct and deed. But we need not go so far afield as pathology to show this, for common experience demonstrates it as well.

If character is control of emotions, firmness of purpose, cheerfulness of outlook and vigour of thought and memory, then the tired man, worn out by work or a long vigil, is changed in character. Such a person in the majority of cases is irritable, showing lack of control and emotion; he slackens in his life's purposes, loses cheerfulness and outlook and finds it difficult to concentrate his thoughts or to recall his memories. Though this change is temporary and disappears with rest, the essential fact is not altered, namely,

fatigue alters character. It is also true that not all persons show this vulnerability to fatigue in equal measure. For that matter, neither do they show an equal liability to infectious diseases, equal reaction to alcohol or injury. The feeling of vigour which rest gives changes the expression of personality to a marked degree. It is true that we are not apt to think of the tired man as changed in character; yet we must admit on reflection that he has undergone transformation.

Even a loaded bowel may, as is well known, alter the reaction to life. Among men who are coarse in their language there is a salutation more pertinent than elegant that enquires into the state of the bowels. The famous story of Voltaire and the Englishman, in which the sage agreed to suicide because life was not worth living when his digestion was disordered and who broke his agreement when he purged himself, illustrates how closely mood is related to the intestinal tract. And mood is the background of the psychic life, upon which depends the direction of our thoughts, cheerful or otherwise, the vigour of our will and purpose. Mood itself arises in part from the influences that stream into the muscles, joints, heart, lungs, liver, spleen, kidneys, digestive tract and all the organs and tissues by way of the afferent nerves (sympathetic and cerebro-spinal). Mood is thus in part a reflection of the health and proper working of the organism; it is the most important aspect of the subconsciousness, and upon it rests the structure of character and personality.

This does not mean that only the healthy are cheerful, or that the sick are discouraged. To affirm the dependence of mind upon body is not to deny that one may build up faith, hope, courage, through example and precept, or that one may not inherit a cheerfulness and courage (or the reverse). "There are men," says James, "who are born under a cloud." But exceptional individuals aside, the mass of mankind generates its mood either in the tissues of the body or in the circumstances of life. Children, because they have not built up standards of thought, mood and act, demonstrate in a remarkable manner the dependence of their character upon health.

A child shows the onset of an illness by a complete change in character. I remember one sociable, amiable lad of two, rich in the curiosity and expanding friendliness of that time of life, who became sick with diphtheria. All his basic moods became altered, and all his wholesome reactions to life disappeared. He was cross and contrary, he had no interest in people or in things, he acted very much as do those patients in an insane hospital who suffer from Dementia Praecox.

What is character if it is not interest and curiosity, friendliness and love, obedience and trust, cheerfulness and courage? Yet a sick child, especially if very young, loses all these and takes on the reverse characters. The little lad spoken of became "himself" again when the fever and the pain lifted. Yet for a long time afterwards he showed a greater liability to fear than before, and it was not until six months or more had repaired the more subtle damage to his organism that he became the hardy little adventurer in life that he had been before the illness. There is plenty of chemical proof of this thesis as here set forth. Men have from time immemorial put things "in their bellies to steal

their brains away.” The chemical substance known as ethyl alcohol has been an artificial basis of good fellowship the world over, as well as furnishing a very fair share of the tragedy, the misery and the humor of the world. This is because, when ingested in any amount, its absorption produces changes in the flow of thought, in the attitude towards life, in the mood, the emotions, the purposes, the conduct,—in a word, in character. One sees the austere man, when drunk, become ribald; the repressed, become open-mouthed and open-hearted; the kindly, perhaps brutal; the controlled, uncontrolled. In the change of character its effects is the regret over its passing and the greatest reason for prohibition.

Alcohol causes several well-defined mental diseases as well as mere drunkenness. In Delirium Tremens there is an acute delirium, with confusion, excitement and auditory and visual hallucinations of all kinds. The latter symptom is so prominent as to give the reason for the popular name of the “snakes.” In alcoholic hallucinosis the patient has delusions of persecution and hears voices accusing him of all kinds of wrong-doing. Very frequently, as all the medical writers note, these voices are “conscience exteriorized”; that is, the voices say of him just what he has been saying of himself in the struggle against drink. Then there is Alcoholic Paranoia, a disease in which the main change is a delusion of jealousy directed against the mate, who is accused of infidelity. It is interesting that in the last two diseases the patient is “clear-headed”; memory and orientation are good; the patient speaks well and gives no gross signs of his trouble. As the effects of the alcohol wear away, the patient recovers,—*i.e.*, his character returns to its normal.

It becomes necessary at this point to take up a reverse side of our study, namely, what is often called the influence of “mind over matter.” Such cures of disease as seem to follow prayer and faith are cited; such incidents as the great strength of men under emotion or the disturbances of the body by ideas are listed as examples. This is not the place to discuss cures by faith. It suffices to say this: that in the first place most of such cures relate to hysteria, a disease we shall discuss later but which is characterized by symptoms that appear and disappear like magic. I have seen “cured” (and have “cured”) such patients, affected with paralysis, deafness, dumbness, blindness, etc., with reasoning, electricity, bitter tonics, fake electrodes, hypnotism, and in one case by a forcible slap upon a prominent and naked part of the body. Hysteria has been the basis of many a saint’s reputation and likewise has aided many a physician into affluence.

Nor is the effect of coincidence taken into account in estimating cures, whether by faith or by drugs. Many a physician has owed his start to the fact that he was called in on some obscure case just when the patient was on the turn towards recovery. He then receives the credit that belonged to Nature. Medical men understand this,—that many diseases are “self-limited” and pass through a cycle influenced but little by treatment. But faith curists do not so understand, and neither does the mass of people, so that neither one nor the other separates “post hoc” from “propter hoc.” If the truth were told, most of the miracle and faith cures that are not of hysterical origin are due to coincidence.

Faith curists report in detail their successes, but we have no statistics whatever of their failures. If thought is a product of the brain activated by the rest of the organism, it would be perfectly natural to expect that thought would influence the organism. That thought is intimately associated with impulses to action is well known. This action largely takes place in the speech muscles but also it irradiates into the rest of the organism. Especially is this true if the thought is associated with some emotion.

Emotion, as we shall discuss it later, is at least in large part a bodily reaction, a disturbance in heart, lungs, abdominal organs, blood vessels, sympathetic nervous system, endocrines, etc. The effect of thought and emotion upon the body, whether to heighten its activity or to lower its activity, is, from my point of view, merely the effect of one function of the organism upon others. We are not surprised if digestion affects thinking and mood, and we need not be surprised if thought and mood disturb or improve digestion. And we may substitute for digestion any other organic function. As a working basis, substantiated by the kind of proof we use in our daily lives in laboratories and machine shops, we may state that mind, character and personality are organic in their origin and are functions of the entire organism. What a man thinks, does and feels (or perhaps we should reverse this order) is the result of environmental forces playing upon a marvelously intricate organism in which every part reacts on every other part, in which nervous energy influences digestion and digestion influences nervous energy, in which enzymes, hormones, and endocrines engage in an extraordinary game of checks and balance, which in the normal course of events make for the individual's welfare. What a man thinks, does, and feels influences the fate of his organism from one end of life to the other.

We have not adduced in favour of the organic nature of mind, character and personality the facts of heredity. This is a most important set of facts, for if the egg and the sperm carry mentality and personality, they may be presumed to carry them in some organic form, as organic potentialities, just as they carry size, colour, sex, etc. That abnormal mind is inherited is shown in family insanity in the second, third and fourth generation cases of mental disease. Certain types of feeble-mindedness surely are transmitted from generation to generation, as witness the case of the famous (or infamous) Jukes family. In this group vagabondage, crime, immorality and other character abnormalities appeared linked with the feeble-mindedness. But there is plenty of evidence to show that normal character qualities are inherited as well as the abnormal. Galton, the father of eugenics, collected facts from the history of successful families to prove this. It is true that he failed to take into account the facts of SOCIAL heredity, in that a gifted man establishes a place for himself and a tradition for his family that is of great help to his son. Nevertheless, musical ability runs in families and races, as does athletic ability, high temper, passion, etc. In short, at least the potentialities, the capacities for character, are transmitted together with other qualities as part of the capital of heredity.

This means that in studying character and personality, we must start with an analysis of the physical make-up of the individual. We are not yet at the point in science where

we can easily get at the activities of the endocrinal glands in normal mentality. We are able to recognize certain fundamental types, but more we cannot do; nor are we able to measure nervous energy except in relatively crude ways, but these crude ways have great value under certain conditions.

When there has been a change in personality, the question of bodily disease is always paramount. The first questions to be asked under such circumstances are, “Is this person sick?” “Is the brain involved?” “Are endocrinal glands involved?” “Is there disease of some organ of the body, acting to lower the feeling of well-being, acting to slacken the purposes and the will or to obscure the intelligence?”

THEORIES OF MOTIVATION

Ever wonder why some people seem to be very successful, highly motivated individuals? Where does the energy, the drive, or the direction come from? Motivation is an area of psychology that has gotten a great deal of attention, especially in the recent years. The reason is because we all want to be successful, we all want direction and drive, and we all want to be seen as motivated. There are several distinct theories of motivation we will discuss in this section. Some include basic biological forces, while others seem to transcend concrete explanation. Let's talk about the five major theories of motivation.

INSTINCT THEORY

Instinct theory is derived from our biological make-up. We've all seen spider's webs and perhaps even witnessed a spider in the tedious job of creating its home and trap. We've all seen birds in their nests, feeding their young or painstakingly placing the twigs in place to form their new home. How do spiders know how to spin webs? How do birds now how to build nests?

The answer is biology. All creatures are born with specific innate knowledge about how to survive. Animals are born with the capacity and often times knowledge of how to survive by spinning webs, building nests, avoiding danger, and reproducing. These innate tendencies are preprogrammed at birth, they are in our genes, and even if the spider never saw a web before, never witnessed its creation, it would still know how to create one. Humans have the same types of innate tendencies. Babies are born with a unique ability that allows them to survive; they are born with the ability to cry. Without this, how would others know when to feed the baby, know when he needed changing, or when she wanted attention and affection? Crying allows a human infant to survive. We are also born with particular reflexes which promote survival. The most important of these include sucking, swallowing, coughing, blinking. Newborns can perform physical movements to avoid pain; they will turn their head if touched on their cheek and search for a nipple (rooting reflex); and they will grasp an object that touches the palm of their hands.

Drive Reduction Theory

According to Clark Hull (1943, 1952), humans have internal biological needs which motivate us to perform a certain way. These needs, or drives, are defined by Hull as internal states of arousal or tension which must be reduced. A prime example would be the internal feelings of hunger or thirst, which motivates us to eat. According to this theory, we are driven to reduce these drives so that we may maintain a sense of internal calmness.

Arousal Theory

Similar to Hull's Drive Reduction Theory, Arousal theory states that we are driven to maintain a certain level of arousal in order to feel comfortable. Arousal refers to a state of emotional, intellectual, and physical activity. It is different from the above theory, however, because it doesn't rely on only a reduction of tension, but a balanced amount. It also does better to explain why people climb mountains, go to school, or watch sad movies.

Psychoanalytic Theory

Remember Sigmund Freud and his five part theory of personality. As part of this theory, he believed that humans have only two basic drives: Eros and Thanatos, or the Life and Death drives. According to Psychoanalytic theory, everything we do, every thought we have, and every emotion we experience has one of two goals: to help us survive or to prevent our destruction. This is similar to instinct theory, however, Freud believed that the vast majority of our knowledge about these drives is buried in the unconscious part of the mind.

Psychoanalytic theory therefore argues that we go to school because it will help assure our survival in terms of improved finances, more money for health care, or even an improved ability to find a spouse. We move to better school districts to improve our children's ability to survive and continue our family tree. We demand safety in our cars, toys, and in our homes. We want criminal locked away, and we want to be protected against poisons, terrorists, and any thing else that could lead to our destruction. According to this theory, everything we do, everything we are can be traced back to the two basic drives

Humanistic Theory

Although discussed last, humanistic theory is perhaps the most well know theory of motivation. According to this theory, humans are driven to achieve their maximum potential and will always do so unless obstacles are placed in their way. These obstacles include hunger, thirst, financial problems, safety issues, or anything else that takes our focus away from maximum psychological growth.

The best way to describe this theory is to utilize the famous pyramid developed by Abraham Maslow (1970) called the Hierarchy of Needs. Maslow believed that humans have specific needs that must be met and that if lower level needs go unmet, we can not possible strive for higher level needs. The Hierarchy of Needs shows that at the lower level, we must focus on basic issues such as food, sleep, and safety. Without food, without sleep, how could we possible focus on the higher level needs such as respect, education, and recognition?

COMPETENCE MOTIVATION

Hull's motivational theory dominated the psychology of motivation during the late 1930s and the 1940s. Hull's last great work was published in 1952, shortly before he died. Already psychologists were questioning Hull's exclusive emphasis on drive-reduction. Hull portrayed all motivation as a matter of reducing uncomfortable drive or tension states. It is true that hunger and thirst are uncomfortable, but this conception of motivation leaves out many of the factors that energize and direct human behaviour.

As Hull's dominance in the field weakened, psychologists began to explore different types of motives not directly aimed at satisfying biological needs. In 1959 Robert W. White wrote a classic substance for *Psychological Review* titled, "Motivation Reconsidered: The Concept of Competence." In it, White proposed a new concept: Effectance motivation. Effectance was described as a "tendency to explore and influence the environment." White suggested that the "master reinforcer" for humans is personal competence. He defined competence as "the ability to interact effectively with the environment." White pointed out several ways competence motives were different from Hullian motives. Unlike biological motives such as hunger and thirst, competence motives are never really satisfied. They serve to enhance the abilities of the organism, rather than to regulate a biological process. They are not based on a state of biological deprivation. Rather, they help an organism improve itself. Competence motivation is visible in children. Toddlers try to act powerful and capable, big and grown up, almost as soon as they understand the concepts. Children of all ages try to exercise control over some domain of objects (whether it is a doll house, a collection of cars, or something else).

Healthy, normal children commonly wish to be regarded as knowledgeable and capable beyond their years. In general, people who have a special talent love to exercise it. People like a subject or a game that "plays to their strengths" because it makes them feel competent. Competency motivation emerges as a critical factor in career success. A survey of successful entrepreneurs—people who started their own businesses—showed two factors that were even more important than competitiveness or grades in school. The important factors were (1) an appetite for hard work, and (2) an enjoyment of mastering skills. They were powerful predictors of financial success.

MASLOW'S HIERARCHY OF NEEDS

Psychologist Abraham Maslow first introduced his concept of a hierarchy of needs in his 1943 paper “A Theory of Human Motivation”, *Motivation and Personality*. This hierarchy suggests that people are motivated to fulfill basic needs before moving on to other needs. Maslow's hierarchy of needs is most often displayed as a pyramid. The lowest levels of the pyramid are made up of the most basic needs, while the more complex needs are located at the top of the pyramid. Needs at the bottom of the pyramid are basic physical requirements including the need for food, water, sleep and warmth. Once these lower-level needs have been met, people can move on to the next level of needs, which are for safety and security. As people progress up the pyramid, needs become increasingly psychological and social. Soon, the need for love, friendship and intimacy become important. Further up the pyramid, the need for personal esteem and feelings of accomplishment take priority. Like Carl Rogers, Maslow emphasized the importance of self-actualization, which is a process of growing and developing as a person to achieve individual potential.

TYPES OF NEEDS

Maslow believed that these needs are similar to instincts and play a major role in motivating behaviour. Physiological, security, social, and esteem needs are deficiency needs (also known as D-needs), meaning that these needs arise due to deprivation.

Satisfying these lower-level needs is important in order to avoid unpleasant feelings or consequences. Maslow termed the highest-level of the pyramid as growth needs (also known as being needs or B-needs). Growth needs do not stem from a lack of something, but rather from a desire to grow as a person.

Five Levels of the Hierarchy of Needs

There are five different levels in Maslow's hierarchy of needs:

1. *Physiological Needs*: These include the most basic needs that are vital to survival, such as the need for water, air, food and sleep. Maslow believed that these needs are the most basic and instinctive needs in the hierarchy because all needs become secondary until these physiological needs are met.
2. *Security Needs*: These include needs for safety and security. Security needs are important for survival, but they are not as demanding as the physiological needs. Examples of security needs include a desire for steady employment, health insurance, safe neighbourhoods and shelter from the environment.
3. *Social Needs*: These include needs for belonging, love and affection. Maslow considered these needs to be less basic than physiological and security needs. Relationships such as friendships, romantic attachments and families help fulfill this need for companionship and acceptance, as does involvement in social, community or religious groups.

4. *Esteem Needs:* After the first three needs have been satisfied, esteem needs becomes increasingly important. These include the need for things that reflect on self-esteem, personal worth, social recognition and accomplishment.
5. *Self-actualizing Needs:* This is the highest level of Maslow's hierarchy of needs. Self-actualizing people are self-aware, concerned with personal growth, less concerned with the opinions of others and interested fulfilling their potential.

WHAT IS SELF-ACTUALIZATION?

What exactly is self-actualization? Located at the peak of Maslow's hierarchy, he described this high-level need in the following way:

"What a man can be, he must be. This need we may call self-actualization...It refers to the desire for self-fulfillment, namely, to the tendency for him to become actualized in what he is potentially. This tendency might be phrased as the desire to become more and more what one is, to become everything that one is capable of becoming."

While Maslow's theory is generally portrayed as a fairly rigid hierarchy, Maslow noted that the order in which these needs are fulfilled does not always follow this standard progression. For example, he notes that for some individuals, the need for self-esteem is more important than the need for love. For others, the need for creative fulfillment may supersede even the most basic needs.

Characteristics of Self-Actualized People

In addition to describing what is meant by self-actualization in his theory, Maslow also identified some of the key characteristics of self-actualized people:

- *Acceptance and Realism:* Self-actualized people have realistic perceptions of themselves, others and the world around them.
- *Problem-centering:* Self-actualized individuals are concerned with solving problems outside of themselves, including helping others and finding solutions to problems in the external world. These people are often motivated by a sense of personal responsibility and ethics.
- *Spontaneity:* Self-actualized people are spontaneous in their internal thoughts and outward behaviour. While they can conform to rules and social expectations, they also tend to be open and unconventional.
- *Autonomy and Solitude:* Another characteristics of self-actualized people is the need for independence and privacy. While they enjoy the company of others, these individuals need time to focus on developing their own individual potential.
- *Continued Freshness of Appreciation:* Self-actualized people tend to view the world with a continual sense of appreciation, wonder and awe. Even simple experiences continue to be a source of inspiration and pleasure.

- *Peak Experiences*: Individuals who are self-actualized often have what Maslow termed peak experiences, or moments of intense joy, wonder, awe and ecstasy. After these experiences, people feel inspired, strengthened, renewed or transformed.

HERZBERG'S MOTIVATION-HYGIENE THEORY

To better understand employee attitudes and motivation, Frederick Herzberg performed studies to determine which factors in an employee's work environment caused satisfaction or dissatisfaction. He published his findings in the 1959 book *The Motivation to Work*. The studies included interviews in which employees were asked what pleased and displeased them about their work. Herzberg found that the factors causing job satisfaction (and presumably motivation) were different from those causing job dissatisfaction. He developed the motivation-hygiene theory to explain these results. He called the satisfiers motivators and the dissatisfiers hygiene factors, using the term "hygiene" in the sense that they are considered maintenance factors that are necessary to avoid dissatisfaction but that by themselves do not provide satisfaction.

The following table presents the top six factors causing dissatisfaction and the top six factors causing satisfaction, listed in the order of higher to lower importance.

FACTORS AFFECTING JOB ATTITUDES

Leading to Dissatisfaction	Leading to Satisfaction
• Company policy • Supervision • Relationship with Boss • Work conditions • Salary • Relationship with Peers	• Achievement • Recognition • Work itself • Responsibility • Advancement • Growth

Herzberg reasoned that because the factors causing satisfaction are different from those causing dissatisfaction, the two feelings cannot simply be treated as opposites of one another. The opposite of satisfaction is not dissatisfaction, but rather, no satisfaction. Similarly, the opposite of dissatisfaction is no dissatisfaction.

While at first glance this distinction between the two opposites may sound like a play on words, Herzberg argued that there are two distinct human needs portrayed. *First*, there are physiological needs that can be fulfilled by money, for example, to purchase food and shelter. *Second*, there is the psychological need to achieve and grow, and this need is fulfilled by activities that cause one to grow.

From the table of results, one observes that the factors that determine whether there is dissatisfaction or no dissatisfaction are not part of the work itself, but rather, are external factors. Herzberg often referred to these hygiene factors as "KITA" factors, where KITA is an acronym for Kick In The A..., the process of providing incentives or

a threat of punishment to cause someone to do something. Herzberg argues that these provide only short-run success because the motivator factors that determine whether there is satisfaction or no satisfaction are intrinsic to the job itself, and do not result from carrot and stick incentives.

IMPLICATIONS FOR MANAGEMENT

If the motivation-hygiene theory holds, management not only must provide hygiene factors to avoid employee dissatisfaction, but also must provide factors intrinsic to the work itself in order for employees to be satisfied with their jobs. Herzberg argued that job enrichment is required for intrinsic motivation, and that it is a continuous management process.

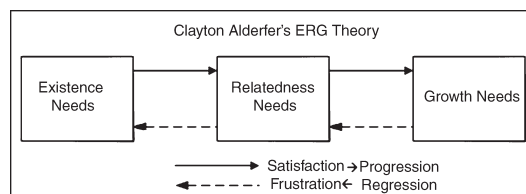
According to Herzberg:

- The job should have sufficient challenge to utilize the full ability of the employee.
- Employees who demonstrate increasing levels of ability should be given increasing levels of responsibility.
- If a job cannot be designed to use an employee's full abilities, then the firm should consider automating the task or replacing the employee with one who has a lower level of skill. If a person cannot be fully utilized, then there will be a motivation problem.

Critics of Herzberg's theory argue that the two-factor result is observed because it is natural for people to take credit for satisfaction and to blame dissatisfaction on external factors. Furthermore, job satisfaction does not necessarily imply a high level of motivation or productivity. Herzberg's theory has been broadly read and despite its weaknesses its enduring value is that it recognizes that true motivation comes from within a person and not from KITA factors.

ERG THEORY OF MOTIVATION

In 1969, Clayton Alderfer's revision of Abraham Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs, called the ERG Theory appeared in *Psychological Review* in an substance titled "An Empirical Test of a New Theory of Human Need." Alderfer's contribution to organizational behaviour was dubbed the ERG theory (Existence, Relatedness, and Growth), and was created to align Maslow's motivation theory more closely with empirical research.



SIMILARITIES TO MASLOW'S NEEDS HIERARCHY

After the original formulation of Maslow's Hierarchy of Needs, studies had shown that the middle levels of Maslow's hierarchy overlap. Alderfer addressed this issue by reducing the number of levels to three.

The letters ERG represent these three levels of needs:

1. Existence refers to our concern with basic material existence motivators.
2. Relatedness refers to the motivation we have for maintaining interpersonal relationships.
3. Growth refers to an intrinsic desire for personal development.

Like Maslow's model, the ERG motivation is hierarchical, and creates a pyramid or triangle appearance. Existence needs motivate at a more fundamental level than relatedness needs, which, in turn supercedes growth needs.

DIFFERENCES FROM MASLOW'S NEEDS HIERARCHY

Beyond simply reducing the distinction between overlapping needs, the ERG theory improves upon the following shortcomings of Maslow's Needs Hierarchy:

- Alderfer's ERG theory demonstrates that more than one need may motivate at the same time. A lower motivator need not be substantially satisfied before one can move onto higher motivators.
- The ERG theory also accounts for differences in need preferences between cultures better than Maslow's Need Hierarchy; the order of needs can be different for different people. This flexibility accounts for a wider range of observed behaviours. For example, it can explain the "starving artist" who may place growth needs those of existence.
- The ERG theory acknowledges that if a higher-order need is frustrated, an individual may regress to increase the satisfaction of a lower-order need which appears easier to satisfy. This is known as the frustration-regression principle.

LEADERSHIP LESSONS

Unlike with Maslow's theory, managers need to understand that each employee operates with the need to satisfy several motivators simultaneously. Based upon the ERG theory, leadership which focuses on exclusively one need at a time will not motivate their people effectively. Furthermore, the frustration-regression principle has additional impact on motivation in the workplace. As an example, if employees are not provided opportunities to grow, an employee might regress to fulfilling relatedness needs, socializing with coworkers more. Or, the inability of the environment or situation to satisfy a need for social interaction might increase the desire for more money or better working conditions. If Leadership recognizes these conditions soon enough in the

process, they can take steps to satisfy those needs which are frustrated until such time that the worker can again pursue growth.

MODEL OF MOTIVATION

Over the years many psychologists have attempted to define and categorise what motivates people. This became particularly important after the Second World War as the Western nations attempted to rebuild their drained industrial economies, and during the 50s and 60s much was researched and written about Human Relations. It was recognised that people who worked in organisations were more than just numbers and, if properly managed, could not only produce more, but also contribute more. This is not the place to cover the work of every motivational theorist: we've simply chosen a couple that have entered the mainstream management vocabulary:

- Theory X/Theory Y.
- Herzberg's Motivation - Hygiene Theory.

THEORY X/THEORY Y

Douglas McGregor published "The Human Side of Enterprise" in 1960, in which he suggested that traditional management methods (which he called Theory X) might not be the only way to get people motivated. Instead, you could take a different approach (based on Theory Y) and achieve the same if not more.

Theory X is the traditional view of direction and control, based on these assumptions:

- The average person inherently dislikes work and will avoid it if at all possible.
- As a result, most people have to be coerced, controlled and threatened if they are to put in enough effort to achieve the organisation's goals.
- In fact the average person prefers to be directed, avoids responsibility, isn't ambitious and simply seeks security.

Theory Y, based on the integration of individual and organisational goals, assumes:

- The physical and mental effort of work is as natural as play or rest, so the average person doesn't inherently dislike work.
- We are capable of self-direction and self-control, so those factors don't necessarily have to come from elsewhere.
- Our commitment to an objective is a function of the rewards for its achievement.
- The average person learns not only to accept but to seek responsibility.
- Most people have a capacity for imagination, ingenuity and creativity.
- The intellectual potential of most people is under-used in modern industrial life.

Theory Y is not a soft option. In fact it can take as much management effort as Theory X, but the effects of a Theory Y approach will last longer. The Theory X manager is a dying breed, and Theory Y lies behind most modern approaches to motivation.

Nowadays the terminology is used as a polite way of referring to the old command-and-control approach to management: the trouble is the diehard Theory X manager won't pick up the subtle criticism!

HERZBERG'S MOTIVATION - HYGIENE THEORY

Frederick Herzberg studied and practised clinical psychology in Pittsburgh, where he researched the work-related motivations of thousands of employees. His findings were published in "The Motivation to Work" in 1959. He concluded that there were two types of motivation: Hygiene Factors that can demotivate if they are not present - such as supervision, interpersonal relations, physical working conditions, and salary. Hygiene Factors affect the level of dissatisfaction, but are rarely quoted as creators of job satisfaction. Motivation Factors that will motivate if they are present - such as achievement, advancement, recognition and responsibility. Dissatisfaction isn't normally blamed on Motivation Factors, but they are cited as the cause of job satisfaction.

So, once you've satisfied the Hygiene factors, providing more of them won't generate much more motivation, but lack of the Motivation Factors won't of themselves demotivate. There are clear relationships to Maslow here, but Herzberg's ideas really shaped modern thinking about reward and recognition in major companies.

ACHIEVEMENT MOTIVATION

Over the years, behavioural scientists have noticed that some people have an intense desire to achieve something, while others may not seem that concerned about their achievements. This phenomenon has attracted a lot of discussions and debates. Scientists have observed that people with a high level of achievement motivation exhibit certain characteristics. Achievement motivation is the tendency to endeavor for success and to choose goal oriented success or failure activities. Achievement motivation forms to be the basic for a good life. People who are oriented towards achievement, in general, enjoy life and feel in control. Being motivated keeps people dynamic and gives them self-respect.

They set moderately difficult but easily achievable targets, which help them, achieve their objectives. They do not set up extremely difficult or extremely easy targets. By doing this they ensure that they only undertake tasks that can be achieved by them. Achievement motivated people prefer to work on a problem rather than leaving the outcome to chance. It is also seen that achievement motivated people seem to be more concerned with their personal achievement rather than the rewards of success. It is generally seen that achievement motivated people evidenced a significantly higher rate of advancement in their company compared to others.

Programmes and courses designed, involves seven "training inputs." The *first* step refers to the process through which achievement motivation thinking is taught to the

person. The *second* step helps participants understand their own individuality and goals. The *third* assist participants in practicing achievement-related actions in cases, role-plays, and real life. A *fourth* refers to practicing of achievement-related actions in business and other games. A *fifth* input encourages participants to relate the achievement behaviour model to their own behaviour, self-image, and goals. The *sixth* programme facilitates participants to develop a personal plan of action. *Finally*, the course provides participants with feedback on their progress towards achieving objectives and targets. Achievement motivation as a branch of study has greatly established its prominence. A number of companies are now training their employees in the same.

EFFECTS OF ACHIEVEMENT MOTIVATION ON BEHAVIOUR

Motivation is the basic drive for all of our actions. Motivation refers to the dynamics of our behaviour, which involves our needs, desires, and ambitions in life. Achievement motivation is based on reaching success and achieving all of our aspirations in life. Achievement goals can affect the way a person performs a task and represent a desire to show competence. These basic physiological motivational drives affect our natural behaviour in different environments. Most of our goals are incentive-based and can vary from basic hunger to the need for love and the establishment of mature sexual relationships. Our motives for achievement can range from biological needs to satisfying creative desires or realizing success in competitive ventures. Motivation is important because it affects our lives everyday. All of our behaviours, actions, thoughts, and beliefs are influenced by our inner drive to succeed.

Implicit and Self-Attributed Motives

Motivational researchers share the view that achievement behaviour is an interaction between situational variables and the individual subject's motivation to achieve. Two motives are directly involved in the prediction of behaviour, implicit and explicit. Implicit motives are spontaneous impulses to act, also known as task performances, and are aroused through incentives inherent to the task. Explicit motives are expressed through deliberate choices and more often stimulated for extrinsic reasons. Also, individuals with strong implicit needs to achieve goals set higher internal standards, whereas others tend to adhere to the societal norms. These two motives often work together to determine the behaviour of the individual in direction and passion. Explicit and implicit motivations have a compelling impact on behaviour. Task behaviours are accelerated in the face of a challenge through implicit motivation, making performing a task in the most effective manner the primary goal. A person with a strong implicit drive will feel pleasure from achieving a goal in the most efficient way.

The increase in effort and overcoming the challenge by mastering the task satisfies the individual. However, the explicit motives are built around a person's self-image. This type of motivation shapes a person's behaviour based on their own self-view and

can influence their choices and responses from outside cues. The primary agent for this type of motivation is perception or perceived ability. Many theorists still cannot agree whether achievement is based on mastering one's skills or striving to promote a better self-image. Most research is still unable to determine whether these different types of motivation would result in different behaviours in the same environment.

The Hierarchal Model of Achievement Motivation

Achievement motivation has been conceptualized in many different ways. Our understanding of achievement-relevant effects, cognition, and behaviour has improved. Despite being similar in nature, many achievement motivation approaches have been developed separately, suggesting that most achievement motivation theories are in concordance with one another instead of competing.

Motivational researchers have sought to promote a hierarchal model of approach and avoidance achievement motivation by incorporating the two prominent theories: the achievement motive approach and the achievement goal approach. Achievement motives include the need for achievement and the fear of failure. These are the more predominant motives that direct our behaviour towards positive and negative outcomes.

Achievement goals are viewed as more solid cognitive representations pointing individuals towards a specific end. There are three types of these achievement goals: a performance-approach goal, a performance-avoidance goal, and a mastery goal. A performance-approach goal is focused on attaining competence relative to others, a performance-avoidance goal is focused on avoiding incompetence relative to others, and a mastery goal is focused on the development of competence itself and of task mastery. Achievement motives can be seen as direct predictors of achievement-relevant circumstances. Thus, achievement motives are said to have an indirect or distal influence, and achievement goals are said to have a direct or proximal influence on achievement-relevant outcomes. These motives and goals are viewed as working together to regulate achievement behaviour.

The hierarchal model presents achievement goals as predictors for performance outcomes. The model is being further conceptualized to include more approaches to achievement motivation. One weakness of the model is that it does not provide an account of the processes responsible for the link between achievement goals and performance. As this model is enhanced, it becomes more useful in predicting the outcomes of achievement-based behaviours.

Achievement Goals and Information Seeking

Theorists have proposed that people's achievement goals affect their achievement-related attitudes and behaviours. Two different types of achievement-related attitudes include task-involvement and ego-involvement. Task-involvement is a motivational state in which a person's main goal is to acquire skills and understanding whereas the

main goal in ego-involvement is to demonstrate superior abilities. One example of an activity where someone strives to attain mastery and demonstrate superior ability is schoolwork. However situational cues, such as the person's environment or surroundings, can affect the success of achieving a goal at any time. Studies confirm that a task-involvement activity more often results in challenging attributions and increasing effort (typically in activities providing an opportunity to learn and develop competence) than in an ego-involvement activity. Intrinsic motivation, which is defined as striving to engage in activity because of self-satisfaction, is more prevalent when a person is engaged in task-involved activities.

When people are more ego-involved, they tend to take on a different conception of their ability, where differences in ability limit the effectiveness of effort. Ego-involved individuals are driven to succeed by outperforming others, and their feelings of success depend on maintaining self-worth and avoiding failure. On the other hand, task-involved individuals tend to adopt their conception of ability as learning through applied effort. Therefore less able individuals will feel more successful as long as they can satisfy an effort to learn and improve. Ego-invoking conditions tend to produce less favourable responses to failure and difficulty.

Competence moderated attitudes and behaviours are more prevalent in ego-involved activities than task-involved. Achievement does not moderate intrinsic motivation in task-involving conditions, in which people of all levels of ability could learn to improve. In ego-involving conditions, intrinsic motivation was higher among higher achievers who demonstrated superior ability than in low achievers who could not demonstrate such ability. These different attitudes towards achievement can also be compared in information seeking. Task- and ego-involving settings bring about different goals, conceptions of ability, and responses to difficulty. They also promote different patterns of information seeking. People of all levels of ability will seek information relevant to attaining their goal of improving mastery in task-involving conditions. However they need to seek information regarding self-appraisal to gain a better understanding of their self-capacity. On the other hand people in ego-involving settings are more interested in information about social comparisons, assessing their ability relative to others.

Self-Worth Theory in Achievement Motivation

Self-worth theory states that in certain situations students stand to gain by not trying and deliberately withholding effort. If poor performance is a threat to a person's sense of self-esteem, this lack of effort is likely to occur. This most often occurs after an experience of failure. Failure threatens self-estimates of ability and creates uncertainty about an individual's capability to perform well on a subsequent basis. If the following performance turns out to be poor, then doubts concerning ability are confirmed.

Self-worth theory states that one way to avoid threat to self-esteem is by withdrawing effort. Withdrawing effort allows failure to be attributed to lack of effort rather than low ability which reduces overall risk to the value of one's self-esteem. When poor

performance is likely to reflect poor ability, a situation of high threat is created to the individual's intellect. On the other hand, if an excuse allows poor performance to be attributed to a factor unrelated to ability, the threat to self-esteem and one's intellect is much lower.

A study was conducted on students involving unsolvable problems to test some assumptions of the self-worth theory regarding motivation and effort. The results showed that there was no evidence of reported reduction of effort despite poorer performance when the tasks were described as moderately difficult as compared with tasks much higher in difficulty. The possibility was raised that low effort may not be responsible for the poor performance of students in situations which create threats to self-esteem. Two suggestions were made, one being that students might unconsciously withdraw effort, and the other stating that students may reduce effort as a result of withdrawing commitment from the problem. Regardless of which suggestion is true, self-worth theory assumes that individuals have a reduced tendency to take personal responsibility for failure.

Avoidance Achievement Motivation

In everyday life, individuals strive to be competent in their activities. In the past decade, many theorists have utilized a social-cognitive achievement goal approach in accounting for individuals striving for competence. An achievement goal is commonly defined as the purpose for engaging in a task, and the specific type of goal taken on creates a framework for how individuals experience their achievement pursuits.

Achievement goal theorists commonly identify two distinct ideas towards competence: a performance goal focused on demonstrating ability when compared to others, and a mastery goal focused on the development of competence and task mastery. Performance goals are hypothesized to produce vulnerability to certain response patterns in achievement settings such as preferences for easy tasks, withdrawal of effort in the face of failure, and decreased task enjoyment.

Mastery goals can lead to a motivational pattern that creates a preference for moderately challenging tasks, persistence in the face of failure, and increased enjoyment of tasks. Most achievement goal theorists conceptualize both performance and mastery goals as the "approach" forms of motivation. Existing classical achievement motivation theorists claimed that activities are emphasized and oriented towards attaining success or avoiding failure, while the achievement goal theorists focused on their approach aspect.

More recently, an integrated achievement goal conceptualization was proposed that includes both modern performance and mastery theories with the standard approach and avoidance features. In this basis for motivation, the performance goal is separated into an independent approach component and avoidance component, and three achievement orientations are conceived: a mastery goal focused on the development of competence and task mastery, a performance-approach goal directed towards the

attainment of favourable judgements of competence, and a performance-avoidance goal centered on avoiding unfavourable judgements of competence. The mastery and performance-approach goals are characterized as self-regulating to promote potential positive outcomes and processes to absorb an individual in their task or to create excitement leading to a mastery pattern of achievement results. Performance-avoidance goals, however, are characterized as promoting negative circumstances. This avoidance orientation creates anxiety, task distraction, and a pattern of helpless achievement outcomes. Intrinsic motivation, which is the enjoyment of and interest in an activity for its own sake, plays a role in achievement outcomes as well. Performance-avoidance goals undermined intrinsic motivation while both mastery and performance-approach goals helped to increase it. Most achievement theorists and philosophers also identify task-specific competence expectancies as an important variable in achievement settings.

Achievement goals are created in order to obtain competence and avoid failure. These goals are viewed as implicit (non-conscious) or self-attributed (conscious) and direct achievement behaviour. Competence expectancies were considered an important variable in classical achievement motivation theories, but now appear to only be moderately emphasized in contemporary perspectives.

Approach and Avoidance Goals

Achievement motivation theorists focus their research attention on behaviours involving competence. Individuals aspire to attain competence or may strive to avoid incompetence, based on the earlier approach-avoidance research and theories. The desire for success and the desire to avoid failure were identified as critical determinants of aspiration and behaviour by a theorist named Lewin.

In his achievement motivation theory, McClelland proposed that there are two kinds of achievement motivation, one oriented around avoiding failure and the other around the more positive goal of attaining success. Atkinson, another motivational theorist, drew from the work of Lewin and McClelland in forming his need-achievement theory, a mathematical framework that assigned the desire to succeed and the desire to avoid failure as important determinants in achievement behaviour.

Theorists introduced an achievement goal approach to achievement motivation more recently. These theorists defined achievement goals as the reason for activities related to competence. Initially, these theorists followed in the footsteps of Lewin, McClelland, and Atkinson by including the distinction between approach and avoidance motivation into the structure of their assumptions. Three types of achievement goals were created, two of which being approach orientations and the third an avoidance type.

One approach type was a task involvement goal focused on the development of competence and task mastery, and the other being a performance or ego involvement goal directed towards attaining favourable judgements of competence. The avoidance orientation involved an ego or performance goal aimed at avoiding unfavourable judgements of competence. These new theories received little attention at first and

some theorists bypassed them with little regard. Motivational theorists shifted away and devised other conceptualization such as Dweck's performance-learning goal dichotomy with approach and avoidance components or Nicholls' ego and task orientations, which he characterized as two forms of approach motivation.

Presently, achievement goal theory is the predominant approach to the analysis of achievement motivation. Most contemporary theorists use the frameworks of Dweck's and Nicholls' revised models in two important ways. *First*, most theorists institute primary orientations towards competence, by either differentiating between mastery and ability goals or contrasting task and ego involvement. A contention was raised towards the achievement goal frameworks on whether or not they are conceptually similar enough to justify a convergence of the mastery goal form (learning, task involvement and mastery) with the performance goal form (ability and performance, ego involvement, competition). *Secondly*, most modern theorists characterized both mastery and performance goals as approach forms of motivation, or they failed to consider approach and avoidance as independent motivational tendencies within the performance goal orientation.

The type of orientation adopted at the outset of an activity creates a context for how individuals interpret, evaluate, and act on information and experiences in an achievement setting. Adoption of a mastery goal is hypothesized to produce a mastery motivational pattern characterized by a preference for moderately challenging tasks, persistence in the face of failure, a positive stance towards learning, and enhanced task enjoyment.

A helpless motivational response, however, is the result of the adoption of a performance goal orientation. This includes a preference for easy or difficult tasks, effort withdrawal in the face of failure, shifting the blame of failure to lack of ability, and decreased enjoyment of tasks. Some theorists include the concept of perceived competence as an important agent in their assumptions. Mastery goals are expected to have a uniform effect across all levels of perceived competence, leading to a mastery pattern.

Performance goals can lead to mastery in individuals with a high perceived competence and a helpless motivational pattern in those with low competence. Three motivational goal theories have recently been proposed based on the tri-variant framework by achievement goal theorists: mastery, performance-approach, and performance-avoidance. Performance-approach and mastery goals both represent approach orientations according to potential positive outcomes, such as the attainment of competence and task mastery. These forms of behaviour and self-regulation commonly produce a variety of affective and perceptual-cognitive processes that facilitate optimal task engagement. They challenge sensitivity to information relevant to success and effective concentration in the activity, leading to the mastery set of motivational responses described by achievement goal theorists. The performance-avoidance goal is conceptualized as an avoidance orientation according to potential negative outcomes. This form of regulation evokes self-protective mental processes that interfere with optimal task engagement.

It creates sensitivity to failure-relevant information and invokes an anxiety-based preoccupation with the appearance of oneself rather than the concerns of the task, which can lead to the helpless set of motivational responses. The three goal theories presented are very process oriented in nature. Approach and avoidance goals are viewed as exerting their different effects on achievement behaviour by activating opposing sets of motivational processes.

Intrinsic Motivation and Achievement Goals

Intrinsic motivation is defined as the enjoyment of and interest in an activity for its own sake. Fundamentally viewed as an approach form of motivation, intrinsic motivation is identified as an important component of achievement goal theory. Most achievement goal and intrinsic motivational theorists argue that mastery goals are facilitative of intrinsic motivation and related mental processes and performance goals create negative effects. Mastery goals are said to promote intrinsic motivation by fostering perceptions of challenge, encouraging task involvement, generating excitement, and supporting self-determination while performance goals are the opposite.

Performance goals are portrayed as undermining intrinsic motivation by instilling perceptions of threat, disrupting task involvement, and creating anxiety and pressure. An alternative set of predictions may be derived from the approach-avoidance framework. Both performance-approach and mastery goals are focused on attaining competence and foster intrinsic motivation.

More specifically, in performance-approach or mastery orientations, individuals perceive the achievement setting as a challenge, and this likely will create excitement, encourage cognitive functioning, increase concentration and task absorption, and direct the person towards success and mastery of information which facilitates intrinsic motivation. The performance-avoidance goal is focused on avoiding incompetence, where individuals see the achievement setting as a threat and seek to escape it. This orientation is likely to elicit anxiety and withdrawal of effort and cognitive resources while disrupting concentration and motivation.

Personal Goals Analysis

In recent years, theorists have increasingly relied on various goal constructs to account for action in achievement settings. Four levels of goal representation have been introduced: task-specific guidelines for performance, such as performing a certain action, situation-specific orientations that represent the purpose of achievement activity, such as demonstrating competence relative to others in a situation, personal goals that symbolize achievement pursuits, such as getting good grades, and self-standards and future self-images, including planning for future goals and successes. These goal-based achievement motivation theories have focused almost exclusively on approach forms behaviour but in recent years have shifted more towards avoidance. Motivation is an

important factor in everyday life. Our basic behaviours and feelings are affected by our inner drive to succeed over life's challenges while we set goals for ourselves. Our motivation also promotes our feelings of competence and self-worth as we achieve our goals.

It provides us with means to compete with others in order to better ourselves and to seek out new information to learn and absorb. Individuals experience motivation in different ways, whether it is task- or ego-based in nature. Some people strive to achieve their goals for personal satisfaction and self-improvement while others compete with their surroundings in achievement settings to simply be classified as the best. Motivation and the resulting behaviour are both affected by the many different models of achievement motivation. These models, although separate, are very similar in nature and theory. The mastery and performance achievement settings each have a considerable effect on how an individual is motivated. Each theorist has made a contribution to the existing theories in today's achievement studies. More often than not, theorists build off of each other's work to expand old ideas and create new ones. Achievement motivation is an intriguing field, and I find myself more interested after reviewing similar theories from different perspectives.

Soft Skills and Structure of Personality

Freud conceived the mind as only having a fixed amount of psychic energy (libido). The outcome of the interaction between the id, ego and the superego, (each contending for as much libidinal energy as possible) determines our adult personality.

TRIPARTITE PERSONALITY

Freud believed that personality had three parts—the id, ego, and super-ego—referring to this as the tripartite personality. The id allows us to get our basic needs met. Freud believed that the id is based on the pleasure principle, *i.e.* it wants immediate satisfaction, with no consideration for the reality of the situation. As a child interacts more with the world, the ego begins to develop.

The ego's job is to meet the needs of the id, whilst taking into account the constraints of reality. The ego acknowledges that being impulsive or selfish can sometimes hurt us, so the id must be constrained. The superego develops during the phallic stage, as a result of the moral constraints placed on us by our parents. It is generally believed that a strong superego serves to inhibit the biological instincts of the id (resulting in a high level of guilt), whereas a weak superego allows the id more expression (resulting in a low level of guilt).

DEFENCE MECHANISMS

The ego, having a difficult time trying to satisfy both the needs of the id and the superego, employs defence mechanisms. Repression is perhaps the most powerful of these. Repression is the act by which unacceptable id impulses (most of which are sexually related) are “pushed” out of awareness and into the unconscious mind. Another example of a defence mechanism is projection. This is the mechanism that Freud used to explain Little Hans’ complex. Little Hans is said to have projected his fear for his father onto horses, which is why he was afraid of horses.

PSYCHOSEXUAL STAGES

Freud believed that at particular points in the child’s development, a single part of the body is particularly sensitive to sexual stimulation. These erogenous zones are the mouth, anus and the genital region. At any given time, the child’s libido is focused on the primary erogenous zone for that age. As a result, the child has certain needs and demands that are related to the erogenous zones for that stage. Frustration occurs if these needs are not met, but, a child may also become overindulged, and so may be reluctant to progress beyond the stage. Both frustration and overindulgence may lead to fixation—some of the child’s libido remains locked into that stage. If a child is fixated at a particular stage, the method of obtaining satisfaction that characterised that stage will dominate their adult personality.

Although many people view Freud’s descriptions of personality development as pure fantasy, his ideas have endured and have had far reaching influences both in and outside psychology. Freud has changed the way we think about the importance of childhood, and also made us aware of the unconscious elements of our psyche that are essential for development.

MEANING

Personality Development quintessentially means enhancing and grooming one’s outer and inner self to bring about a positive change to your life. Each individual has a distinct persona that can be developed, polished and refined. This process includes boosting one’s confidence, improving communication and language speaking abilities, widening one’s scope of knowledge, developing certain hobbies or skills, learning fine etiquettes and manners, adding style and grace to the way one looks, talks and walks and overall imbuing oneself with positivity, liveliness and peace.

The whole process of this development takes place over a period of time. Even though there are many crash courses in personality development that are made available to people of all age groups, implementing this to your routine and bringing about a positive change in oneself takes a considerable amount of time. It is not necessary to join a personality development course; one can take a few tips and develop his or her own aura or charm.

- You may have heard this a million times. “Think Positive”. It works.
- *Smile*: And smile some more. It adds to your face value and to your personality as well.
- Read a few articles in the newspaper loudly. This will help in communicating fluently.
- Follow table manners and dining etiquettes.
- Take good care of your health, dress well, be neat and organized.
- Prepare a chart that mentions your strengths and weaknesses. Now concentrate on the latter and find ways to improve upon the same. Do not forget to strengthen your strengths.
- Spend some time alone concentrating on you and yourself alone.
- Practice meditation and yoga. It will help you develop inner peace and harmony that will reflect outside.
- Do not live a monotonous life. Be creative and do something new all the time. Nothing bigger than the joy of creative satisfaction.

Personality development is gaining more and more importance because it enables people to create a good impression about themselves on others; it helps them to build and develop relationships, helps in your career growth and also helps to improve your financial needs. After all, personality development is nothing but a tool that helps you realise your capabilities and your strengths making you a stronger, a happier and a cheerful person.

SOFT SKILLS

Soft skills is a sociological term relating to a person’s “EQ” (Emotional Intelligence Quotient), the cluster of personality traits, social graces, communication, language, personal habits, friendliness, and optimism that characterize relationships with other people. Soft skills complement hard skills (part of a person’s IQ), which are the occupational requirements of a job and many other activities.

A person’s soft skill EQ is an important part of their individual contribution to the success of an organization. Particularly those organizations dealing with customers face-to-face are generally more successful, if they train their staff to use these skills. Screening or training for personal habits or traits such as dependability and conscientiousness can yield significant return on investment for an organization. For this reason, soft skills are increasingly sought out by employers in addition to standard qualifications. It has been suggested that in a number of professions soft skills may be more important over the long term than occupational skills. The legal profession is one example where the ability to deal with people effectively and politely, more than their mere occupational skills, can determine the professional success of a lawyer.

Increasingly, over the last two decades, it has been recognized that when IT Professionals acquire soft skills, better relationships are built between IT and the other business units within the enterprise, fostering *alignment*.

Soft Skills are *behavioural* competencies. Also known as *Interpersonal Skills*, or *people skills*, they include proficiencies such as communication skills, conflict resolution and negotiation, personal effectiveness, creative problem solving, strategic thinking, team building, influencing skills and selling skills, to name a few.

EMOTIONAL INTELLIGENCE

Emotional intelligence (EI) is the ability, capacity, skill; or, in the case of the trait EI model, a self-perceived ability to identify, assesses, and controls the emotions of oneself, of others, and of groups. Different models have been proposed for the definition of EI and there is disagreement about how the term should be used. Despite these disagreements, which are often highly technical, the ability-EI and trait-EI models (but not the mixed models) enjoy support in the literature and have successful applications in various domains.

HISTORY

The earliest roots of emotional intelligence can be traced to Darwin's work on the importance of emotional expression for survival and second adaptation. In the 1900s, even though traditional definitions of intelligence emphasized cognitive aspects such as memory and problem-solving, several influential researchers in the intelligence field of study had begun to recognize the importance of the non-cognitive aspects. For instance, as early as 1920, E.L. Thorndike used the term social intelligence to describe the skill of understanding and managing other people.

Similarly, in 1940 David Wechsler described the influence of non-intellective factors on intelligent behaviour, and further argued that our models of intelligence would not be complete until we can adequately describe these factors. In 1983, Howard Gardner's *Frames of Mind: The Theory of Multiple Intelligences* introduced the idea of multiple intelligences which included both *interpersonal intelligence* (the capacity to understand the intentions, motivations and desires of other people) and *intrapersonal intelligence* (the capacity to understand oneself, to appreciate one's feelings, fears and motivations). In Gardner's view, traditional types of intelligence, such as IQ, fail to fully explain cognitive ability.

Thus, even though the names given to the concept varied, there was a common belief that traditional definitions of intelligence are lacking in ability to fully explain performance outcomes.

The first use of the term "emotional intelligence" is usually attributed to Wayne Payne's doctoral thesis, *A Study of Emotion: Developing Emotional Intelligence* from 1985. However, prior to this, the term "emotional intelligence" had appeared in Leuner (1966). Greenspan (1989) also put forward an EI model, followed by Salovey and Mayer (1990), and Goleman (1995). The distinction between trait emotional intelligence and ability emotional intelligence was introduced in 2000.

DEFINITIONS

Substantial disagreement exists regarding the definition of EI, with respect to both terminology and operationalizations. There has been much confusion about the exact meaning of this construct. The definitions are so varied, and the field is growing so rapidly, that researchers are constantly re-evaluating even their own definitions of the construct. Currently, there are three main models of EI:

- Ability EI model
- Mixed models of EI (usually subsumed under trait EI)
- Trait EI model

Different models of EI have led to the development of various instruments for the assessment of the construct. While some of these measures may overlap, most researchers agree that they tap different constructs.

ABILITY MODEL

Salovey and Mayer's conception of EI strives to define EI within the confines of the standard criteria for a new intelligence. Following their continuing research, their initial definition of EI was revised to "The ability to perceive emotion, integrate emotion to facilitate thought, understand emotions and to regulate emotions to promote personal growth." The ability-based model views emotions as useful sources of information that help one to make sense of and navigate the social environment. The model proposes that individuals vary in their ability to process information of an emotional nature and in their ability to relate emotional processing to a wider cognition. This ability is seen to manifest itself in certain adaptive behaviours.

The model claims that EI includes four types of abilities:

1. *Perceiving emotions:* The ability to detect and decipher emotions in faces, pictures, voices, and cultural artifacts—including the ability to identify one's own emotions. Perceiving emotions represents a basic aspect of emotional intelligence, as it makes all other processing of emotional information possible.
2. *Using emotions:* The ability to harness emotions to facilitate various cognitive activities, such as thinking and problem solving. The emotionally intelligent person can capitalize fully upon his or her changing moods in order to best fit the task at hand.
3. *Understanding emotions:* The ability to comprehend emotion language and to appreciate complicated relationships among emotions. For example, understanding emotions encompasses the ability to be sensitive to slight variations between emotions, and the ability to recognize and describe how emotions evolve over time.
4. *Managing emotions:* The ability to regulate emotions in both ourselves and in others. Therefore, the emotionally intelligent person can harness emotions, even negative ones, and manage them to achieve intended goals.

The ability EI model has been criticized in the research for lacking face and predictive validity in the workplace.

MEASUREMENT OF THE ABILITY MODEL

The current measure of Mayer and Salovey's model of EI, the Mayer-Salovey-Caruso Emotional Intelligence Test (MSCEIT) is based on a series of emotion-based problem-solving items. Consistent with the model's claim of EI as a type of intelligence, the test is modeled on ability-based IQ tests. By testing a person's abilities on each of the four branches of emotional intelligence, it generates scores for each of the branches as well as a total score.

Central to the four-branch model is the idea that EI requires attunement to social norms. Therefore, the MSCEIT is scored in a consensus fashion, with higher scores indicating higher overlap between an individual's answers and those provided by a worldwide sample of respondents. The MSCEIT can also be expert-scored, so that the amount of overlap is calculated between an individual's answers and those provided by a group of 21 emotion researchers.

Although promoted as an ability test, the MSCEIT is most unlike standard IQ tests in that its items do not have objectively correct responses. Among other problems, the consensus scoring criterion means that it is impossible to create items (questions) that only a minority of respondents can solve, because, by definition, responses are deemed emotionally "intelligent" only if the majority of the sample has endorsed them. This and other similar problems have led cognitive ability experts to question the definition of EI as a genuine intelligence.

In a study by Føllesdal, the MSCEIT test results of 111 business leaders were compared with how their employees described their leader. It was found that there were no correlations between a leader's test results and how he or she was rated by the employees, with regard to empathy, ability to motivate, and leader effectiveness. Føllesdal also criticized the Canadian company Multi-Health Systems, which administers the MSCEIT test. The test contains 141 questions but it was found after publishing the test that 19 of these did not give the expected answers. This has led Multi-Health Systems to remove answers to these 19 questions before scoring, but without stating this officially.

MIXED MODELS

The model introduced by Daniel Goleman focuses on EI as a wide array of competencies and skills that drive leadership performance.

Goleman's model outlines four main EI constructs:

1. *Self-awareness*: The ability to read one's emotions and recognize their impact while using gut feelings to guide decisions.
2. *Self-management*: Involves controlling one's emotions and impulses and adapting to changing circumstances.

3. *Social awareness*: The ability to sense, understand, and react to others' emotions while comprehending social networks.
4. *Relationship management*: The ability to inspire, influence, and develop others while managing conflict.

Goleman includes a set of emotional competencies within each construct of EI. Emotional competencies are not innate talents, but rather learned capabilities that must be worked on and can be developed to achieve outstanding performance. Goleman posits that individuals are born with a general emotional intelligence that determines their potential for learning emotional competencies. Goleman's model of EI has been criticized in the research literature as mere "pop psychology" (Mayer, Roberts, and Barsade, 2008).

THE NEO-FREUDIAN THEORISTS

Many subsequent personality theorists were profoundly influenced by Freud, although they did not go along with all of Freud's proposals. The Neo-Freudians, as they were called, developed new theories to fill in what they perceived to be gaps in Freud's theory. In particular, some felt that Freud over-emphasized the sexual and aggressive impulses of the id, while not attending as much as he might to the great importance of the ego, including consciousness. Others felt that he neglected social motivations. And others felt he ignored the importance of spirituality and religiosity.

CARL JUNG

One of the most important neo-Freudians was Carl Jung, who was originally a loyal disciple of Freud. One of Jung's great innovations was to stress that the unconscious component of the mind contained more than repressed sexual and aggressive urges. According to Jung, the mind also contained something he called the collective unconscious—the ancient memories of experiences of our human ancestors going back millions of years. Jung believed that all people are born with these ancient collective memories, resulting from our shared ancestry. Jung proposed that the collective unconscious literally contained ancient memories, coded in the form of archetypes, defined as universal tendencies to think, perceive, and act in certain ways. One example of an archetype is the shadow, which contains the dark, hostile, even evil components of human nature that we conceal from the world and from ourselves (*e.g.*, an urge to kill your enemy). Another example of an archetype is the anima, a component of men's personality that experiences altruism, compassion, and caring for others, but remains unconscious because it is illogical and emotional, as well as being "unmasculine."

Jung's evidence for the collective unconscious consisted of the great cross-cultural consistency of images in art, myths, folklore, and religion. Universally, for example, nearly all cultures have art or myths that involve images depicting battles with evil (Jung's notion of shadow). Another universal in art and myth centres on the role of a mother caring for a child, a reflection of Jung's notion of anima.

Jung also felt that Freud neglected spirituality. Jung pointed out that people everywhere engage in a deep search for meaning in their lives, and spirituality is a common answer to that search. Even today, those with a psychoanalytic orientation who are also deeply religious are often drawn to Jung's theories rather than to those of Freud.

A Disappointing Break

Carl Jung's break from Freud's Psychoanalytic Society was perhaps the most disappointing for Freud. When they met it is reported that they spent over 12 hours discussing psychoanalytic theory, and soon after, Jung became the logical successor to the society. Although he served as the society's first president, he resigned from the organization in 1914 after intense disagreements with his mentor. The main disagreement he had with Freud was his belief that there was more to the unconscious than Freud theorized. Jung believed that there were fears, behaviours, and thoughts that children and adults exhibit that are remarkably similar across time and culture. He believed that this was more than coincidence and represented what he called the collective unconscious. His newly formed school of thought, Analytic Psychology, theorized about how this collective unconscious influences personality. He argued that it was made up of what he termed archetypes which are primordial images inherited from our ancestors.

As support for such a theory, he spoke of the immediate attachment infants have for their mother, the inevitable fear of the dark seen in young children, and how images such as the sun, moon, wise old man, angels, and evil all seem to be predominate themes throughout history. In his view, infants are drawn to their mother because of the unconscious image of mother that is alive in all of us and that we fear the dark because of the unconscious image of darkness. Although he described many archetypes in his writings, there are a few that have received a lot of attention and thought. These include the animus/anima, the shadow, and the self.

The animus is the masculine side of the female and the anima is the feminine side of the male. This expands on Freud's writings that we are all born bisexual and develop normal sexual attraction through our psychosexual development. According to Jung, we all have an unconscious opposite gender hidden within us and the role of this archetype is to guide us towards the perfect mate. In other words, we project our animus/anima onto others as they project theirs onto us. When a match is made, we have found a suitable partner.

Another archetype is called the shadow which is basically the unconscious negative or dark side of our personality. The shadow, like all other archetypes, is passed down through history and given different names depending on time and culture. In Judeo-Christian writings, according to Jung, the shadow archetype is called the Devil.

Finally, the self archetype is the unifying part of all of us that finds balance in our lives. Working with the ego (which is partly in our personal unconscious), it helps us manage the other archetypes and helps us feel complete.

While his writings are poetic at times and nearly impossible to follow at others, the remarkable way his theories blend with myths, folklore, and legends has kept his theories alive. Are his archetypes nothing more than naturally born instincts or are they an unconscious representation of our long dead ancestors? Many argue that Jung has pieced together an important, and previously missing, explanation of these personality aspects that we all share.

ALFRED ADLER

Alfred Adler, like Karen Horney, emphasized the importance of social or interpersonal events in the development of personality. Central to his framework was the proposal that a cardinal motivation of most humans was an inferiority complex, defined as a heightened feeling of fragility, vulnerability, and inadequacy (Adler, 1927). The inferiority complex, according to Adler, emerges from the fact that early in life we are indeed small and dependent, and fail at many of the tasks we try to perform. These failures combine with parental pressures and criticism to foster a profound sense of inferiority. To compensate for feelings of inferiority, people develop a powerful motive to strive for superiority, a drive to excel, master one's environment, and reign supreme over others. You might be striving for superiority the next time you are in competition with your classmates to achieve a better grade, according to Adler's theory. Birth order was critical to Adler's theory. Firstborns, for example, feel that power is their natural right, but also feel threatened when a second child is born and they have to share. Middle-borns may feel "squeezed out" by the attentions given to the oldest and the youngest. The youngest often gets a lot of attention from both siblings and parents, but wants to be "bigger" than others since he or she is the "baby of the family."

There are many unconventional ways to strive for superiority, however. According to Adler, each person develops their own unique style of life, a sort of master plan by which they attain feelings of superiority to others. One person might excel by becoming skilled at the game of ultimate Frisbee. A second might feel superior to others by becoming a rap star with an image of a dangerous bad boy. A third might feel that she provides a better home for her children than other women. The need to feel superior is so powerful, according to Adler, that people invent excuses or blame others for their failures. As the great actor Marlon Brando said in his character in the movie *On the Waterfront*, after blaming his brother for his failure to achieve greatness at boxing, "I could have been a contender." According to Adler, we all strive to be contenders, and if we fail, we feel that we really could have been contenders were it not for the roadblocks imposed by others. Striving for superiority is the master motive driving human behaviour.

The First to Leave

Alfred Adler joined Freud's analytic society in 1902 and was even named the first president in 1910. However, after growing disagreements he left with several other

theorists in 1911, starting his own group originally named the ‘Society for Free Psychoanalytic Research.’ It is suspected that this name was meant as an attack on Freud’s stubbornness to accepting disagreements and challenge to his theories. The name was later changed to ‘Individual Psychology,’ perhaps as a means to differentiate Adler as an independent theorist in his search for overcoming his perceived inferiority.

Inferiority

According to Adler’s theory, each of us is born into the world with a sense of inferiority. We start as a weak and helpless child and strive to overcome these deficiencies by become superior to those around us. He called this struggle a striving for superiority, and like Freud’s Eros and Thanatos, he saw this as the driving force behind all human thoughts, emotions, and behaviours.

For those of us who strive to be accomplished writers, powerful business people, or influential politicians, it is because of our feelings of inferiority and a strong need to over come this negative part of us according to Adler. This excessive feeling of inferiority can also have the opposite effect. As it becomes overwhelming and without the needed successes, we can develop an inferiority complex. This belief leaves us with feeling incredibly less important and deserving than others, helpless, hopeless, and unmotivated to strive for the superiority that would make us complete.

Parenting and Birth Order

Parenting Styles. Adler did agree with Freud on some major issues relating to the parenting of children and the long term effects of improper or inefficient child rearing. He identified two parental styles that he argued will cause almost certain problems in adulthood. The first was pampering, referring to a parent overprotecting a child, giving him too much attention, and sheltering him from the negative realities of life. As this child grows older, he will be ill equipped to deal with these realities, may doubt his own abilities or decision making skills, and may seek out others to replace the safety he once enjoyed as a child. On the other extreme is what Adler called neglect. A neglected child is one who is not protected at all from the world and is forced to face life’s struggles alone. This child may grow up to fear the world, have a strong sense of mistrust for others and she may have a difficult time forming intimate relationships. The best approach, according to this theory, is to protect children from the evils of the world but not shelter them from it. In more practical terms, it means allowing them to hear or see the negative aspects of the world while still feeling the safety of parental influence. In other words, don’t immediately go to the school principal if your child is getting bullied, but rather teach your child how to respond or take care of herself at school.

Birth Order. Simply put, Adler believed that the order in which you are born to a family inherently effects your personality. First born children who later have younger siblings may have it the worst. These children are given excessive attention and

pampering by their parents until that fateful day when the little brother or sister arrives. Suddenly they are no longer the center of attention and fall into the shadows wondering why everything changed. According to Adler, they are left feeling inferior, questioning their importance in the family, and trying desperately to gain back the attention they suddenly lost. The birth order theory holds that first born children often have the greatest number of problems as they get older.

Middle born children may have it the easiest, and interestingly, Adler was a middle born child. These children are not pampered as their older sibling was, but are still afforded the attention. As a middle child, they have the luxury of trying to dethrone the oldest child and become more superior while at the same time knowing that they hold this same power over their younger siblings. Adler believed that middle children have a high need for superiority and are often able to seek it out such as through healthy competition. The youngest children, like the first born, may be more likely to experience personality problems later in life. This is the child who grows up knowing that he has the least amount of power in the whole family. He sees his older siblings having more freedom and more superiority. He also gets pampered and protected more than any other child did. This could leave him with a sense that he can not take on the world alone and will always be inferior to others.

THE PSYCHOANALYTIC PERSPECTIVE

FREUD'S THEORY OF PSYCHOANALYSIS

Freud's theory of psychoanalysis can be divided into five basic systems: The basic instincts, unconscious motivation, the structure of personality (id, ego, superego), the psychosexual stages (oral, anal, phallic, latency, and genital), and the system of defence mechanisms.

The Instinctual System: Sex and Aggression

In the late 1800's Sigmund Freud shook up the scientific community and outraged European society by proposing a theory of personality that has foundation in human sexuality. To the Victorian culture Freud's theory was shocking. Freud proposed that it was the driving force of human behaviour, regardless of age, from the smallest newborn infant to the oldest senior citizen. All of our psychological structures, according to Freud, are merely ways of channelling our sexuality.

At the core of Freud's initial theory of psychoanalysis was his proposal of the instinctual system, which included two fundamental classes of instincts. The first were life-preservative instincts, which included the need for air, food, water, and shelter. The life-preservative instincts served an important function of aiding survival. Freud's second major class of motivators consisted of sexual instincts. Freud thought of sex in a very

broad manner that extended way beyond adult sexual intercourse. For Freud, sexual instincts included things such as an infant sucking on a mother's breast (the oral stage of psychosexual development), as well as sneezing, spitting, and defecating (the anal stage of development). Anything that was need-satisfying or pleasure-oriented qualified as stemming from the sexual instinct.

Subsequently, Freud collapsed the life-preservative and sexual instincts into one broad instinct called the life instinct. The next time you find yourself hungry for some pizza or attracted to a classmate, it would be an expression of your life instinct. The energy provided by the life instinct is called libido.

Due to his witnessing the horrors of aggression and killing during World War I, he proposed a second broad instinct called the death instinct. Indeed, Freud argued that “the goal of all life is death”. The death instinct refers to any urge that it turned outward towards other people, including verbal insults, hitting, and murder, as well as aggression turned inward towards oneself, such as self-loathing. The next time you get the urge to say something insulting to someone else, or chastise yourself for failing to study enough for an exam, it is an expression of your death instinct. The life and death instincts, according to Freud, could be combined in various ways. Eating, for example, is a life instinct, but it also involves some level of aggression, as in the biting, chewing or tearing of meat. Rape is another example of an extreme expression of the death instinct in that it involves aggression towards the victim, but it is fused with sexual energy, and so represents a destructive combination of life and death instincts.

The Psychosexual Stages

The fourth system in Freud's theory of psychoanalysis is the developmental system. This system describes how personality develops through a series of “psychosexual” stages from infancy through adulthood. Freud was a strong believer in the importance of early developmental events. The manner in which your parents fed and toilet trained you, for example, left enduring marks on personality that carry into adulthood. You can become fixated at a certain stage of development, such as the oral stage, if your mother either over-indulges, or is very stingy in indulging, your desire for her breast milk. According to the principle of fixation, your personality is formed by these events. In the case of fixation at the oral stage, this results in an adult who is always hungry, or who constantly bites his nails or chews nervously on the end of a cigar. The phrase “the child is father to the man” captures Freud's view of the importance of early childhood events on the formation of personality. So let's examine Freud's five stages of psychosexual development, which Freud believed were human universals—he believed that everyone on earth passed through these stages in precisely the same order.

The Oral Stage. The first stage, called the oral stage, occurs during the first 18 months of life. The main sources of sexual gratification are the mouth, lips, and tongue. If you've ever been around babies, you know that they explore the world through their mouths. They try to put everything there—mother's breast, toys, or even twigs they

happen to grasp. From an adaptive perspective, this is quite functional. The baby obtains nourishment critical to its survival. Unfortunately, the happy oral pleasures do not last. The parents eventually try to wean the infant, taking away the breast or bottle. If there is a lot of conflict during the weaning process, then the infant might become fixated at the oral stage, permanently affecting personality. As an adult, a person fixated at the oral stage might still try to get pleasure through the mouth—they might become excessively talkative, or might become verbally aggressive, sarcastic, or “biting” in their verbal comments to others. Or they might be excessively dependent, constantly seeking others who will “baby” or nurture them.

The Id, Ego, and Superego

Freud believed that human personality arose as a result of a fundamental conflict between our desire to express sexual and aggressive impulses in behaviour and the internalized social or cultural constraints that oppose their expression. These conflicts between impulses and their expression centres on three key personality structures that interact with each other: the id, ego, and superego.

The id is the structure that contains the reservoir of unconscious libidinal energy. It strives to satisfy sexual and aggressive impulses. The id is governed by the pleasure principle: it seeks immediate gratification desires, unconstrained by the reality of other people or what is socially acceptable. Think of an infant. When hungry, the infant wants the mother’s breast immediately and cannot bear waiting. When an infant sees a toy, it wants the toy right now, even if it belongs to someone else. Because the id operates according to the pleasure principle, the id does not listen to reason or logic, has no morals or consideration for others. As an adult, you may know people who cannot stand to wait, who cannot abide any delay in gratification. These people are said to have an “id-dominated” personality.

The ego is the part of the mind that deals with the real world. It develops as the young child begins to realize that its impulses cannot always be expressed in the immediate and direct manner that the id demands. The ego realizes that the urges of the id often conflict with the constraints of reality. The rude grabbing of someone else’s candy or hitting a baby brother is socially unacceptable. The ego functions to postpone or re-direct the expression of these id impulses in ways that conform to the dictates of society. It’s as if the ego is saying to the id: “I know you want the world now, but you have to wait until tomorrow.”

At around five years of age, a third structure of personality emerges—the superego. The superego is that part of the mind that represents the internalized morals and values of society. It emerges as a result of the agents of socialization, such as parents and teachers. The superego represents the “ideal” of what is right and what is wrong, a set of moral goals to which a person should adhere. It dictates both what is good, the goals to strive for, as well as what is wrong or prohibited. The standards of the superego, however, are unrealistic. It demands perfection and sets moral standards that are virtually

impossible to attain. The superego, therefore, imposes a new challenge on the ego: mediating between the impulsive impulse-gratifying demands of the id and the unrealistic ideals set by the superego. If the id says “I want it right now” and the superego says “You can never have it,” the ego tries to work out some compromise—a way to satisfy the id, but in a way that does not violate the conventions of society. The ego says: “You can’t have it now, but let’s delay gratification and try to figure out a way you can have it later without violating moral principles.”

PERSONALITY

Personality is defined as the enduring personal characteristics of individuals. Although some psychologists frown on the premise, a commonly used explanation for personality development is the psychodynamic approach. The term psychodynamic describes any theory that emphasizes the constant change and development of the individual. Perhaps the best known of the psychodynamic theories is Freudian psychoanalysis.

An individual’s personality is an aggregate conglomeration of decisions we’ve made throughout our lives (Bradshaw). There are inherent natural, genetic, and environmental factors that contribute to the development of our personality. According to process of socialization, “personality also colours our values, beliefs, and expectations.

Hereditary factors that contribute to personality development do so as a result of interactions with the particular social environment in which people live.” There are several personality types as Katharine Cook Briggs and Isabel Briggs Myers illustrated in several personalities typology tests.

These tests only provide enlightenment based on the preliminary insight scored according to the answers judged by the parameters of the test. Other theories on personality development are Jean Piaget stages of development, and personality development in Sigmund Freud’s theory being formed through the interaction of id, ego, and super-ego.

Our personalities are developed over the course of our lives and shaped by events that influence our behaviour and attitudes. Personality development starts from the moment we are born and our resultant personality is shaped by what happens to us. Even if we don’t register the event on a conscious level, our subconscious is making little footnotes about how the event has had an effect on us. While what effect any certain event has on us is a contentious issue in regards to psychoanalytic theory—the basic crux of the idea remains the same. Which is, we are a by product of our own experiences.

A perfect example is how we react to people in general after becoming the victim of any form of abuse. If the abuse was done as a random act while you are walking down the street—those with a poor mental constitution may find themselves unable to walk down the street in comfort. It may take years of therapy and medication to overcome this fear of public places and it can be directly attributed to events that have happened

to the victim in the past. Personality development can take a seemingly random event and magnify in the mind's eye to exuberant proportions.

Personality development is the bane of the human mind set. Whilst there are positives from the resultant effect generated by the good done to us—it is easier for the bad to be forthright in exposing us to undue effects as they occur on the mental stage in our minds. Events that shake us can have a profound physical effect as well. Anxiety that is caused due to our psychological makeup can manifest itself in physical symptoms such as stress headaches, profuse sweating, shakes and an upset stomach. Children who are put through undue stress will find it harder to develop into (mentally) healthy adults.

DRIVES

Freud believed that two basic drives—sex and aggression—motivate all our thoughts and behaviour. He referred to these as Eros (love) and Thanatos (aggression). Eros represents the life instinct, sex being the major driving force. Thanatos represents the death instinct (characterised by aggression), which, according to Freud, allowed the human race to both procreate and eliminate its enemies.

TAKING STOCK OF PSYCHOANALYSIS AND THE NEO-FREUDIANS

Most modern research in personality psychology, is not explicitly guided by the theories of Freud and his followers. These theories can be, and have been, criticized on many grounds. In this section will we discuss each of the common criticisms levelled at these theorists and their theories.

KAREN HORNEY

Karen Horney, another neo-Freudian, departed from Freud in several ways. She felt that Freud's theory was too male-biased (*e.g.*, the focus on the phallic stage and penis envy), and that his theory neglected female personality development (Horney, 1937). Horney felt that Freud neglected the powerful role of culture in moulding human personality. In particular, she argued that modern culture privileges men and sharply constrains the goals that women can pursue. Interestingly, she encountered many roadblocks in her own career, since universities during the first half of the 20th century were reluctant to admit women. According to Karen Horney, cultural constraints and hostile barriers of society create a deep-seated anxiety, which provides the motivational fuel for personality development. As a result of cultural competition and social exclusion, people develop powerful needs for affection from other people—needs that are rarely met. Horney proposed that people cope with their social anxiety in three ways—by striving for power or prestige, by showing submission to others, or by withdrawing from others entirely. Horney's theory was one of the first to foreshadow a later movement

in psychology, which focused on the importance of cultural factors, particularly as they oppress women, in the development of personality.

AHEAD OF HER TIME

Feminine Psychology

Perhaps the most important contribution Karen Horney made to psychodynamic thought was her disagreements with Freud's view of women. Horney was never a student of Freud, but did study his work and eventually taught psychoanalysis at both the Berlin and New York Psychoanalytic Institute.

After her insistence that Freud's view of the inherent difference between males and females, she agreed to leave the institute and form her own school known as the American Institute for Psychoanalysis.

In many ways, Horney was well ahead of her time and although she died before the feminist movement took hold, she was perhaps the theorist who changed the way psychology looked at gender differences. She countered Freud's concept of penis envy with what she called womb envy, or man's envy of woman's ability to bear children. She argued that men compensate for this inability by striving for achievement and success in other realms.

She also disagreed with Freud's belief that males and females were born with inherent differences in their personality. Rather than citing biological differences, she argued for a societal and cultural explanation. In her view, men and women were equal outside of the cultural restrictions often placed on being female. These views, while not well accepted at the time, were used years after her death to help promote gender equality.

Neurosis and Relationships

Horney was also known for her study of neurotic personality. She defined neurosis as a maladaptive and counterproductive way of dealing with relationships. These people are unhappy and desperately seek out relationships in order to feel good about themselves. Their way of securing these relationships include projections of their own insecurity and neediness which eventually drives others away.

Most of us have come in contact with people who seem to successfully irritate or frighten people away with their clinginess, significant lack of self esteem, and even anger and threatening behaviour. According to Horney, these individuals adapted this personality style through a childhood filled with anxiety. And while this way of dealing with others may have been beneficial in their youth, as adults it serves to almost guarantee their needs will not be met.

She identified three ways of dealing with the world that are formed by an upbringing in a neurotic family: Moving Towards People, Moving Against People, and Moving Away From People.

Moving Towards People. Some children who feel a great deal of anxiety and helplessness move towards people in order to seek help and acceptance. They are striving to feel worthy and can believe the only way to gain this is through the acceptance of others.

These people have an intense need to be liked, involved, important, and appreciated. So much so, that they will often fall in love quickly or feel an artificial but very strong attachment to people they may not know well. Their attempts to make that person love them creates a clinginess and neediness that much more often than not results in the other person leaving the relationship.

Moving Against People. Another way to deal with insecurities and anxiety is to try to force your power onto others in hopes of feeling good about yourself. Those with this personality style come across as bossy, demanding, selfish, and even cruel. Horney argued that these people project their own hostilities (which she called externalization) onto others and therefore use this as a justification to 'get them before they get me.' Once again, relationships appear doomed from the beginning.

Moving Away From People. The final possible consequence of a neurotic household is a personality style filled with asocial behaviour and an almost indifference to others. If they don't get involved with others, they can't be hurt by them. While it protects them from emotional pain of relationships, it also keeps away all positive aspects of relationships. It leaves them feeling alone and empty.

THE HUMANISTIC PERSPECTIVE

Humanistic Psychology gets its name from its belief in the basic goodness and respect of humankind. Its roots are based in existential psychology or the understanding and acceptance of one's own existence and responsibility. Two American psychologists, Abraham Maslow and Carl Rogers paved the way for this new approach to understanding personality and improving the overall satisfaction of individuals.

When conflict between war and peace arose in the early to mid 1960s, so to did the need to understand human nature. Humanistic theory gave us an understandable way to look at man's need for war for the sake of peace. It is a simplistic theory that has become one of the most popular topics in self-help style books and man's struggle for meaning has been and will always be a major part of literature and entertainment. The basic ideas behind humanistic psychology are simple, some may say overly simple.

Humanists hold the following beliefs:

1. The present is the most important aspect of the person and therefore humanists focus on the here and now rather than looking at the past or trying to predict the future.
2. Humanistic theory is reality based and to be psychologically healthy people must take responsibility for themselves, whether the person's actions are positive or negative.

3. The individual, merely by being human, possesses an inherent worth. Actions may not be positive but this does not negate the value of the person.
4. The goal of life should always be to achieve personal growth and understanding. Only through self-improvement and self-knowledge can one truly be happy.

The humanists placed a premium on (1) the uniquely human (as opposed to animal) components of personality, and emphasized (2) conscious experiences rather than unconscious experiences, (3) psychological health rather than conflict and neurosis, (4) self-determination rather than being a slave to one's instinctual drives, and (5) striving to make positive contributions to society. Humanists also focus on peak experiences, those rare and special moments in life where you feel truly fulfilled, gloriously happy with your life, and at one with the universe.

CARL ROGERS AND THE SELF CONCEPT

Carl Rogers, the first major humanist personality theorist, proposed that the self-concept—a person's perceptions of who they are and the goals towards which they are striving—is the central component of human personality. He came to realize the importance of the self-concept through his patients. They commonly expressed the unhappiness with who they were, saying things like “I don't feel like people know the real me” or “I am struggling to be myself in my interactions with other people” or “I am on a quest to discover who I really am.” According to Rogers, people get derailed from discovering their true selves by the burdens placed on them by other people—teachers who judge harshly, parents who are insufficiently loving, peers who insist that you conform to their prevailing beliefs and styles of clothing. A person is like a plant. Give it insufficient water and expose it to hostile elements, and it will wither and die. Nurture and tend to it, and it will grow and thrive.

The Person-Centred Approach

While Maslow was more of a theorist, Carl Rogers was more of a therapist. His professional goal was more on helping people change and improve their lives. He was a true follower of humanistic ideation and is often considered the person who gave psychotherapy its basic humanistic undertones.

Rogers believed in several key concepts that he believed must be present in order for healthy change to take place. His approach to treatment is called Client or Person-Centred-Therapy because it sees the individual, rather than the therapist or the treatment process as the center of effective change. These basic concepts include:

1. *Unconditional Positive Regard*: The therapist must believe that people are basically good and must demonstrate this belief to the client. Without unconditional positive regard, the client will not disclose certain information, could feel unworthy, and may hold onto negative aspects of the self. Accepting

the client as innately worthwhile does not mean accepting all actions the client may exhibit.

2. *Non-Judgemental Attitude*: Along with seeing the person as worthy, the therapist should never pass judgement on the individual. Roger's believed that people are competent in seeing their mistakes and knowing what needs to change even if they may not initially admit it. He also believed that by judging a person, you are more likely to prevent disclosure.
3. *Disclosure*: Disclosure refers to the sharing of personal information. Unlike Psychoanalysis and many other approaches to therapy, Roger's believed that in order for the client to disclose, the therapist must do the same. Research has shown that we share information at about the same level as the other person. Therefore, remaining secretive as a therapist, encourages the client to hold back important information.
4. *Reflection*: Rogers believed that the key to understanding the self was not interpretation, but rather reflection. By reflecting a person's words in a different manner, you can accomplish two things. First, it shows the client that you are paying attention, thinking about what he or she is saying, and also understanding the underlying thoughts and feelings. Second, it allows the client to hear their own thoughts in a different way. Many people have said that their beliefs become more real once they are presented back to them by someone else.

By following these concepts, therapy becomes a self-exploration where the therapist is the guide rather than the director. The client, according to Rogers, has the answers and the direction. It is the therapist's job to help them find it.

The fictitious therapy session below shows how a typical Rogerian session might go. Notice that the therapist never provides answers or interpretation and never assumes he knows more than the client. Assuming this is a first session, the therapist would likely start by revealing some information about himself. He may discuss his education, therapeutic philosophy and other professional aspects, but may also talk about his family, how his day is going, and his goals for the future

ABRAHAM MASLOW: THE HIERARCHY OF HUMAN NEEDS AND SELF-ACTUALIZATION

Abraham Maslow, another key humanistic theorist, provided a theory anchored in a hierarchy of needs. Maslow agreed with Rogers in his emphasis on the essential nature of human goodness. But Maslow was more of a realist, in that he believed that it's impossible to strive for the authentic self when your belly is hungry. Maslow's hierarchy contained five fundamental classes of needs:

1. *Physiological needs*: The need for water, food, air, and sleep.
2. *Safety needs*: The need for shelter and safety, freedom from threats of danger from predators or hostile humans.

3. *Belongingness needs:* The need to be a member of a social group, such as a family, fraternity, sorority, or club.
4. *Esteem needs:* The desire to be held in high regard by others, as well as the need for high regard from oneself, or self-esteem.
5. *Self-actualization needs:* The need to develop one's full potential to the highest level, to be the unique person you were meant to be.

According to Maslow, the lower-level needs are more pressing than the higher level needs, and so must be satisfied first. Only after a person is well fed, safe, comfortable with the cocoon of an accepting group, and held in high regard by others can he or she then turn to the highest-level need—self-actualization.

Maslow never developed a formal method to measure an individual's location on this hierarchy of needs. Indeed, it's likely that most of us move among the levels. When we haven't eaten anything all day, the physiological urge for a hot slice of pizza might overwhelm all other thoughts. On the other hand, when we've been studying alone for an exam for eight hours straight, we might feel the need to hang out with our buddies.

King of the Mountain

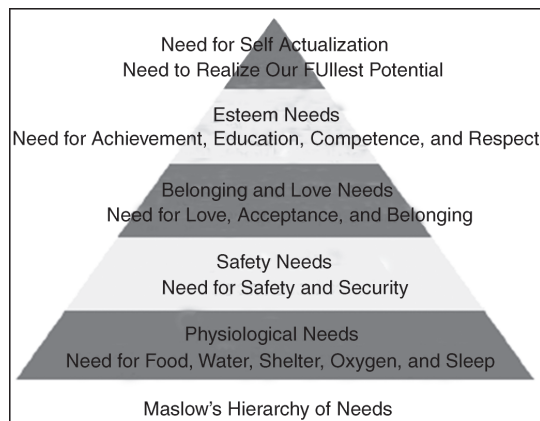
Perhaps the most well known contribution to humanistic psychology was introduced by Abraham Maslow. Maslow originally studied psychology because of his intrigue with behavioural theory and the writings of John B. Watson.

Maslow grew up Jewish in a non-Jewish neighbourhood. He spent much of his childhood alone and reported that books were often his best friends. Despite this somewhat lonely childhood, he maintained his belief in the goodness of mankind. After the birth of his first child, his devotion to Watson's beliefs began a drastic decline. He was struck with the sense that he was not nearly in control as much as Watson and other behaviourists believed. He saw more to human life than just external reinforcement and argued that human's could not possibly be born without any direction or worth.

At the time when he was studying psychology, behaviourism and psychoanalysis were considered the big two. Most courses studies these theories and much time was spent determining which theory one would follow. Maslow was on a different path.

He criticized behaviourism and later took the same approach with Freud and his writings. While he acknowledged the presence of the unconscious, he disagreed with Freud's belief that the vast majority of who we are is buried deep beyond our awareness. Maslow believed that we are aware of our motives and drives for the most part and that without the obstacles of life, we would all become psychologically healthy individuals with a deep understanding of ourselves and an acceptance of the world around us. Where Freud saw much negativity, Maslow focused his efforts on understanding the positives of mankind. It could be said that psychoanalytic thought is based on determinism, or aspects beyond our control, and humanistic thought is based on free will.

Maslow's most well known contribution is the Hierarchy of Needs and this is often used to summarize the belief system of humanistic psychology. The basic premise behind this hierarchy is that we are born with certain needs. Without meeting these initial needs, we will not be able to continue our life and move upward on hierarchy. This first level consists of our physiological needs, or our basic needs for survival. Without food, water, sleep, and oxygen, nothing else in life matters.



Once these needs are met, we can move to the next level, which consists of our need for safety and security. At this level we look seek out safety through other people and strive to find a world that will protect us and keep us free from harm. Without these goals being met, it is extremely difficult to think about higher level needs and therefore we can not continue to grow.

When we feel safe and secure in our world then we begin to seek out friendships in order to feel a sense of belonging. Maslow's third level, the need for belonging and love, focuses on our desire to be accepted, to fit in, and to feel like we have a place in the world. Getting these needs met propels us closer to the top of this pyramid and into the fourth level, called esteem needs. At this level we focus our energy on self-respect, respect from others, and feeling that we have made accomplishments on our life. We strive to move upward in careers, to gain knowledge about the world, and to work towards a sense of high self-worth. The final level in the hierarchy is called the need for self-actualization. According to Maslow, may people may be in this level but very few if anybody ever masters it. Self-actualization refers to a complete understanding of the self. To be self-actualized means to truly know who you are, where you belong in the greater society, and to feel like you have accomplished all that you have set out to accomplish. It means to no longer feel shame or guilt, or even hate, but to accept the world and see human nature as inherently good.

Application to Real Life

As you read through the section above, many likely tried to place themselves on one of the five levels of the pyramid. This may be an easy task for some, but many struggle

with the ups and downs of life. For many of us, life is not that straight forward. We often have one foot in one level, the other foot in the next level, and are reaching at times trying to pull ourselves up while making sure we don't fall backward at other times.

As we climb the pyramid, we often make headway but also notice that two steps forward can mean one step back. Sometimes it even feels like two steps forward means three steps back. The goal of mankind, however, is to keep an eye on the top of the pyramid and to climb as steadily as possible. We may stumble at times and we may leap forward at times. No matter how far we fall backward, however, the road back up is easier since we already know the way.

THE TRAIT PERSPECTIVE

Imagine the last time you spent some time hanging out with a large group of other college students, perhaps at a Friday night party. As the evening progresses, you begin to notice the people around you. The man in the corner has gathered a large group around him, and he's monopolizing the conversation. You might conclude that he's a dominant individual. Then you notice a woman sitting by herself looking at her hands, not interacting with anyone else. You might conclude that she is shy. Then you notice that your friend is going around introducing people, making sure everyone has a drink, and smiling a lot. You might conclude that your friend is agreeable. These words are all examples of traits—attributes of a person that describe some quality about how they are or how they act, and presumably how they are likely to be over time and across situations. Since the seminal works of Gordon Allport (1937) and Henry Murray (1938), personality psychologists have been concerned with these important goals of the trait perspective:

- Identifying the basic traits that make up personality
- Figuring out the best ways to measure them,
- Identifying their origins in genetics or environments, and
- Exploring their consequences for how people interact with their worlds.

TRAIT APPROACH TO PERSONALITY

The trait approach to personality is one of the major theoretical areas in the study of personality. The trait theory suggests that individual personalities are composed broad dispositions. Consider how you would describe the personality of a close friend. Chances are that you would list a number of traits, such as outgoing, kind and even-tempered. A trait can be thought of as a relatively stable characteristic that causes individuals to behave in certain ways.

Unlike many other theories of personality, such as psychoanalytic or humanistic theories, the trait approach to personality is focused on differences between individuals. The combination and interaction of various traits forms a personality that is unique to each individual. Trait theory is focused on identifying and measuring these individual personality characteristics.

Gordon Allport's Trait Theory

In 1936, psychologist Gordon Allport found that one English-language dictionary alone contained more than 4,000 words describing different personality traits. He categorized these traits into three levels:

- *Cardinal Traits*: Traits that dominate an individual's whole life, often to the point that the person becomes known specifically for these traits. People with such personalities often become so known for these traits that their names are often synonymous with these qualities. Consider the origin and meaning of the following descriptive terms: Freudian, Machiavellian, narcissism, Don Juan, Christ-like, etc. Allport suggested that cardinal traits are rare and tend to develop later in life.
- *Central Traits*: These are the general characteristics that form the basic foundations of personality. These central traits, while not as dominating as cardinal traits, are the major characteristics you might use to describe another person. Terms such as intelligent, honest, shy and anxious are considered central traits.
- *Secondary Traits*: These are the traits that are sometimes related to attitudes or preferences and often appear only in certain situations or under specific circumstances. Some examples would be getting anxious when speaking to a group or impatient while waiting in line.

Raymond Cattell's Sixteen Personality Factor Questionnaire

Trait theorist Raymond Cattell reduced the number of main personality traits from Allport's initial list of over 4,000 down to 171, mostly by eliminating uncommon traits and combining common characteristics. Next, Cattell rated a large sample of individuals for these 171 different traits. Then, using a statistical technique known as factor analysis, he identified closely related terms and eventually reduced his list to just 16 key personality traits. According to Cattell, these 16 traits are the source of all human personality. He also developed one of the most widely used personality assessments known as the Sixteen Personality Factor Questionnaire (16PF).

Eysenck's Three Dimensions of Personality

British psychologist Hans Eysenck developed a model of personality based upon just three universal traits:

1. *Introversion/Extraversion*: Introversion involves directing attention on inner experiences, while extraversion relates to focusing attention outward on other people and the environment. So, a person high in introversion might be quiet and reserved, while an individual high in extraversion might be sociable and outgoing.
2. *Neuroticism/Emotional Stability*: This dimension of Eysenck's trait theory is related to moodiness versus even-tempereness. Neuroticism refers to an

individual's tendency to become upset or emotional, while stability refers to the tendency to remain emotionally constant.

3. *Psychoticism*: Later, after studying individuals suffering from mental illness, Eysenck added a personality dimension he called psychoticism to his trait theory. Individuals who are high on this trait tend to have difficulty dealing with reality and may be antisocial, hostile, non-empathetic and manipulative.

The Five-Factor Theory of Personality

Both Cattell's and Eysenck's theory have been the subject of considerable research, which has led some theorists to believe that Cattell focused on too many traits, while Eysenck focused on too few. As a result, a new trait theory often referred to as the "Big Five" theory emerged. This five-factor model of personality represents five core traits that interact to form human personality. While researchers often disagree about the exact labels for each dimension, the following are described most commonly:

- Extraversion.
- Agreeableness.
- Conscientiousness.
- Neuroticism.
- Openness.

Assessing the Trait Approach to Personality

While most agree that people can be described based upon their personality traits, theorists continue to debate the number of basic traits that make up human personality. While trait theory has objectivity that some personality theories lack (such as Freud's psychoanalytic theory), it also has weaknesses. Some of the most common criticisms of trait theory center on the fact that traits are often poor predictors of behaviour. While an individual may score high on assessments of a specific trait, he or she may not always behave that way in every situation. Another problem is that trait theories do not address how or why individual differences in personality develop or emerge.

IDENTIFYING THE BASIC TRAITS

People differ in countless ways. Some are short, others are tall. Some are jolly, others are dour. Some are thoughtful; for others a thought would die of loneliness. The first goal of the trait perspective is to identify the most important personality traits from among the hundreds or thousands of individual differences that may exist.

The first systematic attempt to identify personality traits came from Allport and Odbert (1936), who started by scouring the English dictionary and extracting every trait word contained within its covers. The problem was that Allport and Odbert (1936) identified some 18,000 such terms! Clearly, such a large number would be far too unwieldy for a useful framework for describing people, so they set about reducing this

long list to a smaller and more manageable set of basic traits that researchers have found more useful.

A Factor Analytic Approach: The Big Five

The mere listing of hundreds or thousands of trait terms does not provide a clear framework for personality. Therefore, personality psychologists coming along after Allport and Odbert (1936) have used statistical procedures to identify a smaller number of more fundamental or basic personality traits. The most common statistical technique is factor analysis, a procedure that identifies groups of personality items that covary, or go together, but do not tend to cluster with other groups of items. People who describe themselves as dominant, for example, also tend to describe themselves as forceful and leader-like. Factor analysis is simply a technique for identifying these clusters of items that statistically go together. Factor analysis starts with a large pool of items, which could be trait terms (*e.g.*, extraverted, anxious) or personality items (*e.g.*, I like to be the life of the party; I often feel anxious). People who describe themselves as dominant, for example, also tend to describe themselves as forceful and leader-like. Factor analysis is simply a technique for identifying these clusters of items that statistically go together.

A Biologically Based Approach: Eysenck's Big Three

An alternative model of personality traits comes from Hans Eysenck (1916 – 1998). Instead of starting with factor analysis, Eysenck sought to develop a model of personality based on traits that were highly heritable and had a solid physiological foundation. The three traits that met these criteria, according to Eysenck, were extraversion-introversion (E), neuroticism-emotional stability (N), and psychoticism (P).

Notice that the first two of these traits are identical to those in the five factor model. As in the five factor model, extraverts in Eysenck's model are sociable, lively, venturesome. Introverts like to spend time by themselves, like activities such as reading, and prefer a small number of close friends to a large gaggle of party animals. Those high on neuroticism tend to be anxious, irritable, tense, and moody. They worry a lot, get depressed, and experience many negative emotions. They also react more intensely to everyday stresses and strains, and take a longer time to return to a calm state after experiencing an emotionally arousing event.

The third trait, psychoticism, deserves greater elaboration. It does not really mean that the high scorer is truly psychotic. Rather, high P scorers tend to be aggressive, egocentric, impulsive, antisocial, and lacking in empathy for their fellow humans. They tend to act quickly without thinking, and fail to see things from the perspective of other people. The high P scorer can be cruel to animals, laughing, for example, when a dog gets hit by a car. This insensitivity applies to people. The high P scorers are indifferent to the suffering of others, enjoy making fools of other people, and show a careless disregard for the laws of the land. Eysenck's model of personality is hierarchical. Each

large “super-trait” at the top level subsumes many narrower traits beneath it. The super-trait of psychoticism, for example, subsumes the narrower traits of egocentric, impersonal, impulsive, antisocial, cold, and aggressive. The supertrait of neuroticism subsumes the narrower traits of anxious, depressed, guilt feelings, insecure, tense, moody, and emotional. Furthermore, each of these narrow traits subsumes habitual acts. The acts subsumed by the narrow trait of egocentric, for example, might include: He took the last piece of desert for himself without asking whether anyone else wanted it; She insisted that the group go to her favourite restaurant; and He made a rude comment to the host without considering whether it would hurt her feelings.

In sum, Eysenck’s hierarchy has the advantage of locating personality-relevant actions within a precise nested system. The act “He made a rude comment,” if repeated over time, can be considered a habitual cluster of acts nested within the narrow trait of egocentrism, which itself is subsumed by the super-trait of Psychoticism.

What about the heritability and physiological basis of traits, the two key criteria that led Eysenck to identify these three super-traits to begin with as “basic” to a model of personality? Indeed, there is good evidence that E, N, and P are moderately heritable, as found by a massive study of 12,898 pairs of identical and fraternal twins. Nonetheless, most personality traits, even those not subsumed by the PEN model, also show moderate heritability.

Many studies have also been conducted to identify the physiological underpinnings of the PEN super-traits. Introverts are indeed more easily aroused physiologically and show greater nervous system reactivity than do extraverts. Those high on neuroticism do show more lability (changeability) of their autonomic nervous systems. And those who score higher on P indeed show higher levels of circulating testosterone, as well as lower levels of monoamine oxidase, a neurotransmitter. Eysenck has gone further than perhaps any other personality researcher in uncovering the physiological foundation for his model of personality. Thus, Eysenck’s theory is not merely descriptive trait theory, but attempts to identify the physiological underpinnings of each key trait.

Despite its many admirable qualities, Eysenck’s model of personality has been criticized on several grounds. First, critics argue that all personality traits, if they are enduring individual differences, must have a physiological foundation. They can’t come out of thin air. Second, as mentioned before, all personality traits appear to be moderately heritable. Third, some have argued that Eysenck’s model misses some important traits, such as openness, which is captured by the five factor model.

THE ORIGINS OF PERSONALITY TRAITS

Consider the case of Susan Anderson. Her mother was a young unmarried woman who could not afford to raise a child on her own. So Susan’s mother gave her up for adoption at birth. Susan was raised in a warm middle-class family, and had a close relationship with her adoptive parents. When she reached college age, Susan decided that she wanted to meet her biological parents, and so she tracked them down. The

psychologist who helped to locate her biological parents asked her to be in a study. She administered personality tests to Susan, to her adoptive parents, and to her biological parents. Do you think Susan's personality more closely resembles her adoptive parents who she grew up with but with whom she shares no genes, or her biological parents with whom she shared genes but never saw until she met them in adulthood?

Using the Adoption and Twin Methods

Susan participated in a study that utilized the adoption method, which looks at the correlations between children and both their adoptive and biological parents. It is one strategy that psychologists use to figure out the relative influence of genes and environment on personality. If the personalities of adopted individuals more closely resemble their adoptive parents, then this provides strong evidence that the environment, in this case the environment provided by the adoptive parents, influences personality development. If personality more closely resembles the biological parents, with whom the adopted children had no contact, this suggests that genetics influence personality development. Adoption studies provide one of the most powerful methods for determining the genetic and environmental influences on personality.

Another method for determining the relative influence of genetics and environment comes from a remarkable occurrence in nature—the birth of twins. Twins come in two types, identical twins and fraternal twins. Identical twins, as their name implies, are genetically identical. They share 100 per cent of their genes. Fraternal or non-identical twins, in contrast, share only 50 per cent of their genes. They are no more alike genetically than two brothers or two sisters, who also share 50 per cent of their genes (on average). The twin method involves identifying how similar identical twins are to each other and comparing that with how similar fraternal twins are to each other. If identical twins are more similar to each other in personality than fraternal twins, it would suggest that their greater genetic similarity caused their personalities to be more similar. If identical twins are no more similar to each other than fraternal twins are to each other, it would suggest that the greater genetic similarity of identical twins played no role in the development of their personalities.

THE PHYSIOLOGY OF PERSONALITY TRAITS

Modern personality researchers measure physiological systems such as heart rate, skin conductance, brain waves, and brain activity.

Introverts and Extroverts

An excellent example is the work done on the physiology of extraversion-introversion. Although extraverts and introverts experience the same base-line levels of cortical (brain) arousal, they react very differently to music, noise, and other forms of stimulation. Introverts react with more arousal to external stimulation than do extraverts. This

arousal can interfere with tasks such as studying for a test. Indeed, given a choice of where to study, extraverts seek more noisy environments. They can study with the music blaring and the TV on at the same time. This level of stimulation over-arouses introverts, who instead seek to study in quiet places without the external distractions that produce cortical over-arousal.

PERSONALITY TRAITS, SELF-EFFICACY, AND ACHIEVEMENT

Caprara *et al.* (2011) share the general theme of the previous study in that the context of their work was the ongoing quest for identifying the most accurate and reliable predictors of performance at school or college. Their initial review of relevant research has indicated that personality traits and self-efficacy beliefs are important predictors; but their own study set out to explore the combined effects in contrast to existing work which has largely examined traits and self-efficacy beliefs as separate and independent entities. While these two sets of factors may operate via different processes and levels, they both appear to be very important for accounting for variance in scholastic performance. Traits may be largely unconditional behavioural “styles” which will influence responses to task demands, while self-efficacy beliefs are a reflection of the individual’s ability to learn from experience. It may be argued that the self-efficacy beliefs mediate, to at least some extent, the influence of the basic personality traits upon observed abilities and levels of achievement by sustaining the motivation, and the associated cognitive and emotional processes, required for positive outcomes.

The authors continue by describing how existing findings have highlighted the trait of conscientiousness as a very strong predictor of academic performance in both school and college. This trait is linked to the maintenance of efforts and to goal-setting which are likely underpinnings of good achievement, compliance with demands, and efficient time management and self-organisation.

Openness is another trait (of the “Big 5”) which appears to be correlated with positive aspirations, efficient learning, and academic achievement. It has been described as akin to intellectual curiosity and motivation to learn. However, the other major traits extraversion, neuroticism, and agreeableness ... have shown less pronounced or consistent relationships with achievement.

In respect of self-efficacy beliefs (both the perceived capacity to master specific subjects and aspects of the curriculum, and the perceived capacity to apply appropriate self-organisation to learning activities), it has been found that they have a considerable influence upon learning, ratings of achievement, and career opportunities. The influence is thought to be brought about via the sustaining of positive aspirations and efforts, and willingness to persevere in the face of problems. Self-efficacy beliefs have been found to predict performance at high school even after controlling for global personality dispositions.

The study by Caprara *et al.* themselves explored the particular contribution of basic personality traits and of self-efficacy beliefs upon performance at the end of both junior

and senior high school. Their specific hypotheses were that the contribution of personality traits would be more important in the earlier stage than at the later stage (at which time the influence of longer experience would be more evident); that the contribution of self-efficacy beliefs would be most relevant in the senior rather than junior stage of education on the grounds that a sense of efficacy is a function of past experience; that openness and conscientiousness would contribute to academic self-image; that the socio-economic status of the children's families would influence learning more in the earlier stages than in the later stages of education; and that there would be no gender differences in any observed patterns of associations between personality traits/perceived self-efficacy and academic achievement.

The participants were 196 boys and 216 girls who were part of an ongoing study (initiated in 1987) designed to monitor the personal and social influences upon child and adolescent performance and adjustment.

In this current study, the children were assessed at 4 different time points in 7th grade at the age of 13; in the 8th grade (end of junior high school) at age 14; in 10th grade at age 16; and at the end of senior high school at age 19.

At time 1 and time 3, the participants were assessed on measures of openness and conscientiousness and of perceived self-efficacy. Academic achievement was assessed at time 2 and at time 4 via reports from their teachers.

The personality traits were explored by means of the Big Five Questionnaire – Children's Version, with a focus of attention upon the two targeted traits.

The scale for assessing self-efficacy included 15 items related to two domains of self-efficacy beliefs the perceived capacity to master different aspects of the curriculum, and the perceived capacity for self-organisation, planning, and the motivation to attend to school work in the face of other and possibly more interesting things to do.

Socio-economic status of the families was rated on the basis of parental occupation.

The results were interpreted by the authors as showing that the personality traits and the self-efficacy beliefs were both critical when seeking to account for variance in academic achievement.

Openness contributed to academic performance at the end of junior high school to a greater extent than academic self-efficacy beliefs. It was suggested that this trait is likely to be more influential at this earlier stage of education given that it is part of an individual's nature and has the potential to foster learning; whereas self-efficacy beliefs are more a function of experience and will develop over time.

Conscientiousness was not found to contribute directly to achievement at either time point. Instead, it appeared to be significant in influencing later self-efficacy beliefs. As suggested by Gerhardt et al (2007), this basic trait may be important for achievement by fostering self-regulation and organisation over the whole course of education.

As expected, academic achievement at the end of junior high school did significantly contribute to later self-efficacy beliefs; and the self-efficacy beliefs were more significant for outcomes in senior high school.

This pattern was held to be in line with social-cognitive theory which holds that the capacity to learn from experience is what underpins self-efficacy beliefs which, in turn, underpin motivation and eventual achievement.

In senior schooling, students' confidence in their ability to organise their own learning and to regulate their (academic) behaviours, while effectively managing relationships with teachers and peers, is crucial for meeting all challenges and for maximal achievement.

In other words, the role of self-belief is very important for the establishment of specific and adaptive behaviours conducive to learning.

Family socio-economic status was found to have a direct impact upon performance in junior high school (with an inference that limited resources at home, both physical and attentional, may hold back children relative to their peers with access to high levels of educational resources and experiences, plus parental time and support); and that this negative effect is carried into senior schooling because of the relatively poor prior learning as a basis for ongoing achievement.

Caprara et al argue that, if academic self-sufficiency is developed in response to the nature of educational experience, the role of the teacher is crucial in respect of individualising and modifying classroom teaching style and learning demands in order to match students' mastery levels with a view to fostering a sense of competence (but not an unhealthy matching of self against some external and arbitrary standard or directly against the performance of peers). Parents, too, will have an important role here in helping to ensure that expectations upon the children are reasonable and that the goals set (including those which are self-set) are appropriate, thus to create a sense of self-efficacy.

In the concluding summary, the authors acknowledge some weaknesses in the study, such as the reliance upon self reports in the assessment of personality traits. Future research might usefully involve multiple sources of raters in order to reduce the risk of bias. It was also recognised that drawing the sample of participants from only two schools could limit the extent to which the findings could be generalised.

However, they repeated the point that both traits and self-efficacy beliefs play a significant part in the fostering of academic achievement. As children grow older and move up the stages of education, the significance of self-regulation and self belief becomes greater while the impact of personality traits is more salient in the earlier stages of education.

Soft Skill for Mass Communication

There is little doubt that mass-mediated communication has become both more visually oriented and more technologically complex in recent years. Sophisticated graphical interfaces on the Web, seamless photo imaging in TV and print advertisements, and intricate colour information graphics in newspapers are evidence of this emphasis on presentation and its technologies. This marriage of presentation and technology, however, is not a new phenomenon. Advances in one historically have gone hand-in-hand with advances in the other, from the invention of half-tone technology and new photo equipment to the introduction of colour television. More recently, the arrival of digital imaging technology has strengthened the marriage, and a much-anticipated move towards newsroom “convergence” points to the integration of technological and graphical knowledge with traditional journalistic knowledge. Anecdotal evidence suggests media managers aggressively seek staffers with the skills to operate today’s new technologies, and this demand necessitates training.

Training may be gained in school or in the work place, but for those just out of college, school experiences may be the only option. This study explores the relative importance of knowledge of presentation technologies gained in school to the job-finding success of graduates of journalism and mass communication. The study seeks to determine if level of technological skill predicts job-finding success even after accounting for more traditional school-related predictors such as grade point average, internship experience and curriculum sequence.

As such, the study extends earlier work on the predictors of success in the journalism and mass communication labour market. In so doing, it draws on the sociological literature

on the relationships between the skills of prospective employees and their likelihood of being hired. The hypotheses generated come from what is termed screening theory, which helps to contextualize the hiring decisions made by communication employers.

SOFTWARE USE ACROSS MEDIA TYPES

The work in each type of media industry involves unique technological processes, therefore necessitating the use of some graphic software programmes more than others.

The data show that skill with page-design software is highly important to the work processes of graduates working at all media types, with the single and not surprising exception of television. Somewhat surprising is the high percentage of online-publishing workers who use page-design software. This may be explained by the fact that designers sometimes first design Web pages in page-design software and then use these designs as templates in Web-site building programmes. It may also be that many respondents who categorized their work as online publishing actually design print material as well.

Graphic-illustration software is most heavily used by those in online publishing. Once again, the percentage of graduates working in television who use this software is the lowest. Similarly, the percentage of graduates working for online publishing companies who use photo— imaging software was much higher than the percentages for other media types. Graduates working for newspapers, public relations, and advertising reported using this software in fairly high percentages, relative to percentage use of other software types.

The results for questions about non-linear editing software, which is used in television work, may reflect a measurement problem. While the percentage of those working in television using this software was the highest, followed by use in online publishing, the relatively high rate of reported use in newspapers is not tenable given the nature of print-media production processes (and most newsrooms aren't "converged" yet). It seems likely that the word "editing" in the question choice "non-linear editing" may have led to confusion by some respondents.

Not surprisingly, the percentage of graduates working in online publishing who reported actually using Web-site building software was much higher than were the percentages of those working for all other media types. The percentage of graduates working in public relations and in advertising who use Web-site building software was low, but it was higher than the percentages working for print media and TV who use this software.

It is clear that knowledge of presentation technology is more necessary to online publishing work in general than to work in the other traditional media industries. Presentation technology may be more intricately woven into the fabric of the overall work process in online publishing organizations than in the work processes of print media, television, public relations, or advertising. The fact that Web work converges media forms-video, sound, photos, and text-is also a likely explanation.

REGRESSION ANALYSES: SOFTWARE PROFICIENCY AND JOB-FINDING SUCCESS

In order to test the hypotheses and determine the impact of technological knowledge on job-finding success, a zero-order correlation analysis and several regression analyses were conducted. To obtain the overall measure for the independent variable software proficiency, measures of proficiency in four of the five software types were summed. Non-linear editing, which did not scale well with the other measures, was excluded from the scale for two reasons. First, there is a conceptual distinction between this technology and the other four. Non-linear editing deals with moving imagery only, while the other software types are largely oriented towards still imagery and design. Second, as previously mentioned, results indicated some respondents might have been confused about the meaning of the term “non-linear editing.” The alpha coefficient for reliability among the remaining four items was .85. The dependent variable, degree of job-finding success, was measured by the number of job offers graduates reported having upon completing school. The analysis includes only the 1,897 bachelor degree recipients who sought employment with a communication employer, which is 72.7% of the total sample.

The mean of the dependent variable was 2.19 (number of jobs offered) and the standard deviation was 1.85. To test H1a, number of job offers received by undergraduates who sought communication jobs was correlated with degree of presentation software proficiency. The coefficient was .064 and was significant at the .01 level. H1a therefore received support.

Overall, the model shows these variables explain a significant though small amount of variance in job-finding success-2.6% of the variance. The finding is consistent with the earlier work in the field of journalism and mass communication both in terms of the predictors and the relatively small amount of variance explained. Having an internship, participating in campus media and being a public relations major are the strongest predictors. The only other significant predictor is being a broadcasting major, and this relationship is negative.

In the next model, the variable Degree of Presentation Software Proficiency is entered as a second block. The increase in variance explained is fairly small-from 2.6% to 2.9%-but the incremental change in R-square is significant at the .05 level. H1b receives support, as Presentation Software Proficiency does prove to be a significant predictor, even when accounting for the traditional predictors. Internships, Campus Media Activities, and Public Relations Major continue to be the strongest predictors. In neither model is GPA or Advertising Major a significant predictor.

While the model was significant, the amount of variance explained was quite small. In an attempt to clarify the role of proficiency with presentation technology in job success and improve the overall predictive model, regression analyses next were conducted to test predictors of receipt of a job offer in only the online publishing field.

It was anticipated that proficiency with presentation technology would be a better predictor of success finding work specifically in online publishing than it was as a predictor of general job-finding success. This should be the case both because of the apparent importance of presentation software knowledge to Web work and because the model is more specifically targeted.

In the models predicting job-finding success in online publishing the dependent variable was scored as a dichotomy because variance was minimal beyond the 0/1 level. One is equal to receipt of at least one job offer in online publishing work at graduation, and zero is equal to the absence of such a job offer. Only the 300 bachelor degree recipients who sought work in online publishing were included in this analysis, and this number was 12.4% of the total sample. Among these, 38.3% received at least one job offer in online publishing. Because the dependent variable is dichotomous, both OLS regression and logistic regression models were used to assess predictors. There were negligible differences between the models, and OLS regression results will be shown here to make comparison with the earlier regression analysis easier.

The first model includes the traditional predictors of job-finding success, entered as a block. The R-square of the model is not significant. In the next model Proficiency with Presentation Software is entered as the only variable in a second block, and it and Campus Media Activities have the highest beta weights, at .089 each. The R-square of the new model is .026, but neither the change in the R-square nor any of the model's predictors test as significant.

Next, job-finding success in online publishing is regressed on more specific predictors—Campus Media Activities and Proficiency with Presentation Software are replaced with Campus Web Activity and Proficiency with Web-site building Software. In the first model only the traditional predictors are entered as a block (including Campus Web activity), and the R-square is .037. In the second model Proficiency with Web-site building Software is added as a second block, and this second model's R-square is .052. Proficiency with Web-site building Software, with a beta of .131, is the strongest predictor, followed by Campus Web. Each of these predictors are significant, and change in R-square is significant as well.

It appears then that as independent variables are tailored more narrowly to the criterion variable, they become better predictors. It also appears that the nature of online publishing work is such that it requires a particularly high level of skill with the requisite presentation software.

However, it may be that Web work is no more demanding of software skills than other media work and that any model made more specific would predict more successfully. To assess this possibility, a final regression model was run for comparative purposes. This model also predicted receipt of a specific type of media job offer, but here the offer was from a daily newspaper job. Included in this model were GPA, sequence, internships, campus newspaper involvement, and proficiency with page-design software, the software most likely to be used by newspaper staffers. While being a print

journalism major and working with a campus newspaper were the most important predictors, proficiency with page-design software was not a significant predictor. Neither was the model improved significantly. The results of this comparative analysis lend support to the conclusion that the importance of software proficiency to landing Web job offers is due at least in part to the nature of Web work, and not entirely to specificity of the model.

Study results show that degree of skill with presentation technologies matters to the job-finding success of journalism and mass communication graduates. Skill with presentation technology stands as a significant predictor of job-finding success, even when controlling for GPA, sequence specialization, number of internships, and campus media activities. If media technology and media processes continue to converge, as many industry experts predict, it seems likely presentation software skill will grow in importance.

For those seeking work in online publishing, knowledge of presentation software for the Web surpasses the importance of all the other school-related predictors traditionally associated with job-finding success. Given recent findings from the Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates that the percentage of graduates taking jobs in online publishing is growing faster than all other media, it seems advisable for journalism and mass communication programmes to increase technological instruction for their graduates. Yet the present study finds that proficiency in online publishing technology (or any presentation technology) is not widespread among graduates of journalism and communication schools. The recent downturn in the economic fortune of tech industries should be acknowledged here, and this focus on technological competence in hiring may change as media industries evolve. On the other hand, it is hard to imagine the industry becoming less visually oriented.

This study lends support to previous findings that media employers-and employers in general-tend to favour job candidates with jobspecific skills. According to screening theory, employers only rely on educational attainment when candidates in the pool lack job-specific, or so-called “hot button,” skills. Educational credentials such as GPA serve only as a less-than-perfect proxy for assessing candidate fit. However, skills with presentation technology are job-specific by nature, and they may be taught through school curricula. The rules and routines embodied in these software are the same in school as in the workplace. As a result, employers may view skill with presentation software as a more reliable measure of evaluation than other credentials gained during schooling. Employers may be more likely to hire candidates with these skills because it is a convenient way to reduce uncertainty in the highly uncertain hiring process.

Study findings may also reflect the importance of technological processes to organizations undergoing technological change and indeterminacy. Online publishing is a relatively new field with relatively new technologies that are presently in flux. But as with the production of most mediated information, online production involves time constraints. In Web work, content may be disseminated on a constant, ongoing basis,

and increasingly Web-savvy audiences expect sites to be always accessible. Securing the means of production necessarily takes priority over ensuring quality of content: the newspaper must come out, the show must go on, and the site must stay up.

Technical skills and knowledge of production would be prioritized over skills and knowledge involved with crafting content. After all, it is possible for a Web site (or any media product) to be produced without using locally generated content. In fact many Web-site producers choose to fill their sites with nothing but “repurposed” text and images and links to the content of other sites.

Perhaps then it is not the degree of technological complexity of a media form that determines how important technological skills are to the operation of a media organization, but rather the degree of uncertainty about technological processes. Older, more established media forms have been able to routinize technological processes and the learning of these processes to a greater degree than has the new field of online publishing.

The structural framework for the instruction of older technologies (*i.e.*, school curricula and training sessions in media and professional organizations) has been in place longer, and the principles and conventions adopted for instruction are more established. Such structures for learning are only now being established in online publishing. Once these structures are in place and processes are more routinized, employers in online publishing should be able to turn more attention to content quality.

The study does not directly address the issue of where graduates learned these skills. They may have learned them in classes, in internships, in campus media activities, or even in the privacy of their dorm rooms. Analyses not tabled show that graduates with media internships reported slightly higher levels of software proficiency.

This issue should be addressed more directly in future studies. While this study addresses the importance of technological knowledge to finding jobs, it does not explore the relative quality of such jobs. Knowledge of the software may be enough to help a graduate get hired, but not enough to put the graduate in a good job and foster promotion. There is some evidence to suggest that tasks involving presentation technology eat into time spent performing occupational tasks of a more conceptual nature. Workers relegated to routine technological procedures are less likely to control their work than those whose work knowledge is more abstract and less tied to specific technologies. Findings here suggest schools of journalism and mass communication benefit students through rigorous training in technological skills, but this need not be a zero-sum game. Ways must be found to teach skills in conjunction with more conceptual curricula.

Finally, while the data presented here suggest that job specific skills contribute to the success of graduates in the labour market, and that the more specific the skills the better they predict to success, these skills clearly play only a small role in the hiring decision. In fact, the analysis conducted here show that the vast majority of the variance in hiring is not explained by the job specific skills identified here or even by the more general attributes such as scholastic performance, represented by grade point average.

As noted, the hiring process involves not only an assessment of specific skills, but also an assessment of personality fit, the extent to which an individual will mesh with the organizational culture, and the extent to which candidates are able to match the highly specific and hard— to-anticipate “hot-button” needs of employers. How the applicant presents herself or himself in the interview situation is not measured by any of the variables included in the analysis here. As a result, it is possible to argue, based on the data at hand, that specific skills are important predictors of job market success for journalism and mass communication graduates, but it is not the case that these are the main determinants of success. The main determinants of success will be identified only with additional research in this area.

In recent years, radio and television stations consistently have offered entry-level news salaries below those provided by daily newspapers, public relations, and advertising employers. Yet the broadcast industries report no difficulty in finding people willing to take their jobs. One possible explanation for low salaries in broadcast news is that universities are producing a surplus of graduates, holding down the salaries that are offered. Another explanation is that the lure of jobs in radio and television - the appeal of being a part of these “glamour” industries - is enough to fill the jobs available and keep wages low.

This chapter draws on roughly parallel surveys of hiring patterns in the daily newspaper, radio, and television industries to provide a test of these expectations. The results of these surveys are linked to data on recent graduates of journalism and mass communications programmes to make assessments of the fit between the demand for labour and the supply of labour in these industries. The Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates, conducted at The Ohio State University, has shown a consistent gap between the entry-level pay of graduates who found full-time work at radio or television stations and those who found work elsewhere in communications. Survey respondents graduated about a year before being surveyed, so the term “entry-level workers” here describes new college graduates taking their first job after graduation. In 1994, only those graduates going to work for weekly, biweekly or triweekly newspapers earned salaries as low as those in television and radio.

The evidence available shows that the low entry-level salaries continue through the career of broadcast journalists. Drawing on data from his surveys of radio and television news directors over the last ten years, Stone shows low pay across almost all job categories in both types of organizations. Television pays well in the large markets and particularly well for anchors. Radio news directors even in large markets earn only about half as much as their TV counterparts.

A disparity between the pay for broadcast and print journalists has appeared in the last twenty years. Although a survey conducted in 1971 by Johnstone, Slawski, and Bowman found journalists in television earning slightly more than those at newspapers, later surveys by Weaver and Wilhoit found broadcast journalists’ pay lagging behind pay for print journalists. In 1991, the highest median salaries were earned by journalists

at news magazines and wire services. They were followed by journalists at daily newspapers, television, weekly newspapers, and radio. Theoretical Issues Stone offers at least two explanations for the low pay in broadcasting. First, in the view of news directors, there is an excess supply of applicants. Second, broadcasting is seen as an attractive field, and people are willing to work for low pay. It seems likely that the attractiveness of the field encourages the excess supply in the first place, but there may be other factors that add to the excess supply as well.

The news directors' notion of excess supply is consistent with the general economic theory that demand and supply work in the labour force as well as the marketplace. According to the labour market application of the demand and supply model, the low pay reflects the fact that there are too many qualified individuals seeking a limited number of jobs. When there is a surplus or excess supply of labour, employers offer low wages, and the supply decreases.

The labour supply curve is a positively sloping straight line illustrating an increasing supply of workers as wages offered increases. The labour demand curve is a negatively sloping line illustrating a declining demand for workers as the wages increase. The intersection of the demand and supply curves is the equilibrium wage, which is what the industry should offer.

The argument that the field is attractive and therefore pay need not be high is frequently heard for various occupations and should not be dismissed out-of-hand. Professors, for example, do not earn salaries comparable to what persons with their education or training would earn in industry. They accept positions at the university, however, because of other benefits. In American society, few institutions are as prominent as television. Broadcasting offers public visibility and star status not provided by many other occupations. These are "benefits" that may compensate for low pay, at least in the view of young persons seeking entry-level work. In the language of labour economics, these "benefits" must be offset with higher wages by competing media industries.

The newspaper industry, if this interpretation is correct, must offer its employees a "compensating wage differential" since broadcasting is such an attractive alternative. These are two explanations for the low pay in broadcasting. If the excess supply argument holds, the higher pay earned by entry-level hires at daily newspapers compared to broadcasting should result from differences in the supply of trained graduates. If supply is not the determinant of salaries, but rather the perceived attractiveness of broadcasting, then supply should be unrelated to salary.

It is possible that both supply and the attractiveness of broadcast jobs work together to hold down wages in broadcasting. If supply is comparable for newspapers and broadcasting, the observed differences in wages may be explained as a "compensating wage differential." If supply is greater for broadcasting than for newspapers, both supply and compensating differentials may be at work.

Data allowing for a comparison of the supply and demand for entry level jobs in broadcast news versus the daily newspaper industry were obtained for the first time in

1991. Stone incorporated items dealing with hiring practices in his annual survey of news directors of television and radio stations. Similar items had been included in the 1991 survey of daily newspaper editors conducted for the Dow Jones Newspaper Fund. The 1991 newspaper survey, was, in turn, a replication of a study conducted by the Newspaper Fund at irregular intervals beginning in 1970. These surveys provide parallel data on demand for labour. Data on supply can be inferred from the 1991 Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates.

In the broadcast news survey, questionnaires were mailed in the summer of 1991 to all 960 non-satellite commercial television stations in the United States and a probability sample of 810 commercial radio stations drawn from the population of 6,600 stations. Joint AM-FM news operations were counted as a single station. After two mailings, responses were received from 506 television stations (53%) and 315 of the radio stations (39%). News operations existed at 412 of the responding television stations and 275 of the responding radio stations. Only broadcast stations with a news operation were used in these analyses.

Editors at 1,590 daily newspapers in the United States were sent a questionnaire in January of 1991. After two mailings, 704 (44%) responded. The survey paralleled one conducted by the Newspaper Fund in 1986 and dealt entirely with hiring practices.

In the broadcast survey, news directors were asked how many newsroom staff were hired in the past twelve months and how many of those were hired directly out of college. In the editor survey, respondents were asked to indicate how many persons were hired for the newsroom staff in 1990. Staff hires were broken down by position. In each case, the number of hires directly from college was determined.

The annual survey of graduates of U.S. journalism and mass communications programmes is conducted each year by the School of Journalism at The Ohio State University. A sample of schools is drawn from those listed in the Journalism Career and Scholarship Guide, published each year by the Dow Jones Newspaper Fund, and the Journalism and Mass Communication Directory, published annually by the Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication. To be included in the guide, the college or university must offer at least ten courses in news-editorial journalism including core courses, such as an introduction to the mass media and press law, as well as basic skills courses such as reporting and editing. Schools list themselves in the AEJMC Directory.

Administrators at the selected schools are asked to provide the names and addresses of their spring bachelor's and master's degree recipients. As the second step in the annual survey, a questionnaire is mailed in November or December to all spring graduates receiving either a bachelor's or a master's degree from the selected programmes. A second questionnaire is sent to non-respondents in January or February.

In the autumn of 1990, the survey was mailed to 5,002 individuals whose names and addresses were provided by the administrators of the eighty programmes sampled. A total of 2,948 respondents returned the questionnaires by the end of May of 1991. Of

the returns, 2,596 were from students who reported they had actually completed their degrees during the April to July 1990 period. A total of 223 questionnaires were returned undelivered. Return rate computed as the number of questionnaires returned divided by the number mailed was 59%. Return rate computed as the number returned divided by the number mailed minus the bad addresses was 62%.

The graduate survey includes detailed questions on types of jobs sought and obtained by the respondents as well as type of curricular specialization. The data can be generalized to the population of graduates for that year, estimated by Becker to be approximately 33,300 bachelor's degree recipients and 2,700 master's degree recipients. Becker reported that 57% of the 1989-1990 graduates of journalism and mass communications programmes actually completed their studies in spring of that academic year, *i.e.*, spring of 1990. There is no reason to believe the graduates completing their studies at times other than spring would engage in different job hunting tactics or have different curricular specialization while in college.

A comparison of the schools in the OSU surveys and data obtained via a U.S. Department of Education census of four-year degree-granting institutions of higher education shows the appropriateness of the OSU data for this project. The Department of Education reported that 41 universities offered degrees in radio/television news broadcast in academic year 1990-91. All but 9 (78%) are in the corresponding OSU survey.

Of the 131 universities reporting degrees granted in radio/television (news broadcast and general), 93 (71%) were included in the corresponding OSU survey. Of the 329 universities offering degrees in journalism/mass communications, 260 (79%) were included in that year's OSU survey. In terms of degrees granted, however, the distortion is even smaller. Of the 6,641 degrees the Department of Education says were granted in radio/television (news broadcast and general), all but 14.1% were granted by schools included in the OSU surveys. Of the 12,173 degrees granted in journalism, all but 6.2% were granted by schools included in the OSU surveys.

The methodology of the Department of Education census is distinct from the OSU methodology. A student receiving a degree from a journalism school would almost certainly be classified as receiving a journalism degree, though the student might well have specialized in broadcast journalism. The OSU Survey also includes data from schools not reporting communications degrees to the Department of Education.

In sum, the OSU data allow for more precise designation of degrees granted by subfield of communication. The OSU Graduate Survey, based on reports of the graduates themselves, provides data not only on curricular specialization at the university but also types of work sought.

By combining the graduate data from the Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates with the data on degrees granted, it is possible to make an estimate of the number of persons in the labour pool. This estimate can then be matched to the labour needs obtained from the news director and editor surveys.

Radio stations hired an estimated 5,444 persons for their news operations in 1990-91, 39.4% of them from other radio stations. Another 34.0% were hired directly from college. Of these college hires - or entry-level hires - 76.9% had a journalism major, a little over half of them specializing in broadcast journalism. Some of these entry-level hires will have completed a master's degree; others will have earned a bachelor's degree.

Becker projects that only 7% of the journalism and mass communications degrees granted in 1989-90 were at the graduate level. The questions on hiring were less detailed (with less information obtained on the majors of the graduates), but the comparison shows that number of hires in radio has declined markedly from 1984 to 1990-91. The percentage of hires in radio coming directly from college, however, has increased about 11%, a statistically significant change (at the .05 level). This offset a decline in radio hires from jobs outside broadcasting. Total radio news staffs were estimated at 19,700 in 1984 and 16,900 in 1991.

Television hired an estimated 5,069 persons for their news staffs in 1990-91, 64.9% of them from other television stations. Television news directors report hiring 18.1% of their 1990-91 employees directly from college. Of these, 91.1% came from journalism and mass communications programmes. The 1990-91 television hires are an increase of just over 1,000 persons from the number hired in 1984. The percentage being hired directly out of college in 1990-91 is statistically comparable to 1984. Total television news workforce was 17,100 in 1984 and 23,100 in 1991.

Because of differential return rates by newspaper size in the 1990 survey of daily newspaper editors, the returns were weighted so as to accurately reflect the population of newspapers stratified by size. The sample data were then used to project the number of hires at the full population of daily newspapers.

The daily newspaper industry hired an estimated 8,941 persons in 1990, 55.0% of them from other newspapers. The second largest group of hires came directly from college. These are entry-level hires. Of the daily newspaper hires directly from college, three-quarters came from journalism programmes. Just under 16% of the new hires at daily newspapers in 1990 came from non-media jobs, and 7.1% were hired away from other media. The 8,941 new hires for 1990 represent 15.7% of the 56,900 newsroom employees estimated to be holding jobs in daily newspapers at the end of 1990.

The 1985 data have been weighted to reflect the population characteristics of 1990 so as to make the data sets comparable and correct for sampling bias in that earlier survey. Comparisons of the 1985 and 1990 surveys show the dramatic decline in hiring at daily newspapers during that period. The decline in hiring is accompanied by a decline (significant at the .05 level) in the percentage of hires coming directly from college, and, among the new hires, a slight (and statistically non-significant) decline in the percentage coming from journalism programmes. In actual numbers, there were 2,221 fewer hires directly from college in 1990 than in 1985, or a decline of 53.0%.

Clearly, not all entry-level hires in radio, television, and daily newspapers come from journalism and mass communications programmes. The data presented here, as

well as earlier research by Becker, Fruit and Caudill, Giles and Stone, indicate that the bulk of them do. Consequently, it is reasonable to turn to the Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates for 1990 to estimate the supply of graduates for these jobs.

Respondents to the annual survey of graduates are asked if they had sought employment in radio, television, or daily newspapers since graduation. Among the 1990 bachelor's degree recipients, 18.0% reported looking for a radio job, 25.7% reported looking for a job in television, and 22.4% sought daily newspaper positions. Based on the estimated 33,331 journalism bachelor's degrees granted that academic year, this would translate to 6,000 bachelor's degree recipients seeking work in radio, 8,566 seeking work in television, and 7,466 seeking work in daily newspapers. If master's degree recipients are added, the gross estimates are 6,090 in radio, 9,087 in television, and 8,239 in daily newspapers.

These estimates of the labour supply are gross in that they do not take into consideration the basic requirements of journalistic work in radio, television, and daily newspapers. A student with a degree in advertising and an internship with an advertising agency would not be qualified for the news positions of concern here. Qualification for the job has to do minimally with curricular specialization within journalism and mass communications, internships, and work for the appropriate campus medium. In the view of news directors and editors, an applicant who has not learned the basics of writing and reporting for that medium is not qualified. Similarly, an applicant who has had an internship in the medium would be viewed as more qualified than one who has not. Work for the campus radio station would provide the applicant with more of the skills needed for radio work and more experience in the routines of that medium than a student without that experience. Students in television obtain relevant experience working for the campus television station; print students obtain their relevant experience with the campus newspaper.

5.2% of the respondents in the graduate survey specialized in radio/television and sought a job in radio, 8.9% of the graduates specialized in radio/television and sought a job in that medium, and 9.3% specialized in print journalism and sought a job with daily newspapers.

The extra qualified graduates are those who did two of the following: specialized in the relevant curriculum, interned for the relevant medium, or worked for the relevant campus medium. The highly qualified graduates did all three. Only 648 graduates of 1989-90 would be labeled as highly qualified for jobs in radio, 1,008 would be considered highly qualified for television, and 1,619 would be highly qualified for daily newspapers. There were 3.29 persons seeking each of these jobs. The ratio of extra qualified persons to jobs available, however, was 1.17 to 1, while the ratio of highly qualified persons to jobs in radio news was 0.35 to 1.

For television, the ratio of persons seeking jobs to jobs available was 9.9 to 1. The ratio of extra qualified persons to jobs available was 3.8 to 1. The ratio of highly qualified

entry-level applicants to jobs available was 1.1 to 1. For daily newspapers, the ratio of graduates seeking daily newspaper jobs to entry-level jobs available was 4.18 to 1. For extra qualified persons, the ratio was 2.06 to 1. For highly qualified persons, the ratio was 0.82 to 1.

In sum, regardless of criterion used, television has an excess supply of applicants to entry-level job openings. At the gross level, this is nearly 10 persons for each job available. At the extra qualified level, the ratio is nearly 4 to 1. Neither of the other media enjoy this type of excess supply. In fact, when the OSU survey is compared to Department of Education data, all but 14.1% of degrees granted in radio/television are included in the calculated labour supply for this study, compared to all but 6.2% of journalism degrees. Thus, the labour supply of radio/television graduates is probably even proportionately larger than the supply of journalism graduates. The data support the argument that television does not have to pay high wages because supply is outstripping demand.

For daily newspapers, there also is an excess supply of persons seeking jobs. That excess supply is 4 to 1 if job seekers are used as the criterion, and 2 to 1 if moderate qualifications are imposed. If daily newspapers want the graduates who specialized in news-editorial journalism, had an internship with a newspaper, and worked for the campus paper, they will find that demand outstrips supply. This might explain the higher wages paid by daily newspapers in contrast to television news operations.

Radio presents a complicated picture. Wages in radio news were the lowest among the three employers examined here. Yet radio has the lowest ratios of supply to demand. There are three times as many jobs as highly qualified persons seeking them - using the criteria enumerated above. The ratio of extra qualified persons to jobs available is close to 1 to 1. If radio reaches over to the television pool - as it may do over time - an even larger number of graduates is available. Many graduates may see radio as a stepping stone to television and readily make this transition.

It is also important to keep in mind that graduates with degrees in other fields compete with the graduates of journalism and mass communications programmes for entry-level jobs. Radio and daily newspapers report filling nearly 25% of their entry-level jobs with these graduates. That supply is almost limitless. Based on the data examined here, there is no evidence to support the argument that newspapers would have to pay higher salaries to compensate for the attractiveness of broadcasting. All three have adequate supplies of graduates. It does seem reasonable, however, that the gross excess supply in television serves to hold down salaries in the newsrooms.

SUPPLEMENTARY ANALYSIS

The idea that radio does not hire the same type of applicant as the other two media, and, more generally, that salary differentials among the three media can be explained in terms of differences among those hired, can be tested with data from the annual graduate survey. To do this, 1990 graduates with full-time work in radio, television, and daily

newspapers were singled out for analysis. The basic strategy was, via hierarchical regression analysis, to examine if salary differentials among the three media types remained after various characteristics of the respondents with jobs in those media were first eliminated or controlled for.'

A total of 240 graduates, either with a bachelor's or a master's degree, were used in this analysis. First, racial or ethnic classification of the respondent was entered into the equation, along with sex. As can be seen, this block of variables explains a significant amount of variance in salary. When only these two variables are in the equation - that is, when there are no controls - being a minority is associated with higher salaries; being a woman is not significantly associated with earning less. (The effect of minority status is decreased after subsequent controls, but it remains slightly positive in the final equation.)

Next, population of the community in which the graduate was working was entered into the equation. Not surprisingly, those persons who found work in large communities received higher wages than those who did not.

The next block of variables measures the experiences of the graduates at the university. Graduates who had a high GPA in college earned more when employed than those with a low GPA. Controlling for other factors, internships are associated with higher pay. Master's degree recipients earned more than those with a bachelor's. Having a second major or having prior work experience with the employer did not contribute to pay, other things held constant. Working for the campus radio station was negatively related to pay received, working for the campus newspaper was positively related to pay, and working for the campus television station was unrelated to pay.

The explanation for the differential effect of college media experience is simple: Those who worked for a college radio station were more likely to take a job in radio, which pays less than television and newspapers. Working for the college newspaper is associated with taking a job in newspapers, which pay more.

Even after these experiences are eliminated, however, type of employer still explains a significant amount of variance. Type of employer was entered as the final block in the regression equation. Those people who found work in radio received less pay than those who found work in television and newspapers not because they were different in terms of their training, but because they worked for radio. Similarly, those who found work for newspapers received higher wages not because they were different in terms of training or characteristics, but because they found work in newspapers. The media pay differently, holding constant differences in the characteristics of the people employed.

The data reported here suggest that excess supply of labour exists in radio news, television news, and daily newspapers. That excess supply probably serves to hold down salaries generally and to explain the lower pay in television news in comparison with daily newspapers. Television in particular has many more persons seeking entry-level jobs than there are jobs available.

The daily newspaper industry also has an excess supply of entry-level applicants, but the ratio is about half of what it is for television. If daily newspapers want to hire persons who specialized in print journalism, had a newspaper internship, and worked for the campus newspaper, they are going to encounter a competitive labour market. There are not enough graduates to go around. Obviously, employers are going to have to compromise to fill positions.

Radio presents a complicated picture. Among the three media studied, the ratio of supply to demand is lowest for radio. Yet radio pays the lowest salaries. One explanation is that radio is meeting its needs by reducing the qualifications sought among its entry-level hires. Another explanation is that radio reaches into the television labour supply, which might mean that radio and television labour markets are more closely related than many have thought. Radio also is highly competitive and generally less profitable than television, and this may increase the scope of the search in radio and serve to explain lower pay than would be expected based solely on supply.

If the economic theory of supply and demand in the labour market is at work here, then the supply should decline and the salaries increase as college students gravitate to better paying jobs. If the attractiveness of the field is the primary draw for aspiring television journalists, then there is no reason to believe that the supply of applicants, and the wages offered, will change. This is the critical difference between the two explanations for excess supply offered here. Even when we control for qualifications of graduates, newly hired persons in broadcast news earn less than those in newspapers.

In looking at the labour supply for media outlets, it is important to note that there are a significant number of graduates looking for work in each of the three media who have taken measures to increase their qualifications for a job. At one end of the scale, 14% of all journalism graduates have no specialization. They have not specialized their degree in a prospective medium, taken an internship in the medium, or worked at a college outlet of that particular medium. On the other hand, 36.1% of all graduates took advantage of at least two of the three options and significantly increased their qualifications in the eyes of most media managers.

Caution is in order in interpreting the results of this analysis. The fit is far from perfect between information available and information needed for a fool-proof test of the relationship between labour supply and labour demand. We have provided an examination of the labour supply and labour demand relationship at one point in time. These types of analysis should be replicated across time. In a competitive labour market, salary adjusts itself to supply and demand over time. It is not possible to see that dynamic with the static data available for these analyses.

Despite these limitations the data provide a more detailed examination of supply and demand than has previously been possible. The analyses have been conducted in the context of an analysis of salary differentials between those hired for entry-level positions in radio, television, and newspapers. The data argue that television is able to

pay less than daily newspapers in part because of a huge surplus of supply of labour to demand. This excess supply seems likely to continue to deflate salaries in television for the near future.

IMPLICATIONS FOR THE TECHNOLOGY EDUCATION CLASSROOM

As noted by the U.S. Department of Labour and Rogers, affective domain personal attributes must be a key component of any technology education programme. Communication skills were also noted as an essential competency for high school graduates entering engineering or technology programmes.

Programmes must require in their students competency in written communications, verbal communications, reading, honesty, strong work ethics, and a willingness to learn. Technology education teachers can structure a design activity that requires the students to:

- Work in teams,
- Organize their thoughts,
- Communicate with team members,
- Solve a problem,
- Present their findings orally,
- Evaluate their success through a written document.

This type of learning activity should also cause students to work outside of their comfort zone, thereby stretching soft-skill development. These types of problem-based learning activities should also be formulated across discipline lines and must be an essential and integrated expectation from day one through graduation and beyond.

In addition, Bancino and Zevalkink suggested using real-world examples that are directly related to the field of technology to help integrate soft skills into the technology education curriculum. Using these real-world examples will aid in getting individuals who are “more linear-thinking” or have “task-oriented personalities” involved in the incorporation of soft skills into the classroom.

The results of this study clearly indicate that university-level engineering and engineering technology professors rate students’ interpersonal, communication, and work ethic competencies as desired attributes in students entering into post secondary engineering and technology programmes. Similarly Rogers noted that “instructors perceived the affective domain competencies as more important benefits of technology education programmes than competencies in the cognitive or psychomotor domains”.

These affective domain competencies and communication skills therefore need to be a vital component of the high school technology education programme. The increasingly interpersonal nature of the workplace has been widely written about. Peter Drucker, for example, in his highly regarded article, “The Age of Social Transformation,” eloquently describes how the decline of manufacturing has created a “knowledge worker”

class, which he estimated to be a third of the American labour force at the end of the 20th century. The effective knowledge worker works in teams, multitasks, and is a critical and creative thinker. Such a worker must adapt well to social and operational contexts. For managers in such environments, supervision is a social rather than a technical function because subordinates can and must work independently and often remotely, needing little supervision but much coaching, cheer leading, and coaxing.

Henry Mintzberg goes further. He proposes a revision of the traditional (and highly theoretical) role of managers from performing discrete functions of planning, organizing, communicating, and controlling to a three-level concentric model. The first level is managing by information (acquiring and processing information).

In Level 2, managing through people, information is disseminated. In Level 3, managing action, individuals take action desired by the organization. Mintzberg notes that managers must develop effective communication skills that include the ability to scan the environment informally while interacting non-verbally and orally to gather information and to focus on affective aspects of the organization.

The process is by no means a linear one, as the traditional model suggests, because managers must be prepared to think creatively and critically to accomplish their goals. Indeed, our understanding of how organizations work has been shaped by the study of communication (social and task) networks overlaid on the “formal” organization. These communication networks are indispensable for diffusion of innovations and for creating inclusive environments, but they can also serve as “leveling coalitions” that resist changes to the status quo. One term that comes to mind that describes this interpersonal dimension of life at work is soft skills.

Soft skills are attitudes and behaviours displayed in interactions among individuals that affect the outcomes of such encounters. These differ from hard skills, which are the technical knowledge and abilities required to perform specific job-related tasks more formally stated in job descriptions. In the past, it was felt that managers and employees did not need soft skills as long as they could do their work, but now even positions in hard, task-oriented areas such as accounting and information systems require soft skills as well as technical skills. How do organizations respond to the interpersonal evolution in the workplace? How do they measure the need for soft skills? And how do they design programmes that address such needs? To find answers, I turned to Annalee Luhman, Learning and Leadership Manager at the Port of Seattle in Washington.

The Port of Seattle, a municipally chartered public company, is divided into three major operating divisions: an Aviation Division that operates Seattle-Tacoma International Airport, a Seaport Division that operates the marine terminals and related maintenance, and an Economic Development Division.

The port employs approximately 1,500 employees and budgeted US\$318 million for operating revenues in 2003. Dr. Luhman holds a Ph.D. in speech communication (complex organizations, cross-cultural communication, organizational decision making) with a minor in labour relations and other business courses.

Prior to her current position, she was an independent organization development and leadership consultant to a range of industry sectors for 8 years. Her position is located in the Human Resources and Development Department.

As the leadership and learning manager at Port of Seattle, what exactly do you do? I help ensure that the Port of Seattle's workforce is a high-performing one that has:

- The requisite knowledge, skills, and abilities for the organization to accomplish its current mission
- Appropriately prepared for achieving the port's vision for the future.

This position includes working collaboratively with my Human Resource and Development partners in staffing and employment, organization development, diversity, performance management, and total compensation to recruit, develop the capabilities of, and retain desired staff. My role also helps create conditions that engage employees in productive, meaningful work. These conditions are a result of designing systems, providing needed resources, and implementing policies that support employees—and that develop their skills and knowledge in ways that match the Port's evolving challenges and priorities.

I am specifically responsible for designing, implementing, and evaluating a strategic learning plan that addresses both current and future capability needs. The plan meets these objectives via an integrated core curriculum. We provide classes in such learning tracks as management development, employee development, career planning, and life planning. These classes help managers and employees perform their current jobs better and also prepare them for future assignments and new levels of responsibility.

I also project manage the design of leadership and career development programmes for frontline, emergent, and mid-to-senior leaders. This work involves programme oversight and individual assessments, consultation, and coaching of individuals to enhance their professional development.

Finally, I provide guidance to the training functions throughout the organization to foster an enterprise-wide view of capability development. We utilize a software learning management system that helps capture development efforts and assists in strategic workforce planning. What organizational trends justify your role at Port of Seattle? Technology, lifestyle changes, and shifting demographics have an unceasing and powerful influence on the world, communities, and employees—and are changing the very nature of work on a continual basis.

As a result of these forces, security, health care, environmental regulations, and worries about workplace violence are just a few of the issues that companies face in this new millennium. Organizations are also facing the loss of employees due to an aging workforce.

They need to find new ways to harness the talents of our increasingly diverse employees who remain and who differ by age, gender, race, ethnicity, formal education, and whether or not they are unionized. The changing face of organizations thus requires significant ongoing investments in education and training.

Such investments may include courses such as Preventing Harassment or Systems Thinking or corporate initiatives focused on health and wellness and change. Evolving technologies also require new ways of doing work and different capabilities from employees and managers alike.

Finally, leaders and managers need frameworks for renewing themselves and their staffs, and they must have needed competencies in setting direction and purpose, in innovating and leading change, in leveraging diversity, and in building capability and ownership in their future leaders.

But sometimes leaders and managers can be resistant to change, thinking that some of the trends you mention are disruptive and have very little to do with getting the job done... My experience as a Board member of Seattle's City Club (a non-partisan service organization that provides speakers on topics of significance to the region and to the community), my neighbourhood work, and my professional expertise have all reinforced that participation in discussions (and then acting) is our best hope for renewing hope and self-reliance among those who want to make needed changes in their world.

Employees may complain about "organizational politics," stating their wish to be let alone so they can "just get the work done." However, in workshops on "how to get things done when you're not in charge," we teach that talk is the work of bureaucratic organizations and that often politics is the work that results in the changes they seek.

Do you think soft skills development is a fad or a necessary ingredient in organizational development? I do not think that "soft skills" development is a fad. Indeed, I believe these skills are at the very heart of creating capability in employees and leaders. We certainly expect individuals in all job families to have (and continue to develop) the technical skills required for their unique jobs—whether they are crafts workers in a maintenance department or payroll specialists in accounting. However, even at the individual employee level it soon becomes apparent that little work gets done in isolation.

All employees must be skilled at participating in team projects and affirming others. They must be adept at managing conflict and creating inclusive relationships that improve team performance and launch ideas. Indeed, the soft skills of negotiating solutions or taking a systems view in revamping work processes are the essential tools of effective contributors everywhere. Moreover, for those in formal leadership roles, being proficient in "soft skills" is even more critical. Thinking systemically and acting strategically are the linchpin of effective leaders, but superb soft skills are necessary to actually implement—to articulate a vision; to enroll others in possibilities; and to communicate values, standards, and expectations.

Of course, limited contexts exist where a "command-and-control" approach to leading is appropriate. But four decades of social-scientific research have clearly demonstrated that to turn aspirations into actions requires a culture of inclusion and accountability—one grounded in the passion, energy, and commitment of individuals. People support what they help create, and "soft skills" are the essential tools for helping them contribute

to their full potential. Explain how you would design a learning plan to address soft skills development. Organizations use many avenues to create strategic staffing plans that address current and future capability needs and to design learning plans around them. Human resource and learning professionals who function as strategic business partners in the organization are best prepared to help assure that employees have needed proficiency in soft skills.

Data is typically gathered using both informal and formal methods ranging from interviews with managers, observations of employees at work, use of surveys, and review of job-posting requirements. Sometimes, the need for soft skills development in a given area may be indicated by a pattern of employee complaints—perhaps about unfair treatment, ineffective management practices, or strained coworker relationships.

Most organizations use their job evaluation or job classification systems to delineate the essential functions of a given job or group of jobs. Those evaluations typically list required knowledge, skills and abilities, and the preferred qualifications as well—requirements that evolve from a hiring manager’s thoughtful assessment of what is needed in a candidate to be successful in the job. Importantly, most evaluation systems also assess the number, complexity, and hierarchical level of individuals with whom a focal individual must interact to get the job done—testament to the value of organizational relationships. Designing soft skills development also requires paying close attention to the organization’s mission and strategic vision.

Finally, as future corporate initiatives increasingly straddle organizational boundaries, the need for collaboration, for understanding of diverse perspectives, and for integration of knowledge work will only up the ante for soft skills capability in every participant.

How can we prepare business students to become more attuned to the importance of soft skills in the “real world” that they will soon enter? Business students should be encouraged to grab every chance to work in organizations, particularly in roles that require interdependence with others. They can work in political campaigns, assist in community events, work on publications, volunteer for charities, or contribute time (and expertise) to a church, synagogue, or mosque.

Internships remain a traditional and wise way for students to bring their initiative, insight, and energy to companies; the organizations, in turn, can provide a hospitable place to “learn the ropes” via coaching and mentoring from seasoned employees who value both hard and soft skills. Finally, student readings should include such Harvard Business Review classics as “Moral Mazes,” based on a Robert Jackall’s dissertation examining the perils of accurately evaluating soft-skill-dependent managerial work. and read widely would also be beneficial, for therein lie tales of much of what they will need to know to be successful while helping others succeed along with them.

This chapter indicates an emerging trend of organizations for knowledge workers evidenced by requirements for soft skill proficiency. Additionally, the need for

collaborative student work is reinforced here. Teamwork and interpersonal activities are fundamentally inherent in promoting soft skill development.

However, students need practical opportunities to hone these skills. Thus, business educators must do more than provide theoretical models for organizational effectiveness. Courses should be structured, activities developed, and requirements outlined to challenge students to embrace interdependence and think critically, systematically, and strategically in preparation for becoming valuable organizational contributors.

Technology and Media Presentation Work

Work involving presentation technology is not only becoming more advanced, it is apparently making this type of activity more central to overall work processes in media organizations by facilitating the integration of job tasks. Tasks are integrating because new technologies allow the bundling of work routines from previously separate tasks. Digital technologies seem especially to facilitate convergence of tasks and roles within media organizations because the underlying language -information as a series of 0's and 1's-can be used in the production and networking of a variety of communicative symbols. Text, photos, video, sound, and the juxtaposition of all of these symbolic elements may all be translated into digital language. A convergence of broadcast, print, and Web technology is already taking place in isolated newsrooms around the country.

In addition, so-called WYSIWYG ("what you see is what you get") software such as pagination programmes, photo-imaging programmes, and Web-editing programmes facilitate task integration. They do this by allowing those who write and edit text also to visualize and shape page designs, graphics, and photos, all at the same work station or at least in closer quarters. In Web work the tasks of presentation and content creation are perhaps most thoroughly integrated, as Web editors often design and produce images and pages, troubleshoot technical problems, edit copy, and write headlines. Of course, technological change is not the only explanation for task integration. Organizational size and structure are also strong influences.

Industry trade publications, anticipating technological convergence in newsrooms, are abuzz over a perceived need for journalists who can write, research, design graphics, shoot video, and build Web pages. Research also indicates media managers and staff value knowledge of technology highly. Relevant studies include the following findings: computer skills are considered highly important in assessing applicants for reporting, editing, and design positions; newspaper editors who design list technological knowledge as the skill they most wish they possessed; and "digital darkroom skills" are second only to "good portfolio" in hiring criteria for photojournalism positions.

Technological expertise appears to be rivaling professional journalism knowledge in online work. A 2000 survey of online news managers found managers value both traditional journalism skills and Web knowledge such as the ability to write HTML. A 1999 study found that managers in online newspaper publishing give multimedia skills and computer knowledge greater weight than journalism experience in hiring decisions.

Skills, Screening, and Hiring Decisions

Hiring is a highly uncertain activity, and frequent turnover and retraining are costly. According to sociological literature on skills and hiring, this in part explains why employers value specific skills learned through job experience, such as technological skills, more highly than a candidate's broader educational experience. Screening theory provides a framework for examining employer assessment of candidates' credentials. In contrast to human capital theory, in which education is viewed as increasing individuals' productive capacity, in screening theory educational credentials are viewed as a tool for employers. As a tool, however, they are inexact. These credentials are merely a proxy for reducing uncertainty in the early stages of the hiring process. Employers do not focus on specific educational credentials but instead roughly correlate notions of job competencies with a general assessment of educational attainment. In addition, employers view educational attainment as much less important when evidence of productive capacity through on—the-job experience is available.

Often educational attainment is used only in the initial sorting of the candidate pool, while specific job experiences, if available, are used both in the initial sorting and as criteria in the final hiring. Employers for professional and technical jobs tend to focus on technical skills more than behaviour or trainability. Previous job performance and technical expertise have been found to be more important than educational record or personality traits in hiring decisions.

However, a number of studies suggest personality fit plays a role as well, especially in the final hiring stages. In these final stages, employers tend to rely heavily on a less formal, but more specific, assessment of “fit” between a candidate, the hiring criteria, and organizational culture. Employers look among the final pool of candidates for highly specific elements of skill, experience, and personality fit called “hot buttons.” A hot-button match may be more a result of good fortune than of successful preparation by the candidate. Previous research findings on hiring for mass communication jobs are largely consistent with the findings of the broader sociological literature. Studies show that job candidates who have tangible experience in the media fields they are pursuing have more success finding work in these fields. Success in the classroom alone—as measured, for example, by grade point average—does not strongly predict job-finding success.

Internships and college media activities provide graduates with practical media work experience, and graduates with these experiences are better positioned in the job market. Other research has shown that media employers value results of practical skill-based tests by prospective employees more highly than they do classroom achievement. Studies also show that graduates who specialize in the media fields in which they seek work have more success finding jobs than those with a more general background or than those who specialize in something other than the field in which they seek work.

Research Questions and Hypotheses

The literature suggests the media are becoming more visually sophisticated and more technologically complex, and that managers may value technological know-how in a job candidate more than professional knowledge about media content. This makes sense from an organizational standpoint. In order to function at all, media organizations must first reduce uncertainty by ensuring that they control the technology necessary to produce and disseminate content.

The urgency of this first step heightens in an atmosphere of technological ambiguity. Ensuring quality of content is an important step, but it is not as crucial as the first. The news media, for example, whether print, Web, or TV, do not require staff-created content to function. They may fill all of their pages, Web space, or airtime with syndicated content.

In addition, knowledge of presentation technologies is a specialized knowledge; both the sociological and mass communication literature on hiring indicate that job candidates who have job-specific skills and knowledge are most likely to find work. Therefore it is proposed here that skill with presentation technology should significantly impact degree of job-entry success by those seeking media positions.

This study focuses on the potential benefit of learning such skills in school prior to entering the job market. While screening theory suggests employers only rely on educational attainment (*e.g.*, GPA and type of degree) for sorting the initial pool when evidence of job-specific experience is unavailable, schools do play a role in training candidates for highly specialized skills. Students' experiences beyond the classroom, such as internships and involvement with campus media activities, provide more exposure to job-specific skills. By its very nature, technological skill is highly job-specific, thus rendering the issue of where the skill was learned less important.

For example, computer programmes comprise specialized rules by which work is accomplished, thus making it unnecessary for media organizations to teach these procedures and routines if they have been learned in school. In contrast, the procedures for tasks like writing headlines or conceptualizing the design of information graphics, while also embodying routines, are less constrained by rules and involve more uncertainty. These more malleable, content— oriented tasks allow, or even require, more specific shaping by the hiring organization.

Technological skills, therefore, are more likely to meet the specific “hot-button” needs of employers, especially when technology in the school and in the work place are identical or similar. Experiences tailored to specialized “hot-button” needs of the industry are most valuable to employers, whether learned during school internships or on the job.

Transferred to the individual level of the employee, these arguments suggest that graduates with specific skills will have more success in the job market than those without those specific skills. Consequently these specific skills will explain variance in job-seeking success once other less general skill sets are controlled for.

This argument can be restated as the following two hypotheses:

1. *H1a:* The greater the degree of skill with presentation technologies possessed by graduates, the greater the degree of success the graduates will have in the job market.
2. *H1b:* The greater the degree of skill in presentation technologies possessed by graduates, the greater the degree of job-finding success graduates will have, even after controlling for traditional school-related predictors of job-finding success.

This study also addresses several other research questions, which are of a mostly descriptive nature. These include: Are those graduates who have knowledge of particular presentation technologies upon graduation likely to use these technologies in their work after school? And, in which media jobs are these particular technologies likely to be used?

Method

Data used in addressing these questions come from the 1999 Annual Survey of Journalism and Mass Communication Graduates, which tracks the experiences of a sample of graduates of journalism and mass communication programmes once they leave their universities. The surveys are conducted at the Henry W. Grady College of Journalism and Mass Communication at the University of Georgia. Each year a sample of schools is drawn from those listed in the Journalism and Mass Communication Directory, published annually by the Association for Education in Journalism and Mass Communication, and The Journalists' Road to Success, published annually by the Dow Jones Newspaper Fund, Inc. Selection of schools is probabilistic, so that those chosen represent the population of schools listed in the two directories. In 1999, 102 schools were drawn from the 456 unique entries of four-year programmes in the United States in the two directories.

A questionnaire was mailed to the 6,613 spring graduates receiving either a bachelor's degree or a master's degree from the selected programmes. Two follow-up questionnaires were mailed to graduates as necessary. Included in the instrument were questions about university experiences, job seeking and employment, salaries and benefits, and experiences with media technology.

A total of 2,826 usable questionnaires were returned, producing a return rate of 47.4%. Return rate, when computed as the number returned divided by the number mailed minus the bad addresses, was 50.8%. Data used in the present study only include results gathered from full-time employed bachelor's degree recipients. Bachelor's degree recipients are the majority of graduates of journalism and mass communication programmes each year.

The independent variable, "skill in presentation technologies," was operationalized via self-reported level of proficiency by survey respondents with five different types of presentation software: pagination, graphic illustration, photo imaging, Web-site building,

and non-linear editing. Degree of job-finding success, the dependent variable, was operationalized as the number of job offers graduates report receiving upon graduation. The traditional school-related predictors used here as controls were grade point average, sequence specialization, involvement with campus media activities, and involvement with media internships. Specialization in media presentation was not common for graduates of the schools of journalism and mass communication. In 1999, just slightly more than 1% of bachelor's degree recipients reported selecting graphic design as a major, and roughly the same per cent reported photojournalism as a major. These figures have changed little over the last ten years. Not only did few graduates report graphic design as a curricula specialization, few reported being proficient with presentation technology at the time of graduation. Data also showed that a relatively low percentage of bachelor's degree recipients reported using presentation technology in their current full-time jobs. For four of the five software types measured in the graduate survey, one in five or fewer graduates reported being proficient.

The percentages of those actually using these software in their current jobs were similarly low. The notable exception was page-design software. About half of the graduates reported being proficient with page-design software while more than 80% reported being at least somewhat proficient. Nearly 60% reported using this software for their jobs. It seems that the technological skill of assembling elements for print layout on computers is widely diffused in the work place.

For most software types, close to half of the fulltime employed graduates who reported proficiency with a software upon graduation ended up using this software on their jobs. Again the exception is page-design software for which more than three-quarters reported use on the job. The chart reveals a substantial difference in actual use of software by all graduates and use of software by only those who said they were proficient upon graduation. This chart gives the first hint that the acquisition of expert technological skills in school may predict future use of these technologies in the workplace.

Interpersonal Versus Mass Communication

Let us refine the notion of interpersonal communications for our particular application to specialized programmes by contrasting interpersonal with mass communication. We characterize these differences along several dimensions of utility for the programme designer. These two forms of communication differ according to the following features:

- Feedback characteristics,
- Audience selection features, and
- Channels of communication.

Feedback Characteristics

Recall feedback (in its general meaning) is information obtained by the source from the receiver. It may be information acquired before the communication programme

begins. In this case it is used to formulate strategy by providing details about receiver perceptions of the source, positions on the issues, and media usage patterns. Furthermore, feedback information obtained during a campaign helps the communicator adjust and modify programmes to accommodate changing audiences.

At best, mass audience feedback information reflects the statistical average of the studied population. We can examine groups and clusters, but we cannot focus on narrow audiences without losing statistical validity or engaging in elaborate research designs. Moreover, the information we obtain in large audience settings usually is structured and constrained. It is derived typically from survey questionnaires that offer preplanned (and usually sender-developed) questions and answers. Extemporaneous responses unique to individuals are rarely manageable, given the nature of survey research that imposes a high degree of uniformity on the data.

Since our ability to generalize sample data to the overall population is dependent in part on consistent responses, survey research procedures strive to cluster and collapse responses into uniform arrays. Simply put, except for anecdotal purposes, individual responses have no statistical validity and therefore are of little use in understanding an audience. All of this suggests that feedback obtained from mass audiences has restricted application: It is structured, non-specific, and limited in its capacity to describe small subgroups within the population. Beyond these drawbacks, feedback obtained in mass audience settings is nearly always delayed. It takes time to develop, administer, analyse, and deliver data from a large audience survey, despite major efforts in recent times to speed up the system. One political consulting outfit in Washington, D.C., has attempted to expedite the process by providing an overnight polling service. These, of course, are limited surveys with a small number of questions

delivered by telephone to a limited voter sample. Furthermore, there is little possibility for subgroup study, given the small sample involved. Strides are being made to deliver mass audience survey information faster than previously possible, but even these efforts fail to overcome the inherent delays in mass audience feedback.

Several technological innovations are being examined to gather feedback quickly. Test units in Columbus, Ohio, and Rock Island, Illinois, have demonstrated the possibility for home television viewers to transmit their “votes” to a central computer for instant tabulation. At least in this limited setting, we may be able to poll certain segments of the audience and obtain results quickly. Even here, though, it is difficult to conceive of feedback information in the mass audience setting approaching the speed and quality of interpersonal feedback.

The short shelf life of data is one potentially serious problem with the delay of mass audience feedback information. During the time lapse between data collection and availability of information, conditions in the environment might change, rendering this information invalid. Take, for instance, a poll measuring public attitudes towards services provided by local governments. We know public attitudes on such issues shift daily according to headlines, public discussion, and other topics on the public agenda.

When we ask someone a question about government services may determine what that person's response will be. Our data gathered seven days earlier may not reflect public sentiment today. At most we can hope there have been no major events such as scandals in city hall or garbage workers' strikes that would affect large portions of the public, thus rendering useless any information gathered previously. Even without such major events impacting the population, we can anticipate some degree of change and therefore some inaccuracy as our data age. The older the data, the more skeptical we must become.

Feedback information available in an interpersonal exchange, however, is rich, specific, and rapid. Such characteristics enable the flow of interpersonal communication events to proceed with an ease and efficiency that cannot be replicated in a mass communication environment.

Interpersonal feedback information is rich because it can contain a wealth of information on a number of levels. In a typical conversation, for example, we obtain information from the other person first by listening to what that person has to say. We need only ask if we want to clarify an ambiguous point or to get more details. Typical conversations proceed through a series of repetitions that clarify, refine, and elaborate.

Besides the words exchanged, interactants learn information from each other through non-verbal cues. Vocal intonation reveals intensity of feeling and emotion that may be missed by the words alone. When asked how they are doing today, two people may respond that they are "fine." The first may have an upbeat tone and a lively bounce to his "fine," showing a positive state of mind.

The second person's "fine," however, with its unhappy, listless timbre, reveals a sour, despondent mood. Both have said the same word, but because the response tone differed in each case, the information obtained is not the same. The first person seems to be fine; the second appears to be troubled. In this case and in many instances, according to some non-verbal communication specialists, the tone used reveals more of the truth than the words themselves.

Feedback cues in interpersonal settings go beyond the words and vocal tone. We come to understand other people in conversations by observing their gesticulations (arm movements and gestures), facial expressions, posture, dress, and other physical features. They exhibit more than their words convey. A fist shaken in anger reveals an intense feeling that words may not express adequately. To some, folded arms suggest a person is blocking or wishes to protect something. We interpret differently someone's laughter, depending on whether it is a chortle, a giggle, or a guffaw.

As with verbal tone, such cues communicate information that is often more complete and representative of a person's frame of mind than are his or her words. When these cues are joined with verbal and tonal information, the richness of feedback available in an interpersonal setting becomes evident. Compared to the mass communication environment, we have a greater variety of levels from which to draw, and at each of these levels we often find cues more complete and detailed.

Specific Information

Feedback information in an interpersonal setting is specific to one individual. Recall in a previous discussion we noted that mass audience feedback is a statistical average of data provided by a large number of respondents. From this we are able to understand general sentiments and trends within a population, but cannot pinpoint any specific individual. Even small target groups within the general population often elude us because they cannot adequately be represented in fact-finding research.

In personal conversations, though, we can obtain specific information. If the other person looks puzzled, or scratches his head, or expresses confusion or doubt, we know we must provide clarity or a new line of reasoning. The point is, we are able to provide a specific message because we have specific feedback information. Research and practical experience demonstrate that the success of our communications is directly related to the specificity of our messages.

Rapid Feedback

If, over a cup of coffee, you were to ask a friend whom she planned to vote for in an upcoming congressional election, you might have your answer within seconds. Assume you then asked why she intended to vote this way. Again, within seconds, you would have an answer. The feedback in such an interpersonal encounter is very fast. With such information at hand, you might then act immediately to confirm your friend's choice of candidates or challenge her decision with the hope of bringing her around to your viewpoint.

By contrast, the same questions about candidate preference are the stock and trade of many political polling firms that attempt to learn how people in the general public plan to vote in upcoming elections. For these outfits, however, there is considerable lag time between survey administration and information availability. Days may pass before information about voter preferences is accessible to campaign staffs for forming strategy. As we have discussed, not only does this protract the communication process, but also conditions and voter sentiments can change, thus making the facts outdated. The rapid exchange of information common to interpersonal communications is one of its biggest advantages. The information can be used for an immediate response, thus sustaining the give-and-take features of interpersonal communication. It represents the individual's thinking at the moment; hence, it is fresh and uncontaminated by factors that occur over time.

In summary, despite the efforts of people in mass communication to improve the quality of feedback, it is doubtful that they can ever achieve the level of information we see in the interpersonal setting. The information in an interpersonal communication encounter is rich. There are a variety of cues that enhance and refine the communication's meaning. This information is specific to one individual and so allows individual treatment by communicators. Finally, the information (in most settings) is immediately available,

allowing rapid assessment and response by others in the discussion.

Audience Selection

In mass communication settings, companies typically seek out the audience. In most of the recommended interpersonal designs, audiences seek out the companies. The distinction is significant for two reasons: (1) In the interpersonal context, audiences play an active role; and (2) they sort themselves into categories of interested information seekers. Businesses that employ interpersonal techniques find that in part because of these features, communication activities differ from those in the mass audience portions of their campaigns.

The receiver provides much of the energy getting information from the source to the receiver. In addition, largely because audiences are self-selected, a greater portion of the messages falls on receptive ears. A larger share of interested people exists in these audiences than in general mass audience groups. We will examine these two features of audience selection in more detail.

The Active Audience Role

In the mass communication setting, the burden of audience identification is on our shoulders. We gather survey data; then, we sort through them to identify target audiences. We match up audience needs and interests with appropriate messages, and we locate the media best suited to deliver these messages to target audiences. During all of this, audience members are passive players, perhaps choosing to examine our message, perhaps not, depending on distractions, our skill at stimulating attention, and the whim of the moment.

In the interpersonal designs we propose, audiences come to us for information and thereby shift at least a portion of the burden to their own shoulders. They identify themselves as prospects for information and place themselves in the path of our targeted messages. By taking this role, they eliminate a portion of our responsibility. Moreover, they commit themselves (however slight the commitment) to the communication transaction. They have expended an effort to call, write, or visit us, and accordingly have invested something of their own in the process. The time and energy involved in that phone call, or in filling out a postcard, or in driving to an exhibit represent a cost to the individuals that makes them more than passive onlookers.

The most important clues to an individual's inner states are found in his behaviour. When we want to know how a person feels, we look to see how he acts. Accordingly, my theory about the origins of an individual's self-knowledge predicts that he might also infer his own internal states by observing his own overt behaviour.

We believe, since we are thinking, rational people, that if we engage in some behaviour, it must be because we have sufficient reason to do so. We find an uncomfortable inconsistency between incompatible attitudes and behaviours. We believe

our behaviours are underwritten by a set of consonant attitudes. To expect otherwise would cause doubt about our own rationality.

So it follows that if we can stimulate audience members to take an active role in the communication process by performing even some small behaviour, such as making a phone call or sending in a postcard, we may encourage formation of a positive attitude about the communication interaction. After all, they have invested something of themselves. There must be something valuable in the communication, or, as rational people, they would not have bothered to spend the time and effort. We see, then, that by engaging an audience in the interpersonal features of a communication campaign, we have begun to change the general nature of the receiver. The simple step of involving people in an active way may encourage development of attitudes that render message recipients more receptive to our arguments. We should examine one additional feature of an active audience. As we describe recommended interpersonal programmes for business communication campaigns, the audience, through our promotion and encouragement, seeks us out for additional information. We then increase the level of information flow and ultimately establish a working interpersonal relationship.

At the point where receivers first request specific information and involve us in a one-on-one dialogue, they become the recipients of our offerings. They have requested something of us (even if it is only information designed to sell them something) and we have complied. To some, even limited degree, the recipients may feel a sense of obligation to us. After all, we have provided a booklet or letter, our time on the phone, or some premium based solely on their request. The scales of fair play may be tipped in our favour, and the recipients may feel they owe us something—even if only a bit more time or further consideration of our position. We are not suggesting the recipients perceive a great debt for our small accommodation. We propose only that they have formed an attitude that establishes a more desirable relationship between the communicator and the audience.

Note how this is different from, say, a direct mail campaign where the communicator sends out information and perhaps a premium. Receivers may read the material for a variety of reasons; they may even sense an obligation because of the free gift. But since the material was unsolicited, they do not feel the same level of responsibility to the source. The company has not responded to their request and provided information at their bidding. They are not responsible for the sender's efforts in this case, and therefore have little sense of indebtedness.

In summary, when audiences assume an active role in the communication process, several advantages accrue to the business source. First, when audiences come to the source for information, they save that source a good deal of energy. Those who become involved in interpersonal programmes infer from their behaviours an attitude about their own commitment to the process. Finally, by taking an active role, audiences develop some sense of indebtedness to a company that has responded to their requests. Even at

the outset, interpersonal programmes enjoy several advantages over mass appeal portions of a communication campaign.

Audience Sorting

One of the biggest challenges faced in targeted audience campaigns is the identification of groups that will have a special interest in the topic at hand. Success of the targeted communication process is based in part on the capacity of a company to be effective at this task. Once the company has found its audience and established initial mass media contact, it is up to the receivers to recognize their interest in an issue and take the next step in the communication process. Interpersonal audiences are self-selected. Those who choose to engage in interpersonal portions of a campaign do so because they see something relevant for themselves. They recognize a personal interest or merit in the topic that appeals especially to them. Two advantages result from audience sorting. First, we expect those who have joined the interpersonal audience to have a reasonable level of interest in the topic. They should therefore require less persuading, thus allowing the company to devote more energy to information matters.

Interpersonal audiences also see that the issue relates to them personally. People who call hospital hot lines for help with particular medical or psychological difficulties do so because they are troubled by these problems. They not only take an interest in the response, but know the answer relates to their own condition. Consequently, people running these hot lines need spend no time convincing callers that the proposed solutions apply to their ailment. People call precisely because they recognize this relevance.

This sorting process yields an audience ideal for the business communicator. Of the entire population, these receivers are most likely receptive to persuasion. They are interested, so they will listen. They see relevance, so they need little urging.

Physical Setting

In most of the interpersonal communication designs proposed, we attempt to maximize the face-to-face (or voice-to-voice) contact between the source and receiver. Interpersonal programmes that work closest with people work best. An increase in the number of physical barriers placed between the source and receiver decreases the impact of the communication.

Suppose we have fashioned our interpersonal communication plan based on a correspondence course that uses the mail to carry messages between the source and receiver. This is an example of interpersonal communication. There is a one-on-one exchange of messages between the source and receiver, and each communication is tailored especially for the intended recipient. There are considerable physical barriers, however, that hamper the rapid, efficient information flow we have come to expect in interpersonal scenarios. Even on a good day, the mail will be too slow to permit a smooth, unbroken flow of messages. We are also limited in the kinds of information

hat can be transmitted. We lose rich detail because elements such as non-verbal facial and body cues and vocal intonations cannot be transmitted. The only special feature of interpersonal communication retained is the specificity and focus enjoyed when communicating with one rather than many receivers. Here, physical barriers have become obstacles that weaken the communication process.

Many companies recognize that the mail is inefficient as the mainstay of an interpersonal programme; consequently, they have turned to the telephone and primarily the tollfree 800 numbers to provide customers with a convenient alternative. They employ the phone to establish initial contact, then follow through with mailings or personal visits. In other cases the phone is primary for all phases of the interpersonal programme.

In several respects, telephone programmes are a vast improvement over a mail-only design. First, phones require little effort by audience members and are convenient. People who will not take time to fill out and mail a postcard may find a moment to place a free call. They can make a phone call on impulse. Writing requires more effort. Hence, we may expect marginal audience members to be drawn into an interpersonal communication programme simply because the phone is easier than the mail.

Phones also speed the exchange of information. No delay occurs between the delivery and receipt of a message, so one participant can react immediately to the comments of the other. Companies use phones to provide instant product information before and after a sale. Computer software companies maintain phone lines to explain new products and make immediate sales. Many also provide trouble lines to assist customers after the sale with technical information to get programmes up and running. Often, time and money are at stake for business software users; when customers need help, they need it right away.

Finally, the physical barriers imposed by telephones prohibit visual contact, but they do allow vocal cues. We hear not only what is said, but how it is said. We can often detect anger, excitement, anxiety, or pleasure by the way someone sounds. Sometimes in a telephone conversation, the most subtle cue—silence—can convey more information than words. For communications that require a visual component without special equipment,¹ the physical barriers of the telephone obviously render it useless. For other applications, though, telephones do not seriously impede the communication flow. Face-to-face communications are superior to all others. They permit the specific, directed message exchanges allowed by mail and telephone interactions, and, as in telephone conversations, they enable people to exchange information rapidly. Beyond this, however, they accommodate the full complement of non-verbal cues. Without any physical barriers to block, slow, or interfere with the exchange of information, face-to-face communications are superior. There may be other problems—logistics, cost, and resource commitment—but from the standpoint of persuasion, these interpersonal approaches offer the best communication environment.

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